

Psych 101 Intro to Psychology

Course transcript with lecture-scoped numbered paragraphs

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1. Roots of Psychology

At a glance

Psychology begins as the rational study of the psyche and develops through philosophy, physiology, medicine, and experimental science. The lecture traces foundational figures and schools, including Plato, Descartes, Wundt, James, Freud, Pavlov, behaviorism, humanistic psychology, the cognitive revolution, and modern neuroscience, while introducing psychology's many levels of analysis.

- 1.1 What is psychology? What is the field of modern psychology? What is academic psychology?
- 1.2 Psychology comes from two words: 'psyche,' which means 'soul;' it's an ancient Greek word, and 'logos,' which is 'the rational study of.' So, essentially, what we're doing in psychology is the rational inquiry or study of the soul. And you might say, "Well, really? Are you really sitting there in your lab and trying to weigh souls? You have people before they die. You're like, 'He lost six ounces. That's—.'" No. We're not really studying the soul like that.
- 1.3 What we're trying to study is kind of the human condition, how we see ourselves, how we perceive the world, how we make sense of the world, how we form relationships with people, how we organize ourselves into groups, how all the machinery works of our visual system, our perceptual system, our cognitorium, if that's even a word. So, we're just trying to figure out the human condition.
- 1.4 Modern psychology is massive. It's a massive field. I work in a building, and you'll go to the —usually upstairs, they've got somebody working with rodents. They do stuff with rodents because that's where you can get the hoods to vent out the roof. Down in the basement, there's usually a clinical facility where you're doing clinical work because that's where you have enough room for a clinic. And so, everything in between. So, we're dealing with a lot of stuff in psychology.
- 1.5 The field of psychology has been around about 150 years, and I'll give you more history than you ever want to know. So, it's been around a long time. The roots of modern psychology are primarily coming out of medicine, physiology and philosophy. So, imagine a bunch of physicians who were into philosophy, trying to figure out the mind from looking at the body, and that's kind of what started it. It goes back to that.
- 1.6 Right now, I imagine today there's probably 100 studies published in psychology. Literally, if you were on Google Scholar, looking at all the public publications coming out, you're like, there's probably 100 papers coming out today. So, there's just massive, massive amounts of information. I'm going to give you the basics.
- 1.7 Psychology's roots go back to ancient Greek philosophy. And I always like starting at the beginning because if you start at the end, it's just a mess. You start at the beginning, you can see the path. But a lot of our ideas go back to Plato. They go back to Aristotle, some of the ancient Greeks, like Hippocrates or Galen, I guess it's Roman, too, the ancient medical physicians.
- 1.8 Where I like to think of the root of psychology is **Plato's allegory of the cave**. I don't know if you're familiar with this, but it's this classic story, an allegory in ancient philosophy. It goes something like this. You imagine a group of guys; they could be women, too, in a cave. They're chained up, so they can only look straight ahead. Everyone's chained up. They can only look one direction, and what they see on the wall are shadows from puppets that are behind them or from machines that are behind them, but they see on the wall are shadows.
- 1.9 And so what they do, when all they're doing is staring at shadows, is they build a whole story of the world of shadows. They go, "This is how the shadows work. This is what they

do. This is the story. This is how these things make sense." So, imagine you're in this cave and you're looking at shadows. You're like, "This is the world. Everything's cool."

- 1.10** And one day you turn around. You break your chain out, and you look around, and you're like, "Wait a second. This is weird." And you turn around, and you go, "Oh, my God. There's all these machines back here, these giant metal puppets. They are not shadows. The world isn't shadows; it's metal puppets." And behind that puppet's a guy with a big fire. "That's weird. I can barely see the fire." And you crawl out, and you go, "Man, the world isn't what I thought. It's a world of machines and fires."
- 1.11** And then—this is Plato's story, so it just keeps going—Plato says, "Imagine you get to the fire, and you look up, and you go, 'Oh, my goodness, there's something outside the cave.' You start crawling out of the cave, and you get up there, and it's so bright you can't even see. You look at the grass, and you start to see the grass. You go, 'Whoa! Grass! This is amazing! I can't believe it!' And you stay up on the earth for a little while, and your eyes adjust, and pretty soon you can actually see the sun, and you go, 'Whoa! I didn't imagine anything like this was possible, living in my little shadow cave with all my shadow cave buddies.'"
- 1.12** So then, Plato says, "Now, go back to your buddies in the cave." So, you crawl back in the cave. You get back, they chain you back up. You're looking at the shadow puppets again. What do you think? Well, you think they're shadow puppets. You don't think it's the same thing. It's not the world you thought it was. You go, "Oh, what I thought was the world is just a pale illusion. What I see is just a thin, narrow illusion of reality. That's weird."
- 1.13** So, you go to tell your buddies, you're like, "God, you guys don't know, but what we're seeing is just shadows, and there's really a sun out there, and I can't even describe it to you because it's so massive and big, you wouldn't even believe it." And you tell your friends that, and they look at you and go, "You're a freaking lunatic. We're going to put you to death to help us relax." Sort of Plato's story, or Socrates' story.
- 1.14** So, what this story captures is so much about psychology. First is, what we perceive in the world is not really what's in the world. What we're working on is a model of the world. The other thing that it really captures is how social our psychology is. We're talking about the study of the soul, but we're social animals. This is what Aristotle said, "Humans are social animals." And so, even if we see what's truth, if it doesn't align with everybody else, it's going to lead to social problems. So, there's a very social component for reality.
- 1.15** It also suggests that there's a way to grow. So, it captures this idea of human development, this idea that you can have one set of views when you're at a certain age, but you can grow beyond that to see something bigger, to have some adventure, to have a journey. It's really an early version of the hero's journey and return back to people.
- 1.16** So, anyway, I love that story, but it really captures so much of what we're going to talk about in this course, which are these important aspects of the human condition. Anyway, that's Plato's cave. Great starting spot, but there's more in old psych.
- 1.17** Another great allegory was **Plato's allegory of the chariot**, and this became the basis of a lot of modern motivational thoughts. So, Plato said, "Imagine you're a chariot driver going through your life, and you have two horses. And one of those horses is noble, and it's working towards the highest aspects of the human condition. It's wonderful. And your other horse is slovenly and tired in a little bit of a sloth, and it's your bad horse. And that's like life, that you're trying to navigate through life with these two different horses that are pulling different ways."
- 1.18** That model of our motivation and the conflict in the human motivation, which might be the shadow and the ego in a Jungian system, or it might be the ego and the id in a Freudian system, but that idea that we're pulled in different directions is really important for psychology. Human life is complicated. We're always in some conflict. That's our nature. That's why the Buddhists said life is suffering. It's just we're built kind of weird. So, that's another great one.

- 1.19** A few other things I wanted to point out from the ancient world. One is this great insight by the Greek **Heraclitus**: "You can't step in the same river twice." You look at the fragments; it's basic, but people always say, "It's not the same river. It's not the same person." So, there's this idea that even though we see the world as stable, our world and even our self is always changing. It's the same river, but the material is always changing. So, when we think about something like, 'Who are we?' When we talk about the self in this class, the self is something that changes all the time. It's dynamic. It's like a river. It's not something stable.
- 1.20** A lot of our modern clinical psychology has its roots in Greece and Rome. So back then, they talked about things like the humors, like maybe black bile that led to something like depression. The term is 'melancholy,' which is the term for black bile. That's the term we use for depression. We used to call it melancholia. That's what Freud called depression early on. So, there's a lot of old medical work back then where they're trying to deal with mental illness, looking at the human condition. The models were older: earth, wind, fire, and water. The stuff we use now is a little more complicated, but the roots are the same. So anyway, that gives you some idea that these ideas have been around a long time.
- 1.21** In the West, when the Renaissance came around—Middle Ages, you start getting the Renaissance thought and people start asking these questions again. They start asking questions about psychology, again, from more of a philosophical perspective.
- 1.22** One of the famous thinkers that influenced how we think about the world is **Descartes**. So, you've probably heard this **Descartes** classic cogito, "I think, therefore I am." So, **Descartes** was trying to figure out, "How do I know I'm a person? How do I know there's not some demon that's convinced me I'm real, but I'm really not real?" And what he concluded in his meditation was that the idea of reflexive thinking, the idea that I can reflect and see myself as a person, gives me confidence that I'm a person. It's a little bit circular. So, **Descartes** really set up a model of mind that we have in the West as something separate. We call it the mind-body split or mind-body dualism.
- 1.23** It's probably wrong in a way, but this idea has permeated psychology a great deal. We think of ourselves as our mind is separate from our body, though, in psychology, we're better at that. We also think humans are different than dogs, thanks to Descartes. Humans have superminds, and dogs have just little minds. We have souls. I don't really think that's the case, but that comes out of Descartes.
- 1.24** So, there's lots of great philosophy in the Renaissance, a lot of interest in how the mind works. You have everything from idealistic philosophy, everything is an idea, to more Kantian, like there's a distinction between what's out there and in here. But there's also a lot of really interesting literature that had a huge influence on modern psychology.
- 1.25** Shakespeare, for example. People ask, "Really? Shakespeare mattered?" I'm like, "Yeah. What do you think Freud was reading? What do you think all those guys—they were all reading Shakespeare. They were reading Goethe. They were reading lots of great literature. They were reading Frankenstein by Mary Shelley. They were understanding the world that way." So, something like in Shakespeare, the famous scene in Hamlet, where Hamlet is wondering if he should—what is it?—kill his uncle to revenge his father's death? I always mess these stories up. And he says, "To be or not to be? That's the question." It's this idea of how to live. In Freud's model, that was the oedipal conflict, which we'll talk about. So, a lot of Freud's ideas are coming out of—well, they're coming out of ancient Greece, like Sophocles filtered through Shakespeare.
- 1.26** So, there's a lot of importance in literature. So, you take this Renaissance thought, and all this stuff starts to cook up about the middle of the 1800s. So, about the time the civil wars happened in the US, in the 1850s, 1860s, 1870s, the world starts to boom; there's a huge growth of science and physiology, especially in Germany, but all through Europe, Americans are getting very scientifically literate after the civil war and the technology boom, and what you have is essentially the birth of modern psychology. So I'd say psychology starts maybe in the mid- 1800s.

- 1.27** I want to talk about four key figures that set the tone for what psychology is. I'll talk about the 1800s; then I'm going to go to the 20th century and bring you up to date, so you don't fall asleep yet.
- 1.28** So, in modern psychology, probably the foremost figure, if you ask people who really started this ball rolling, he's not my favorite guy, but he probably gets the credit for it, is **Wilhelm Wundt**. So, Wundt was this now famous German—I guess we call him a psychologist, physiologist. He was training in physiology. And what Wundt was doing was trying to figure out the structure of the mind in very basic ways.
- 1.29** For example, having people memorize things and watching how memory decayed over time. So, if I remembered—like, I came in here today and I remembered everybody's name, and you could have just checked me every minute, and you'd watch those names just slowly disappear from my mind till at the end, I'm like, "Hey, bro." So, that's memory decay. So he was interested in things like that.
- 1.30** There was another thing, and this goes back to a researcher named Fechner, who's a pre-psychologist, something called a 'just noticeable difference.' This sounds really trivial, but it's important. So, imagine you're holding two weights, and the psychologists say, "Is one heavier than the other?" If they're close, if it's like an ounce and a mini ounce, whatever is smaller than an ounce, an ounce and a gram, maybe I can't tell the difference. But if it's an ounce and an ounce and a half, maybe I can tell the difference. And you can start raising weights and looking at what's called this just noticeable difference. And what Fechner realized was there's actually some math behind it; there's some physics behind that; there's a certain formula or an algorithm that allows you to tell those differences.
- 1.31** Well, you might go, "What does that have to do with psychology? That's just perception." But that same model, 50 years later, people applied to attitudes, "Hey, maybe we can measure attitudes the same way. So that's where—and I'll talk about that in a second. I'm jumping ahead. So, a lot of these really basic physiological findings translated into more complex, psychological findings later on.
- 1.32** So, Wundt was working with Fechner and Helmholtz, started this first psychology lab, started training a lot of people in what we call the psychology of **functionalism**; like I said, it's how to break down the mind, almost like chemistry, into parts and how they work together. It's very important.
- 1.33** In the US, we had a little different tradition. The US psychology was founded by a gentleman named **William James**. He was a genius. I guess every one of these people are geniuses. James grew up in Boston, had a wealthy family. His brother was Henry James, the novelist who wrote, I think, "The Turn of the Screw," if I get that right. I always mix that up with "The Taming of the Shrew," so I could be wrong. He wrote a lot of great Victorian novels. His sister, Alice James, was a diarist, which was an art form back then. So, it was a brilliant family.
- 1.34** James was interested in all sorts of things, but his approach, rather than being structural, was much more about function. So, when he was training, basically just a young, rich dude running around Boston, he was hanging out with Emerson and Thoreau's pond, and American transcendentalism. He took a cruise down to the Amazon, so he was an Amazon explorer with some early Darwinians. So, he was looking at these Darwinian ideas in the jungles of the Amazon. He was a guy who was very bold and also was sick all the time. So, always imagine James with the vapors on a boat being attacked by monkeys.
- 1.35** But he had these great experiences and he was willing to do it. So, his approach to psychology in America became much more functional, much more adaptive. We call it functionalism, but his approach was much more, "How are people built to survive in the world?" Not how we built chemicals, but how we built our organisms that survive. James did—he did really interesting work. He was out there. A lot of the stuff they don't talk about anymore because it doesn't sound as good, but he was interested in the mind-body split, like Descartes. So, he said, "Well, if people's minds exist outside their body, ghosts must be real." So, he spent a lot of time hanging out with ghost hunters. So, you can read

about William James and ghostbusters. That was William James, like legit. That's what they were doing. I don't think they found ghosts, but that's— they were looking because he's an American. He was just going for it.

- 1.36** James got very into a religious experience. He was experimenting with psychedelics back in, 100 years ago before anybody else. He was using nitrous oxide, which was very big at the time. Inducing mystical experiences in himself and others. He wrote the book called, *The Varieties of Religious Experience*, which is the greatest American book of psychology. He did the philosophy of pragmatism. He was a very influential character; that's why the Harvard Psychology building is named William James Hall.
- 1.37** What else did William James—another thing just getting at this early physiology—James was in his lab. He was interested in what's called the reflex arc. So, what they found out was you could take a frog leg, a dead frog. You just take a leg, hook it up, and then shock it with electricity, and it would click together like that. People were shocked, but really, we can just animate life with electricity. James goes, "Oh, my goodness, look. A frog works like this." He developed a model of habit. So, when we talk about building habits, William James built his idea of habits from the reflex arc in frog legs.
- 1.38** What James said was, "If you work on something and develop these little patterns of behavior, you'll build them up over time, like chains. And if you do the hard work when it's easy—" So, James would say, "Every day, do something hard, that's challenging, because some days you're going to have to do something that's hard and you're going to be able to do it." So, this idea of habit comes out of, essentially, the action of frog legs under electricity.
- 1.39** So, there's a real emergence of modern psychology. Looking at big things out of basic physiology is very direct, and we just don't think about it so much because it's been about 100 years. So, James is a huge figure, I'd say a father of functionalism and psychology. So, we have **structuralism** and functionalism.
- 1.40** The third big force in the birth of psychology is **Sigmund Freud**. And **Sigmund Freud** is what most people—I'm a psychologist. "Are you analyzing me?" And I always say, "No," but I always am. I'm not really. I am. I gotta be honest; I'm analyzing people. I can't help it. But that's where our term comes from; it's **Sigmund Freud**, psychoanalysis.
- 1.41** So, Freud came into psychology from a different background. He was a physician; he was a neuroanatomist. He spent a lot of time studying the neuron on a squid, and the reason was because squids have this one very big neuron that people were able to study before they could study little neurons. So there's a lot of interest in squid. So, a lot of our great ideas come from squid. He was not a chemist, but he was good enough to do that.
- 1.42** He synthesized cocaine or isolated cocaine, and cocaine became the first, I think, the first modern antidepressant. And you can read about Freud giving cocaine to people and saying, "Hey, it worked great for a couple of weeks." So, I shouldn't laugh. It's so horrifying. But can you imagine giving people cocaine? They're like, "Yeah, I feel fantastic," and then they're addicted to it. I think he had one friend commit suicide. I haven't read the cocaine papers in a long time. But he was a very interesting guy trying to figure out how to help people.
- 1.43** Oh, yeah, this is cool. So, Freud was doing surgery. He was working with a guy named Fliess, and people mentally ill. He'd do a nasal surgery. What? Yeah, so he had one patient named—he called Anna O. His names for patients were always a little different. So, Anna O, her real name was Bertha Poppelheim, if I got that right, meaning it was AO and BP. So, that's how he'd make his fake names. He'd take the initials and move them back one in the alphabet if that makes sense. So, Anna O, who was his patient, one day said—I mean, Freud was trying hypnosis, he was trying surgery. He said, "Why don't we just talk?" And she developed what's called the talking cure, which is, "I'm going to talk about my problems, and you're going to listen, and we're going to unwind them that way." So, Freud is the one with really, Anna, who discovered modern psychotherapy. So, Freud is really coming at it, the first person to come out of the therapeutic tradition.

- 1.44** He also has this whole model of psychoanalysis. I'll talk about some when we talk about development. It's just so big. But his ideas go back to people like Schopenhauer and Nietzsche in the philosophical tradition. So, if you want to nerd out for a second, Schopenhauer was reading a lot of Vedic literature, the early translations of what they might call Hindu literature back then, and he was talking about the will to life. So, Schopenhauer was talking about the will to live. And then, Nietzsche, who was a well-known philosopher now, started talking about the will to power. These are the basic drives. And Freud took those ideas and started talking about the will to life and death, Eros and Thanatos. So Freud's model, especially if you read his later work, like "Civilization and Its Discontents," is about the conflict in the human condition between love and death, or love and war, and love and conflict. That's it.
- 1.45** So, his motto was psychodynamics because he's talking about this dynamic unconscious part of you that wants one thing; part of you wants this war. Like the two horses in the chariot, except in Freud, they're underground fighting. So, Freud starts the psychoanalysis. You could talk about that for about ten hours; you got to stop.
- 1.46** And the fourth person that's really important in the birth of psychology was **Ivan Pavlov**, who's famous for Pavlov's dog. So, Pavlov was a Russian physiologist. He was working on learning in animals. And what he found was—what he developed was associationist learning. We often call it classical conditioning. So, here's how it works. You find in nature a natural stimulus and response that just exists in nature.
- 1.47** So, for example, you have a dog, I've got Killarney and Murphy, and I come home, and I open up a bag of cookies, and the first thing that happens is Murphy jumps up on a chair and starts to salivate, literally drool. It's kind of disgusting. I love him, and he's grown. It's a beautiful dog, and it's a beautiful thing, but it's a little disgusting, too. Why is my dog drooling? Because he's anticipating I'm going to give him a cookie. So, what's happened is the natural association between getting a cookie and drooling, which is just a natural stimulus and response. He's learned to associate that or pair that with me opening a bag of cookies. So, he hears the cookies and starts to salivate. That's associationist learning. That's classical conditioning. It's classical. It's not based on reward. It's based on association. Operant conditioning the Skinnerians based on reward; this is based on association.
- 1.48** Pavlov's dog was the same deal. Pavlov would bring a bell, bring a dog food, the dog would salivate; he did that over and over, and pretty soon, all he needed to do was ring a bell, and the dog would start to salivate. That's the magic of that little link. "Hey, we can just build associations on associations" is the groundwork of behavioral psychology. It's why you get Delta points. I mean, Delta points started with Pavlov through Watson and Skinner, and now I'm fighting to get freaking Delta status. Oh, it's so sad. It's just so sad.
- 1.49** **Behaviorism** is so powerful. It works so well that marketing people love it, but it's so intellectually dumb that I never think, sorry, I shouldn't say that, but it's not so hard. It's just simple, and it works really well. So, I'm always a victim of it because I never see it. I want to use this super clever Freudian stuff, and no one does that. You're just like, "Here's a token. Here's a point. I want more points."
- 1.50** So, Pavlov—and I didn't hang with a lot of behaviorists, but the few I did hang with in grad school, way back when, they would tell stories that Pavlov was a genius, who—there's a story of him coming to the States to visit people and losing all his money and ending up lost on a subway, and people had to track him down. I don't know if this is true. We have a lot of stories in psychology that are apocryphal stories that may or may not be true. So, his story is being lost on the subway and having people have to find him because he was so smart he couldn't figure out how to pay for a subway. In academia, that's a real flex: "I'm so smart, I can't even use money. I can't feed myself. I'm such a genius."
- 1.51** But I think those four thinkers are the roots of psychoanalysis, behaviorism, functionalism, and structuralism. That's pretty much the 1800s up to the 1900s. Freud's "Interpretation

of Dreams" he wrote in 1899, but put 1900 on the date so it sounded modern. So, I think this is the late 1800s.

- 1.52** And then, we move to the 20th century psychology. What was going on, really? It's so weird saying 'the 20th century.' Remember the 20th century? I'm like, "Yeah, that was my whole life. The '80s. That's when I was happy. Oh, my God. I do remember it. I fantasize about it every night." It's so bad. I just want to drive my VW bug to a talking head show, just have a world that makes sense, and not share it on social media because no one invented that thing yet. But the 20th century is really where this modern psychology took off.
- 1.53** So, what are the forces? Well, the first big force in 20th-century psychology was behaviorism. This is done by a guy named John Watson and later B. F. Skinner, who probably people are familiar with. That's who they named the principal after on the Simpsons, Principal Skinner. What the early learning theorists were really interested in was a kind of conditioning. Instead of classical conditioning, we call it operant conditioning. What it was doing was using strategic rewards and punishments to shape behavior.
- 1.54** The classic way of doing this in Skinner's world was to take something like a pigeon or maybe a rat, put it in a box called a Skinner box, you'd have a light that went on and off, they would have a thing they could peck and get a food pellet, and they would learn certain things. So, they might learn, "Oh, a combination of lights. If you peck, you get a food pellet." And then, they change the reinforcement. So, this is all about reinforcement schedules. So, do you get a food pellet every time you peck? Do you get a food pellet every three times? Do you get a food pellet on average every three times? Which is called variable ratio reinforcement. How does that make a difference?
- 1.55** And what they found out was that you can do massive things by changing reinforcement schedules for people, and that's Delta Airlines, but that's also gambling. So, if you go to Las Vegas, which every once in a while, I drive through there and walk into a casino, and I just go, "This must be hell" because you see people pulling those levers just like a pigeon in a Skinner box, and they're just pulling the levers, waiting for three cherries to come up or whatever, and feeding the thing with quarters. That's literally just a Skinner box, and this variable ratio reinforcement is Skinner box. It's very simple.
- 1.56** But this stuff is very powerful. John Watson was doing this work. I think he was at Hopkins, John Hopkins. His famous case that he toured was a guy named Little Albert. So, he took this little kid named Little Albert, and he trained him or shaped him to be scared of a friendly white rabbit. That was his demonstration. So, what he did was, with Albert, he'd be like, "Here's a rabbit. I love it," but he'd put a punishment with it. So, "Oh, here's your rabbit," and then he'd clang a big bell and scare the kid. And so, you hand a kid a rabbit, and he's like, "No!" Sorry, I shouldn't laugh. It's so horrifying. But that was what he did. He was like, "Look, I can train a kid to not like something lovely and fluffy by associating it with a very scary stimulus," which is kind of bad. So, he took little Albert around in demonstrations.
- 1.57** And then, Watson got fired for having inappropriate relationships with a graduate student. I won't ask you to guess what he did then, where he took all this. Oh, he went into marketing. I'll tell the story. So, he got fired from academia and became a marketer, just like Freud's nephew Bernayshe, who started all our modern propaganda. So, about 100 years ago, the psychologists were already moving into our propaganda and marketing system, and I guess still got students working with social media. It's the same—there's just a funnel from psychology to manipulating the public, and Watson was one of the first.
- 1.58** Skinner wrote some really important books. One was *Walden Two*. So, instead of *Walden's* pond, he wrote a book called *Walden Two*, which was about a utopia based on manipulation and Skinnerian behavior. Basically, if you can reinforce and shape behavior in a society, can you make a utopia? So, he wrote a utopian book called *Walden Two*. Instead of *Walden's* pond, where you read the Gita and spend time with nature, in

Skinner's world, you just get shaped by a bunch of scientists all the time. It's a lot like Brave New World.

- 1.59** And then, next on the list, I think, of really important early 20th-century psychologists is L. L. Thurstone. So, Thurstone, I mentioned this before, what he wanted to do was learn how to measure attitudes. An attitude is an evaluation of something. Do you like me speaking? Do you like Miami? Do you like the toothpaste you use? Those are all attitudes. Do you like yourself? That's self esteem, but that's an attitude about yourself. So, our attitudes are evaluations. And what you notice about the human condition is what we do is evaluate stuff all the time. Can I get a witness? We do it all the time. Hey, do you guys like this new shirt I got? "Yes." "No." None of you are like, "I don't know. I don't have an opinion. You just got it. I really need to sit with this." No, I can make an opinion real fast. I'm a human. So, what Thurston learned to do was to take this idea from just noticeable differences and build these into attitude measures, which are called Thurston scales, some different versions of that. But he learned that you can measure attitudes in very precise ways, so precise we don't even do it anymore.
- 1.60** Now, if I want to ask your attitude about something, I'm like, "Do you like this or not on a five-point scale?" "I like guns. Five." "I don't like guns. Five." Whatever. It's simple. He did these very elaborate scales that worked a little better. And anyway, that's where we started getting attitude measurement, which is in, like I said, in everything: public health, everything you do is attitudes. So, that was attitudes.
- 1.61** A little later than that, maybe in the '30s, and then you got a big boost. After World War II was the rise of social psychology. The father of social psychology—in group psychology is Kurt Lewin, who was sometimes pronounced Levine. He came over from Germany, again, before World War II, and some people came after, started the Institute of Social Research, I think, at the new school in New York, and then they moved a lot of that to Michigan. So, if you're at the University of Michigan at the Institute of Social Research, a lot of that was post-war, really, founded by refugees to study social behavior. And so Kurt Lewin was trying to use very simple social models to understand things like democracy.
- 1.62** So, in one of his famous studies, he had three groups; I think they were Boy Scouts doing projects. And he said, "Okay, you guys be the democratic team, and you be the authoritarian team, and you be the laissez-faire team." So, the laissez-faire team—the leader's like, "Do whatever you want, guys. Laissez faire capitalism." And then, in the authoritarian team, the leader's like a little Hitler, and he's like, "Do this, do this. Here are the rules." And then, the democratic was, "Hey, you guys will vote and figure out what to do, and then we'll work together." Kurt Lewin found that they had a better time and were more productive in a democratic little system, and he was very happy about that because he'd immigrated to America and a democracy. So, this is the birth of a lot of group behavior, and small group behavior, and social psychology, which is still going on.
- 1.63** After World War II, you get some other interesting stuff as well. Abraham Maslow, and we'll talk about this when we talk about motivation theory, started in the 1940s in Brooklyn, New York, trying to figure out human motivation. He wrote a very famous paper on how motivation works and human needs. This started the school known as humanism. Think of Carl Rogers is another person of this. There's some older roots in California, out in the Echelon Institute, like Fritz Perls.
- 1.64** But what happened was there was this big interest in the '40s and '50s in understanding human growth and understanding the human experience. It was after the war. We're getting a little more selfish. We have a little more wealth in our nation. And people got into them—they got into themselves, and this is what turned into the '60s: this human potential movement, the human growth movement, all that came out of 1940s psychology, especially Maslow.
- 1.65** And then, we had a couple of big, other big changes. There was the cognitive revolution that happened in psychology in the 1960s. What kicked that off was the computer. We didn't really have computers. We couldn't really do it when computers took over in the

'60s, '70s, '80s, everybody got personal computers. I think I was, I got my first computer—it must have been like '82 or something. Before that, people had typewriters. Some of you remember; I'm guessing most of you don't.

- 1.66** When people started getting computers, they thought, "Oh my goodness, the mind must be like a computer. The human mind must work like a computer." This is what we do. Whenever we have new tech, we're like, "The mind must be like this." So, in Freud's day, it was like, "The mind must work like a steam engine." And Aristotle was like, "The mind must work like a leaky bucket." And now we're like, "The mind must work like AI." No, no, the mind's a different deal, but this is just what we do as humans. So, we had this computer revolution, this big interest in cognitive psychology and how the mind worked, how memory worked, how decisions worked, how judgments worked. The stuff I'll talk about today is a lot of that 80s cognitive social psychology. So, that made a huge difference.
- 1.67** And then finally, the last, and I think the biggest, and it's what the big push has been now is in the 1990s, we developed technology to image the brain. So, we call this **neuroimaging**. In 1970, if I wanted to see how behavior affected the brain, what I would do is take some rats, I'd have them do the behavior I was interested in, I'd kill them—I'd sacrifice them, as they call it—and then I'd slice their brain up and put their diet under a microscope and see it. That's how we would see what's going on in the brain. So, you have them do it, kill them right in the middle of it, chop their brain up, and look at a microscope. That works great. The only problem is you're slaughtering rodents and you can't do that with humans. I mean, who knows nowadays? But ethically, we can't do that.
- 1.68** So, we couldn't look at the human brain, but then we developed neuroimaging, something like a functional MRI, an MEG, an EEG, different things so you can measure the brain. And what we were able to do was put people in the scanners and have them do stuff. So, you can be in a scanner and watch a screen. Or you get rejected, "Oh, Keith, you're rejected. How do you feel?" "Oh, I don't know." "Let's watch your brain." So, you put people in a scanner. It's not perfect. It's not as good as chopping up the brain and magnifying it, but you can have people live through this.
- 1.69** And so, the '90s became, I think it was George Bush senior who declared it 'the decade of the brain,' and they just started pumping money into it. So, we've been pumping money into neuro research for 30 years now. I don't know how far it's gotten, but we have pretty good maps of the brain, we have really good maps of the mouse brain now, and this stuff is, I don't know, it's going to turn into something. But I think neuroscience is probably the hottest stuff we have right now, except for the AI working in with that, which is—anyway, I'll stop. It could be really interesting.
- 1.70** So, what does psychology look like now? It's like I said: it's big. It is just a big field. I'm a professor. I can go talk to another professor and not have a clue what they're doing. And the way I learn stuff is I might hang out with somebody and go, "Well, how does that work?" And they'll just sit down, have a cup of coffee, and they'll tell me about it. It's just hard to keep up with everything.
- 1.71** But one way I think it's really useful to think about the field is that we start off as the study of the soul, but really, we're studying all these different levels of analysis. So, I can—let's say I'm interested in something like depression. That's a normal psychological construct; people kind of know what it is. Well, I could study depression at different levels.
- 1.72** I can look at the role of molecules in depression: "What molecule do I take to make me less depressed? What? Is it serotonin? Is it something else?" I can look at genetics. I can say, "Hey, does depression go in families? If so, what made it go in families?" So, I can do what they call behavioral genetics of depression. I can look at the level of the brain. I can look at the brain circuit: "Oh, is it the old model of depression? Oh, you're missing serotonin." This was never a good model, but I think people know it's not a good model now. I can look at the synapses, or I can look at the structure of the brain, how parts of the brain are talking to other parts of the brain, or I can look at the whole structure of the brain. I can

look at the white matter, the gray matter. I can do all sorts of stuff; I can do a lot of stuff just at the level of the brain.

- 1.73** I can go beyond that and look at the physiological system. I can look at the vagus nerve, I can look at blood pressure, I can look at pulse rate. I can use what we call physiological measures. Those used to be really hard to get. Now I can just wear an Apple watch and get them all. I used to need a whole lab to measure these things.
- 1.74** I can look at thinking processes: "How are you thinking if you're depressed? Do you see the world as positive? Or maybe you put a little negative spin on things? Maybe your prediction of the future is a little more negative than it should be. Maybe more positive." I can look at the level of attitudes or values: "Do you have attitudes that are making you a little depressed? Maybe you have a little bit of pessimism about the world, and maybe that's feeding into your depression."
- 1.75** I can look at the level of the self: "So, why are you depressed? Why don't I have a positive attitude about myself? I don't like myself that much. That's part of it. Maybe it's my personality. Maybe I'm a little neurotic. Maybe I tend really well to risks in the environment, and that's translated into my depression."
- 1.76** I can look at the level of the couple or the relationship: "What's going on in your life that makes you depressed? Are you having struggles with your spouse? Are you having struggles with your friends or the problems at work? Is there something social that's caused it? Maybe what you need are new friends. Maybe your brain's fine, your molecules are fine, your genetics are fine, everything's great; you just need a better friend because your friend sucks. So, that could be a problem."
- 1.77** I can look at the small group because all these things are different. I can say, "Maybe your workplace is just bringing you down," and people like that. "I'm in a toxic workplace. I got rid of that, and I felt better."
- 1.78** I can look at the culture you're in. I can say, "Is this a healthy culture? Is this a culture that supports health, that supports sleep, that supports love, that supports people having opportunity? Or is this a culture that makes people not sleep and be stressed and feel doomed all the time? That's going to make you more depressed."
- 1.79** I can look at your nation-state. I can look at your broader environment. So, there's a whole field of environmental psychology. When we talk about seasonal affective disorder, that's essentially an environmental model of depression. When I don't get enough sun, it's the winter season, my depression goes up. So, the cure for that is you get a light box at home, like a little sun, and you stand by that sun a few hours a day, and that cures it.
- 1.80** And I can go something even higher, maybe talk about the spiritual level, the collective unconscious. I can go all crazy Carl Jung on you, and I don't know how to do that. But maybe there's something going on bigger than that.
- 1.81** My point is that when we talk about modern psychology now, we're dealing with things at very, very different levels of analysis, and they all work a little different. And so, you can have one person really interested in the neuroscience of depression or the neuroscience of happiness—I'll make it more happy in here. It's bringing it down—the neuroscience of happiness. And I can have another person, an organizational psychologist, that I want to make a happy workplace. So, they're both interested in happiness and psychology, but just on a different level. Does that make sense?
- 1.82** So, there's just a lot going on with levels, and it gets really confusing because we change at every one of these levels. We're just different things at every level. So, that's what's going on with psychology. It's just massive, and we're studying things at lots of different levels. You can study anything you want in psychology, pretty much. You don't even have to study people. There's wonderful work on rodents, but there's also wonderful work on other primates: great work on chimpanzees, for example. So there's lots you can do.
- 1.83** I think what holds psychology together, what makes it psychology and not something else, is the scientific method. It's that we're all trained to do science. Well, what does that

mean? It doesn't mean I'm the science. It means there's a certain way we go about defining problems, defining what we're studying, and then looking at how we're studying.

- 1.84** The first thing we do in science is we spend a lot of time defining the variables we're looking at. So, if I'm interested in something like happiness, I literally have to define what that is. If I'm interested in depression, I have to define it. And I'm not going to go into that because it's a lot of work. But usually, what that means is reading the history, reading the philosophy, spending some real time thinking like, "What the heck is happiness? What the heck is depression? What the heck is psychic energy? What are these things we're talking about?"
- 1.85** Once I define it, I have to be able to measure it. I have to be able to assess it. So, I have to build a scale to measure it. If I'm going to do research on depression, I need a depression scale, and we have a lot of good ones: the Beck Depression Inventory, the California Epidemiological Survey of Depression, for example, we have varieties of these, Hamilton. So, we need to develop good assessments, and we need to develop good, what they call operationalizations: I need to make this in the lab.
- 1.86** So, one thing I got interested in my own research was ego threat, which is how people respond when you hear bad, negative things. "What the heck is ego threat?" Well, when you hear something that's negative about yourself, that's threatening to how you see yourself. "How do you do that in a lab? How do you make people feel that?" Well, it's hard to do, but one way you do it is that you say, "Hey, we're going to do a test on something really important, and by the way, you just failed. Damn you!" That's an ego threat. That's how you operationalize it. So, we spend a lot of time thinking about these things.
- 1.87** If somebody starts talking to me about something, I go, "How do you measure that? How do you measure a change?" And they go, "I can't." Well, I'm like, "Well, dude, you're just doing word salad. That's cool. You can do your talk talk stuff, I don't care, but it's not really useful. It's not science; it's just word stuff." So, when you notice people discussing things, how do you measure it? How would you know if it went up or down? You're talking about all this stuff. How are we going to really get a handle on this? Science. You got to do that. And the science—the part that really makes the science work is spending time thinking about what you're measuring. It's not so much doing the stuff; it's thinking about what you're doing. So, we spend a lot of time assessing things.
- 1.88** Then, what we do is once we measure these things, we call them constructs, psychological constructs like depression, ego threat, or happiness. I got to get some other examples here that are popular: creativity; that's a good one popping into my head. I have a buddy who studies creativity. We have a lot of discussions about it; it's really complicated.
- 1.89** Once we figure out how to measure these things, we just start to see how it goes together. So, a lot of times what we do is just associationist work. This correlates with this. People are happy; they spend time outdoors: "Oh, that's interesting. They correlate." So, we do a lot of correlational work.
- 1.90** And then, if we want to get a little more sophisticated, we try to do experiments. So, instead of just saying, "Hey, it seems like people who are outdoors are happier," I'm going to do an experiment. What I'm going to do is take two groups of people—I'm going to take a group of people, I'm going to randomly assign them just with my number generator: you go in the group that spends time outdoors, and you go in the group that spends time indoors. Then, I'm going to have them spend time outdoors and indoors, and then I'm going to measure their depression. And if I find the outdoor people have less depression than the indoor people, in my experiment I go, "Well, maybe being outdoors is causing a change in depression." So, I'm starting to build a causal model. Does that make sense? So, you go from 'things go together' to 'things cause each other.'
- 1.91** And then, what we do is we get a little more complicated. We go, "Why did that happen?" So we say, "Yeah, being outdoors made you less depressed. Why is it?" And your neuro guy goes, your buddy in neuro comes up, and she's like, "I think it's the serotonin's release from the"—I don't know anything about this story. "The solar energy goes into your eyes

and makes serotonin happen with the magic serotonin maker." That sounds like a pretty good model.

- 1.92** And somebody else says, your friend that does social sciences, "I bet if you're outside, there are a lot of people walking dogs, and I bet it's just the dogs that make people happy. It's just, it's doodles. It's just doodles." So, they come up with their doodle model. And so, you run your experiments. You say, "Well, is the doodles that did it? Is it the brain magic juice that did it?" And you tease that stuff out. It's research for mechanisms, essentially, for causation. So, that's one thing.
- 1.93** The other thing we spend a lot of time doing is, when something happens, can you turn it on and off? "Oh, this works like this, but maybe I can turn it off by—maybe the sun will make you less depressed unless I make you read really bad poetry. That will help turn it off." So, I get a bad poetry condition and turn it off. That's what we call moderation. So, essentially, what we're doing is, "Hey, we learn to measure these things. They go together. Here's why they go together. Here's the mechanism, and here's how I can turn it off on and off." That's the moderation, that's science. We're building very, very simple models of a very complicated world.
- 1.94** So, I sometimes think of my job as—I mean, I'm a personality psychologist. I think of my job as making maps, like a cartographer. I make a map of the world. People are like, "I'm going to go deal with people. Here, take my map of how people work," and they go out and use my map. And it's helpful a little bit, but then they get to certain places where my map isn't helpful, and I'm like, "Well, better get you another map for those places." So, I build another map. So, very much what we're doing is making these very simplified models of the world that we hope are useful, and we hope people use them to make other models.
- 1.95** What we're not doing is figuring out how the world works perfectly and describing the whole damn thing. We're making simple models, not super complicated models, because we can't do that very well, which is—so, science is very small in a lot of ways. It's very limited what we're doing. So, when people think, when they tell you they're a psychologist and they have stuff figured out, I would always question that. Usually, the more you interact with the world, the less you realize you know. A nyway, so that's pretty much it.
- 1.96** The other thing to say that can be a problem is never to fall in love with your own models because it's just a darn model. So, you make a model, and what happens is mostly our models are wrong. It takes me about five to seven years to think something through. That sounds crazy, but that's about what it takes. If I have to think something through, it's about five years of my life. If it's hard, five to ten years. You can't just figure stuff out. A dissertation, a PhD is about four or five years of thinking about a topic, and you pretty much handle it. So, this is a really long, slow process, and the world's really complicated. It's not like we got it figured out and can tell everybody.
- 1.97** In terms of what modern research psychology looks like, we tend to divide it into fields, and they're often by levels of analysis. But it's not really perfect because there's applied psychology, which is the psychology that we use in the world, and then there's more research psychology, which isn't applied, but I'll give you an example.
- 1.98** So, if you go to any big research university, you're going to have some basic experimental psychology that looks at something like rodents; they might call it behavioral neuroscience or something along those lines, looking at rats. You're going to have some human neuroscience, maybe cognitive neuroscience. This is looking at people, often using scanners like an fMRI. You might have cognitive science or cognitive psychology looking at things like memory, perceptual systems. You're probably going to have a social psychology group doing a lot of things about the self, social relationships, groups, prejudice, lots of these real social issues. You might have personality psychology looking at self.
- 1.99** And then, in terms of applied fields, what you might have and very likely to have is clinical psychology, which most people are familiar with, which is training people to be clinicians, to go out and work in psychology. Less common, but pretty common still, is industrial

psychology. This is people who go into workplace psychology. So, in a department, you'll have people working with rats and people getting dressed up to do corporate work. The same department, just at very different levels of analysis. So, you have all those classic levels.

- 1.100** Developmental, that's another classic field. So, you have developmental. What's interesting is developmental goes across areas because it's about change, and applied areas are more focused on application. And then, on top of that, you'll have neuroscience attached to everything now. So, you might have cognitive neuroscience, social neuroscience, behavioral neuroscience. You have a lot of interest in neuroscience that's appended to psychology. So, you have all these different levels of analysis and standard fields, each with their own organizations, their groups, their journals, etcetera.
- 1.101** Another interesting way to break down psychology—and people don't think about it as much in the field, but I think it's useful—is maybe to think about psychology coming from the inside and the outside. So—and this is just how I think of it—outside psychology is this interest in understanding, predicting, and controlling behavior. This is the Skinnerians, "Why are you doing psychology?" "I want to understand behavior so that I can predict behavior, and once I predict behavior, then I can control behavior." So, this is learning psychology is a tool for manipulating people, ideally to make the world better. You don't use these powers for bad, hopefully, but sometimes that happens. But that's how you're thinking about it. It's how I can control or shape people with psychology.
- 1.102** And then, there's inside psychology, which is the psychology of growth. This is what we're interested in when we read books at the airport and stuff. It's like, "How do I, as a person, start where I am and grow into something more?" Something like humanistic psychology. This is often what you're doing in clinical psychology. It's trying to find out who you are and get better. You're doing this in the workplace with coaching: How do you find somebody who's a leader? And you want to bring a leader into high performance. So, there's an inside psychology about growth, and an outside about control, both different.
- 1.103** And I wanted to quickly tell you about myself because my own story in psychology, I think, will help make sense a little bit. My story is different than a lot of people, but similar to a lot of people as well. I started—my interest in psychology came from philosophy and psychoanalysis. So, I was just a kid in California, just reading Freud, reading a bunch of Buddhist books, reading Jung, and reading a lot of old philosophy. I didn't understand science at all, and I was a terrible student. I took some good courses at Berkeley, but like I said, I was a terrible student, but I wanted to go into psychoanalysis. I thought that was a thing back then. I ended up meeting a psychoanalyst from Arkansas, fishing. He goes, "I'm the last psychoanalyst in Arkansas. I'm an anachronist." He goes, "I was into anachronism the day I got my degree." Well, I guess I'm not going to be a psychoanalyst. They're not many anymore, but that was my interest.
- 1.104** So, I got a master's degree at San Diego State, home of the fighting Aztecs, with a guy named George Matt, and I spent my time studying mood and memory, the most boring thing you can think of. But it was wonderful to me because that's when I learned how science worked. I learned, essentially, you put people in certain moods, and then you put them in the same mood, and they remember things the same. That's state-dependent memory. So, I got into that, which was a little boring, but I wanted to study the self, and I got lucky and had a guy named Constantine Setekides at the University of Wisconsin Madison say, "Come work in my lab. We'll study the self, and we're going to study how people enhance themselves and how people think they're a big deal." So, I got into that work of self-enhancement, and I started studying narcissism, and this is how it worked.
- 1.105** People are always like, "Why did you study narcissism?" Well, I was at yield waffle shop or yield pancake shop in Madison, Wisconsin, and we were trying to figure out why some people are self-centered sobs when they're with people they love and why other people are pretty nice. And somebody said, "Hey, maybe it's narcissism." I thought, "Well, I'm a closet Freudian. I must be a narcissist. Let's study narcissism." That's how I started doing it. It

was just to figure that stuff out because I like Freud. So, a lot of this stuff is just coincidence. I ended up doing it. So, I did that.

- 1.106** Then, I did a postdoc at Case Western Reserve in Cleveland with a guy named Roy Baumeister, who's a genius in the field of psychology. And my job was on Tuesday nights, I go to his office over Lake Erie, I think. Was that Lake Michigan? I even get the lakes wrong; it's been so long. And his room is all covered with African masks. Oh, the guy was so smart. He still is so smart. And he'd put on acid jazz and he'd go, "Let's talk about big ideas." So, my role was like a sparring partner. We talk about the nature of the world for like five—we'd stay up till two in the morning, then I'd go home and do it again. It was great training. It was so much fun. That was a postdoc. Sorry, you get your PhD, then you spend two years not getting paid, hanging out in Cleveland, and I really got into studying narcissism.
- 1.107** Then, I ended up at the University of Georgia, where I am now, in Athens. I was at Chapel Hill. Wisconsin, Chapel Hill, Case Western, and I've been at Georgia ever since. My work is mostly on things like narcissism and the self and self-enhancement. So I'm interested in that. I have some weird interests. I'm just talking. I'm interested in shamanic medicine. So, I spend a lot of time studying ayahuasca. I study wealth, so I spent a lot of time studying wealth science. So, I do some other things, too, but it's mostly the ego and the self and those questions.
- 1.108** I've worked with people that are more sociological. Science is a team sport. And so a lot of my work has been with a colleague named Jean Twenge, who's really interested in sociology. She's a postdoc with me. So, we used to hang out in a basement in Cleveland talking about how the culture worked and talking about generational change and stuff. So I've been really lucky to work with her.
- 1.109** I've got another colleague, Josh Miller, who's a clinical psychologist, a clinical personality psychologist, who's brilliant. So, I was able to do a lot of clinical work. So, people are like, are you a clinical psychologist? No, I don't talk to people, but I do a lot of work with really talented clinical people.
- 1.110** So that's what I do. I'm just curious about stuff. The world is far more—I like questions more than answers. And if you ask me how the world was 20 years ago, I see it as much more complicated now than I did 20 years ago. I realize I know nothing. I used to think I was pretty smart. Like 18, I knew everything. Now, I know nothing about the world. It's just awesome.
- 1.111** Finally, I wanted to wrap up here. I think the time is good. I wanted to say this to people. I hear people like, "Oh, I can't know the science. I'm not a scientist." Hell yeah, you can learn the science. It's not a massive secret. If you're interested in science, you can go directly; you don't have to listen to me. You go on something like Google Scholar, and you go and say— if you're interested in depression and sunshine, you go to Google Scholar, you type in "depression sunshine review paper" or "depression sunshine meta-analysis." Meta-analysis is basically a quantitative analysis of papers. You go in there, and you find a meta-analysis that looks pretty recent, and you see how many people have cited it. It'll say how many people cited, meaning they wrote a paper and referred back to that meta-analysis. You go, "Oh, there's a meta-analysis here that's been cited a hundred times." That's where you start, and you read that.
- 1.112** It's not that hard to get into the literature. The thing you're not going to be able to do if you're not a professional is you don't know when people are lying, and you don't know how people are shading the truth because there's a lot of stuff in science where people are telling the story one way and if you don't know the technical stuff, it's hard to see through it. But beyond that stuff, reading the science, it's totally out there, and I'm saying, "Go for it. Just start reading papers." And you can find them. If you can't find them, you could email me, "Hey, can I have a copy of your paper?" And I might even send it to you because no one asks me for my papers. Most academics go, "Oh, my God, somebody cares."

Everyone hates me. This person, though, this person in Guam loves my work," and they're very happy to share it.

1.113 So, I would just finish up by saying I encourage you. Whatever you're interested in, whatever you learn here, if you want to go for it, just go and read the original research yourself. Read the books. You don't have to listen to other people talking about it because people who spend their life talking about other people's research are generally not people you want to listen to. People you're going to listen to are doing it themselves.

2. Mental Models and Sense-Making

At a glance

Human beings turn incomplete information into workable mental models. This lecture examines perception, attention, memory, heuristics, schemas, attribution, bias, prediction, and social sense-making, showing how useful shortcuts can also distort judgment. It emphasizes that cognition is embodied, selective, shaped by context, and influenced by other people.

- 2.1 Welcome back. What I wanted to talk about in this session was the big question of the psychology of human behavior, which is how we make sense of the world. So, how we take information in and turn it into something sensible, and how we operate with that.
- 2.2 So, it's easy to think that we are humans, that we see the world, and we work like a recording device. I walk into this room; I have stuff come in through my senses: my eyes, my ears, my touch, my smell. We have lots of senses. And then, I record it in my mind, in my memory, and I could play it back later. But I'm seeing pretty much what the world is. That's not how it works, unfortunately. It would be cool if you could record everything and call it back at will, and maybe some of the new AI cameras you're going to wear are going to do that, but that's not how we're built. That's how our computer is built.
- 2.3 What we do is we run across the thing in itself, the world out there. And the world out there is really complicated, and there's so much going on, and it's very hard to make sense of it. So, we take that world in through our senses. We reduce it down to a model, like a small diorama of the world that's related to what we need to do, it's related to our motivations, it's something we've built over time, and we operate from that model.
- 2.4 So, what we're not doing is seeing everything. I can't see ultraviolet light. I can't hear things my dog hears. And even the stuff I see, I'm often not paying **attention** to because if I paid **attention** to everything around me, I would lose my mind. If I looked at what everyone in this audience is wearing and tried to figure out what it was, I couldn't talk. So, you got to do a lot of reduction. And so, what we have is the gap between the thing in itself and this little model of the mind. In psychology, we call this sensation and **perception**.
- 2.5 So, this sensation is what we take into our sensory apparatus, our eyes or ears, or whatever; it goes through our neural system. There's a lot of great science on this. And our perception is what we see after we've reintegrated this into our mind. And what we see is different than what's out there. So, that break in the world is really important to understand, that the world is really small. And like I said, most of the time we don't notice, but you can see how the mind is in the process of constructing a model with different things.
- 2.6 So, one of the things you notice in the human condition is pareidolia. I always pronounced that wrong, and I've even looked it up. I think maybe there is no right way. Pareidolia—essentially what we do if we take ambiguous objects, you look at clouds, you look at the front of a car, you look at normal things, we tend to put those into things like faces or animals or other things that are meaningful. We turn ambiguous stuff into something we understand.
- 2.7 So, I can go sit after this and go look at—in Miami, there probably are no clouds, just the beautiful sun—but imagine there were clouds, we'd sit there and look, "Oh, that looks like a lion, that looks like my Uncle Bill, that looks like a rattlesnake, whatever." That's just our mind making meaning. We make meaning from stuff that's ambiguous. Does that make sense? We're a sense-making machine, essentially.
- 2.8 Another example of this that I'm really guilty of is called apophenia. It's this ability to detect patterns, meaningful patterns, and nonsense. So, you give me a bunch of information and say, "Tell me a story." I can tell you a story about that information, and you're going to say, "You're a conspiracy theorist." I'm like, "You told me to tell you a story that fits all the pieces. It's probably not true." So, we have this ability to detect, to pull

meaning out of stuff that isn't really meaning because what we're doing is making sense. We're sense-making. We're not sense-detecting. We're making reality. So, we can see patterns out there.

- 2.9** You see a lot of this in visual illusions. So, if you're in intro psych class, this is where the professor shows you 25 intro illusions. They have the duck and the rabbit illusion, and some people will see a duck and a rabbit depending on how quickly you look at it, but it's ambiguous. Or they might show you two faces and a goblet. Have you seen this? "Oh, is that a drinking goblet or two faces?" I don't know. It depends on what I see first and how I interpret it. So there's a lot of illusions like that.
- 2.10** There are cool paradox illusions, things where they can mess with your sense of perception or depth perception. Something like Escher, the great mathematician artist, like his staircases that look like they're going on forever or animals that turn into other animals. That's a classic illusion we can do because we can play tricks on ourselves because of our sense-making apparatus.
- 2.11** There's one on the internet that was like, "Is that dress silver or blue?" I think it was the dress thing, and the people were going to war over this. "It's a blue dress!" Dude, it's one or the other, but we're seeing different things. That's how we're built. I forget what illusion that is. I think it's a little different. But essentially, we're making reality up, and we're interpreting reality from the vast amount of information that comes in. That's how you do it.
- 2.12** Another really important process in this is what's called attention. So, our attentional system is very selective. It's almost like a light beam. And so, we attend to the things we're supposed to attend to and stuff that we're not supposed to attend to we don't see at all. Lots of examples of this. You'll see—here's a movie, "Count how many times these kids pass a basketball," and you'll be watching, and then they'll have a gorilla walk through it. "I didn't see the gorilla." No, because you're looking at the basketball.
- 2.13** Or you could do—if somebody's watching this at home, they could change my outfit every 5 minutes, and people watching at home would have no idea because they're not paying attention to my outfit. They never calculated a change. I could have a mustache, or I guess I have a mustache. Maybe I could change it all and have a '70s mustache. People wouldn't even notice. They would see that change and they would override it.
- 2.14** So, our attention system is really important and really important for understanding things. It's how magic works. A lot of magic is they have an attractive assistant, a lot of this stuff. So, you're looking over there, and then the guy runs out of the box over here. So, attention is really important.
- 2.15** The bottom line, though, is we build this little model of the world for survival. We only need to be accurate enough to survive and reproduce. We don't need to evolve to be philosopher kings. That's a side effect of a very wealthy economy and a few weirdos going, "I'm going to be a philosopher king." Mostly, what we're trying to do is get enough to survive.
- 2.16** What that means—it has several implications, but what that means is several things for how we're built, how our sense-making system is built. The first that's really important is there's a speed-accuracy trade-off. So, in nature, when you're cruising through the world, you make decisions about threats very quickly. If I'm out surfing, maybe on this Coast, maybe the Gulf Coast is not a really good way, so I'm over here surfing. I see a fin come out of the water. My first thought is, "Shark!" I've been around a lot of fins. I can tell a dolphin from a shark if it goes up and down. But I see a fin, I'm like, "Peace out. I'm not spending- "Hey, what shark is it?" Or if I see a shark, I'm not like, "Hey, maybe it's a harmless sand shark. I'll swim down and investigate. Maybe I'll call my friend, the shark botanist, or whatever." I guess that'd be a plant shark. The shark doctor. I don't do that. I just get the hell out, and then we'll figure it out later.

- 2.17** So, there's a lot about speed and a lot of decisions we make—we make a lot of decisions with limited knowledge, and we make them very quickly to survive. Because our philosopher king, great- great-great-uncle, that was pondering the nature of sharks, is dead. He never had kids. My dad, my great-great-grandfather, was scared of sharks, and he had kids. That's the deal. You also need a model that can change. If we have just one model, it never changes; it gets stuck. So, we have to learn because it has to be a slow-growing model, but there has to be the ability to change.
- 2.18** There's two other things that are really important. One is our model has to make sense. It has to be internally coherent. So, if I have a series of beliefs about the world, they have to line up with each other. If I believe, "I'm brave, I'm courageous, I'm really scared of sharks," that's a hard way to live. So, I got to tell a little different story: "I'm really brave, I'm really courageous, I'm cautious in an appropriate way around sharks that's very manly, but definitely not cowardly." So, I have to tell myself a certain story. So, we need consistency in ourselves.
- 2.19** And then, if you remember from Plato's cave, we need consistency with our social group. So, if I have a set of beliefs about the world or if I'm observing something in the world, I want the people with me to see the same world. But if I run in and I'm seeing something that they're not seeing, it's going to be weird because they're going to go, "Is that person right? Am I right? " It's weird. And so there's a very, very strong social pressure on having shared views of reality. So, it's not just about the internal workings of the mind. It's also a very social process. I'll talk about all that.
- 2.20** I was thinking that woman on the airplane. I don't know who—that person back there is not real. Did you see this thing? That's a wonderful example of a reality that's not shared. So, there's this woman on a plane saying, "That person,"—and she didn't say person, but I'm being polite—"that person back there is not real." I watch that video, and I go, "I believe her. She seems like she's telling me the truth." And that's why it was so weird because it was something that seemed nutty. Other people on the plane are filming this because they go, "This is a little nutty." But when you watch it, she seems very convinced of herself, and people are like, "I believe her." So, that's where it gets—this social pressure of having a shared reality is really interesting. It can be conflicting.
- 2.21** So, given these constraints on our working model, the self, and our sense-making, what we've developed as humans is what's called a dual process or two-system model of the mind. This is weird, but this is how it works. This is how it seems to work. So, when we process information, all the time we're using two systems. One system, maybe you call the automatic system, is processing things very quickly. It's using association. It 's looking at cues: "I see a fin in the distance. I'm getting out of here." Automatic system.
- 2.22** The other system we have, maybe you call a controlled system. And what the controlled system does is it's slower, it thinks a little more, it makes maybe more reflective decisions about things. It's more linear than associationistic: "Oh, I see a fin. I wonder what fin. Well, it's moving flat, a little bit like a snake. Well, that's probably a shark, not a dolphin. But where it is, that looks a little dangerous, patrolling the beach and protecting the dead seal. I'll stay away from that, but I'm going to think it through." That's a much more controlled process.
- 2.23** We have both of these processes going on all the time. You see this in many fields of psychology because people keep discovering these two systems. So, probably the most popular term for these two systems was—Daniel Kahneman, the judgment decision-making researcher and behavior economist, wrote a book called "Thinking Fast, Thinking Slow." That's the two systems, the fast system and the slow system. But there's lots of names for these. So, you can call it fast and slow. You can call it a **heuristic** system and a systematic system, an easy system and an effortful system, an associationistic system, a linear system, a peripheral system versus a central system, an automatic path versus a controlled path. And then, there's cool names like the X system versus the C system or system one versus system two. We have all these different names for these two systems that are going on all the time.

- 2.24** Imagine you're on a first date. I'm down in Miami. I'd be scared to date in Miami. I'm not good-looking enough. But imagine I'm down there; I get my courage up. I got my date in Miami, and I'm going to be evaluating that person in two ways. Well, I'm married; I'm not doing this at all. But imagine I were somebody like me doing this, my fast evaluation system, my automatic system, is going to be, "Oh, this person is attractive. I'm in Miami. I think I'm in love." That's it. It's going to be very short. "Ah, do you see that moon? I'm in love." Duh. Fast system.
- 2.25** My slow system is, "This person seems okay. I wonder what she does. I wonder if she gets along with her family. I wonder what her relationship history is like. She smiles a lot, but do you think she's really a nice person? I wonder what information I could get to determine that." Blah, blah, blah, blah, blah. It's all the boring stuff that I'm going to throw out the window. That's the controlled process. Both those things are happening. When we date, we tend to go with the automatic stuff first, and then we start thinking about it later and go, "What have I done?"
- 2.26** So, you see those two systems in marketing all the time. You go buy a new car. This car, I read all the reports, and I really, really want to get this new Toyota. And I go down there, and I look at that Toyota and go, "That Mercedes looks a little better. It feels it rides better. It feels a little sexier, how I see myself. So, you have two different minds. One mind is pulling you to something that's more automatic and faster, and the other mind is like, "Slow down, let's think about this." So, these two systems work in all sorts of life and all parts of life.
- 2.27** And the other thing that's really interesting—or there's a lot interesting about these systems—but the other thing that's interesting about these dual systems is that a lot of life is taking controlled processes and turning them into automatic processes. So, whenever you learn something—my daughter's learning to drive. It's very hard for her. She's got to focus on the road. She's got to worry about the speed. She's worried about other drivers. It's a very effortful, controlled, hard process. Once she gets better at this, knock on plexiglas, it's going to become much more automatic. And then, I'm going to pick her up, and she's going to be driving with one knee. She's going to be texting her friends. She's going to be looking at a TikTok video and listening to some Nashville star on the show. And I'm like, "You're going to die, sweetie. I love you. Don't do it." But she's like, "Oh, no, I know how to drive just fine." It's what happens.
- 2.28** So, a lot of times what we're doing in life is moving from controlled processes to automatic processes. Automatic processes aren't bad. They just happen very quickly, can be out of our control, and might not go the right way. That's it. You can see these two processes: automatic and controlled, the thinking fast and thinking slow, and a lot of different systems.
- 2.29** So, what I wanted to do was walk through some of the research areas where this stuff is really relevant. This goes back to Kahneman. I think one of the key areas where this dual process model came in was an area known as judgment and decision making, sometimes called heuristics and biases. So, these are people that were interested in decision-making. The idea was, well, humans make rational decisions. People that worked in places like Wall Street, people who worked in economics, realized, "People don't really make rational decisions. They make quick decisions that feel rational, but they aren't really rational. Let's see if we can figure this out." So, they started looking at how people are making decisions about very specific questions.
- 2.30** So, I'll give you another shark example. If you ask people, "What is the probability you're going to get attacked by a shark next time you're down in the Gulf Coast"? Well, people will say, "Hmm, let me think. I remember seeing a shark out there once, and I saw those videos on YouTube that were really scary. It's probably a 10% chance I'm going to run into a shark out there." That's not true at all, but I can very easily call to mind a scary shark in the Gulf Coast of Florida. Every year, they have "The Summer of the Shark." They go, "Oh, my God, 20 people got bit by bull sharks hanging out at a river mouth, running around with bait." I'm like, "Well, what do you expect? You're basically fishing."

- 2.31** So, imagine the same person says, "Keith, what are the odds you're going to get killed by a jellyfish?" "Nothing, man. I never saw the "Summer of the Jellyfish; I never saw a movie where jellyfish attacked this young woman swimming. Sharks kill people, maybe an eel, but never jellyfish, so I'm not worried about jellyfish at all." Jellyfish are probably more dangerous than sharks if you're surfing. I've been stunned by jellyfish. I've never been bitten by a shark, but I 'm more scared of sharks because those are available in my memory. Because they're so available, they distort my memory. I can easily recall them. That's called the availability heuristic, meaning that we 're biased based on what we can call to mind very easily.
- 2.32** There's other versions like this. So, there's a salience effect. If I'm watching something— a bunch of people fighting, let's say—and one of those people is wearing bright orange, and they're taller than everybody else, I'm going to say, "They're the cause" because they stand out. So, when I look at the world, it's very easy to see that the things that stand out to me are probably the important things. So, I'm biased to that. That's called a salience heuristic. Salience means—the word 'salience' comes from the word salt. It's something that stands out in saltwater. Salient things bias our judgments and decisions. We don't override for that. So that's a bias.
- 2.33** You also see this with stereotyping. Stereotyping is really easy for people to do. It's a fast process. People love to stereotype. They don't like—people hate logic, and they love stereotypes. So, the classic demonstration of this from back in the day is called the Linda problem. The stereotypes are probably a little dated, but here you go.
- 2.34** So, imagine Linda is a 31-year-old, single, outspoken, and very bright. She majored in philosophy. As a student, she was deeply concerned with issues of discrimination and social justice and also participated in any nuclear demonstrations. So that's your description of Linda. And I ask my students, "What's more likely: that Linda is a bank teller or Linda is a bank teller and a feminist?" You ask people that, and people go, "A bank teller and a feminist. She has short hair. That's how I can tell." Dude, think for a second. There's all the world of bank tellers, and then there's a small world of bank tellers and feminists. That's a smaller world. It might be 80%, but it's still smaller than the bank.
- 2.35** So, logically, with your slow mind, with your rational or controlled mind, you go, "Well, logically, she's more likely to be a bank teller. So, I'm going to pick the bank teller." That doesn't feel good because you're like, "I got my stereotype. I know that I went to college with Linda. I was there at a nuclear protest. I know she's a feminist." That's how we're biased because these automatic processes bias our decision-making, even though they shouldn't. Those are big ones.
- 2.36** I think one of the granddaddy models of heuristics and biases was called prospect theory by Kahneman and his colleague, Tversky, who unfortunately passed away; he didn't get a prize. But another genius in this area. They talked about prospect theory, which is basically that people value losses a lot more than rewards. So, if you're like, "Hey, if I give you a 100% chance of \$1,000 or a 50% chance of \$2,000, " everybody in my class will be like, "I'll take 100% chance for \$1,000." No problem.
- 2.37** Then, I say, "Now I'll give you another option: either a 100% chance you lose \$1,000 and you have to write me a check for \$1,000 or a 50% chance you have to write me a check for \$2,000." And people go, "You all roll the dice. I really don't want to lose that \$1,000. I'll take a risk and potentially lose \$2,000." So, when you frame things in terms of loss, people get more nervous about it. That's the finding in judgment decision-making.
- 2.38** This is actually a much broader bias that we have. This is work done by Roy Baumeister. He calls, "Bad is stronger than good." So, the way we're built is bad information gets weighed more than good information. So, I asked my students, "Imagine heaven. The greatest thing you could ever have is heaven. Tell me about heaven." And they go, "Well, it's great. You can see God, and you feel peace, and you see your relatives that are gone." I'm like, "That sounds really great, like taking a bunch of fentanyl and going to Thanksgiving and seeing grandma. That really sounds—"Sorry, I shouldn't say it; it's

inappropriate. But taking opiates and seeing grandma sounds really good. Not that good, but pretty good.

- 2.39** Now, tell me about hell. "Oh, hell sucks. You burn, and then they eat you, and then they bring you back to life. Then, ants eat you, and then there's sulfur, and then demons are like hitting you with a trident and burning you." I'm like, "That sounds freaking awful. I never want to go to hell. Hell is a lot worse than heaven is good." Does that make sense? It's weird, but there's a mismatch.
- 2.40** Imagine you're in love, you've got this wonderful partner, and you go, "What's the nicest thing my partner could do to me? Well, what if my partner took me to Paris and took me to the Eiffel Tower and said, 'I love you' and gave me a bouquet of flowers on the Eiffel Tower at sunset." That sounds pretty awesome. I'd love that. What 's the worst thing your partner could do to you? "Oh, my God, I don't even want to think about it. Have an affair with my sister, film it, tell my friends, then mock me on Facebook." I'm like, "Dude, much worse than Paris is good." There's a mismatch. Good isn't that strong for bad.
- 2.41** So, the general rule in life, side tangent: do a lot of little good stuff. Don't try to get—don't get in the thing like, "I'm going to get this good thing. It's going to make me happy." It doesn't work. It's good wins by numbers.
- 2.42** So, those are the basic biases we have that are very quick and very easy for us and the heuristics and bias. But this also happens in our model of the world. So, when we make sense of the world, what we use are things like scripts or cognitive **schemas**—or **schemata**, I guess, would be the appropriate **schemas**. These are models of the world that we use that we can bring up very quickly and very easily.
- 2.43** So, a script is a model of sequential action for an event. So, imagine I go to a restaurant tonight, a restaurant I had never been to. I walk into the restaurant; I'm going to assume that there's a script in place that I can follow. I walk in, I look for the maître d' or the host, and I say, "Hey, I'm looking for a table. " They go, "Great." They sit me down. I assume a server is going to come over and ask me for a drink, show me a menu. Then, I'm going to have an appetizer, a main course, and then they're going to say, "Do you want dessert?" And ask for a check and a tip. That's your script for a restaurant.
- 2.44** Now, imagine I go to a restaurant, and they go, "Hey, what would you like for dessert?" "What? Dude, that's—what are you doing?" "We're the dessert place." "You're the lame place." Because they flip the script, I would get very confused by that because I'm so used to the script for restaurants, and it's so automatic. I just run with the script, and if people change it, it gets off whack. Sometimes that happens. You may go to an Ethiopian restaurant, "Where's the silverware?" "Dude, you're at an Ethiopian restaurant." "Whoa, this is cool!" It's a different thing. And then, you'd build another script. So remember, these models we have can change, but it takes a little work to change it over. So, those are scripts.
- 2.45** Schemas are models of the world that we bring to an event based on the structure of the event to help us interpret it, maybe because of our motives, maybe because of our culture, or whatever. So, an example of something like this is, as an American, I know how baseball works. I've been to baseball games. I do get a little bored, but I still go; I eat peanuts. I know the songs; I know what they're doing. When I'm over in the UK, or I'm in New Zealand or something, or in India, you turn on the TV, it's cricket. So, I turn on a cricket game. I don't know the first thing about cricket, but I have to make sense of cricket.
- 2.46** So, what I do is I use my schema, my cognitive model of how baseball works, because I go, "Well, it's a bunch of guys with bats and balls. That must be baseball." So I go, "Okay, it's baseball, and this guy's the pitcher, and this guy's trying to hit a home run." And then, I watch him hit the ball backwards over the thing and then do this, run back and forth. I'm like, "What the heck is he doing?" And then, I look at the score, and it's 12 overs, 4 unders. I'm like, "Dude, this isn't baseball. I don't know what it is."

- 2.47** What I'm doing is I'm using a script that's supposed to work. When the script doesn't work, I'm forced to come up with a new script. But you bring it to the situation based on the context of it. So, these scripts are really important because they allow us to very, very quickly and effortlessly navigate new spaces. But when they're wrong, they lead us to problems.
- 2.48** There's lots of examples of this, but what's cool about this stuff is you can sometimes activate these scripts cognitively. You can activate them unconsciously. And this is what we call priming or cognitive priming, like priming a pump. So, I'm going to read a sentence: "The note soured because the bag broke." How many of you—I'll say it again: "The note soured because the bag broke." How many of you know what the heck I'm talking about? Please don't blurt it out. Anyone?
- 2.49** Okay, now I'm going to prime a construct or prime a schema—I should say schema—I'm going to prime a schema. Ready? "Scotland. Scotland." Okay, I primed a schema. I activated all your thoughts of Scotland. Now I'm going to say it again: "The note soured because the bag broke." How many of you know what I'm talking about? Anybody? Raise their hand. Anyone get—okay, so get a little bit.
- 2.50** 'Scottish music.' Okay, now I primed a little bit more specific schema. "The note soured because the bag broke." You guys know what I'm talking about? You got it? Are you nodding back there? "Amazing Grace." Does that help? Yes! Bagpipes.
- 2.51** The first time I heard it, I'm like, "'Sour.' Okay, that's milk. Okay. Then no. What the heck?" I was like, "It must be a culture where people carry milk in bags. What the heck?" It made me all confused. But what that is, it's a clear example, a neat little example of how you need the right schema to interpret the world, and if you don't have the right schema, you can't interpret it.
- 2.52** When I said 'Scotland,' most people have a schema for Scotland. And they think of Scotland, they think of things, they go, "Braveheart, haggis, whiskey, leprechauns—" even though those are Ireland, they usually say Scotland because our schemas aren't great"—and bagpipes." That's what you think of when you think of Scotland. So, if I say 'Scotland,' bagpipes come to mind. When you hear that, you interpret it with bagpipes. But that's all done unconsciously. So, this is unconscious cognitive processing and priming. Does that—yeah? That's cool.
- 2.53** So, the world is great if you have the right schema going into it, but it's not so great if you have the wrong one. Another really cool way to see schemas in action is by grounding them in motivation. So, our motives for how we enter a situation, our motivations, are going to determine what we see in that situation. If I go to a place and I expect warm, happy faces, I'm going to see something different if I expect a bunch of hostile people. We see different things.
- 2.54** So, one of the old examples of this is, "What's a house? How do you look at a house?" Well, you go, "You just look at a house." Well, it depends on what motives you have, what schemas are activated. So, imagine I'm looking at a house like I'm going to be a home buyer. I go to my new house in Miami; I drive up. I'm going to go and look at the kitchen to see if it looks nice. "Oh, there's granite. Oh, that's exciting." It's got fancy quartz countertops and stainless appliances. And then I go, "Does it have enough bedrooms and a pool?" Great, I'm buying this house because I'm looking at it that way.
- 2.55** Now, imagine I pull up to the next house, and I'm a burglar. Well, I'm not looking for the stainless appliances because you can't steal a Wolf range. What I'm looking at is, "Can I get a break in the windows? Are there lights out there? Do they have one of those ring cameras? Do they have a big dog that's going to eat me? Pyrenees." I'm looking at a very different house as a burglar than I am looking at a house as a buyer.
- 2.56** Now, imagine I'm an investor looking at a house. I'm looking at, "I don't care. The kitchen is good enough." I'm just looking at the number of bedrooms, how much I can rent the bedrooms for, and if the roof line is stable. If you drive around with investors, they're

always looking at roof lines. Buyers are looking at kitchens, and investors look at roof lines because they're looking at it as a monetary investment.

- 2.57** Somebody who's a housing inspector, after I buy my house, is going to go in there, and he's going to avoid all this stuff, and he's going to be crawling around the crawl space looking for rodents. He's going to be looking for wood rod. He's going to be walking around the side of the house looking for damage to the foundation, which as a buyer, I'm never looking for because I get to hire the inspector. Does that make sense?
- 2.58** So, all these different ways of interpreting reality depend on what we're bringing to the table. And two people seeing the exact same reality with different motivational sets are going to see completely different things. And so if you're, like I said, you're a home buyer buying it for yourself, you're not going to notice all this stuff. You literally have to hire somebody from a different mindset. If you want to do a security audit on your house, what you do is go hire a robber, and they start laughing at you, "Dude, this place is a mess."
- 2.59** This is what happens in companies. You hire somebody to hack your system. You're like, "My system's awesome." You go hire a hacker. Your system's not awesome because you don't know how to think like a hacker. So, this is really important. These scripts and schemas are really important.
- 2.60** And you also recall, I mentioned that our belief about the world, our model of the world, needs to be consistent. For us to feel good, we have to have consistency. The research on this goes back to a gentleman named Leon Festinger, who got interested in the process of what's called **cognitive dissonance**. **Cognitive dissonance** is what occurs when people have a discrepancy or dissonance or a conflict between two beliefs or a belief in a behavior. So, I believe one thing, I'm doing something else, or I have two beliefs that don't line up. It leads to what they call dissonance, which is a feeling of psychological discomfort coupled with a motivation to get out of that because we're not built to feel dissonance. Trying to think how far back to take this. So, Festinger got interested in this process.
- 2.61** The story I heard, this is from the old guys, was that Festinger was at Stanford, and he was talking to an anthropologist who was studying earthquakes in India. And the anthropologist said, "There's something really weird, I noticed. If you went to the place where the earthquake hit, the epicenter of the earthquake, where there's lots of damage, nobody was really talking about it so much afterward. They said, 'Here's what happened,' and they were trying to fix the problems. But in the places where there was a lot of shaking, but nothing really happened, people started telling all these stories about these disasters that weren't really true. They just started spreading these stories about things that happened. This doesn't make sense. Shouldn't the people that got really hit be spreading the stories, not the people that didn't get hit as much?"
- 2.62** And Festeiner thought about it a little bit, and what he suggested might be going on is that the people who had the earthquake hit them and they had stuff fall down, they were like, "Yeah, that sucked. I got to build back." The people who had the earthquake hit them were scared to death, "I'm going to die." They started panicking like a little baby, and then nothing happened. They ended up with massive dissonance. I was so scared and so panicked, and there was no reason to be panicked. That's not a very comfortable place to be. I don't want to come in, "Hey, guys, during the earthquake, yeah, I panicked like a baby. I see myself as a coward. That's how I view myself."
- 2.63** I don't do that. What I do is, "Oh, yeah, no, we were fine. We were so lucky. We had a neighbor down the street. His whole house came down, squashed his whole family like a bug. I barely got out of there with my—I'm just really lucky to survive that thing." So, what I do is change the story to make it where I'm really not a coward. I acted reasonably to a very dangerous situation. I was just lucky that my neighbor down the street, who I don't really know, got smashed, not me. That's how you resolve dissonance.
- 2.64** So, that idea got really interesting to him. He did some cool experiments that I won't go into, but he did one real-world experiment that's worth mentioning because it comes up a lot. There was a cult at the time, this is in the '50s, up near Chicago. And there's a cult

that predicted the end of the world. So, they said, "The world's going to end on a certain date." Festinger heard this and thought, "Well, that's going to be interesting because my guess is the world's not going to end, and you're going to have a bunch of people who said the world is going to end, and then they're going to feel some dissonance. 'I just said the world's going to end. It didn't end. Oh, no.' What are they going to do?"

- 2.65** So, this is old-day stuff. I wouldn't do this anymore with students, so don't report me. But what he did, which is what we used to do, is send a grad student. "Oh, man, that's going to be dangerous. Let's send a grad student to do it." We still do stuff like this. So, he sent a grad student, Schachter, who actually became a famous social psychologist, to join the cult and watch what happened. And this turned into a book called, "When Prophecy Fails." So, if you ever hear the book, "When Prophecy Fails," people mention this a lot because it's a really important book on dissonance. It was the study of what happened when they prophesized the end of the world, and they failed at the prophecy. So, I'll shorten the story a little bit.
- 2.66** But basically, the woman in the cult, in my mind, her name is Marian, like the B-52's song, "Mare from the Planet Claire." But I say B-52 because I'm from Athens, and it's all before your time, and I don't even know if that's true. But that's how I remember it. So, the world's supposed to end. The world doesn't end. I'm the cult leader. I know I've got a bit of a problem on my hands because I told all my people that the world's going to end; it doesn't end. So, what do I do? I go back to my room, pray, talk to God. God talks back in Old English. If God talks to you in Old English, I always get worried that that's not God. I don't know if God talks, but God's talking to her in this really flowery language and says, "I got the date wrong." So, she goes out there and says, "Guys, I talked to God. And I was using the Gregorian calendar, but it's actually the new calendar. I got the date wrong, and it's going to be in a month." Okay, the dissonance is cured. We're fine.
- 2.67** So then, the next date comes, and everyone's out there. And I think they cut the zippers out of their pants because they were going to be picked up by an alien. Maybe I made that up. But you're standing there, holding your trousers, waiting for the aliens to pick you up, and they don't happen. And you're getting a little pissed. And you know she can't do the date trick again. So, how do you get out of this mess? Well, Marian goes back, prays to God, starts thinking, and goes, "I got it," and comes back, "Hey, guys, I got some good news. God was going to destroy the world today, but because you were so prayerful and so devout, God decided to spare the world because of us, because of you."
- 2.68** And you go, "That's a pretty good story. I like that story. That makes me the hero of the world. That means God has actually listened to me, and I saved the entire world." I can live with that. So, that's the solution to cognitive dissonance.
- 2.69** But here's the problem. If I say, "I prayed to God, and God was going to change the world, and I'm the new Noah and saved the world—" I guess Noah didn't save the world. He just saved some animals, but I'm the super Noah that saved everybody. I can believe that, but if I go home and tell my brother that, he's probably going to punch me in the head and say I'm a knucklehead. So, that's the problem.
- 2.70** So, what I need to do is get everybody to believe this story. So, people started proselytizing. They started going out and bringing new members into the cult and telling them the narrative that they'd saved the world. That's what we call social proof in the cognitive dissonance world. So people—when you have a belief system that's unstable, you go, "I'm going to go make sure everyone else believes it, and then I can maintain this system." Does this make sense? So, it's this really elaborate process of dissonance and how we deal with lack of dissonance, and that's a very social complicated one.
- 2.71** The easier way to think about cognitive dissonance is with simple behaviors. The example we always used in social psychology was smoking. I don't think people smoke as much, and all the kids are chewing these weird pouches of nicotine, and the whole thing's different. But in the old days, when everyone was quitting smoking, people would have this sense of dissonance because they were like, "I'm smoking, and it's going to kill me."

"How's the cigarette?" "Oh, I love Camel non-filtered." "It's going to kill you." "Yeah, ugh." That's a little dissonant. So, I'm smoking; I know it's going to kill me. That's cognitive dissonance.

- 2.72** So, what do people do? How do you get rid of that dissonance? Well, what Fesinger argued was that there's three main ways we can get rid of dissonance. The first is when you have two things that are dissonant, like "I'm smoking and smoking is going to kill me," I can change one of those things. I can say, "I can quit smoking. Yeah, I don't smoke, and smoking is going to kill me." There's no dissonance there. Only an idiot would smoke. Or maybe I could say, "Smoking is not going to kill me. That's all propaganda from the drug companies because they don't want us using nicotine. But really, smoking is going to be great." So, I can change that belief system. That one's a little harder than quitting. Well, quitting smoking is really hard, so people do both. So, that's one thing you can do.
- 2.73** The other thing you can do is you can change the importance of cognition, so it doesn't matter so much. "I'm going to smoke. Smoking is going to kill me, but I never asked to be born anyway. Yeah, screw it, man. Live fast, die young. That's how I roll." This sounds crazy, but I was a teenager, too. That's pretty much my operating rules for life: "I'm not making it to 30 anyway. Who cares?" So, people can change the importance of cognition. In that case, the fact that cigarettes are going to kill you, they change that.
- 2.74** And the third thing people can do that's interesting is they can add a third cognition to make it go into balance. "I'm going to—I smoke. Smoking is going to kill me, but I only smoke when I drink." Well, if you only smoke when you drink, then it's fine. The alcohol takes away the death stuff from the tobacco. It actually is a combination that's really healthy, like Evian water. So people—you probably hear people say this; I've heard it a lot: "I exercise." You smoke cigarettes at the gym. That's awesome. I know they do that in Europe. They seem to—they're fit; they can play football.
- 2.75** So, what happens is when you have this dissonance, you need to do something. Either you change something you're doing, you change the importance of something, or you tell a little different story with a third—and you end up with these elaborate narratives that allow us to do things that are dissonant. Makes sense?
- 2.76** So dissonance, that internal consistency, is a really big deal for sense-making in the world. But as I've got through a couple of times, this stuff is very social. So, our view of reality, our model of reality, needs to line up with other people. And we talked about this with Plato's cave, the idea that if I go see the sun and bring back and tell my buddies that haven't seen the sun, they're going to hate me. It's going to be weird. We have to agree on what's real. And so what researchers found, and this goes back to the '30s, is that what we see in the world in social situations tends to line up or conform in a way that keeps consistency.
- 2.77** A real-world example: in the US, when we were raised, we had the old man and the Moon. So, you look at the Moon, you see an old man. I can't see that old man, but I know that's what I'm looking for when I look at the Moon, is the old man on the Moon. That's what people see. You go to Japan, they don't have an old man and the Moon. They have a rabbit; they see a rabbit. Everyone agrees it's a rabbit. So, in both cases, there's an ambiguous stimulus: the Moon, the lunar landscape. We interpret that. In our culture, we see an old man. There, they see a rabbit. And you can see this with the constellations as well. Constellations have people see different things. Different cultures will see constellations a little differently. That gets spread a lot, so there's a lot of similarity.
- 2.78** The idea here is that we group together to determine what ambiguous things are as reality, and then it becomes part of our culture. So the earliest, and I think that really the coolest, study to demonstrate this, this social construction of reality or the social construction of shared reality, was done by Sherif in 1935, really since he published this first batch of stuff. And what he wanted to do was say, "Hey, if I show people an optical illusion, that there is no reality, there's no fixed reality; it's an illusion, but I wonder if I get a group of

people, I wonder if they're going to agree on what reality is, and I wonder if they're going to share that to the next generation of people.

- 2.79** So, here's what he did. He found an optical illusion called the Autokinetic effect, which—and I've tried this a few times and never got it to work back in grad school. But what you do is you have a very dark room, and you put a single point of light just standing there. And when people go in a dark room and see a single point of light, they see it moving, autokinetic, self-moving. They see it doing this. And some people see it moving 4 feet, back and forth. This is an optical illusion. It's not moving. Some people see it moving 5 inches. So, people see it moving, but they vary a great deal in how much they move. So, this is not reality; this is an illusion.
- 2.80** What Sherif did was bring three people into a lab. He did it with different conditions. Three people is a good example. He brings three people in the lab to look at the autokinetic effect. He says, "Hey, Keith, what do you see?" "Four feet." "Jane, what do you see?" "Two feet." "Bob, what do you see?" "Two inches." "Oh, okay, keep looking, guys. Keith, what do you see?" "Well, maybe it's more like 3 feet." I forgot who my next person was. "Jane, what do you see?" "Maybe it's 2½ feet." "Bob, how about you?" "Maybe it's 2 feet. Maybe it's 2 feet. Maybe I was wrong." Next time, "Keith, what do you see?" "Two feet." "Jane?" "Two feet." "Bob?" "Two feet. Yeah, I think it's 2 feet."
- 2.81** Okay. What we've done is, as a group, we've converged on a definition of reality. We've literally constructed reality in that group. Then, what you do is say, "Keith, you're done. We're going to bring in Steve." So, I leave, and then Steve comes in, and you're like, "Steve, what do you see?" "Four feet." And the other two, "What do you see?" "Two feet." Okay, next time, "Steve, what do you see?" "I guess it's 2 feet" because that's the reality. What you've done is you've created a group-based reality, and you can then swap out every single person in that group one after the other, and the reality stays. So, it becomes transmitted generationally. Does that make sense?
- 2.82** So, it's this idea that we construct or create reality that isn't there because we're social animals, and we have to have consistency in our social perception in order to feel good. Because if I'm in there going, "It's 5 feet, it's 5 feet." Everybody's like, "Dude, it's 2 feet," and I'm going to think I'm a lunatic. It's going to be very uncomfortable. So, because we all agree, we're able to create reality and then share it to the next generation. So, these founders create reality; then reality gets shared. That's how it works. But this is all done because of the social nature of reality construction. If we didn't have that, we'd be like, "Yeah, I see something different than you. That's cool. That's totally fine."
- 2.83** Going back, summarizing some of this. I think it's important to think of human perception as an ongoing biological, psychological, but also very, very social process. We're not dealing with reality. We're dealing with very limited models of reality. Our models are developed for survival. We have to survive. We have to be able to deal with threats in the environment. We have to be able to feel good internally. We have to have that consistency of our model. But maybe most importantly, because we're human, we have to have a social aspect to that model.
- 2.84** We have to believe what other people believe if we don't want to feel conflict. Getting through life with this is a challenge because we're running this very limited system, and we're telling ourselves a lot of stories and changing those stories, and sometimes we lose connection with reality because we get lost in our stories. When that happens, I think the one thing we're able to do as humans, which we can't do as dogs or pigeons, is we can take time off.
- 2.85** We can go to our slow processing, or controlled processing, or really effortful processing. We can think very carefully about what's going on. We can look at experts. We can make some decisions, and then we can determine reality that way. So, we have the ability to step out of situations if they're overwhelming or if we're confused a lot of times, and then really think about it and then go back. And then, we can break down things and decide what we want.

- 2.86** But it's very hard, and most of the time, we're being corralled into how we see the world and how our reality is shaped, and it's very hard to get out of this because of the speed and the social nature of it. It's hard for us to really think slowly and see a world that's different than other people and feel a lot of confidence in that world.
- 2.87** If you find yourself in that situation where you're like, "I disagree with everybody," find an ally. Find one person who agrees with you because that makes it a lot easier. And if you find two people, then you can start your own cult. But you need a few people to have a cult. But with two people, at least you can get through the day. Anyway, that's it, guys. I'm ready for questions now.
- 2.88** So, my question is more from the beginning of the session. We were talking about how maybe the way we attend to reality, might be the right way to phrase it, controls the way that we understand or we make reality. You're saying that there's still objective reality there still, right?
- 2.89** Yeah, you caught me.
- 2.90** And that there's a layer on top of it. That is our understanding, right?
- 2.91** Yeah, and that's the real—so I guess where I 'm coming from, I'm trying to think how to say it, maybe a naive realism. So, I like to think if I'm out in nature, I'm out swimming in the ocean, there's sharks around, those sharks are real. They could eat me. So, it's not that the world is one big illusion that we're creating out of nothing, out of whole cloth. There's all these other creatures in the world, plants, animals that are involved as other humans. So, I think there is some reality, but there's a lot of ways we can interpret or spin that reality.
- 2.92** And there's a lot of flexibility there. And because we're human, sometimes we can get really off base. So people like—I hate to call people out for being crazy because everybody's crazy. They could be right. But I talk to people like, "Well, birds aren't real. They're all aliens." I don't know. I forget. But maybe they're ETs or something that seems crazy. But people can still make that work.
- 2.93** People can believe the world's flat, like the flat Earth people. They can have that belief system and make it work because they get ten people to believe them. And you don't really have an issue with believing the world's flat. It doesn't cause problems for people unless you're building a rocket ship.
- 2.94** So, I do think there's a reality, but I think there's a lot of flexibility in how that reality is interpreted, and what's important in that reality and what's not important. I don't know if that answers your question. Yeah.
- 2.95** We went over the scientific method and the importance of the research in defining the terms, and is it measurable, and the scales used. How about coming up with the question, forming the hypothesis: where does that come from? How do we know if we have a good one worth putting in the study and research?
- 2.96** Yeah, that's a great question. It's like, how do you come up with a hypothesis? A hypothesis is like a very simple relationship between variables. So, I think: if I do X, Y is going to happen. If I put you in the sun, you're going to become happier. And the null hypothesis would be there's not going to be a difference. So, we generate these things, but where they come from can be anywhere.
- 2.97** So, the way you get taught is, "Well, read the scientific literature, and you'll see a gap in the literature." Well, people talked about A, B, C, and E, but they didn't talk about D. So, I'm going to do a study D. So, that's your classic 'find something in the literature people haven't talked about, and come up with a study. '
- 2.98** But you don't have to do that. You can go read a book that's a novel, and go, "I'm really interested in this idea from this book, and I'm going to see if I can study this." And you can come up with constructs. But usually, in that case, you're doing a lot of reading, back in the philosophy, or you 're reading about the topic from an intellectual side that might not be scientific, but it might be more intellectual, and then you build it from there.

- 2.99** But you can build anything you want. I literally could study ghosts. I've done enough that they'd get mad at me, but who cares? You can do that. There's a lot of flexibility. But if you're playing the game right, the way you're trained is, "Look at the literature, find a little tiny gap. " That's the small-ball way of doing it.
- 2.100** So, we talked about cognitive dissonance. You gave the example of the earthquake in India. Can we conclude that threat to survival causes cognitive dissonance, or what other elements could cause cognitive dissonance?
- 2.101** I think what goes on, and this is some more later models that people looked at with dissonance, is that it tends to involve the self and how you see yourself. So, with the thing in India, I think what was going on is that people were being concerned because they were like, "I was really scared. " So, it's something to do with their self, and they go, "I was really scared. There must have been a reason to be scared."
- 2.102** And the dissonance is, "You were scared for no reason. You're a little baby. All the house did was shook. Your dog's fine. Why are you running around?" So, I think the dissonance comes when you start activating things about the self that involve my own power, my own belief, my own coherence, my moral coherence. When that gets rattled is when you get dissonance. It's not just simple behaviors. I think that's what the science would say. Does that answer your question a little bit? Yeah. Thank you.
- 2.103** So, we talked about about how the scientific method has informed and guided psychology research for the last 150 years. With psychology literally meaning 'study of the soul,' and the soul being a mystical term, definitely referenced throughout religions. Within the last 150 years, how much has religion informed psychological research? And to what extent should it?
- 2.104** Jeez, that's an awesome question. So you go back to William James, and William James was a religious scholar, and he wrote a lot about the peak religious experience or the mystical experience, this loss of self, an oceanic feeling of connection, maybe a viewpoint of a greater sense than the self, maybe a connection with something divine that feels much greater than yourself, a sense of ineffability it's hard to describe. So this classic mystical experience—he studied that, and he was interested in religion, and he postulated an aspect of the self, which we'll talk about later, which is the spiritual self. So, he said at the core of the self, there's this spiritual self. That's where consciousness lies.
- 2.105** Well, here's what happened in science. We said, "Oh, here's consciousness. This is me seeing you guys, the great mystery, and here's what I see. Well, I see myself in my clothes. I see my self-esteem. I see my relationships." We can't figure out the spiritual self. We can't figure out consciousness; scientists haven't figured this out.
- 2.106** So, what we did was spend a lot of time studying the concept of the self, the image of the self, but we—that question of, "What is the self? What is the soul?" We skipped it. And we skipped it so much that in textbooks, they stopped saying spiritual self in some of them and started saying psychological self to get the spiritual out of it because it's hard to understand.
- 2.107** You asked me my opinion. One of my little areas of research I mentioned was shamanic medicine. This is basically using ayahuasca and traditional Amazonian plant medicine. That invokes a great deal of spirituality and spiritual self. Because of that, it's very hard to understand that experience with our modern psychology tools because we don't really have that.
- 2.108** So, what people are doing is they're going back. It's like I said: if you don't have the right map, you go find an older map. So, "Man, my cognitive maps aren't working. I'm going to go back to my Carl Jung and get my giant red book, and I'm going to use that as my map. I'm going to get the black books and get that as my map. Maybe I'm going to start reading deeper stuff." So, what happens is when you hit certain experiences, and you see this in the psychedelic research, in the plant medicine research, you run into these mystical

things, and you need a model. And because of behaviorism, we're very materialistic science. We're out of our depths with that.

- 2.109** Okay, so you were talking about how we perceive the world, and how we make sense of the world, and "Thinking Fast and Slow," controlling automatic processes. My question is: how does a controlled process become automatic?
- 2.110** The way that is supposed to work is through the process of habit and repetition. So, typically, what goes on with something that's controlled is you learn how to do it, and you repeat it over and over and over until you get better. So, what I would like to do, and especially being in Miami this time of year, everybody goes, "Are you golfing?" I go, "Oh, my goodness. I'd love to golf." I see those guys golfing. They always look rich and happy, and they have so much fun, and they go to drinks, and sometimes even hang out with their wives. And I go, "I'd really like to learn to golf."
- 2.111** Well, the reason I don't golf is because you got to learn how to do it. And how do you do it? Well, you get a golf pro, and he goes, "Swing a golf ball." And I go, "Okay. Boom." He goes, "Oh, no, no, no, no. The golf swing has 84 steps; you've got to master the 84—" I just made that up. "You need your shoes like this. And the swing is actually four parts, and it's all from your hips."
- 2.112** And so, I try to listen to the pro, and I'm doing this, and it's like I got a hula hoop, and they're like, "What the hell?" That's the process. So, it's really hard. But then I go back, and then I practice every day, and pretty soon, I put a swing together. Then I do it over and over, and pretty soon, I get my swing automatic, and I'm focused on how I look. Like, "Man, maybe somebody should get a photo of me. I look awesome. My wife would think I'm cute." So, I'm doing my golf swing.
- 2.113** And then, it becomes more about, "Hey, I'm golfing, and I'm not thinking about my swing at all because I already got my swing." That's what I mean. It's work. It's hard work over time. Things become habit; they become automatic, but it's effort.
- 2.114** And a lot of disciplines, you practice martial arts, you practice gymnastics, I do yoga. All those things—when you learn how to do it, it's really hard to learn statistics, but over time it becomes automatic. The hard part with learning is putting in the discipline work. No one wants to do the hard work to be good at anything. It's like everyone wants to be here; no one wants to take the journey. Everyone wants to learn how to golf; no one wants to sit there by themselves on the range for two hours a day for a couple of months to learn how to do it, including me. Yeah.
- 2.115** Hey, so going back to the autokinetic illusion. I was wondering, let's say, because you were talking about how psychology is very social, so let's say everybody agreed on that 2 feet where the light was moving. But one new person, let's say, Joe walked in, but he was super confident that it was 4 feet. And let's say a few of the people remembered, "Oh, maybe I did think it was a little wider," and then they start to change their social. So, is it based on the confidence of that guy?
- 2.116** Yeah, we'll get there. But what happens—that's a fantastic question. These are all great questions, really interesting, we don't all have the same social power or social influence. Some people have more influence than other people. What people have more influence? People who are experts. So, if Einstein walked in with me, and I'm like, "Hello, Einstein," and he goes, "It's clearly 2 feet." I'm like, "Two feet, done." Expert power. So, an expert.
- 2.117** But it's also how people carry themselves. So people—you got the confidence, you walk in there with your swag—I got my shoulders rolled like freaking phones, man. They turn you into—I got to turn my shoulders back. But you walked in there with some confidence, "Two feet." Boom. They're like, "Man, that guy seems to know what he's doing. I'm going for that." You do a shooting thing like that. So, I study narcissism. People are narcissistic. They're like, "I really respect and trust that person. I'm going to make him my leader." I'm like, "No, don't!" "But he seems so confident."

- 2.118** So, yeah, expertise, physical attractiveness. The most beautiful—this is how we pick people to sell products. That's why you have Einstein selling car leases. What the hell? He's a freaking physicist. But people go, "He's smart!" Same with attractive people: people trust attractive people.
- 2.119** My cab driver, on the way over here, was trying to cut in line. He rolls down his window, talks to the woman next to him; it was in Spanish. She lets him go in. I'm like, "Dude, you're El Guapo. That's what I'm calling you from now on." Just this good-looking dude; he's charming. And so, he had a lot of social influence because he's a good-looking guy who's charming, and people are happy to let him.
- 2.120** So, I think there's certainly big differences in social power and social presence that are going to make a difference in those things.

3. Psychology Throughout Life

At a glance

Developmental psychology studies change across the lifespan. The lecture follows major physical, cognitive, emotional, and social transitions from infancy through childhood, adolescence, adulthood, and aging, drawing on attachment, temperament, language, identity, parenting, and stage theories to explain both continuity and transformation.

- 3.1 I wanted to spend this final hour talking about human development and **developmental psychology**. I thought this would be a good place to start because human development is about the process of psychological change. Developmentalists are interested in how we transform over time.
- 3.2 But the transformation people are interested in could be all sorts of things. So, there's interest in social development, there's interest in personality development, there's interest in psychosexual development, there's interest in moral development or cognitive development. I've probably said that twice. But there's lots of different people looking at development in different phases.
- 3.3 And the other thing that's really cool about development is that people focus on different parts of life. So, there's lots of interest in infant or child development. People want to understand how young kids happen. And whenever you have kids, everybody who has kids becomes an amateur developmental psychologist. That's the old story.
- 3.4 But there's also development in adolescents. So, there's a lot going on, a lot of turmoil in adolescents. There's development process in adulthood. People are changing, a lot of interest in personality development. And then, there's a lot of interest in advanced old age and development. That's what they call gerontology in part. It's the study of change in old age.
- 3.5 So, we change through the life course. We change on all different dimensions, from just our basic cognitive understanding to our moral systems. Some of these changes happen early, some of them happen in the middle, some of them happen late. And then, within each of these areas of development or areas of change, there 's classic theories or classic psychological theories and classic psychological figures involved in these. People like Bowlby or Freud or Kohlberg or **Piaget**. That's who I want to talk about.
- 3.6 So, what I thought I'd do to talk about development because there's so much to it: I thought I would go over some of the classic models a little bit, and then I'd walk through the life course. So, talk about infant development, childhood development, all the way through old age, and go through some of the key issues that people are dealing with, some of the key conflicts, and try to give you an overall taste of how this works. It's a lot of material. I'm just going to boil it down like I do. But it'll give you some idea of what's going on, give you a flavor of this process.
- 3.7 In terms of the theories of development, I wanted to cover a couple of the classics. The first, which is the strangest and the one people use the least in psychology but they use a lot in art, music, and movies, is Freud's theory of Psychosexual Development. And so Freud's model was that as you develop, you have this psychic energy, which Freud called libido, which is a Latin term for 'lust.' It's essentially sexual energy.
- 3.8 This is—people go, "That sounds crazy." You have to remember that in lots and lots of classic models of psychology, there's psychic energy. You might call it qi or Qi. You might call it prana, you might call it élan vital. There 's lots of different models that suggest that energy is moving through a system. You see these in a lot of Vedic models, Yogic models. So, this isn't a crazy idea, but what Freud did was his model was very sexual and very focused on young kids. So, it sounds a little weird.
- 3.9 Here's how the model works. You start off, you have this libido, this sexual energy, and it gets stuck or fixed in certain organ systems. The term for being fixed is 'cathexis.' That's a

great word, but it basically means caught. So, what happens is you have this psychic energy. When you're young, it goes to your lips. It becomes your mouth. That becomes cathexis. Your mouth becomes the center of action. When you're a kid, you suckle on things, you bite things. If you've had kids—I remember my daughter once, picking her up, and I looked down, she's eating her shoe, her dirty sandals. She's eating it. I'm like, "Oh, God, Freud, help me." It's healthy. It's what you're supposed to do, but it seems weird. It's the idea.

- 3.10** So, the idea is that this energy moves to one system, and it basically goes from your oral stage to your anal stage to your phallic stage. I'll talk about all these, but this is what's going on. And if you develop fine, you just move through it. And if it doesn't move fine, you get stuck. So, we'd say 'somebody is orally fixated' means they got stuck in the oral phase of development. Now, they smoke cigars all the time and chew gum. That always sounds weird, but that's the idea of the Freudian system, moving energy through parts of the body that are sexualized in children.
- 3.11** I'll go through all these stages, but I just wanted to—that's how Freud's model works. It's a very interesting model, and it's a very powerful model. I'll give you some examples, but Freud's view of childhood was probably a little wrong.
- 3.12** Another researcher, a guy named John Bowlby, was studying children, and he was working in an orphanage in Britain during the Battle of Britain. I think there's 40,000 deaths. I don't remember, but lots of people were dying. This was during World War II. The Germans were sending indiscriminate bombing raids on Britain, and he ended up with a bunch of these young kids, and he was trained as a Freudian. He was trained as a psychoanalyst.
- 3.13** But he saw these kids, and he was like, "Their problem isn't that they love their mom. Their problem isn't they don't have oral fixation. Their problem is they don't have any parents. They lost their parents, and because they didn't have parents, they weren't able to develop socially. They didn't build those early social bonds and early social **attachment**s that were going to benefit them later in life."
- 3.14** So, what Bowlby developed is a model called attachment theory, which is a very powerful model that's used in all sorts of fields, but describes the early attachment that kids have to their parents, and the fact that this attachment starts, and it can either be secure because you have a parent there, and you develop a secure sense of self and a sense of trust.
- 3.15** Or your attachment can be insecure. Maybe you have a parent who's got a drinking issue. So, sometimes they're really great parents; sometimes they're on the sauce, and they're not really available, they're angry. And so in that case, maybe as a kid, you learn to be overly attached, you learn to be clingy, you learn to try to over-connect to people. Maybe you have a parent who just doesn't show up. Maybe your parent died in the war. You don't have a parent. What you end up with then is some insecure attachment where you go, "I don't need to be parented. I need to just learn to be independent way too young." So, we have kids that develop into these almost independent entities at the age of six months or eight months.
- 3.16** And obviously, this stuff is going to change how you relate to people later on. So, Bowlby was really looking at early love, early affection, early attachment, how that develops, and I'll go through some of this.
- 3.17** The other classic stuff would be something like Jean Piaget, who is a Swiss psychologist, developmentalist, looking at cognitive development. And Piaget was really interested in how kids make sense of the world. Can they understand numbers? Can they understand quantities? Can they—he had these classic things about the conservation of matter. So, if you have a tall, skinny cup and a fat cup, and you take the water from the tall, skinny cup that looks really tall and pour it into the fat cup, do kids realize it's the same amount of water? Or do they go, "Oh, it's a different amount of water because it seems shorter in the fat cup?" Interesting things like that. So, it's very much basic cognitive development, how you just perceive the world on a basic level.

- 3.18** Then, there's moral development. This traces back to Lawrence Kohlberg. There's some debate, Carol Gilligan—there's some interesting gender discussion back in the day. But what Kohlberg was interested in was how kids deal with morality: is the morality you see in a five-year-old the same as you see in a 50-year-old? And the answer is: it's very different.
- 3.19** Five-year-olds aren't really interested in the nature of freedom. Five-year-olds are interested in not getting spanked or not having their iPad— whatever we do now, take away their iPad. They're worried about getting their iPad taken away. They're worried about a time out. They're worried they can't go play with their friends. They're not thinking about the grand nature of the universe because they haven't developed that much. So there 's this process of moral development that happens.
- 3.20** And then, the final researcher, and I'm going to use this as our model, is Erik **Erikson**. Erik **Erikson** is a very interesting character. I don't think he ever graduated. I think he was a professor in one of the East Coast schools but never even got a BA. He was an artist. He studied with Freud. He studied anthropology. Very, very interesting guy. Maybe some challenges in **parenting**. But he came up with this model of psychosocial development. It's called **Erikson's** Model of Psychosocial Development.
- 3.21** He talked about life as a series of stages with a series of challenges. And this is one of the the classic models of development. What's neat about Erikson's model is it goes through the entire life course. So it's, "Hey, what are the challenges you're facing when you're one?" It's about trust. "Are those the same challenges you faced when you're 80?" No, when you're 80, you're trying to think, "Did I do enough in my life that I can let this go? Do I have peace? Or do I feel a sense of despair that I didn't do what I should have on this planet?" So, the 80-year -old you and the two-year-old you are dealing with very different conflicts and very different psychosocial stages.
- 3.22** So, what I thought I'd do here is talk us through the developmental process, highlight the theories that are relevant at that time. I'm going to add a few more, maybe some personality models, and I'm going to go through Erikson's stages, but I'm adding another stage, as you'll see, which is what they call emerging adulthood.
- 3.23** So, what's going on culturally right now is compared to these models that were built maybe 70 years ago, 100 years ago, people are developing much more slowly. We're growing up much more slowly. Our adulthood—you hear 27-year-olds now like, "I'm a kid." A kid? I think Jefferson was 27 when he wrote the Declaration. I don't even know. I just made that up. But you always hear that stuff. "Washington was 12 when he crossed the Delaware and fought the Hessians." I'm like, "Oh, my God." We develop really late.
- 3.24** And so, what some developmentalists like Jeffrey Arnett and others have talked about is maybe there's this phase called emerging adulthood. So, I'm going to talk about that a little bit, but it's not a classic phase. It's a newer phase. But I think there's a lot of evidence for this. So, that's my plan.
- 3.25** So, starting off on this tour of human development, you start with maybe the first stage of Erikson's—this is maybe infancy, birth, about 18 months, that early stage. Erikson talked about this stage as being the conflict between trust versus mistrust. He said, "What fundamentally you're learning at the very earliest stages of life is if you can trust people, if you can trust the world." "If," he said, "you have a stable caregiver, a mom who's there, who's available, a father who's available, that's really important, and also a stable family environment."
- 3.26** So, a lot of these psychologists will say, "Hey, if kids are raised in an environment that's with a stable family, where there's food, there's not a lot of chaos, they develop, they learn to trust just the nature that the world functions well. And if they grow up when there's a lot of chaos, a lot of conflict in the family, kids learn not to trust the world," and that's smart, because kids always do what's smart. If the world's unstable, they go, "The world's unstable; I can't trust it" because they shouldn't trust it.

- 3.27** So, that early trust versus mistrust is the classic conflict in childhood. And Erikson would say that you ideally develop a sense of trust for the world. And if you develop that, you move on. If you have mistrust, everything gets harder. It doesn't mean you can't move on. People get stuck in all these stages. And then, you're 50, talking to your shrink like, "Oh, my God, my mom, I wish she was more stable." And then, you cry, and then, you go, "I feel a little better." So, it's not like we—no one gets through this thing perfectly. Everyone screws up. So, that was Erikson.
- 3.28** Freud was talking about what I mentioned, which was the oral stage. So Freud—what's going on when you're six months old? You're breastfeeding. That's what babies do. You're suckling. And so Freud said that sexual libido, that energy went to your mouth, and you get stuck on it. You get a lot of pleasure from oral stuff. Ideally, what happens is that the libido sticks, it goes to your oral stage, and then it just moves on. It doesn't get stuck. It doesn't get cathected or fixated.
- 3.29** What he said, though, is, "Hey, imagine you got fixated in the oral stage. Maybe your mom wasn't there enough, or maybe if she was there too little—" the great thing in the Freudian world is if you're a parent, you either do too much and the kid's screwed, or you do too little and they're screwed. You don't win. It's like if you're too good a parent, your kid never grows up. And if you're too bad a parent, they don't grow up. So the Freudians are always like, "Be pretty good." Be a pretty good parent, but not too good, or else they're going to be stuck. I'm not saying that's true. I'm just saying what the theory is.
- 3.30** So, Freud's argument was that the libido can get cathected or stuck or fixated in the oral phase, and what that looks like growing up is you end up with this desire for constant oral stimulation. So, you're smoking a cigar, you're chewing gum, people chewing on pens all the time. So you're oral—this isn't a term we use very much. We don't talk about oral personality. We used to. So, that's the oral phase. That's what you're dealing with at that age.
- 3.31** What Bowlby was talking about in this very early phase was the development of attachment. And in his development of attachment, what's crucial is having what he called a secure base. So, what Bowlby said is going on is when I'm an infant, if I feel I can trust my mother, my father, whoever the kid—it could be your grandmother, it doesn't matter. But if I have a caregiver I can trust, what I'm going to learn over time is that there's a source of trust and security in the world, which Bowlby called the secure base. And I'm going to develop a model of the world, which Bowlby called a working model or working model of attachment that says, "The world is secure." I have a secure base.
- 3.32** If I don't have that secure base, what's going to happen is I'm going to develop a different model. I'm going to build a model of the world where there isn't security. And as I said, it might be an insecure model. Maybe I got to really work to get security. Maybe if somebody is there, I'm going to be really clingy because I know they can leave. Be more what they might call anxious ambivalent attachment.
- 3.33** Or you might get a more dismissing style of attachment, or an avoidant style of attachment, which is "My caregiver is not really there so much. I got to take care of stuff on my own." So, It's very much like a mammalian developmental model. If you got attachment, you keep going; you don't have it, you get a little stuck. That's Bowlby at this young age.
- 3.34** Piaget was looking at cognitive development, and what you see with these really young kids cognitively is not a whole lot. What he talks about is the sensory motor phase. You're literally developing a link between your thoughts, your body, and what you see. So, a kid at one year old that picks this up, puts it in her mouth, that's building. This is sensory motor awareness of the world. And that's what you're working on. You're not building really elaborate cognitive models. You're not thinking about the nature of philosophy. You're trying to pick stuff up, and put it in your mouth and figure out what's you and It's not you. So that's really important at this age, but it's very basic stuff.
- 3.35** And then, in Kohlberg's model, this is the moral development. Well, with an infant, your morality is very, very basic. It's what Kohlberg called pre-conventional morality. It's basic,

pre-conventional, and it's not even normal morality. You're trying to avoid being punished and get some good stuff. It's a reward and punishment. So, your moral system isn't really developed other than, "I want to do things that don't get me hurt and get me rewarded." So, you're being shaped essentially by your environment.

- 3.36** So kids, when we look at an infant, we go, "I love that infant. I'll do anything for him." We don't expect them to be a moral agent. If you have a one-year-old eating—I'm trying to remember, maybe 18 months of eating, this is a little later— and they throw food at you, you're not like, "You're evil. " You're like, "Oh, look, she learned how to throw food. How exciting. I'm going to take a picture of this." That's what I mean by it.
- 3.37** We don't expect moral behavior out of children. We don't put a one-year-old in prison. If my one-year-old jumped in front of my car and drove it off a cliff, no one's like, "She was bad." They're like, "Oh, your parents were bad." I'm the moral agent in my daughter's life. So, this is just a different thing.
- 3.38** What happens in early childhood? This is ages two to three. This is when the child starts to be more active. They have more of a sense of agency. You might see walking, moving, grasping, doing stuff. You're not quite in school yet, so you're still primarily at home, but you're doing things.
- 3.39** What Erikson talked about in this stage of development was there was a conflict between autonomy, a sense of being an agent, autonomous, moving, making your own decisions, versus shame and doubt. So, he's hitting at this area very much about the initial, very earliest stages of being a controlled agent responsible for your life. You go, "That's really young for that." I'm like, "Yeah, it is really young for that. But that's what Erikson is talking about."
- 3.40** And I guess I'm thinking about my own kids, you see it. You see movement, you see people like, "I'm running this show now. " When they're babies, you just carry them. It's so easy. You put them in those really fancy things they have. You just pick them up, pop them in your car, pop them on a stroller. They're easy. At that age, they're like, "No, I'm going to throw the food." I can't go to restaurants with you anymore. Whatever.
- 3.41** In Freud's model, this is where we hit the anal stage. So, this is where the libido goes from the mouth to the anus. What are you doing in the anal stage? Toilet training. So, kids are learning toilet training. Is that a big deal developmentally? Yeah. According to the theory, toilet training is really the first time, about the first time, you're getting control as a kid and you're getting control of your own bodily functions.
- 3.42** So, what you're saying is, "I have to go to the bathroom. I feel compelled to do this," and you go, "But I can wait because I have power. I can control this thing. That sounds weird, Keith." Yeah, it is weird, but that's how we work. Weird stuff happens. So, appropriate toilet training is the kid learns how to toilet train, feels a sense of accomplishment, "I went to the bathroom, I flushed, boom, I'm a legend," goes out and runs the world, becomes an accountant. That's your dream.
- 3.43** But maybe it doesn't happen. Maybe your kid really gets into the toilet training and gets really fixated on it. Instead of moving on, they're like, "Dude, I love the toilet training. I'm really into it." And when they grow up, we call them anal. Do you ever use that term? That's a term we maybe use for it's an anal type, meaning somebody who's really a neat freak, who's really controlled. So, this is what happens in Freudian theory. I always have to repeat that it's not my personal beliefs, but there's some interesting stuff with it.
- 3.44** People who get fixed in toilet training as they get older become super obsessive and clean and neat and everything else. So, it can be nice but also have some consequences. As I said, that's why we use the term anal. That's anal retentive. So, that was in the classic Freudian theory, there's anal retentive, and that's what most of us know about.
- 3.45** There's also anal expulsive, which is more an aggressive use of elimination. I'm trying to be polite here—elimination in toilet training. So, one of the neat things you see talking about in the Freudian work is kids will use things like urine to show displeasure. So, I had a

buddy once. He was like, "Yeah, my kid, he got mad, and he ran into his room and shut the door. I came in there, and he was peeing all over his bed."

- 3.46** And I started laughing because I'm like, "That is so straight up Freudian. " We call it being pissed off for a reason. So, it's this idea that this expulsion of urine is a way of showing anger over people or power. So, that idea is pretty interesting. You can take it the other way and become expulsive and power seeking.
- 3.47** But you can see basically that the toilet training can lead to either side. It can lead to more explosive stuff or more overly controlled stuff. And a lot of Freud stuff has walked the middle path between these things. So, that's the Freudian world.
- 3.48** What about social development and attachment theory in Bowlby? Well, what's going on at this age? In Bowlby's model, when you first develop a secure base, it's about security. But once you have security, in the attachment theory model, what turns on is a drive or need for exploration. So, you have the security system met, then you have an exploration system turn on. And what you see with kids in early childhood is this effort to explore their environment. They have some mobility; they can go out and do stuff, but they do it in a really interesting way with the parent.
- 3.49** You can see this when kids are a little older at the park or something. So, I take my kids to a park, and I 'm standing there with all the dads, and we're chatting, and the kids will go out, and they go, "Okay, I got my dad here." He 's secure. "I'm going to go explore." So, the kids will be out playing at the park. Everything 's fine. Then, somebody gets hurt. They fall off. I guess they can't hurt themselves because everything's padded now. But Imagine the old days. They fall off of monkey bars, and they hurt themselves. Well, what does a kid do? They look right to dad, "Oh, no, I need help." They run back. They 're crying, you give him a hug, you look, "Hey, it's going to be great; you got this." Boom, boom. They're like, "Okay, back. I feel secure again. I'm about to explore."
- 3.50** So, what kids are learning at this age is how to use a source of security to explore the world. They go back to the security, they get reinforced by that, and then they go explore. It's neat and it's a little weird. What's weird about it is if you want a kid who's not afraid to explore, they need good attachment to start with.
- 3.51** When I grew up, because I grew up with a little more chaos, my idea was, "Well, if you had kids attached, they'd never explore anything. They'd stay at home all the time." It turns out that there are kids that don't get attachment. They go out—there's this model of like, "Hey, I'm going to explore the world to find my way back home." So, you do get people that don't have attachment. This is the story of Ulysses in the Odyssey. Not that he was poorly attached, but you get thrown out to sea, and then you have to find your way back to attachment. So, that search for attachment can involve exploration.
- 3.52** But typically, people who have the courage to explore also have the courage to love. They feel loved, and that gives them the strength to explore, which is a little counterintuitive. You don't make your kids want to explore—you don't beat your kids and make them fearful in order to make them go out and explore. You tell them they're loved and they're willing to do it. If any of you are going to screw that up, don't screw that up. You don't have to be mean to your kids. So, that's what's going on in Bowlby's world: the development of exploration.
- 3.53** In Piaget's world, you're getting a little more complex cognitively. It's what you call the early preoperational phase. You get some—just a little bit of communication, not too much. You notice with kids at that early age, they might play with each other. You might see kids playing, but often it's parallel playing in a way. Both kids are playing something together, but it's not like a game. It's not as interactive. The rules aren't as complex at a young age. It's often, "We're just doing things next to each other". But you start to see the emergence of conversation. You start to see the emergence of some social dynamics, but it's still early.

- 3.54** And in terms of moral development, at this early age, we're still at pre-conventional morality. It's still about rewards and punishment, and kids aren't really philosophical at age two. They're a little more active. They're a little more about agency, but it's not the philosophy.
- 3.55** But what's cool here is by the time you're 3 years old, you've set up a lot of stuff. You'd say, "Here's how connection works, here's how trust works, and here's how I'm going to be in an autonomous age in the world." So, you get a lot going on by the time you're 3 years old, and it just gets recapitulated and modified over time.
- 3.56** How about ages 3 to 5? Three to five is when we start going to school. Often, this is preschool. We start getting out of our house and into the greater social world. Eric Erikson talked about this stage as the conflict between initiative versus guilt. So, this is very much a conflict between, "Can I go into the world and engage with people, or do I feel guilty and like I can't do it?" It sounds a little bit like shame from the last one, but it's the idea that I feel guilty; I can't quite make it on my own in these things. So, it's very much about developing a sense of agency as a young person.
- 3.57** In Freud's model, this is where a lot of the action happens, and then it settles down. This is Freud's phallic stage. So, this is where the libido goes mouth, anus, and then it goes to the genitals. So, what happens in the phallic phase? Well, this is where we get the Oedipal conflict that people are pretty familiar with. And this is where development changes between the sexes. So, male development and female development look different in Freud's model at ages 3, 4, 5.
- 3.58** The Oedipal conflict is that the young child, say it's a male, falls in love with his mother, says, it's phallic stage, "I love my mother. I want to marry my mother. But if I do, my dad's going to castrate me because I know it's going to happen, and that's a little scary." So, the conflict is, "I love my mother, I really want to marry my mother, but I'm concerned my dad's going to castrate me if I do that, and my dad is much bigger than me." That's your conflict. To be or not to be, what do I do? How do you resolve that conflict?
- 3.59** Well, in Freud's model, what you do as a young male is you go, "You know what? My dad is much stronger than me. He's going to smoke me if I go for mom. What I'm going to do is grow up to be just like dad." So, what you do is you identify with your father. This is a psychological term. "I'm going to connect and become my father. And if I identify with my father, then I'm going to find somebody just like mom to marry. And that's how I'm going to solve the Oedipal conflict. I can't solve it at age three because I'm too weak, but I can identify with my father, and then I can recapitulate my familyhood relationship with somebody like mom." So, that's the model.
- 3.60** And people go, "That's crazy. Who would—why? No one believes that. That's the dumbest thing I ever heard." I go, "Yeah, you're probably right." Remember that time in Star Wars when Luke is fighting Darth Vader, his father? And what does Darth Vader do? Chops his arm off. What is that? It's castration. Darth Vader means 'dark father.' This is all Freud.
- 3.61** Luke's trying to develop. He runs into his father. He decides, "I'm going to go to war with my dad." What does his dad do? His dad castrates him, cuts his arm off. That's symbolic castration. Sorry, this gets a little psychoanalytic, but stuff moves up and down. So, a phallic symbol can be an arm, it can be a nose, like Cyrano de Bergerac. It can be different things, but usually it moves up and down.
- 3.62** So, this idea sounds weird, but when you see it in a movie with Darth Vader, you go, "It feels right. It feels like something's going on." And then, the movie is that he has to rebuild himself. He has that second father. He builds his arm back. So, these ideas seem weird, but they do come out in art. They do come out in things that affect us emotionally.
- 3.63** The female development is different. So there's some idea, but there's an argument that maybe women have a similar—girls have a similar path where they want to kill their mother and marry their father. Sometimes, this is called the Electra complex. So, the Oedipal complex comes from Oedipus Rex, the play by Sophocles. And Oedipus is cursed

to grow up and end up sleeping with his mother and killing his father. So, he's cursed to do this. He didn't know he was doing it. So, that's where the idea comes from.

- 3.64** But there's this idea, maybe there's a parallel development with the female track. They did make a movie called "Elektra" with Jennifer Garner, trying to capture some of this energy, but it didn't seem to work. I don't know if it is really parallel that way, but people have talked about it, so I'm throwing it out there. It wasn't a Freudian model. Freud's model for female development isn't very good. The male model is interesting.
- 3.65** The other thing that's interesting is if you get fixated in the phallic stage, what you end up with is what Freud called a phallic personality style or phallic libidinal type. And you can see this. I mean, it's not a term we use. We don't call somebody really phallic, I don't think. Maybe people do. But you see it with guys that have this cartoonish masculinity that—yeah, it's a cartoonish phallic masculinity that they use, and it can be really popular.
- 3.66** So, young guys often like these really phallic characters because you see a guy who seems powerful and masculine and really phallic in his presentation. You're bold, aggressive, competitive, materialistic, power-focused, energetic, and active. And that's the model. It's not, "Hey, let's talk about love." It's like, "Let's talk about power, action, performance, success, status." That's really popular to young guys, that cartoonish masculinity. But that's really the phallic stage. And ideally, you go beyond that. But that's where the libido gets cathected in that.
- 3.67** In this age with Bowlby, what we're talking about is that this is when you start transitioning from that early attachment to secondary attachment. So, at an early stage, you're attaching to a caregiver, you're attaching to a parent. When you get into something like preschool, you start having friends, you start connecting with other people, with teachers. And so, your repertoire of attachment gets more and more complicated.
- 3.68** You can imagine if you have two relationships or three relationships when you're young, and your relationship with your mom is the main one, that's going to have a lot of weight. When you get to preschool, and you have 10 relationships or 30 relationships, each one of those are less powerful, which is nice. So, we're building out our network of relationships, building out our attachment network, exploring still in the process of doing this.
- 3.69** In Piaget's world, what we're talking about is preoperational phase, and it's still conventional morality with Kohlberg. What you start seeing, though, is instead of the focus being on rewards and punishment, what happens at this preschool years is that kids have a moral change to being good. So, "I'm a good boy, I'm a good girl, I cooperate, I follow the rules." This very conventional morality starts to appear.
- 3.70** So, if you look at kids at preschool, they often have a token economy. You get points. Our kids—you get high fives if you do good things or whatever. You start getting those economies built, and kids want to be good. "Oh, there's the good kids." You say, "Who's the bad kids in class?" And kids can always tell you who the bad kids are because they've sorted themselves into good and bad, and they have that in their moral system. A lot of us keep that moral system, but that's when it starts to develop around these ages.
- 3.71** The next phase in this system, let's take school years, 6 to 11. So, this is when you're in school, but before you get the high school crazy stuff, that little sweet spot where your kids are nice and you like having them. Remember that? This is the stage that Erikson talks about as industry versus inferiority. So, he's saying as a young student, 6 years old, 8 years old, 10 years old, what you're learning is a sense of being industrious, a sense of being a worker, a sense of being conscientious and successful and being a good student versus being a failure, being a bad student. So, this is very much about performance in a cooperative group. I love these years. It's very easy years.
- 3.72** In Freud's system, this is cool; it's called the latency period. So, what Freud says is a lot of this sexual stuff that's moving through your system goes quiet. So, kids at this age: 6, 7, 8, 9, 10, 11, really until high school, until they hit puberty, don't really have a lot of sexual

stuff going on. They're living their life, which is why they're so fun to be with. They're chill. So, this latency period is very quiet, but it will pop up again with adult sexuality.

- 3.73** Bowlby, at this age, is really focused on friendship. So, you start moving away from your parents a little bit. You're moving broader relationships. You haven't gotten a full high school **identity**. They talk about something in this phase called chumship. I always like the word we're chums. So, chumship is a way of saying friendship. But early chumship is really important. So, you have a best friend, maybe. So, I got my best friend. I got my besties. I'm developing this broader social network that's really important to me, part of my own **identity**.
- 3.74** In Piaget's term, it starts getting to what he calls concrete operations. You start getting to this phase where you can work with numbers, you can work with quantities. You can do addition and subtraction. You can't really do algebra. You can't solve for X, really, but you can move numbers around pretty well. You can do a lot of basic academics. When you pour water from one glass to another, it stays the same. So, you have a much more stable, basic understanding of the operations of the world. You see the world cognitively in this basic way.
- 3.75** And then, for morality, this is straight-up conventional morality, this part-time with Kohlberg's model. So, what's going on, morally, is that you're focused on being good, like "Am I a good person or bad person?" This is hard because you get older, and you're like, "The world is gray. I don't know what to do. If I do this, I think it's good, but it's really evil. And if I do this evil thing, maybe it's good. I'm so confused." Eight years old, you're just good and bad. There's not a lot of that deep discussion. But you're not just focusing on avoiding punishment. It's much more internal, and you're building this sense of yourself, an early building sense. Well, I'll go to the next phase, but then you hit the high school, teenage years, and then the identity stuff just starts to pop like crazy.
- 3.76** So, in **adolescence**, this is, I think, high school, maybe middle school, high school. This is maybe 12 to 18 years old. This becomes very much about identity and figuring out who you are. So, Erikson talks about this stage as identity versus role confusion, figuring out where your identity is in the culture versus not knowing who you are and not fitting in.
- 3.77** So, if you remember—I don't know, I'm older than you guys, but I remember being in high school. Everyone wanted to be their own person. So, you had to find a group to identify with to be completely like, which is always a little counterintuitive. And people sorted into four sorting hats. You had your sorting hat, and they were like, "You're the jocks, you're the theater kids, you're the skater-stoners, and you're the nerds." Is that right? Nerds, skater-stoners, jocks, and theater kids. And then, the theater kids turned into Goths, and then they turned into something else.
- 3.78** What you're doing in high school is figuring out which of these four groups I'm going to be in to be in the breakfast club. I don't know. They probably still have the same four groups. Maybe it's a little less now. I look at my students and they're not as grouped up as they used to be, but it's a pretty good sorting mechanism. So, it's very much about identity, figuring out how you will fit in the social world.
- 3.79** In Freud's model, what's happened is we've gone from childhood, sexuality to adult sexuality. So, when you start hitting puberty, and you're in the world, you're basically in the era of adult sexuality. You might not be developed enough for it mentally, especially in our culture. A hundred years ago, you were because our culture's changed. But what you're dealing with are adult problems of forming intimate relationships with people. It's not just the stuff moving around; it's something real.
- 3.80** This is what's happening with Bowlby's model, too. In Bowlby's model of attachment, you develop attachment with your primary caregiver, say your mom; that's your foundation. Then, you build it with other parents, family members, friends, etcetera. Then, what happens is you become an adult, you form a relationship, maybe a romantic relationship with somebody else, and you're recapitulating or rerunning that attachment script.

- 3.81** But imagine my mom were drinking when I was a kid—which she didn't, and I've said that twice. That 's enough—and I learned that you can't trust people very much because, well, sometimes they're really loving, but other times they're just out of it, sometimes she yells this crazy stuff at me. And I'm very insecure about this, but I really need love.
- 3.82** So then, I go and start an adult relationship. And who am I going to find? I'm going to find somebody who's there, and sometimes they're a little crazy and yell nasty stuff at me. I go, "God, that feels so comfortable. It feels so familiar. I'm going to start an adult relationship with this person. So, what I end up doing is recapitulating my childhood attachment that was insecure. I end up doing that again with somebody else. Does that make sense?
- 3.83** So, it's a way of—it's almost like the stuff you learn gets redone in adult love, and the research on this is really interesting. When you look at early love experiences, it 's not a perfect line in any way, but there's a consistency between those early attachments and what we create in our adult life. We tend to create the stuff we had, but the attachment researchers are very clear about this: it doesn't have to be that way.
- 3.84** Our attachment models are always being built. So if you're able, when you're in high school, to get a secure relationship, your family's freaking lunatics, but you have a girlfriend who 's great or a boyfriend who's great, and you have a real ride or die solid relationship. Theoretically, what happens is you're building a secure model. So, you're rebuilding your model and undoing a lot of that childhood stuff by rebuilding it in adult sexuality or at least adolescent sexuality. So, there's this process of redoing the past.
- 3.85** In Piaget's terms, people start to get complicated in adolescence. They start to think what they call the formal operations phase. People can start thinking theoretically. So, if you remember being in high school, I remember being in high school, I had all these really theoretical arguments like, "This is right; you're wrong." I knew a lot. I had a lot of opinions on things, a lot of debates about theory.
- 3.86** You can think of counterfactuals, which is, "That happened, but I wonder if this had happened, how would things have turned out?" I can run the whole thing again. I can see what happened, but I can run another simulation where I didn't do that dumb thing and see what happened. That's called a counterfactual. So, I can run these different scenarios.
- 3.87** I can run cases in my mind. I can think about my future self, my past self, how they're working together. I can solve for X. This is a weird thing, but this is, if you remember, how you learn algebra. But solving for X is really neat because it allows you to think about abstract stuff and swap in abstract numbers to things. It gives you a lot of freedom to think about reality, that when you couldn't think—when you were thinking conventionally, you couldn't think outside the box. But literally, when you develop this high school thinking, you can think outside the box. What if this box wasn't there? What if the box was bigger? "Oh, I don't know." It 's a whole different way of thinking.
- 3.88** In Kohlberg, you get the same complexity happen with moral thinking. So, you get a little bit of what he called post-conventional morality. So, you see kids in high school: "What is really right? I know you say that, dad, you're right, but I think you're wrong. I think right is a different thing. Here's what right is."
- 3.89** People think about the social contract, like what we do to society and what we get from society. When you're in high school, you start thinking about that. "I think your system sucks!" God bless 18-year-olds. I swear I was so smart when I was 18. If I had that confidence now, I'd own the world. But you think about the social contract, you make a lot of judgments about things, and this is what you're supposed to be doing. It can be annoying, but it's really cool.
- 3.90** It's really cool because people are playing with reality, and they're playing with what they can do and can't do. And you couldn't do that at 10 years old. Some, but most people couldn't do that. But you do it in high school. So, in high school, you're getting all this cool stuff happening.

- 3.91** How about this next phase? Well, this is maybe, let's say, 18 to 28, and I'm going to call this emerging adulthood. This is not an Erikson's stage. This is a new stage, and I'll tell you, because it's some of our research. What they're seeing right now is kids are taking longer to reach what we call adulthood.
- 3.92** So, in the old days, adulthood was: I can support myself, I have a house, I have a family, I'm taking care of somebody else. And that's hard to do. What's going on now with a lot of kids is they're not reaching that adult milestone at 22 years old. They're not settling down at 22, buying a house in the country, and starting their farm. What they're doing at 22 is going, "What should I do with my life?" And then, I talk to them, and they go, "I can't afford a house. And my job doesn't pay anything. And relationships are really hard now. Have you seen Tinder?"
- 3.93** So, what we're seeing now is that people are developing more slowly. There's lots of interesting data on people getting a driver's license. When we were kids, like 16, you were fighting to drive a car. People are like, "I don't really need to drive." People are slower to date. They're not dating like they used to. People are not having kids anymore. I grew up as like people, "Oh, God, I hope my kids don't get pregnant." And I was like, "I hope they date." It just changed, the whole culture. It's a massive cultural change.
- 3.94** Here's where it hit me: when I was talking to somebody, and they said, "I'm adulting this weekend. I'm doing my wash." And I thought, "Oh, my goodness, she turned 'adult' into a verb. It went from a social phase to a—" And then, I realized it was considered optional. So, some people, "I'm going to be an adult." And other people, "I love that adult idea, but I'm going to be a Disney adult."
- 3.95** And so, I go to Disney, and I see guys, and he's got—a guy with a girlfriend. I'm like, "That looks healthy, but dude, you're dressed in PJs, and you're 30. Dude, adulthood's up to you. You're the idiot who got a job." I guess Disney is expensive. You got to have a job. But it's become adulthood optional. So, we're just not growing up this quickly. It's just a slower life, and that's what's going on.
- 3.96** You notice this in students, you notice this with your own kids, you just notice this much longer period of growth. There aren't really any theories. Freudian theory at this point is like, Dude, this is adult sexuality. Time to find somebody like mom and settle down. Like you want to spend 10 years pretending—oh, I should say this: people talked about this idea back in the day, in the '70s, the psychoanalyst and stuff.
- 3.97** They called it Peter Pan syndrome, or Carl Jung called it the Puer Aeternus, which basically means the 'eternal boy.' That's in Latin. I probably screwed that up, too. Three years of Latin, I don't remember anything. But it was this idea of the perpetual boy, of the person who didn't grow up, and that was, back in the '70s, seen as a real problem. Like, "Dude, you're like Warren Beatty," the actor. They used to always play that character. But they were like, "Dude, you got to grow up." Now it's like, "Society's hard. You can grow up when you're 30, 40. That's good." Anyway, that's what's going on.
- 3.98** Bowlby's stage at this age, you're pretty much over. Bowlby's theory is like, "Yes, it's time to just—you got your attachment set up. You just got to make it better, try to find somebody secure, try to build security, try to build your own base of yourself."
- 3.99** Piaget and cognitive development pretty much is over by this age. You don't get more sophisticated after high school and college. People in college think about philosophy. When you're 40, you don't think about super philosophy. Does that make sense? You don't get weirder. Usually, people get weird in high school and college, and then they stabilize. There's not another phase of that.
- 3.100** Kohlberg, we're at the end of Kohlberg's development. People are figuring out what's good, what's right, what's wrong. But we don't really have a phase beyond that. They're done at this point.
- 3.101** So, really, emerging adulthood is this phase where people are trying to—young people are trying to integrate into adult social roles, and it's just taken a lot longer than it used to.

And I should say, when I talk about this, it's not like young people are like, everyone's like, "Here's how to be an adult." They're like, "No, I don't want to. Screw you." What's happening is we don't have a society that has very clear pathways for people. It's not the kids' fault. I talk to them every day in class. They're trying to sort stuff out, and they don't know how to do it. There's a million options, and it's hard for people.

- 3.102** So, young adulthood, you're going back to Erikson's stages. I'm going to say young adulthood from 29, you get through this emerging adulthood, 29 to 40. You might call this young adulthood. In Erikson's model, this is not really midlife; it's young adulthood. It's when you're growing up. What's Erikson saying at this stage? Well, this is the conflict between an intimacy and isolation. What Erikson's saying is that in your 30s, what you should do is figure out a way to connect.
- 3.103** You should figure out how to connect to a partner if you're going to be married, which is pretty common; it doesn't have to be marriage. Maybe you connect to an organization. Maybe it's not a partner thing. Maybe you develop some—maybe it's some work you do. Maybe it's something you really care about. But somehow, you connect to something maybe bigger than yourself. And you have a sense of intimacy with the world. You don't feel cut off from the world. You feel—you got to connect. So, that's the connection part.
- 3.104** The other thing that happens here—I'm coming into personality development. So, when people study changes in personality, what's going on at this stage of young adulthood is what we call maturation. People become mature. What does that mean? People become harder working; they become more disciplined, they become more dutiful. They become more conscientious; they become more emotionally stable and calmer, they're less dysregulated. They become a little more extroverted, more willing to see the world.
- 3.105** So, the reason this happens is because the demands of society get so much, you just have to work. So, when you have kids, it's like— you don't have kids, you're an undergrad—I never went to class. Are you kidding me? I got better things to do, like sleep and read books. I was a terrible student. I'm not proud of that. And that was fine. No one cared. You got a kid, you can't just like, "Yeah, I just peace out. I'm just going to stay in bed and smoke Camels and write poetry all day." Like, dude, your kid! You got to wake your kid up, get your kid clean, got to get your kid ready for school. You got to do a lot of stuff before there's 'me time,' my friend.
- 3.106** And then, what happens is you spend your whole day doing stuff for other people, and then you're like, "Okay, it's 7 o'clock, I can have a drink on the porch and listen to crickets." You get these 5 minutes of selfish time having a glass of wine, listening to a cricket. And then, you're like, "I got to get back to my kids." And you're back doing stuff. And then, you got a real job, and it's not like you're working at Frosty Freeze, and you're like, "Dude, I'm hungover. I can't make—" " Don't worry, I got your shift." You can't do that stuff. You'd get fired. You have a real job. You have people depend on you. You got to show up.
- 3.107** So, there's all this social pressure to show up to do stuff, and when you do that, usually you're happier. Usually, you're happier when you got things to do. I may be speaking for myself. But if I'm left to my own devices, I sit around, scratch my head, going, "God, I'm empty inside. Maybe I'll fill it up with something bad." Better for me to be working; better for me to have responsibility.
- 3.108** So, this is a time, this young adulthood is a time, when you're supposed to develop intimacy, develop maturity, and develop connection. Become a citizen; become somebody who's contributing to the world. That's what Ericson's saying is the better way through this.
- 3.109** And then, we get to the next phase, which is middle adulthood. And this is where I am. This is age 40 to 60. I like how they call it middle adulthood. I'm 57, I look in the mirror, and I'm like, Dude, who is that old man? I can't believe it. "Yeah, that's middle adulthood." "No, it's not, man. I'm closer to the finish. This ball is rolling down the hill on the other side." But whatever, I'm going with middle adulthood.

- 3.110** But this is a really cool phase because imagine you've done all your stuff, and you're like, "I've done all this stuff. I got a career, got a family, I'm done. What do I care about?" What Erikson says, "This is the challenge between generativity and stagnation."
- 3.111** So, generativity is a great term, but it's the idea that I'm building something for the future. I'm generating or creating something that 's going to help the next generation, that's going to help something. So, when you're at this age, what you see is people start turning to try to think about the future. So guys, well, I mean, men and women, but you'll get into things like mentoring.
- 3.112** So, I get a lot of pleasure in my life mentoring people. I didn't mentor people when I was 30. I was an idiot. But now I talk to a lot of 30-year-olds, and they're like, "Hey, I'd want to hear what you say." I'm like, "Really? God, I can't believe it. I 'll have coffee with you." And I get a lot of joy from that. So, you get a lot of joy bringing stuff up. You get a lot of joy watching your kids succeed. You get a lot of joy helping people succeed. You get a lot of joy working for a system and making it better. "Hey, I built this cat shelter, and it's awesome. I've saved a thousand cats. I feel good." So, generativity is good.
- 3.113** What you see, people who are still working their careers and still doing the same grind, that's when you start feeling stagnation. "Dude, I got 10, 20 years. I can't do this. I'm burned out." So, one of the challenges at this age is to get more into parenting, more into generativity.
- 3.114** Jung talked—I'm going to bring some Carl Jung in here—Jung talked about this stage as the midlife crisis, which is a term we all use. When you think about a midlife crisis, what you're thinking is a guy like me who looked in the mirror one day and said, "You're a son of a gun. I'm going to shave your beard, dye your hair a nice brown color. Nobody's going to notice because they never see guys dye hair. It's always invisible. I'm getting a Porsche and the youngest girlfriend I can find on Snapchat or whatever the kids use." That's the creepy midlife crisis. That's your straight-up, "I'm turning back the clock, I'm going to be 20 again like a legend."
- 3.115** What Jung said is that that's not optimal. What Jung said, at least with men, is when you hit midlife, it becomes challenging because you're moving from the world of life to the world of spiritual life. And he described it as a night sea voyage. You have these challenges, you figure out what you want, you let go of maybe just your career and focus on something bigger than yourself, maybe something more spiritual, and you prepare for later in life.
- 3.116** What he said with women, and again, this is an older cultural model that isn't happening now as much, but he said that women often get more interested in work and become more assertive. So, maybe you've been a mother, you've spent a lot of time caring for your family, you get to middle life, and you go through this process like, " I'm going to be really engaged in the world now. I'm going to go out, move out from my family, and start changing the world, shaking things up."
- 3.117** So, you have men becoming more feminine in Jung's model and women becoming more masculine in terms of this transition midlife. It's just a model; little research shows it, but there's not enough on it. But this is the midlife crisis. And again, the solution here is bringing something for the future and letting yourself go. That's the prep.
- 3.118** And then, the final stage here in this model is maturity. This is old age. This is from 65 to the end, the end of the road, 85, 90, whatever the death is. This is a stage Erikson talked about as a conflict between ego integrity versus despair. So, imagine you're 7 years old. At 70 years old, I'm not going to go start a new family. I'm not going to go start a career. I'm not going to start a cat shelter. Some 70-year-olds do; I'm tired. I'm tired now. In 15 years, I'm going to be real tired.
- 3.119** What I'm doing at 70 is going, "Did I have a good life? When I reflect back, do I feel like I did what I should have? Do I feel good about who I am? Do I feel good about what I accomplished? Do I feel a sense of integrity about who I am? Can I let it go? Or do I feel a sense of despair? Do I feel like I didn't engage with life? Do I feel I should have asked

Susie out to the dance, and instead, she married Bob, and I ended up alone? Do I feel I should have taken that chance to go to that conference that would have been a little weird, but instead, I didn't do it? And you start feeling this despair. You don't ever want to feel this because it's real hard to turn the tables at 85. It gets real hard. So, this is what Erikson says: you're wrestling on this. It's reflecting and trying to make peace with life and telling a story about your life that helps you deal with it.

- 3.120** Carl Jung wrote a lot about advanced old age in his book, "Memories, Dreams, and Reflections," his autobiography, which is wonderful if you're into Jung. And he talked about this real disconnection from the world. He used the phrase, "I feel muddled about my life," but not in a bad way. He was quoting Lǎo Tzu, the Daoist philosopher. He was saying, "I feel separate from the world. I don't feel like I solved it all, but I feel pretty good about it." So, I think that's an interesting idea. It's preparing your self for death.
- 3.121** In a lot of spiritual traditions, that's the practice. So, the practice in a lot of Buddhist traditions is you're preparing yourself to die, to move on with grace, maybe not a full rainbow body in some of the traditions, but you're preparing yourself to let go and trying to make peace and finish up your life narrative in a way that feels good to you.
- 3.122** That was a lot of stuff. So, to wrap this up, the human developmental process is really complicated. We're making all these changes. They build on each other over time. Even if you mess something up, it doesn't mean you can't go back. You can always work on that oral fixation when you're later and drop the cigars and stuff. You can always do it, but there's a process where it builds on each other.
- 3.123** It's really important to develop both a sense of agency or control. You see that all the time, learning to toilet train, learning to walk, learning to be a good student, learning to be cooperative. It's important to build that agency, but it's also really important to connect. It's important to connect with love, with intimacy. It's important to connect with society. It's important to feel that you're doing something more. So, growth is both about individualizing or individuating and also connecting. In some ways, it's a dynamic. The more individual I am, the more I can connect even better. And then, I become more connected, I can become a stronger individual, and back and forth. That's how it works.
- 3.124** Finally, people are very different as they grow up. So, if I talk to somebody who's 18, I don't judge them like a 50-year-old. I judge them like an 18-year-old. They're just wired differently. They have different challenges. When I talk to your young guy, and he's like, "Yeah, I feel narcissistic." I'm like, "Dude, you're 18. Go for it." That's when you're supposed to—if you see me working on my hair, yeah, I got some issues. I should have more things—you're 18. "Go hustle, man. " Things are different in different times. So, I have some grace for people in these changes.
- 3.125** That's about it. Thank you.

4. Motivation and Maslow

At a glance

Motivation organizes behavior around needs, goals, incentives, and meaning. The lecture connects biological drives, learning, emotion, achievement, self-determination, Maslow's hierarchy, flow, pleasure, purpose, and happiness, while examining why motives conflict and why well-being depends on more than simply maximizing reward.

- 4.1 All right. Today, we're talking about motives, maybe a little happiness at the end, but basically talking about human motivational systems. It's a really interesting topic. It's an old topic. It goes back to a lot of Freudian psychoanalytic work and a lot of the animal work. It's been around for a long time.
- 4.2 First is to define what a motive is. You can think about a motive as a psychological pushes or a pull that takes us to things we want or takes us away from things we don't want. So, when we think about motives, it's almost like an energy that drives us towards something that we like or away from something we like. Excuse me, away from something we don't like, something that's a little bit of a noxious stimulus.
- 4.3 We have different words for motives. We talk about motives. We sometimes talk about needs in psychology. A need is maybe something you have to have, and a motive maybe not so much. We talk about goals in psychology as well, and goals are usually the endpoint of a motivational system or the endpoint of a need. But these words get used a little interchangeably. So, sometimes people talk about motive systems, or goal systems, or systems of needs. So, there's a little bit of wiggle in the definitions. I'll talk mostly about motives, but if I say needs, I say it's the same thing.
- 4.4 Our motivational system or our motivational repertoire as humans is vast. We have lots and lots of different motives, and they seem to exist at all these different levels. So, we have basic motives. The basic would be food, but even more basic, like a child grasping. If you have a baby and you put your finger, they just grasp. That's a very basic, basic motive. Suckling is a basic motive. Then, you have motives like do well at school, competence motives. And then, you have these very extreme human motives: self-actualizing, being all you can be, trans-sending yourself, finding enlightenment.
- 4.5 So, human life is like, "Yeah, you got to get enough food to eat, stay warm, have a stable environment, and seek enlightenment." And so, we're doing all these different things at the same time. It's a really interesting, complicated series of systems. People have developed lots of different models for motives, lots of different psychological theories around motives or psychological models.
- 4.6 What I wanted to do today, because this is the intro, is I was going to use Abraham Maslow's hierarchy of needs as a guide. This is one most people have heard about. Usually, you see it presented as some colorful pyramid where there's self-actualization on the top or something. He never wrote a pyramid. That was something somebody invented in marketing or industrial psych or one of those fields. But I'm going to use that example, and we'll get to it as a way to walk through the different layers of motives.
- 4.7 And then, I wanted to talk about a few other classic motivational theories that you see. One of the great motivational researchers was named Henry Murray. He was a Harvard psychologist, a very interesting character. He was—I don't know, I would say a student of Freud for real, but a fan of Freud, a fan of Jung. But he was also a big fan of Herman Melville and Moby Dick. He was a Melville scholar; he was as an academic. So, he did some psychoanalytic work on the nature of the whale and Moby Dick. Really cool stuff.
- 4.8 He was also known for doing experiments under the MKUltra Project with people like Ted Kaczynski, who became the Unabomber, so looking at how people responded to intense stress. So, if you want to get down some of the darker rabbit holes of psychology, you can look in his work. It was a brilliant, brilliant guy.

- 4.9** And he started looking into psychological needs about 100 years ago, maybe 90 years ago, and he came up with this model of lots and lots of needs, things like need for materialism, need for intimacy, need for power, lots of these things. He'd put a little 'n,' like n power, n intimacy. If you see that, that's old school. That model of motivation, like a lot of these, got simplified over time into smaller models because we like models with three or five. We don't like models with 20. It's too big.
- 4.10** So, a couple of people that were known was David McClelland, who you'll run into in motivational work, who was at Harvard, and also David Wynnner, who worked with them. And they came up with these big three motives, which they called—they said these are these big meta-motives in human behavior. It should be the motivation or need for achievement, the need for affiliation, and the need for power.
- 4.11** So, a lot of the classic motivational theory focuses on three big human motives or three big psychological motives. Achievement, the drive to be competent, the drive to master, the drive to perform well. Before I talked about this, it is mastery and also maybe repetition compulsion. Then, there's the drive for affiliation, which is the drive to connect, to belong to things, to have intimacy with things; it's a connection drive. And the final drive or the final motive is this power motive.
- 4.12** And when we think of power, we're usually thinking of it, I don't know if you guys are, but often what you'll see in our culture is we have a little bit of a bad flavor to power. "Oh, you're power seeking, you're maybe a bad person, maybe you want to control everybody." There is an element to power that can be very low level power seeking, which is, "Yeah, I just want power to beat people and feel good about myself."
- 4.13** But there's also much more elaborate or developed power, more sublimated power. So, you have people who are teachers that it's very much a power motive: "I like to shape the next generation." It's about power. So, people can have power motives, but it can be in the interest of good. It's not always bad, even though I'm always suspicious of people who are power seeking, which is not unreasonable to do. So, you get those big three: achievement, affiliation and power.
- 4.14** And then, probably the most, well, I think it's safe to say, the biggest recent motivational research came out of the University of Rochester in New York. It's been a very big motivational group there for the last 30 years. Two of the people you think about—they're leaving— but Deci and Ryan, Ed Deci and Rich Ryan. They're affiliated with what's called self-determination theory. So, they developed this very elaborate theory of motivation involving the regulation and growth of the self. And this model is very popular if you're going to educational systems, some organizational work went into it, too. It's a very powerful model. So, you'll run into this.
- 4.15** And they identified big three motives, and those are competence, relatedness, and autonomy. So, it's essentially the same three, but what they talk about is a competence motive, the motive to be competent, to perform well, the motive to connect, which is relatedness, and autonomy instead of power. And what they mean by autonomy is the ability to have choice in your life or to live from a place of choicefulness, meaning 'I get to do what I want to do.' So, three motives: something about being competent, something about being good, something about being connected, and something about having control over your own life or feeling like an agent running your own show. So, those are the big three psychological motives.
- 4.16** When I talk through Maslow's hierarchy, I'll put those in so you see how it all fits together. But first, what I wanted to do was go over some very basic motivation. What I'm trying to do is give you the basic stuff that's really useful. So, I'm going to hit on three of the big themes for motivation that you'll run into.
- 4.17** The first is approach versus avoidance. So, I'm going to get to that. The second is the difference between intrinsic versus **extrinsic motivation**, motives from the inside versus the outside, which is a huge one. And the final big break in motives is implicit versus explicit, maybe you want to call them unconscious versus conscious. So, some of our

motives tend to be unconscious, and some of them are conscious, we're aware of them. So, I'm going to hit on each of those topics, starting with approach and avoidance.

- 4.18** So, if you remember the definition of motives, it's either things that drive us towards something we want or maybe push us away from something we fear. And you can think about us having a gas pedal and a reverse break in life. So, the gas pedal takes us where we want to be, and when we get scared, we hit the reverse and get the heck out of there. And we're built to have those two systems. It 's not just humans. This is true with almost every species. You see something that's more like a gas pedal going in a direction and something more that's a get the heck out of here, reverse system. We have both of these systems.
- 4.19** Here's a way to imagine it. This is from an actual manipulation they use in experiments to try to put people in an approach or avoidance mindset. I'll give you this example. I think this helps. So, imagine you've got your mouse. Imagine you're a mouse, you're stuck in a big maze, and at the end of the maze is a big, huge piece of cheese, and you really want that cheese.
- 4.20** And so, somebody drops you in the maze and says, "Go!" What do you do? Well, you start running into the cheese. You're so excited. You're just thinking, "Cheese, cheese, cheese, cheese, cheese." You're running so fast, you hit a wall, you're bouncing around, you're getting lost, you feel excited, and when you get the cheese, you're like, "High five, mouse, high five." Boom, you eat the cheese, greatest day of your life.
- 4.21** I don't know if you had it. That's approach motivation. It's running hard for a reward. It's reward-seeking. Sometimes, we call this appetitive behavior because it engages your appetite. It's a very exciting, energized approach, motivation. It's dopaminergic; it's exciting. It 's like when I get my puppy, Clarney, I get her on a leash for a walk. She starts bouncing off the walls because she's got so much dopamine hitting her because she's anticipating how much fun it's going to be to go bark at the neighbor's dog. She just—maybe we'll see a deer; this is awesome, the greatest day of my life.
- 4.22** So, now imagine the exact same scenario. You're the same mouse. You're in the middle of the same giant maze. But instead of chasing a piece of cheese, you see a hawk circling overhead. And you go, "If that hawk saw me, I'm toast." You go, "I got to run out of this maze so fast because there's a hole in the wall over there I got to get to."
- 4.23** And you start running through the maze. How do you feel? It's a different experience. You're running as fast as you can. You're running into walls because you're scared. You feel this giant surge of adrenaline and fear and panic going through you. And all you want to do is make it stop. And if you make it to the hole, you go, "I made it," and you collapse. And you go, "I just want to feel peace. I just want it to stop. " And then it stops, and you feel good.
- 4.24** It's a very different system. So one system is running for a piece of cheese, high-fiving your buddies, eating the cheese, throwing a tequila party. The other thing is running from the hawk, getting to safety, shutting the door, going, "I'm never going out again. I'm never going in that maze again. I hate hawks. Just give me some peace." It's two very different systems.
- 4.25** These approach and avoidance systems line up with a lot of our personality. They line up with our self-system. Some people tend to be wired towards approach a little more. Some people engage the world, a little more approach. They're looking for rewards. They're optimistic, they're energized, they're extroverted. So, these are traits that go with approach orientation, optimism, risk-taking, extroversion.
- 4.26** People who are more avoidance-oriented are a little more focused on detecting threats in the environment, maybe a little more anxious and worried, maybe a little more defensive, a little more negative affectivity. Sometimes, we call it behavioral activation versus behavioral inhibition. People are more avoidant, have a little more behavioral inhibition as these are neural systems. So, you can have people that are wired a little differently.

- 4.27** In our culture, approach orientation seems to work a little better because, a lot of times, we're a capitalist consumer culture, and being outgoing and energized tends to work better unless things get really bad, in which case the people who are avoidant survive. And then, the people out there high-fiving the cheese get eaten by hawks.
- 4.28** These motives, though, are individual differences, but they also can be shifted by context. So, where you see this happen is in markets, like economic markets. When markets become really active, what we call a bull market, when things are—so, imagine the housing market in Florida two years ago, I'm guessing. Everyone's trying to buy a house. People are like, "Houses are the greatest thing to buy. I'm going to buy a house tomorrow." Everyone's fighting to buy houses. They're spending money they don't have for houses they can't afford, just like a Beanie Baby market, "Oh, let's buy Beanie Babies." People buy Beanie Babies. They get scarce; the demand goes up. In those bull markets, what happens is everyone becomes very approach-oriented. They become very risk-seeking. They become very optimistic; they don't think about downsides.
- 4.29** Then, when markets change from bull markets to bear markets, from markets where people are optimistic to people who are pessimistic, like what's going on with real estate now, what happened with the Beanie Baby collapse, lots of markets like this, people's psychology switches. They become avoidance-oriented; they look for threats. They go, "I can't afford this house because of X, Y, and Z." They tell themselves more negative stories, and the whole market psychology switches.
- 4.30** So, these approach and avoidance motives can work as individual differences—we all have both of them. We're all built for both of these things. We have to be. Some of us are more in one or the other, but we're also shaped by our context. Some contexts really push for approach, and some contexts really push for avoidance. And it's very hard in markets because it's hard to do the opposite of what everybody's doing. If it's a very approach market, it's hard to say, "This is bad." And when it's really bad, it's hard to say, "No, this is good." So that's, anyway, a little investing advice there.
- 4.31** What else to say about this? There's certain things—a lot of these systems, like approach and avoidance systems, are evolved. And what you'll see is certain things were evolved to approach, certain things were evolved to avoid. Approach stuff is the classic: food, chase and cheese, money, sex, power, status. Power can be a little bit toxic, but yeah, it's very something you chase. And avoidance, there's a lot of things we were wired to be scared of or to be nervous of. Snakes—people don't like snakes—spiders, heights, public speaking—people hate public speaking because you can lose your reputation very fast.
- 4.32** Certain things we naturally approach and certain things we naturally avoid. That can be shaped a little more, too. Anyway, that's the basic approach and avoidance gradient, which you'll see all throughout the psychology of motives.
- 4.33** Another big break in motivational psychology that you'll see all the time is the difference between intrinsic and extrinsic motives. So, an intrinsic motive or an **intrinsic motivation** is doing something because it makes you feel good, you feel satisfaction from it, maybe you feel an experience of joy. So, when we say, "I enjoyed that," what it means is that that task brought me joy. So, people who enjoy things tend to be more motivated for it internally.
- 4.34** And then, there are things that are extrinsic motivation. I'm doing it because something outside is rewarding or punishing me for doing it. And a lot of life is extrinsically motivated. We're going to work because we got to get paid. I got to teach my class because that's my job. I got to make dinner because my kids are hungry. It's not like I'm like, "You know what I really want to do today is cook." Some days, I do. I love cooking. I shouldn't say that. But sometimes, I just got to make some freaking pasta. This is my job. That's dad cooking pasta. Great. Making pancakes.
- 4.35** You can have the same behaviors to be intrinsic or extrinsic. So, you can have a great meal and go, "I just love this meal. It was the best meal ever. I'm enjoying it." Or you can have your parents like, "I don't want to eat this." They're like, "People are starving in India. Eat

your food!" You're like, "Yes, mom, I ate my food." And you eat it. It's extrinsic. So, we can have the same behaviors being driven extrinsically and intrinsically. A lot of life is a combination. It's a combination of these things.

- 4.36** What's interesting, though, is when you change something intrinsic to extrinsic. So, there's a classic study done in the '70s; I think it was 1973, Lepper, Green, and Nisbett. And what they did was bring kids into a lab. So, imagine you have your lab, you bring in a bunch of kids. This is what you do in motivational studies, like "Here's some stuff you can draw. Here's some Koosh balls to play with. Here's a pinball machine."—I'm thinking of things in old labs—"Here's some magazines to read. You can do whatever you want."
- 4.37** And they have a few different conditions. So, you imagine kids go into this room, they can do stuff. And in one condition, the graduate student researcher says, "Hey, why don't you draw me a piece of art? And if you draw me art, I'll give you a reward." Great. So, the kid draws art and gets a reward for it. It feels good. Another condition: a kid draws art, and the grad student goes, "Oh, you drew some art. How cool. Here's a reward." So, he didn't ask to draw the art; he just gave him a reward after. And the third condition was a control; some kids drew art.
- 4.38** And then, they brought the kids back in a couple of weeks; they brought them in the same lab. You could draw, play with the Koosh balls, video games—that was before video games—pinball, whatever it was. And they saw who drew. It turns out the kids who drew for a reward, the kids who were asked to draw the first time, didn't draw by themselves because they were like, "Yeah, I draw if someone's going to pay me. Show me the money, and I'll draw something for you, but I draw for a reward. I don't enjoy drawing. Kids who drew and got an unexpected reward drew. And the kids who didn't get a reward drew.
- 4.39** So, what seems to have happened in this study, and this has been replicated a lot, is if somebody enjoys something and you start to turn—if it's intrinsic, if it's something they enjoy and you start to reward them and make it something extrinsic, you kill the joy in it. That's how it works.
- 4.40** I'm at the University of Georgia. I talk to a lot of athletes. People love sports. They start going into professional sports. It takes away a lot of the fun. See, a lot of football players enjoy golf because no one's paying them for golf. They can have fun and compete. But the athletics become more extrinsic. It's more of a job. This happens with a lot of things. You start something you love, and then it becomes a job, and it sucks the joy out of it.
- 4.41** When people first discovered this in the '70s, it was challenging. I remember talking to some of the academics. One guy said, "Yeah, we decided we wouldn't do grades anymore. We just had people show up and do whatever we had." And there was this one guy, he goes, "Yeah, that was the greatest class I ever had," for the three people who showed up. So, when you have just full intrinsic motivation in a class, you might get three people to show up, and it's awesome, but the other seven people don't show up.
- 4.42** And so, there was an idea that maybe we can get rid of grades, maybe we can get rid of rewards and systems like that in education, and everyone will just love it and be awesome. It didn't work because it's hard to get people just to love to learn stats. You have to suffer a little bit learning stats until you learn it, and then it's fun. So, that's where it gets challenging. But this internal-external distinction is huge.
- 4.43** The other thing I'll mention is that sometimes, it's a little bit of a gradient. So, it might be, "Man, I love"—what am I thinking?—"I love to cook." And then, it might be on the other one, "I hate to cook, but I have to because my wife's telling me, 'Keith, you got to cook.'" So, I got real intrinsic, real extrinsic. But then, in the middle, you get things that are more internalized, like, "You know what? Cooking is something important. It's something that's important to do as a father." So, I'm motivated to do it. It's not like I feel joy doing it, but I feel it's part of me, and I'm motivated. So, that's something that's a little bit in the middle of intrinsic and extrinsic.

- 4.44** So, it's not as clean as it sounds. We have these internalized—we internalize what our dad or mom wants, and that becomes our motivational set. But this distinction is really important for how you motivate people, how you're motivated in your life. You can really kill people's innate drive to succeed by crushing it with motives. I see it happen every day. Smile, just smiling. Every day, I see people's dreams get crushed. I'm like, "Why are you doing it? Why are you crushing these people?" If all these happy people just want to perform, and you go, "I'm going to crush them. Feel some power and control." Was it worth it to you?
- 4.45** Another big distinction with motives is this distinction between implicit and explicit or unconscious and conscious, non-conscious—we have a lot of different words. People didn't like the term unconscious, so they changed it to non-conscious, subconscious, implicit. But essentially, the idea is that we have these motivational sets or these motivational drives, and that we're aware of some of them, but we're not aware of others.
- 4.46** And this idea goes back to psychoanalysis. This comes out of Freud. "Oh, you've got these power motives, you have these sexual motives, you have these other drives to connect, aggressive motives, and you can't handle the truth, Keith." I'll tell you a story. I have a buddy, Andy Eilidh, who's a great motivational researcher. He's like, "Dude, you are so ambitious and so competitive." And I was like, "No, I'm not. I'm totally chill. I like to surf." He's like, "Dude, you keep telling yourself that story. "
- 4.47** And I thought about it. Well, I thought, "My God, he is right. Of course I'm ambitious. I never stop working. Why don't I stop working? Because I'm insane." It's just an internal drive that I have. I wasn't telling myself that story. I was telling myself a different story: "I'm just a chill guy who writes a lot of books." Really? Chill guys just—no. Crazy, ambitious people that are being chased by unconscious demons do that, not normal healthy people, you maniac. He was right. It was really interesting. I learned a lot from that.
- 4.48** And the reason Andy knew that was he'd been doing a lot of work on unconscious motives. And the way you do this—so, this goes back to Henry Murray, who I mentioned back in the day, and a woman named Christiana Morgan, who gets—they didn't get enough credit for the TAT, but she was a psychoanalyst who really developed these cards. So, what they did was they said, "We want to measure people's unconscious motives."
- 4.49** Now, if I say, "Hey, what's your unconscious motive, Keith?" I can't go, "Well, let me look in my unconscious and tell you what they are." I can't do that. That's the definition of unconscious. So, to get at those motives, you have to get at it indirectly. You can't ask me; you got to do it indirectly. One way that psychologists developed to do this was what are called projective tests. They give people an ambiguous stimulus. The ones you're probably the most familiar with are Rorschach tests, which are inkblots. So, the old early 1900s Rorschach tests were just inkblots. They'd say, "Tell me what you see in the inkblot." "I see a wolf. I see two people dancing. A flower." Those were used for very basic psychological processing.
- 4.50** What Murray and Morgan developed were cards that were designed to elicit motivations. And these were called the thematic apperception test or the TAT. TAT is what we usually remember, TAT cards or a TAT test. And what they were doing in these cards is they'd show people these really cool drawings that were always a little bit vague and mysterious. So, it was like a kid looking at a violin, like, "Huh?" Or a woman with an old woman behind her looking over her shoulder. They were like, "What is this? It's weird."
- 4.51** And then, they'd say, "Hey, look at this card and tell me a story about that card." "I see the kid with the violin, and he's working hard, and he's going to play at Carnegie Hall one day. It's going to be awesome." Or, "Man, that poor kid, he wants to be playing with his friends. He wants to be out there in the street, but his mom's making him play the violin, and he's really sad." Or, "That kid's a spy working for the secret military government. Inside his violin is a Tommy gun, and he's going to assassinate the leader of an evil country." You can tell very different stories.

- 4.52** And then, what people do is they code those stories into motives. The example I gave, heavy-handed examples, would be an achievement motive: "I'm going to succeed at violin," a relationship motive: "I want to play with my friends," or a power motive: "I'm going to take out Hitler and save the world." So, people will see these images and come up with different stories, and you code those stories to determine what the unconscious motives are. And then, if you want to ask people about conscious motives, you just say, "Hey, what are your motives?" Just like asking me, "Are you ambitious?" "Nah, I'm chill."
- 4.53** What researchers have done is they've measured motives by asking people, self-reports. They've used things like the TAT to get unconscious motives. And what it seems like—I'd love to see more research on this, but what it seems like is that these unconscious motives tend to predict long-term behavioral trends.
- 4.54** People who are really ambitious that you can see real achievement drive in their motives, tend to achieve more. People who report being achievement-motivated, tend to report that later on. They don't tend to achieve much more, but they tend to report achievements important to them. So, it seems to work a little differently. And then, you get sometimes these interesting cases where you have people that report a lot of power motive, but they report it unconsciously; consciously, they don't have any ability to express it. So, you think of it as a thwarted or hidden power motive.
- 4.55** When researchers like McClelland or David Winter were looking at this, they found people would get sick. It wasn't really healthy. If you have all this power drive and you can't—It's unconscious. Unconscious energy that's not expressed can lead to physical ailments. So, this is a very Freudian idea about expressing motives. And you can imagine that you have a power motive, and you're in an environment where you can't really have any power: in prison. I guess you can gain power in a small—but you can't get beyond where you are. So, a thwarted power motive can be hard for people.
- 4.56** So again, these motives can be broken down into approach and avoidance, intrinsic and extrinsic, conscious and non-conscious. There's some other ways as well, but I think those are the big historic breaks.
- 4.57** And now, I wanted to go through the motivational hierarchy using Maslow as our guide because I think Maslow is interesting. And the other thing that's really fun is whenever I talk about this stuff, I get to go back and read the papers that I haven't read since grad school, and they're always so different than I remember. I always remember one thing, and I go read it, and I'm like, "Wait, I've misremembered that. God, I've been lying to myself for 20 years." So, I've looked at Maslow recently. It's fascinating.
- 4.58** Maslow was a psychologist, and his work really started in the '40s, right after the war. And he was at Brooklyn College, and then I think he went to—he was a professor at Brooklyn College, but he studied primate behavior at Wisconsin before that. So, he was actually at Wisconsin interested in primates, interested in monkeys. So, this is where they had the early attachment lab.
- 4.59** I used to go to school in Wisconsin. We'd walk by the lab every day in the freezing weather. But this is where they had the monkey colonies for the old attachment research, and what Maslow noticed was that there was this dominance in monkeys, and certain monkeys tend to be dominant. They tend to have more power, narcissistic monkeys. And he thought about, "What are those monkeys doing? How are they actualizing themselves? How are they rising to power? How are they developing this motivational set?"
- 4.60** So, he got interested in motives with primates and started looking at humans in the '40s. He was at Brooklyn College, which I always think is awesome, and wrote this incredible paper, I think it was in Psychological Review, where he outlined a theory of motives as a hierarchy. So, we call this a 'hierarchy of needs.'
- 4.61** And the reason it's a hierarchy is, he argues, that you have to get certain motives met to move on to the next ones. Like when we talk about developmental stages: you get through one stage, and then you get through the next stage. So, in Maslow's model, maybe you

may meet these more basic needs, and then you move up the system to higher needs. Again, this is why people always put it as a pyramid, but it's not really a pyramid, but that's why people put it that way.

- 4.62** So, to give you some words from Maslow, here's a quote: "Human needs arrange themselves in hierarchies of prepotency. That is to say, the appearance of one need usually rests on the prior satisfaction of another, more prepotent need. Man is a perpetually wanting animal." I love that phrase: "Man is a perpetually wanting animal." People could write back before the Internet.
- 4.63** And I think what he's saying is, "Hey, what you're doing is you get these basic motives met, great. All that means is you're going to have more things to meet, more motives to meet. When you get those needs, great, you're going to have more to meet and more to meet and more to meet. That's the nature of life. You keep meeting motives. You don't get out of this system. And I'll talk about how you do at the end, but his model is not really a system you get out of.
- 4.64** The other thing that Maslow did with motives is a lot of the motivational research was done on animals back then. It was done on rodents. He argued that it should be human motivational psychology. He's very human-focused in his work, human-centered, which I think is great because a lot of these motives, especially things like self-actualization or human—you don't see it as much. I don't know if my dogs are self-actualized. I'm sorry, I'm not going to ponder that now, but that's actually an interesting question.
- 4.65** So, starting at the bottom of Maslow's hierarchy, you start with the basic needs. And when he's talking about basic needs, he's talking about basic physiological needs. These are things like you need to regulate the amount of salt in your blood. You need to regulate your oxygen flow. These are things that you're often not aware of. They're unconscious. They're not part of the dynamic unconscious. We're not having inner battles over the salt in our blood, but there's things we're not aware of, so they're unconscious.
- 4.66** And these motives often work in a homeostatic way. So, you hear the word homeostasis a lot when you talk about human motives, and what that means is that it's a system that turns off when you hit a certain set point.
- 4.67** So, if you go home at night and you go, "I'm going to turn on my air conditioner," you put it at 70 degrees or maybe down here at 80, I don't know, and you put your air conditioner, let's say it's at 70, and the air conditioner does its thing. It goes, "I'm going to sense what's out there. Oh, it's 75 degrees. What do I do? I act. I turn on the AC; I put the AC on for a while. Now I retest. Oh, still 72 degrees. Keep the AC going, test again, operate again. I mean, operate again. Then, I test again. Oh, it's 70. Okay, now I turn off. I'm done. My motive is done." So, that's a homeostatic mechanism.
- 4.68** In engineering, it's a TOTE loop: test, operate, test, exit. So, a lot of this—I'm getting out there a little bit. A lot of the old motivational models come out of human cybernetics. If you ever heard the term 'cybernetics,' it's applying these engineering principles to understanding human behavior. If you watch the old talking heads music from David Byrne from the '80s when he's dancing like this, he's reading cybernetics, and he's using cybernetics in his dance. That's how he's developing that stuff. So this is old—these are using engineering models.
- 4.69** But these homeostatic systems are designed to turn off when they're not working. They don't go—your air conditioner is not designed to go forever. It's only designed to work and then stop when it hits the point. So, our basic systems work like that.
- 4.70** What you'll see is your drive for status doesn't work like that. It doesn't go, "Oh, you made it. Time to chill, bro." It goes, "You need more status. You need more." Your drive for power. Have you ever seen anybody who's like, "Yeah, I got enough power." You look at these power guys; they're like, "I need more power. I'm still not safe. If I could control the whole world, I'd be safe." I'm like, "Dude, you never get enough power." You get enough oxygen in your blood. The system shuts down. It's nice.

- 4.71** "At once, other needs emerge, and these, rather than physiological hunger, dominate the organism, and when in turn, these are satisfied, again, still new higher needs emerge and so on." What he's saying is that once you get these basic things met, now we're going to hit some more psychological needs. So that's where we go next. From the basic needs, we go to what's called the safety needs.
- 4.72** So, the safety needs are what happen if you have the basic health done. And when he's talking about safety needs, he's really talking about the stability of the developmental environment. And we talked about this a little bit when we talked about development—that for a young kid to develop optimally, I think, you need a stable, predictable household environment. That's what they mean by safety. It's not just to stay out of the harmful sun and protection from predators. It's also just a stability so a kid can build a model of a world that's stable. If the world is too unstable, it's hard to build that model.
- 4.73** This is a quote from Maslow: "Another indication of the child's need for safety is his preference for some kind of undisrupted routine or rhythm. He seems to want a predictable, orderly world. Quarreling, physical assault, separation, divorce, or death within the family may be particularly terrifying." So, what he's saying, again, to be very clear, is that safety needs have to do with the felt safety the child feels in childhood.
- 4.74** I'm not saying you get divorced, maybe—believe me, there are cases where you get divorced to help your child, to save your child. So, it's not like divorce is bad or anything in certain cases. It's that having a stable system seems to be really important for developing safety. It's more than just protection from predators.
- 4.75** When you get physiological needs and safety needs met, you start hitting the classic psychological needs. And the first of these is what Maslow called the love needs. So, here's a quote: "If both the physiological and safety needs are fairly well gratified, then there will emerge the love and affection and belongingness needs. Now the person will feel keenly, as never before, the absence of friends, or a sweetheart, or a wife, or children. He will hunger for affectionate relations with people in general, namely, for a place in his group, and he will strive with great intensity to achieve this goal." So, this is the idea. This is where you have this need to start connecting with the world once you feel safe.
- 4.76** We have lots of different names for this in different theories. Mark Leary and Roy Baumeister, the social psychologists, talk about this as the need for belonging, the need to feel part of a community, a family, a tribe, something bigger than yourself, something social, just to belong to something. It's not even to be loved. It's just to feel connected to something bigger than yourself.
- 4.77** There's a need for attachment we talked about with Bowlby, attaching to a caregiver. In a **self-determination** theory, they talk about the need for relatedness. It's the need to just relate to people other than yourself. In the old motivational theory, like McClelland, they talk about the need for affiliation, the need to affiliate to brothers, to connect.
- 4.78** We're a social animal. That's Aristotle's quote. And I think these love needs are just the manifestation of this powerful need we have to connect to the world. So, these kick on early.
- 4.79** The neat thing about love and connection is you can get enough. So, if you ask people, "Hey, do you have a good friend?" "God, I got a couple of really good friends." "Do you need more?" "No. No, I'm pretty good. I'm really grateful I've got a best friend." You don't go to somebody and say, "Hey, man, how are you doing?" "I got four best friends. How about you?" "You have four best friends? Well, that's really good for losers. But yeah, I got 14 best friends; I have 14 of them. How about—." And some other guy's like, "Really? I have 25. But you guys are different. It's all different. It's all good. I have 25, but that works for me. I'm sure your one friend is great for you, too, Keith. Loser." We don't do that. We don't do friend flexes.
- 4.80** "I'm deeply loved by my family." "Well, my family loves me more deeply." Sometimes we do it. I guess, with Christmas cards, you do the picture with your kids, you're all wearing the

same outfit, like the total fraud on the world. "We're awesome." And then, your kids are punching you out. "We never do it." Just a great deception. So, there's some of that. But generally, you get enough love, and it's wonderful, and that's all you need. It's a nice system that way. And it's not the case for other systems. So, the love needs we pick up.

- 4.81** And then, once the love needs are met, we have what Maslow calls the esteem needs, the need for self-esteem, the need to be esteemed, the need for status, the need for recognition. I'm going to read you what he says: "All people in our society, with a few pathological exceptions, have a need or desire for a stable, firmly based, usually high evaluation of themselves, for self-respect, self-esteem, and for the esteem of others." This is really important for Maslow: "By firmly-based self-esteem, we mean that which is soundly based on real capacity, achievement, and respect from others."
- 4.82** So, what he's saying there is that people need esteem, but he's being very specific in how he defines self-esteem, and we'll talk about some different definitions later. But he's talking about self-esteem as being accurate, meaning if I think I'm a legend, I should only think I'm a legend if I'm literally a legend, meaning somebody wrote "The Legend of Keith" and made it into a song, then I'm like, "Yeah, I'm a legend. They sing about me." But if they don't sing about you, you're probably not a legend. So, he's talking about accurate self-esteem. He's not talking about narcissism. He's not talking about inflated self-esteem. He's talking about an accurately grounded sense of competence that other people recognize.
- 4.83** So, when you read about humanism and self-esteem, it's sometimes different than pop self-esteem. So, self-esteem needs are about basic respect. And he says, "Satisfaction of the self-esteem needs leads to feelings of self-confidence, worth, strength, capability, and adequacy of being useful and necessary in the world." So this, again, is a very grounded esteem need, and it has to do with being effectively engaged with reality.
- 4.84** So, you find love, you find connection, and then you're able to work effectively in that system of people that you respect. And then you go, "Hey, Keith's a good person in our group. We like Keith." And then, I feel good about myself, and that's how it works. Again, other people have talked about these needs and self-determination theory. This is the need for competence, this grounded need to be successful or competent in something.
- 4.85** McClelland talked about this as the need for achievement. A need for achievement is this ability to build stuff. There's great old movies about this where they were looking at how you develop kids with a need for achievement. You'd have a parent, let's say, with a child and the child's putting blocks together or riding a bike, and the parent lets the child do it, lets the child make mistakes, but is there in case the child needs help at the edge. So, it's this way of letting your kids build their capacity for achievement, but being there to support if needed, but not being a helicopter parent. That seems to predict a lot of this achievement stuff.
- 4.86** The achievement motives are not homeostatic, meaning they don't turn off when you have enough status. People get status, and they go, "You know what would feel good is more status. And it would feel good to be more of a legend. And it would feel good to accomplish more of what I'm doing." So, when people start to accomplish stuff, they go, "I want to get to this level." And then, when they get to this level, they go, "I really think I want to get to this level." And they get to this level, and they think they want to get to this level.
- 4.87** So, if you chase esteem in your life, it doesn't really end very much. It's a never-ending pursuit because you don't get to the top, which is great. If you could win life, it would be boring. But there are different systems going on.
- 4.88** So, if you think about it, if you have love and you have respect, love and work, that's pretty good. That's pretty much enough. For most of us, if I woke up and said, "You know what? My kids love me. People at work respect me." I'm like, "Dude, you put that on my tombstone and call it a life." That's great. You don't need much more than that.

- 4.89** But what Maslow noticed is that some people get to that point of really capturing esteem and capturing belongingness, and there's still a desire to keep going because humans are perpetually wanting animals. And so, what he talked about at that this point is the need for self-actualization. Self-actualization is one of these confusing words. You're like, "It's one of those '70s California terms. What the heck is that?"
- 4.90** If you think about it, I mean his quote, and I'll read it again: "What a man can be, he must be." That's the classic quote for self-actualization: "What a man can be, he must be." I like to think of it as just leaving it all out there on the court. I never played anything on a court. I don't know if that—I think that refers to basketball when they say it, but maybe it's tennis. I don't even know the phrase, but I like it.
- 4.91** It's basically self-actualization, being all you can be is just leaving it out on the court of life, doing everything you can, and that's it. So, you're like, "Dude, I gave it 110%. I'm calling it good. I'm hitting the locker room. God bless. That's self-actualization. That's how I think about it in my non-actualized way.
- 4.92** So, here's Maslow's quote about the need for self-actualization: "Even if all these needs are satisfied,"—they're referring to belongingness and love—"we may still often (if not always) expect that a new discontent and restlessness will soon develop, unless the individual is doing what he is fitted for. A musician must make music, an artist must paint, a poet must write if he is to be ultimately happy. What a man can be, he must be. This need we may call self-actualization." So, that's what he's saying.
- 4.93** He's saying that this is the idea that you were born with this acorn that's meant to be a tree, meant to be an oak tree. And maybe that oak tree is an artist, or maybe it's a painter, maybe it's doing camera work. It's whatever it is. But you've got to express that in your life to feel good. And if you don't, you're going to feel this vague restlessness, this sense of, "I haven't really done it. I don't feel I'm done what I'm supposed to do." This is challenging because you got this whole world you got to compete in and survive. And then, they're like, "Oh, by the way, figure out your own unique gift for the universe and spend the next 20 years actualizing it." I'm like, "Dude, I got kids, I got work." But that's what they're pushing for.
- 4.94** When you look at Maslow, he has this wonderful chapter on self-actualization. I'm a big believer. Just read the primary sources. Don't listen to me. He's smarter than I am. And he talks about how he got a group together, and they went through historical characters, saying, "Who really self-actualized?" And they had people like Gandhi on there and Thomas Jefferson and Eleanor Roosevelt, Harriet Tubman, Walt Whitman. There's others. I think Lincoln, maybe.
- 4.95** These are pretty high performers, like "Yeah, I'm the President of the United States and a legendary scholar of Native American languages, and I wrote my own version of the Bible, and I was a world-famous architect and started one of the great universities in America." I'm like, "That's a pretty good run there, Thomas. I'm not going to pull that off. That's hard." Gandhi, I mean, "I started the modern nation of India. What did you do?" "Well, I wrote a book." "Well, that's pretty sad. I mean, that's wonderful. We all play our part, young Padawan." I'm like, "Thanks, Gandhi." So, the idea with self-actualization is this is a hard thing to do, and most people don't do it.
- 4.96** In terms of the motives about self-actualization, these are more autonomy motives than power motives. So, in self-determination, we're talking about autonomy, which is more about just actualizing or choosing. I say that's a bit of choosing what you want to be. So, autonomy is a bit of an actualization motive because it's generated from the self.
- 4.97** Power is self-actualization. It cannot be, but I think it can be, too. It's not a perfect fit, but there's a lot—you need power to do what you want to do, and if you don't have power, you can't do what you want to do. People don't like power, but I'm like, "You want to do what you want to do, you got to have power, and if you don't have it, somebody else is going to have it and you might not like them." So, this is where, if you study Maslow or you look at most of the stuff, you go, "Yeah, this is the top." You do your stuff, and then you'll be all

you can be, and you self-actualize, and that's the end. You go, "Hey, that's as good as it gets."

- 4.98** But then, something happened later on. Maslow started saying, "Hey, what if you self-actualize, but really, then you get beyond the whole self-thing? What if you transcend yourself, and instead of trying to be something, all you are is an end? You're not a means to get something, but your life is just the end. Just your experience of living is your highest state. You transcend all this stuff and become"—this is weird—"become something else." So, Maslow had a heart attack in his '60s. He knew his time was limited. And I think he spent a lot of time reflecting on these higher levels and the ability to go beyond being a success-based agent and transform and transcend into something else.
- 4.99** So, here's a Maslow's quote I'll give you: "Transcendence refers to the very highest and most inclusive or holistic levels of human consciousness. Behaving and relating as ends rather than means to oneself, to significant others, to human beings in general, to other species, to nature, and to the Cosmos." So, in the idea of self-transcendence, this whole idea of a person pursuing a goal is transcended it, and all you're doing is just living and relating to the world. You're out there doing your thing. This is hippy stuff. I'll talk about some more examples that may make it clear because the flow stuff is a little bit more clear. But it's the idea of—instead of chasing something, you've chased everything you can chase, and now you relate; you just relate.
- 4.100** You see this in a lot of classic writing. Okay, so here's the story I'm going to give. I've been doing a lot of stories, and I was thinking yesterday, "What's a good story for this?" So, I was reading my Nietzsche last night, but this is a story from Zarathustra, which is "The Three Metamorphoses," a story by Frederick Nietzsche, the philosopher. And I've always loved this parable because to me, it always describes the creative act. When I see really great creative artists, this seems like what's going on.
- 4.101** So, Nietzsche says, "Imagine you're a young spirit and you want to grow." And so, the first thing you do is become a camel because you want to carry as much as you can because that's the first step in growing; its taking on the heaviest load you can take. So, he says, "You become a camel, and you cover yourself and put on your back everything you can carry. Carry as much as you can." This is the process of learning: learning culture, learning your scales if you're a musician, learning your history if you're going to be an academic, just learning, learning, learning, learning, learning. Building, building, building, building.
- 4.102** Then, Nietzsche says, "You walk into the wilderness. So, as a camel, you walk into the wilderness to seek your fortune. There, you turn into a lion, and how much you carry is how big of a lion you are." So, if you carried a lot of stuff into the wilderness, you become a huge lion. If you didn't carry much, you carried a little thing, you become a little puppy lion.
- 4.103** And the lion in the wilderness sees a dragon. And the dragon is covered with golden scales, and every one of those scales says, "Thou shall." This is the lesson of culture. Culture says, "Thou shall do this, thou shall do that, thou shall create in this way." And as a lion, you say, "I will." So, the dragon says, "Thou shall, " and the lion says, "I will." So, the lion says, "My will, the will is coming from me." It's not coming from society. We've moved from an extrinsic field to an intrinsic field.
- 4.104** So then, the lion—I don't know if it kills the dragon because it's not real clear, but let's say the lion overcomes the dragon, but Nietzsche says a lion can't create because a lion is still out there trying to take out everything else. It's still trying to kill the old system, but it can't create the new system. So, the lion transforms into a child, and the child says yes to the world. The child is new. So, the quote from Nietzsche is: "Innocence is the child in forgetfulness, a new beginning, a game, a self-rolling wheel, a first movement, a sacred Yes," or a "holy Yay." I've seen it translated in different ways.
- 4.105** So, what he says is this ultimate self-transcendence in the creative arts is becoming a lion who represents all the greatness of your culture and then transforming to a child. And the

other phrase he uses is "a self-rolling wheel, a self-propelling wheel." I love that idea because that's capturing that idea of autonomy, autonomy's driving. I'm a wheel that drives myself. I'm not part of somebody's chariot. I'm a child that says yes. So, that's the idea of self-transcendence. It's fundamentally engaging with the world from an innocent place. So, I love that.

- 4.106** So, we talk about self-transcendence, and you think about it like, "Well, somebody self-transcends, and then they're holy and spiritual all the time." It doesn't seem to work like that. Self-transcendence is often—it happens in these little waves or peaks.
- 4.107** So, Maslow talked about these as peak experiences. So you're having your life, and every once in a while, you feel you transcend it. So he describes these as "rare, exciting, oceanic, deeply moving, exhilarating, elevating experiences that generate an advanced form of perceiving reality and are even mystic and magical in their effect upon the experimenter." It's the idea that you have these experiences that are transcendent, that are maybe mystical, that are maybe a holistic view of the world. So again, he's talking about these things as not happening all the time. But if you're in this phase every once in a while, you can have these experiences.
- 4.108** You don't see a lot of this in the intellectual world. I'm not hanging with my buddies like, "Dude, that idea, I'm just peak experience. That's unbelievable. I'm in this incredible state right now." Sometimes, in the old days, that would happen, but not so much. Where you do see experiences like this is actually in the physical world, in nature, in people doing things. So, the work on this comes from a gentleman named Mihaly Csikszentmihalyi, who's now passed away, a wonderful psychologist, great academic, and he got interested in what he's called flow states. He said, "I'm really curious about how people have optimal experience."
- 4.109** So, he was out in Denver. I think it was in Denver, it was in Colorado, maybe it was Boulder, and he started out studying artists. And he was like, "Well, look at these artists. They paint paintings. And then, when they're done, they're not like they go, 'Hey, check out my painting.' They put it down and paint another painting." He goes, "That's weird. Why are they just painting?"
- 4.110** So then, he started talking to climbers, some mountain climbers. And there was this mountain climber who was huge in the '70s. And so, "Why do you climb?" And it's like, "Well, you don't really go to the top and get a picture and then tell all your friends. It's more the climbing." So, he was talking to one of these guys, and it was the '70s. So, the guy said something like, "Well, dude, you're climbing the mountain, and then you're flowing, and it's like you're in the flow, and you're flowing with the flow. And then, sometimes, you're not even there because it's all the flow." He just said some '70s stuff like that. And so, Csikszentmihalyi was like, "Yeah, it's flow." So, they started calling it flow states.
- 4.111** The term I hear a lot of kids use is 'in the zone.' So, kids who play athletics will say, "Yeah, I was in the zone." But that's the same idea as being in a flow state: I feel I'm deeply engaged in what I'm doing. I'm getting clear goals and feedback. I'm passing a basketball, I'm climbing a mountain, I'm playing tennis, I'm doing surgery, or whatever. And what Csikszentmihalyi did was start studying people doing all these different tasks.
- 4.112** He started studying chess players, boaters, surgeons, artists, climbers, all sorts of different people. He had the greatest career ever, "I'm going to go study boaters, yachtists in Fiji." I'm like, "Really? That sounds better than who I'm studying." So, he studied all these interesting people, and he realized in all these different pursuits, people generate the same flow states. They get it riding, they get it public speaking, they get it acting, they get it playing chess. And what he found was there's this really interesting channel for behavior where you get flow. It has to do with your skill and challenge.
- 4.113** So, the sweet spot in life to get engaged is when your challenge matches your ability. So, imagine I'm playing tennis with somebody. I go play tennis with Serena Williams, and I walk out there, and she hits a 100-mile-an-hour serve at me. I'm going to feel fear. I don't

know how to play tennis. It's just going to suck. I'm going to be like, "This is too much." Or somebody is like, "Hey, let's go mountain climbing. Have you heard of a K2? I heard it's—" I'm like, "Dude, you die up here. I'm not doing this." It's fear.

- 4.114** But imagine the opposite. So, I'm playing tennis with a 10-year-old, [inaudible] or a 5-year-old, let's say. It's going to be boring. Even me, I can hit the ball and they're hitting the net. I'm like, "Oh, this is fun, but it's lame." Or somebody goes, "Hey, let's go hiking in Florida." Like, "Dude, you don't even have a hill." They're like, "Well, we got this old dump that they turned into a—." It's boring.
- 4.115** The sweet spot is in the middle. So, if I'm playing tennis with somebody who's just a little better than me, at my level, I'm going to get better and better. If I'm hiking a mountain that's just at my level, Mount Yonah in Georgia, that's a good mountain for a guy like me, straight up, nothing hard. If I'm at the sweet spot, that's where I feel flow.
- 4.116** And what happens, though, is if you want to do something and feel flow, you always get better and better and better. So, the example I always give is skydivers. I went skydiving once before comps, and I don't know if you've ever skydived. You have somebody on your back, so you have to jump out whatever you do. He was like, "Jump out, put your arms out, and when I hit your back,"—wait, no, it was a swan dive—"and then when I hit your back, put your arms down and slow down."
- 4.117** So, I jump out of the plane like a legend; he hits my back. I'm like, "Why is this guy hitting my back?" I'm bombing into the Earth like a thousand miles an hour. I'm thinking I'm going right through the whole center, going to end in China or something. He's hitting my back. It was on film. I was so embarrassed watching it. And after a couple of—maybe a second, I don't know. I'm like, "Oh, wait, I'm supposed to slow down." He's like, "Thank God we were going to die, you maniac." It was very hard. I was terrified.
- 4.118** But I watch the guys out there that do this every day, and they're so bored jumping out of a plane. They jump out of planes, and they do folk dances. I'm like, "What the heck you do?" They jump out, and they link arms, and you're like, "Why are you doing folk dances?" They want to be in a flow state. They want to feel flow, and they're not feeling flow jumping out of a plane because it's boring for them. They need more of a challenge.
- 4.119** So, all you need to do is follow flow states and self-transcendence, and you get better and better and better at things. If it's video games, it might not be that great, but there are lots of other things you can do out in nature. So, it's a nice way of—it's a very simple strategy for building success without setting up a bunch of punishment, reward, and timers on your clock or whatever. Motivation is interesting; you move through the self-motives, and then you get these self-transcendent motives.
- 4.120** What I wanted to conclude with, the last minute or two, was talk about happiness because happiness is really this process of dealing with and trying to accomplish the motives we have in life, trying to solve the challenges we have in life, and that process of doing this brings us happiness. But just like our motives are complicated: love is one we can match, but status is one we can never fill, and self-transcendence is weird; it's complicated. Happiness is complicated, too.
- 4.121** So, very quickly, when we think about happiness, and this is the definition from Sonja Lyubomirsky, who's a very cool happiness researcher out in UC Riverside. She describes happiness as "joy, contentment or positive well-being, combined with a sense that one's life is good, meaningful, and worthwhile." So, it's this interesting idea, this complex idea of happiness, of being positive, well-being, feeling good, but also a sense of meaning, maybe a sense of purpose.
- 4.122** And so, when you break down happiness, what you see is it breaks into different parts that don't always line up. So, the classic model of happiness, you start with what we might call hedonia, hedonism. This is the desire to have more pleasure, maximize pleasure, minimize pain, and have a satisfying life.

- 4.123** So for me, hedonia or hedonism or life satisfaction, I can imagine living on the beach somewhere down, maybe I'll be in Mexico on the beach, watching the boats come in at night, the gulls. That sounds pretty happy to me. I could be pretty content doing that for a while, for happiness, but it's missing something.
- 4.124** The other thing they talk about with happiness, and this goes back to the Greeks, is eudaimonia. And eudaimonia is a fancy word that basically means 'a good demon' (eu is 'good,' daimon is 'demon') . Aristotle talks about this and Socrates, too, which is like, "Imagine in your life that you have this voice in your head that compels you to succeed, that compels you to create art." Socrates had a daimon that told him to do music before he died. Freud talked about his inner tyrant that drove him to do psychology.
- 4.125** So, imagine you've got one life of happiness but a second life, which is about eudaimonia. It's about finding deep meaning and engagement in life that feels more driven from the outside. You see, those are different things. That second one is going to be what you need for self-actualization. The first one is what you're going to need for happiness.
- 4.126** And then, the third form of happiness that people don't think about, but I think is really interesting, especially when you're talking about self-actualization and self-transcendence, is a sense of richness in life. So, people go, "Man, I had some ups and downs. It wasn't always easy, but man, I had a real interesting life. I had some deep experiences. I went all over the world. I had love. I had some loss. I made a lot of money." This sounds like a Jimmy Buffet song, my God. This is a Jimmy Buffet song. "Yeah, I lost it all, but I had a pretty good run, and I feel like I lived it."
- 4.127** So, richness is not something that makes you have excitement or pleasure all the time. It might not always be driven by your higher calling, getting busted in a weed run in 1975 with Jimmy Buffet off Key West. That 's maybe not finding your higher self, but it would be interesting to make for a good story, at least at this point.
- 4.128** So, life is this really complicated balance between trying to feel happy, trying to feel just pleasure and satisfaction, trying to live for some higher calling, and then trying to have enough experience that you feel you did it, trying to have enough experience in your life. And whenever you're out there, everyone's got a plan until they get punched in the face. Whenever you're out there engaging with the world, it's going to have ups and downs. That's the nature of it.
- 4.129** And so, how do you balance all those things? It's hard. We're dialed with a bunch of different goals, and they don't line up really cleanly, and it's a bit of a challenge. But I guess to end with, I think if all you do is pursue feeling good, ultimately, you're probably not going to be as happy at the end of the road. That's it. Thank you.
- 4.130** My question is: do we need to have self-knowledge, like knowledge of our passions, what we enjoy, maybe our sinfulness, our failings, all that, in order to have self-transcendence?
- 4.131** That is a wonderful question. So, the question is: how does self-knowledge play into this? I'm going to answer in two ways. In one answer, I would say that learning about yourself is part of the process of growth, self -knowledge, and I'm guessing that's part of it. But I'm also reminded of some writings by Carl Jung talking about meeting highly developed—he traveled all over the world and met these very highly developed, psychologically developed people in nonwestern cultures that didn't have that elaborate self-talk that we do.
- 4.132** So, our self-analysis and coming out of psychoanalysis it's very extensive in our culture. And there's lots of places where people just live their life. They do it 100%, and they don't spend that much time thinking about themselves. So, I think it's a bit of a complex answer. That's a cop-out for 'I don't have a great answer, ' but I really do think it is complex.
- 4.133** So, when you start something you enjoy, let's say a sport, for instance, and you play it for years and years and years, and then it becomes to feel like a job, how do you go back from that? Or is it extremely—I'm sure it's extremely difficult.
- 4.134** So, I think it's a challenge, and you see that a lot with athletics because if you're a young person who's into athletics, what's going to happen is you're going to have—if you're good

—you're going to have a coach that says, "I'm going to use this person to make some money," and you're going to have a parent that says, "I'm not going to pay for college because my kids get in a scholarship to play squash or whatever. And guess what? You're going to have a new job doing squash, so I don't have to pay for college." So, it's very easy to get captured with extrinsic motivation at that point.

- 4.135** And then, what happens is you go, "I don't know why I'm doing this anymore." You have a bad day at the squash court, and you're like, "Am I doing this for me? Am I doing it for mom? Am I doing it for my coach? I don't even like squash. I like anime," or whatever. I don't know. And so, I think that's a real normal process.
- 4.136** I think what happens is people suck it up, go through what they've learned, and at the other side, people who really enjoy the sport will get into coaching. They'll get into other stuff. They might get into other positions around the sport so they can stay in the game. I know a lot of athletes now, and they'll finish their career and go into coaching or advising or work with the teams. So, people who love being around sports will find a way to stay in the game.
- 4.137** Other people, I think they go, "I loved athletics. It taught me self-control. It taught me self-discipline, but really, I'm going to spend more time golfing, or I'm going to spend more time playing pickleball because that's where I can have a better active social life, and I get a lot of the benefits of sports.
- 4.138** So again, I think it's complicated. And it's a real challenge because athletics now are so incredibly extrinsic. These kids that are really good at it are like—our college athletes are essentially pro-athletes now. Not totally, but it's going in that direction. It's a lot of pressure on young people.
- 4.139** In what ways do you feel hyper-intellectualization inadvertently gets in the way of self-transcendence?
- 4.140** Yeah, that's a great question. I think it can be—so, in our culture, in my intellectual subculture, we have very developed intellects. We think about everything, and we build models of the world. We understand those models, and we get caught up in that the model is real.
- 4.141** So, I always say, there's the old Zen saying, "Don't mistake the finger for the moon." Sometimes it's like, "There's the moon. Don't mix it up the finger." Other people say, "Don't mistake the map for the terrain." And so, I think we get hung up in these intellectual models, and we get so into trying to do them right that we miss living.
- 4.142** And so, I'm a big believer in old—and I'm going to misquote this from my Penguin edition of the "Tao Te Ching," which is probably a poor translation in the '70s or '80s, but essentially that you have to still yourself in order to learn life's secrets, but you have to live in order to learn life's manifestations, and they're both the same thing. They're different emanations of life. So, personally, I spend a lot of time thinking, but then I spend a lot of time doing to try to balance those things out.
- 4.143** This is the story of Faust. It's too much intellect. So, my suggestion is that intellect can be a barrier to people. And there's even a defense mechanism called intellectualization, where people will tell stories about their life, and I'm like, "Dude, just feel some pain. Just suck it up and fucking cry." "Well, I don't know. What I'm thinking is—" I'm like, "Dude, just live." So, I think yes; that's my short answer.
- 4.144** I know we talked about Sonja, the happiness researcher. There's the happiness researcher Shawn Achor as well, who says that 10% of your overall happiness, 10%, is influenced by your environment and circumstances, while an overwhelming 90% is influenced by your perspective and how you perceive the world. Do you think that that's hypocritical to Sonja's point of happiness being the sense of richness, or do you think it's—
- 4.145** So, the idea of richness is really—that really actually comes from Shige Oishi and Erin Westgate. Anyway, in terms of the breakdown of happiness, I think that the idea that it's 90% perception and 10%—that doesn't make a whole lot of sense to me, but I don't know

that person. Maybe they're referring to something that I'm not—so, I'm not saying they're wrong, I just am not sure how that makes sense.

4.146 I've seen Sonja break it down, a pie chart. She gets in a lot of trouble for this, but it's about 40% genetics, 40% non-shared environment, maybe 10% parenting—I don't know her numbers, but that's the number that breaks down with all personality. We're wired up to be a certain way. Our general sense of happiness, like our general extroversion neuroticism, there's a lot of genetics to it. Some of us just start out wired cheerful, and some of us are a little gloomy. And if we're gloomy, we have to work more. So, I do think that wiring is really important. But in terms of perception, I don't know how you break that down.

5. The Self

At a glance

The self combines personality, identity, self-knowledge, and social presentation. This lecture surveys psychodynamic and trait approaches, the Big Five, temperament, self-esteem, self-efficacy, comparison, culture, narrative identity, and the tension between stable dispositions and changing situations.

- 5.1 In this class, I wanted to talk about **personality psychology**, and the nature of **the self**, which are—it's a lot of dissertations in this quick lecture, but I thought I'd hit some of the high parts and give you an overview.
- 5.2 The term 'personality' and 'self' kind of mean the same thing and kind of mean something different. So, personality is a term that goes back to Latin, ancient Greece, ancient Etruscan, and it essentially means 'mask.' So, you hear the term 'persona,' persona is the word for mask, and so the term 'personality' is basically our modern term for the person's mask; the character they wear through life.
- 5.3 Often when we talk about personality models, we're talking about more quantitative models. These are things that we develop with pretty intense statistics. We develop pretty good tests or assessments for personality **traits**. So, we're measuring personality that way.
- 5.4 One way to think about personality traits are a consistent pattern of thoughts, feelings, and behaviors across time and situation. So, when we think about something like a personality trait, it's a way I act across time. So, I'm like this two years ago, I'm like this now. I'll probably be the same way tomorrow. And across situations, I'll probably act this way here, but probably in other situations as well. So, it's a consistency about behavior, but it's also about what makes me different than other people. So, it's a consistency that's different. We call this individual differences. People are different.
- 5.5 In my case, I'm pretty energized. There's some reason: I'm extroverted, I'm neurotic, and you bring those two powerful forces together and put me on the stage, and I start wiggling like a little gopher. That's my extraversion. I'm extroverted here. When I talk to the cab driver on the way home, I'm going to be chatting about the meaning of life. When I go to get dinner tonight, I'll be chatting with everybody. Everyone's going to hate me by the end of the night. That's just how I am. I'll go to the funeral at the end of the world, the great apocalypse funeral, and I'm going to be chatting with the demons, "Hey, guys, how you doing? I dig those spears." My nature. That's a personality trait.
- 5.6 Self is a little different. 'Self' is a word that's more—it comes out of old English, Indo-European. It basically means 'separate' or 'one's own.' So, the self is about what's mine. There's a weird thing that happens in science. Things that come from English or Germanic roots sound dumb, and things that come from Latin or Greek roots sound smart and sophisticated. So, when you say, "I'm interested in the personality," they go, "That sounds sophisticated." You say, "I'm a self researcher," they go, "That sounds kind of dumb."
- 5.7 That's a little trick you can—I learned that from reading Huxley, actually, but it's a little trick, like my watch versus my chronometer; the chronometer sounds a little sexier than a watch. So, these are kind of similar things, but they're a little different.
- 5.8 When we think about the self in psychology, it's a little more about our narrative, it's a little bit more about our story, how we see our self. It's a little bit more about how we evaluate our self, our **self-esteem**, our self-conception. So, it's a little richer concept, it's a little more, I don't know; it's got a little more blood and guts to it. But essentially, these are the same things. These are what makes you a person who's different than other people and how you're wired.
- 5.9 So, I thought what I would do today is—I want to talk about classic quantitative personality models, and I'm going to focus on what's called the **Big Five** or five-factor model, or OCEAN, which you might be familiar with. It's our most popular, most useful model, I

think. And then, I'm going to talk about some approaches to the self, and I'm going to base it on William James's classic work on the self in his chapter in the *Principles of Psychology*, the basic: how the self works, here are the parts, think about it.

- 5.10** In terms of the research on personality traits, it's a really interesting historical effort. So, researchers, maybe 120 years ago, back in the UK, started thinking, "Hey, we want to understand personality. We understand how people's personality can be modeled and how it changes over time and across generations," and so they said, "Well, how do we measure personality?"
- 5.11** Well, there's an idea, and I think it was Sir Francis Galton who came up with this; I could be wrong; he came up with this idea that we now call the lexical hypothesis, 'lexical' meaning 'word' or 'lexicon.' The idea is that if there's a personality trait that matters to describe somebody, like if this is useful for describing people in the world, our language, and indeed every language, will come up with a single word for that thing.
- 5.12** So, if it's really useful to describe something like, "Hey, that person's really smart," I'm going to come up with a word that's 'smart.' I'm not going to say, "You know, that person's one of those people that's really good at, like, you give them puzzles, and they figure it out fast, and they seem to be a little quick to figure things out. I don't know what. There must be a word for that." We don't say that. We go, "They're smart; they're clever." So, we come up with words.
- 5.13** Every once in a while, we don't have a word in English that we need, and we go steal it from somebody else. And all languages do this. So, we might say, like, a great psychological word that we use is *Schadenfreude*. This isn't really a trait, but it's a word we took from German, meaning 'I take pleasure in other people's suffering.' We don't have a good English word for that, so we steal a German word.
- 5.14** So, occasionally, we do that, but generally, what happens is we build these single words to describe personality traits, and these are trait adjectives. How do you describe somebody? So, psychologists started looking at these trait words. It turns out there's a whole lot of them, in English in particular, because we're a combination language from German and Latin, where we have a lot of words, a lot of interesting words, but all languages have lots of traits. We have something like 4,500 traits. I've seen more; I've seen less, depending, but that's a lot of traits.
- 5.15** What do you do with 4,500 traits? Well, you can't make a personality model with 4,500 variables. "Hey, Keith, we're going to bring you in the lab. We're going to nail down your personality on these 4,500 different dimensions, and then we're going to build a map." Like, dude, that's not going to do me any good. That's a too complicated map. Remember? As a psychologist, I'm trying to make a simple, dumb map that I can use for a lot of things. Not a super complicated map. That's called a picture.
- 5.16** So, what psychologists started doing was saying, "Well, maybe we can group these traits into smaller groups." There's different ways you do that mathematically. You can do something like a factor analysis, which is a way of looking at how things correlate and putting them into buckets. You can look at them with coders and say, "Yeah, these sound the same." And so what they did was started taking all these words and putting them into buckets.
- 5.17** So, imagine I've got 45,000 trait words up here; there's a million words. There's—whenever I do this, I always come up with weird words: *conniving* and *kleptomaniac*. That's—I don't know if that's a word. *Conniving*, and *curious*, and *cadaverous*, and I don't know, *dizzy*, and *silly*, and *kind*, and *cooperative*, and *compassionate*, and *extroverted*. All these different terms. So, there's thousands of those.
- 5.18** But imagine you have five big buckets in front of us, or maybe ten buckets. It doesn't matter. And you start putting words in buckets that are similar. So, like, "Oh, *kind*, I'll put in that bucket. How about *friendly*? Well, that sounds like it's the same bucket. How about *compassionate*? Yeah, it's pretty much the same. How about *nice*? Well, that's in that

bucket. How about angry? That doesn't sound the same, but it's kind of the same. I don't know." So, angry maybe goes in that bucket, and maybe it goes in the neuroticism bucket. I don't know.

- 5.19** So, what happens is you start building these buckets. When you do that, you end up with five buckets. Five big buckets that do a pretty good job. It isn't magic. It's not like God made five buckets for personality traits, and thank God I found them. They're in the Geneva Bible. You have to read it in the original old Dutch or something. It's not like that; we make these things up. But five works pretty well. Six works okay. You can also do three or two or one. They all work, but five tends to be what they are.
- 5.20** And those five buckets that we put traits into are called "The Big Five," sometimes "The Five Factor Model." People have come at it with personality tests and come at it different ways and get the same five. Often, we call this model OCEAN for the simple reason that the names of each of the five buckets, the first letter spell 'ocean' or 'canoe,' and no one wants to be on the canoe model because that sounds lame, but the ocean model sounds cool. So, think about these traits as OCEAN.
- 5.21** And what do they spell? Well, 'O' is for 'openness to experience.' I'll go into these in detail in a minute, but to give you an overview. 'O' is for 'openness to experience.' That's an interest in art, esthetics, creativity, curiosity. It's a trait you see with artists, designers, etcetera.
- 5.22** The 'C' is for 'conscientiousness.' This is a trait that has to do with organization, discipline, dutifulness, industriousness, and hard work. Conscientiousness is the trait of the workplace, predicts a lot of high level performance at work.
- 5.23** The 'E' is for 'extraversion.' Extraversion is what most of you think, which is sociability, but extraversion also has a big dose of assertiveness. It's this drive and energy. So, you see a lot of extraversion in leadership. So, I'll meet people like, "Yeah, I run a Fortune 500 company, and I do this and do that, but I'm not an extrovert." I think, "Dude, you're an extrovert. You're just not very social." "Oh, that's true. I like to be out there. I like to make stuff happen." So, these are big traits, meaning they're big buckets. There's a lot going on. There's a lot of complexity even within them.
- 5.24** The 'A' is for 'agreeableness.' Agreeableness means, essentially, it has to be nice, kind, cooperative, and polite. So, it has to do with getting along, like swimming with a school of fish. It also has to do with deep compassion, so you can be a nice person who's deeply caring, a nice person who's really cooperative.
- 5.25** And then, the 'N' is for neuroticism. Neuroticism is basically a combination of fearfulness, maybe anxiety, depression, and also vulnerability. You get overwhelmed easily. So, I get overwhelmed by events. I feel like I can't get up and fight the battle more. I'm taken over. So, it's the sense of being overwhelmed.
- 5.26** When you think about those traits, we often say openness instead of openness to experience; it's shorter. But openness, conscientiousness, extraversion, agreeableness, neuroticism, that's the big five. These generally sound positive. They all generally sound positive. So, openness sounds positive. Conscientiousness, extraversion, agreeableness. But neuroticism sounds a little negative, right? Does that sound right? Yeah. And that's what you see that makes it a little confusing. So, sometimes people will flip neuroticism and call it emotional stability, so they're all a little positive.
- 5.27** But here's the thing about these traits, a few things. This is like the basic rules of personality traits. It applies to The Big Five, but really, any trait we study. First of all, these things are on a continuum or continua, not your continuums. They're not types. So, if you see personality tests that put you into a type, like you're an extrovert and you're an introvert, those don't do well because nature doesn't really make types. What nature makes are continua. They make distributions of people.
- 5.28** Most of us, really, about two-thirds of us are going to be right around the middle point of any one of these traits. Trait openness: most of us are around the middle. Some of us are

going to be pretty open. That might be how we see ourselves. Some of us might be so open—that is what we call our cardinal trait. This is our primary trait. I'm an open guy. Some of us are going to be much more conventionally minded: "Dude, I don't do that stuff. I just chill. It sounds a little weird to me, man." Some people are like that. Most of us are in the middle. That's the nature of traits.

- 5.29** The other thing to remember is that both extremes can be good or bad, depending on context. There's a little bit of a bias in our culture where people, like I said, want to be more extroverted, typically. But if I ask a class of 300 people, how many of you want to be more extroverted? I'll get a bunch of people say, "I'd like to be more extroverted," and I'll say, "How many of you want to be less extroverted and more introverted?" And I'll get a few people.
- 5.30** Sometimes, I'm one of those people that go, "I'm a little too extroverted. It gets me into trouble." I have trouble talking to people sometimes because they go, "I have an idea," and I talk for 10 minutes about their idea because I'm a bad listener. Sometimes, I do crazy stuff; I say crazy stuff. My extraversion gets me in trouble.
- 5.31** So, you can have trouble on either side, even though there's a little bit of a bias. Okay, so when we talk about the clinical stuff in a few classes from now, you're gonna see clinical bias in one way, but really, you can have problems on both sides, and a lot of it depends on social context.
- 5.32** If you're in a real threatening environment, being neurotic is awesome because you're out there, "I'm looking for threats," and people that aren't neurotic are going to get eaten. But when it's a very safe environment, people who are neurotic aren't going to do as well because they're going to be nervous all the time, and people who are more risk-taking will do well. So, a lot of this depends on context.
- 5.33** These traits are all very heritable. This was a question someone asked last time about happiness, and it applies to most personality traits. When we look at the behavioral genetics, which means we're looking at the family history of traits, not the genes themselves, we find about 40%, give or take, is inherited through our family structure.
- 5.34** So, the way I'm wired looks like certain people in my family. I look at my kids and I go, "Well, you got some of me and some of your mom, and some of your uncle Bill. You got little pieces of each of us, and that's how you're wired up to start; not much you can do about it when you start." You can do something about it once you get older and you can start to modify your personality.
- 5.35** But it's very much when I talk to people about personalities, we're wired differently. People are just different. People are different, and those differences matter. Those differences make a difference. People are different, and those differences make a difference. People have very different approaches to things.
- 5.36** So, even though personality is heritable, it can be changeable. There's lots of interesting work now on personality change. What we're seeing—and I'll talk about this more with the clinical work—but what you see is when people change their personality, it's about what we'd say a third of a standard deviation. I don't know what that means. How do I translate a third of a standard deviation? It's like five IQ points out of 100; that's about a third of a standard deviation. Maybe in height, it would be like I gained an inch or two. So, no one's making me tall, but if I got an inch or two, at least I'd have some self-esteem. So, that's what it is. It moves people a little bit.
- 5.37** You typically don't see people going from, "Yeah, I was really this way to totally this way." Usually, the change is a little bit more on a continuum. Sometimes, you get that real radical quantum change, but typically, it's a more moderate change. But change is certainly possible. There's a lot of research on this now. And people think, "Yeah, this stuff's set in stone." Freud used to say that personality stopped at age six. And I think James said it was cast in plaster at 30. It's not true; personality changes your whole life.

- 5.38** Personality is reflected everywhere. It leaves traces. Your personality leaves traces in everything you do. So, I can guess your personality from your outfits. I can guess your personality from your appearance. I can guess your personality by looking at your office. I can look at your bedroom deck. And this is all from research. I can look at your bedroom. I can look at your car. I can look at everything. I can look at your Facebook page or your Instagram, and I can detect personality in everything.
- 5.39** It leaves what they call personality traces. It's like, I imagine you're walking around with pixie dust, leaving your personality everywhere. So, I meet somebody, and they got tattoo sleeves, and I go, "That person's probably a little high in openness, maybe a little rebellious." That's what the data seem to show. Different personality outfits—well, I look at a lot of narcissists, but you see all these different traits.
- 5.40** One of my favorite stories with this, I took my kids to Disneyland when they were young, and I remember we got these magic bands. A magic band—I'm like, "Oh, you mean a tracking device? So, you can use me as a research rat in your research subject. This will be exciting. So, I'll run through the maze. And I thought, some dude back there has got data on everybody, and Disney, and their personality.
- 5.41** And I was at a conference a couple of years later, and I met the dude, and he's like, "Yeah, I got Big Five. I got Big Five on all these people. It's awesome." You never get to see it. Basically, what they'll do is they'll get people—they'll do a subsample. They'll get Big Five scores on with something like the TIPI, which I'll show you in a second. And then, they'll use those to model behavior. And all the Facebook—social media companies all do this. So, you can get Big Five. But again, it's not magic. It's like you get traces of things. It's not perfect. It's just traces.
- 5.42** All these things could be measured quantitatively very easy. We have what's called self-report measures, which are essentially: here's a list of questions, answer these questions, and we can tell your personality. We can measure your Big Five personality.
- 5.43** In terms of the scales, there's the classic ones, like the NEO or the BFI, Big Five Inventory. There's a few of those. The one I'm going to talk about when I go through this stuff is called the TIPI, also known as the Ten-Item Personality Inventory. So, if you ever read an article, like, "Here Is the Personality Around America," or "Here Is The Personality of Voters," or "Here Is the Personality of This," like a huge database.
- 5.44** What they're doing is using this very short ten-item question to measure the Big Five. So, two questions per Big Five, and they're using that to measure personality. So, it's not super precise, but you do that with a million people, you get a pretty good idea of what's going on. So, personality measure, you can scale with social media, and I won't go into it. It's very interesting. I'm stopping.
- 5.45** So, that's the overview of how these traits work. I wanted to delve into them a little more deeply to get an idea of them. So, extraversion is this classic trait of, say—so, sometimes we break these traits into facets. So, imagine here's a Big Five trait, and maybe this has three facets or two facets. Sometimes, we break them into what's called aspects. We break them down into smaller traits.
- 5.46** In terms of extraversion, the three facets that people are interested in are called extraversion—I mean, are called assertiveness, energy level, and sociability. Those are kind of the big three. Assertiveness, I mentioned, that's the trait of leadership. Sociability is that likeability. Energy level is the sense of somebody being energized.
- 5.47** So, one of my favorite characters from the pandemic was a gentleman named the Tiger King. You guys remember the Tiger King? So, the Tiger King, I don't think he was a real king. And when I watched the show, I don't know the guy, but he seemed like maybe he was up to no good. I noticed there was some drug use. I noticed things being blown up with machine guns. I noticed some relationships that seemed "a little sus", as my kids would say. I thought, well, maybe this guy really isn't a great guy, and he ended up in jail.

But my goodness, I like the Tiger King, and I really wanted to live in his kingdom. And so, you ask yourself, "What is appealing about a Tiger King? Why is that appealing?"

- 5.48** It's the positive emotionality and energy. He has a very high positive affect and a very high energy level. And what we say in the personality world is that extraversion covers up a multitude of sins, but especially positive emotionality. People who are really energized and really positive, you're like, "Oh, yeah, I'm in league with the devil." You're like, "But you seem so nice and so energized. That's okay. Maybe it's the good devil." And so, the Tiger King brought people in because of that personality trait of extraversion. And his more antagonistic traits people didn't see. So, that's how extraversion can lead you astray. I like that.
- 5.49** When we think—I always try to think of examples, and I'm so old that none of my examples work. But historically, people like Tony Robbins, the motivational speaker, Bill Clinton when he was in his prime as president, Richard Brass—they're very classic, high-energy extrovert Tiger King, very classic, high-energy, extroverted figures. Very good for leadership, very good for being liked, very good for being popular, and allows you to do bad things and get away with it.
- 5.50** In terms of the polls, the high end is called extraversion; the low end is called introversion. So, we tend to think of extraversion and introversion as two different poles. If you notice on your spell check, they always spell extraversion wrong, too. So, if you're on Microsoft, they spell extraversion like E-X-T-R-O, like extroversion. I don't know why. There's a history to that, but it's extraversion; that's how it's supposed to be.
- 5.51** In terms of the TIPI questions, I was going to give you these. So, on the Ten-Item Personality Inventory, extraversion is somebody who's extroverted and enthusiastic versus reserved and quiet. So, people who say, "I'm extroverted, enthusiastic," that's high extraversion; people who are reserved and quiet, that's more the introversion part. So, those are the two polls.
- 5.52** Trait agreeableness is another one of these interesting traits. The three facets of that—these are from the Big Five inventory, too—are compassion, respectfulness, and trust. So, these are all different aspects of agreeableness. Compassion is what we think about as that deep sense of kindness or love. I think about Mother Teresa or the Dalai Lama sort of compassion, this bodhisattva deal.
- 5.53** Respectfulness is all different. Respectfulness isn't so much about caring. It's about being a good member of a community. I respect the rules of the community, I respect other people, I'm a good citizen. So, it's more about cooperation and getting along.
- 5.54** And finally, there's this piece of trust. I trust people when I'm agreeable. What's interesting about this, I look at a lot of individual data, and often, you'll see people that are really compassionate and respectful and have very low trust. Like, I don't trust people, but I'm still trying to be a good person. So, it's not that these always go together. They're just little different pieces of this.
- 5.55** Often, a breakdown is between compassion and maybe something like cooperation or respectfulness. And you go, "Well, you seem nice, but you're not really a deeply caring person. You just get along with people." That's different. So, agreeableness is a really interesting trait.
- 5.56** The low pole of agreeableness, or the low end that you talk about more clinically, is antagonism. So, in the clinical world, we say, "Oh, those people are high in trait antagonism." That might be antisocial personality, narcissistic personality disorder, things like that, or higher antagonism. So, that's the opposite end.
- 5.57** In terms of the TIPI, agreeableness would be sympathetic and warm would be high agreeableness, and low agreeableness would be something critical and quarrelsome. So, sympathetic warm versus critical coercion. Warm is a really good word. I like that term. Warm is a good trait word to describe people versus cold.

- 5.58** Neuroticism is another one. Trait neuroticism is—I always associate with Woody Allen because I'm old, and his whole shtick was being neurotic. I think he probably was worse than that. But there's a lot of classic neurotic characters. People like Woody Allen, think of a lot of musicians like Kurt Cobain or some of that more gloomy music types. A lot of Seinfeld characters like George Costanza, Seinfeld's super neurotic character. Neuroticism can be really entertaining to watch sometimes; it's just not fun to live it. It can be fun to watch somebody else.
- 5.59** And in terms of neuroticism, the three facets you see are anxiety, depression, and volatility. So, the anxiety is more threat detection. Depression is more fear and lack of motivation. And volatility is instability. Sometimes, what you see with neuroticism is hostility and anger. Especially with guys who are a little depressed, you see it come out as hostility or vulnerability. But really, what's going on is neuroticism that's coming out as pain, and rage, and anger in a different way. The opposite, as I mentioned, the opposite pole of neuroticism is emotional stability. So, often, we'll just say emotional stability instead of low neuroticism.
- 5.60** And the TIPI items for this are anxious, easily upset, that would be the more neurotic, versus emotionally stable and calm. So, somebody's like, "Yeah, I'm anxious, easily upset." That's a pretty good idea of neurotic versus emotionally stable and calm. I've never called myself emotionally stable or calm in my life. Just never gotten to that point, maybe a few moments, but then it goes.
- 5.61** Okay, two more traits: openness and conscientiousness. So, openness to experience. I mentioned the big three facets of this were esthetic sensitivity: that's an interest in art, beauty, things like that. Creative imagination: the ability to create something new, to visualize and maybe actualize something new. And curiosity: intellectual curiosity.
- 5.62** Openness is where you see more intellectants come in. They sometimes use the word openness/intellect. This is where you see IQ as a trait. IQ spills—intelligence, I should say, spills—through the Big Five. But when you see intelligence, often that looks like openness, sometimes it looks like some aspects of conscientiousness, like that industry and work, sometimes extraversion, and low neuroticism. But openness is where you get the intelligence.
- 5.63** The opposite pole of openness, we'd say is conventionally minded. It's not you're closed-minded; it's more conventionally minded. Open is a little weird. Conventional is a little closed. And in terms of the TIPI traits, that'd be something like, "I report being openness to experience and complex versus conventional and uncreative. I'm not too creative. I'm kind of conventional." That's low openness.
- 5.64** There's lots of really open figures you can think about, usually in arts and creative worlds. So, I think J. K. Rowling, those Harry Potter books. Driving a train, coming up with a whole series of books about alchemy when you're on a train ride, and you're a single mom, oh, my God, that's genius. It's a very high openness. Artists like Picasso, those early people, the early modern artists that made it, not the fake ones, but the good ones. You see it with adventure, like Amelia Earhart, Elon Musk, very high openness. Steve Jobs, the former head of Apple, very high openness. So, you see it in some of the tech stuff. Not everybody: Bill Gates, you're never like, "Yeah, that's one open guy." But Musk, you'd say, that's pretty open. So, it's just different personality types in those things.
- 5.65** Finally, conscientiousness. So, conscientiousness, as I said, is really the key trait for a lot of working. It has to do with the facets of organization, productiveness. So, it's the ability to organize the world, the ability to produce and do things, and also a sense of responsibility. So, conscientiousness is really good for working because the kind of people you want working for you or take ownership of the job, they have a sense of responsibility. They produce; they work hard and do stuff. And they're pretty organized.
- 5.66** Those things are different. I know a lot of academics who are kind of conscientious because they're not organized at all. They're very productive. They feel a lot of responsibility, but they got too many things going on. You walk into their office, it looks like a bomb went off.

That's half my career, just piles of paper. So, what happens in those places is people—their openness gets ahead, and they keep starting new projects, and they get out of control. So, that's very common. You have very successful people with low conscientiousness, or moderate conscientiousness, but typically high conscientiousness is more successful.

- 5.67** My favorite example of this was the woman Pepper, who played in the Marvel movies with Tony Stark's assistant. I forget who it was, but she's a famous actress. She played an assistant; it was great. Warren Buffet, the investor, very high conscientiousness. Martha Stewart, maybe. Bill Gates, that's maybe more him, more conscientious and driven than creative.
- 5.68** And low conscientiousness—the examples from growing up, I always like the dude in *The Big Lebowski*. I always thought he was the perfect example of a low conscientious character. Or the Cookie Monster. I always liked the Cookie Monster, too. Sort of an impulsive eater. Anyway, that's the idea. Oh, the TIPI scales for conscientiousness are things like dependable and self-disciplined versus disorganized and careless.
- 5.69** So, that's pretty much the idea of personality traits. Again, there are lots of different models of traits. The Big Five is a model of general personality, but there are lots of specific traits we measure: Type A personality, which comes from cardiology; narcissism, which I study; self-esteem; all these different things. We'll talk about self-esteem in a minute, but these good general models are really useful for a lot of things. And people don't talk about the Big Five as much. I think it's going to catch on. I think everyone's going to be talking about it in a few years. So, that's personality.
- 5.70** How about the self? How does the self work? So, I'm doing a bit of a segue here to William James and the operation of the self. This is work that James talked about in his *Principles of Psychology* in the late 1800s. He wrote a chapter on the self and another chapter on what he called the stream of consciousness, which is the idea of how the self emerges over time, how we experience the self. I highly recommend him. He's such a great writer, but I broke this stuff down to make it simple. In terms of the self, we can break it into components. And the first and most crucial component of the self is what James called the 'I' versus the 'Me,' or the self as the perceiver versus the self-concept, or maybe self-awareness and consciousness versus the self-concept.
- 5.71** So, what James noticed with the self is myself here, a part of me, is an observer. I see things. I observe myself. If I look at myself in the mirror, I go, "There's Keith." But the person observing myself where I feel conscious, where I feel life, that's what James is calling the 'I.' So, that 'I' is where consciousness comes from.
- 5.72** When I'm looking in the mirror and I see my self-concept, I go, "That's me." That's my conception of myself. That's my model of myself. So, I have a model of myself. I have a theory of myself. I have an evaluation of myself as a person, but that self is not 'Me.' I mean, it is 'Me;' it's not 'I.' It isn't the person perceiving; it's a model of myself. Does that make sense? It's weird.
- 5.73** And so, this quality of consciousness, this 'I,' this experience of being alive, this observer of consciousness, is very hard to study, and it's maybe the core of who we are. And this part of the self we observe, this 'Me,' the thing we see in the mirror, this concept or theory we have about ourselves, our self-concept, is really easy to observe.
- 5.74** So, if I want to say, "Show me your self-concept." You'd go, "Well, I'm a psychologist, and I like fast cars and good steak." That was a Bill Murray reference from the '70s no one would get. And I go, "Well, tell me about your consciousness." "Dude, are you high? What does that mean?" "Who is that that's looking through your eyes right now?" "I don't know."
- 5.75** Every time I try to figure out who that is, all I see is a hall of mirrors. I reflect into myself, and I see myself reflecting back. So, we call this reflective self-consciousness or reflective self-awareness. We can see ourselves, but we can never really catch ourselves. You can see yourself looking at yourself, but you never get there. It's very confusing.

- 5.76** So, what did researchers do? Well, like the drunk guy who lost his keys and was looking under the light because that's the only place he could see, even though he lost him down the street, psychologists are like, "I can't figure out the 'I.' Let's let the philosophers and the anesthesiologists worry about consciousness. Let's work on the 'Me.'" So, we have about 100 years of figuring out the 'Me' and the parts of the self-concept. We don't really understand the consciousness very well. I don't understand consciousness. I thought about it. I don't understand it.
- 5.77** And James talked about several different parts of the self-concept. I'm going to talk about four of them. I'm going to talk about self-esteem, the material self, the social self, and the spiritual self. So, those are the four classics. Maybe I'll do the true self, too. Maybe I'll make it five.
- 5.78** When we have a self-concept, we have an evaluation of that or an attitude about that. "Hey, Keith. Do you like Keith, or do you not like Keith?" "Hmm, I think I'm a person of worth, at least on an equal plane with others. All in all, I take a positive attitude towards myself. I have self-esteem. Yeah, I guess I think I'm okay." That evaluation of yourself is your self-esteem. It's how much you esteem yourself. "Keith, you like yourself?" "Oh, man, not really. I kind of stuck. I'm not doing a great job as a dad. Career's a little bit on the rocks. Some choices I could have made, and I made the wrong ones. I'm not the best. I'm not the worst, maybe, but my self-esteem isn't awesome." That's low self-esteem.
- 5.79** Typically, people don't hate themselves. If you really hate yourself, that becomes more clinical pathology, usually, because you have a self. Usually, I really like it or I kind of like it. Most people's self-esteem is pretty high. So, that's how we think about self-esteem, as evaluation.
- 5.80** William James had this interesting model. He said that self-esteem was your aspirations divided by your pretensions. Basically, what you aspire to in life versus what you actually accomplish, what you see yourself accomplishing. If you aspire to be president of the United States and you can't even make it to mayor in your town, your self-esteem is going to be low. If you aspire to be—if you aspire to run for County Dog Catcher and you become the mayor, you're going to be the happiest guy on earth. So, a lot of this has to do in James's world with how we expect things.
- 5.81** James has a story. He ran into a Civil War soldier from the South who lost everything. He said he was rolling in the dirt he was so happy. Why was he so happy? Because he had nothing to lose, like that Chris Christofferson song. He had nothing left to lose. He felt good; he felt free. It's like, "I got nothing to aspire to. I feel self-esteem." So, the idea with James is that self-esteem is something that depends on what we want and how well we're getting there.
- 5.82** Modern research on self-esteem focuses a little differently. Often, we think of self-esteem as a core, positive self-view. It's a positive self-knowledge. Like, I feel love deep inside that comes from early attachment. So, people talk about this early self-esteem we get from early experiences of love. That's almost like a resource, meaning if times get hard, I look inward and feel this love.
- 5.83** Another way people have talked about self-esteem now is more of a meter of how you're doing. So, people say, "Ah, self-esteem is a sociometer," meaning it tells you if you're belonging. If you're connected with people, your self-esteem will be high. If your self-esteem is low, maybe you're not connected with people.
- 5.84** Other researchers argue maybe it's a hierarchy meter. I'm not even saying that right. It shows you where you are in the hierarchy. So, if your status is good, you feel self-esteem. If your status drops, your self-esteem goes down, like a gage on a car. So, self-esteem does a lot of things. It can be a resource. It can be a signal telling us how well we can do, how well we're doing. It can be something we really think about and evaluate. Self-esteem is generally pretty high. Like I said, most college students have pretty high self-esteem. We measure something called the Rosenberg Self-Esteem Inventory. I gave you a couple of questions off that.

- 5.85** And in terms of the benefits of self-esteem, despite the self-esteem movement in California in the '70 and '80 and this massive interest in self-esteem and giving kids self-esteem, it doesn't seem to be super beneficial. Self-esteem is really good for fighting depression. So, if you look at a lot of the research, people with high self-esteem—that seems to be a buffer against depression. So, that's really important. Self-esteem seems to be good for starting things. So, people with self-esteem are a little more willing to initiate action, but other than that, it's not some magic thing.
- 5.86** You get lots of very successful people who hate themselves, and they talk to me, "Dude, I hate myself." I'm like, "Welcome to the club. It's okay. We all do," and everyone hugs. Because people are ambitious and they're driven by demons, and that helps. And so, self-esteem isn't always what you need to be successful, but it does make people happier. It does seem to be something I'd want my kids to have. It does seem to be a pretty good buffer for things. So, esteem is evaluation.
- 5.87** The next part of the self that William James talked about was the material self. And what he said was that all our possessions, our clothes, our cars, our outfits, they become part of our self as well. In marketing research, they spend a lot of time focused on this, and they talk about the extended self-concept. What does that mean?
- 5.88** Well, I like to see myself as a man of adventure. Most of my adventures involve walking my dogs around the street, and the highlight is maybe we see a deer. That's my adventure. So, my view of myself as a man of adventure and my actual adventurousness don't align. I don't have quite enough. Thank you to the marketing people out there, I can fill that sucking hole in my soul by purchasing something that shows I have adventure. We call this, in the field, symbolic self-completion.
- 5.89** So, what I can do is I can go buy that new Toyota Land Cruiser they're coming out with. And I won't say I'm on a waitlist for it, but I might be because I had a Land Cruiser when I was 20, and I was cool when I was 20. So, I'm just doing a nostalgia. I'm embarrassed to even admit this. Thank God this isn't in public. And so what I plan to do is modify my self-concept by getting a big debt and paying for a fancy car. That's what I'm doing. It's sad, but I'm going to be honest. That's what I'm doing. That's marketing.
- 5.90** So, what we're doing is we buy stuff to fill out our self-concept, and we do it with our clothes, we do it with stuff. And you get a lot of neat phenomena because of this. So, your car becomes part of yourself. And so, if I'm pissed at somebody and I don't want to attack them because that would be wrong, I could go scratch their car up, and they're going to be pissed because they're going to be like, "I was violated. That's my car."
- 5.91** If you've ever been—when I used to go to Berkeley, I always had my car broken into. San Francisco. Go to San Francisco, and somebody smashes you, and you're like, "Why? Dude. Jeez. God. Why? It feels so bad" because that car is part of myself. I'm not like, "Yeah, it's just a car, man. It's not me. It's just a piece of metal." It's part of myself; it's identity.
- 5.92** Country music songs: what do you do? Your boyfriend cheats on you, the first thing to do? You go burn their car. It's a way to get back at people, but you're only burning their car because it's part of their self, because your self is extended. That's what I mean. These emotions from your self extend to your car. I'm not telling anyone to burn cars. It's not appropriate, but in country music, you got to burn some cars.
- 5.93** So, this material self is something we really focus on. We do it with our looks. A lot of life is what we call identity negotiation. This is no sociological idea, but I will dress in a certain way so people treat me a certain way, and if they don't, it's going to be a little weird. So, if I wear—I'm wearing this casual outfit. That means I'm approachable. You can talk to me. If I were wearing a suit and it was a little more grim, people would go, I'm a little less approachable. But they might think I was smarter, or they might think I had more status. So, it's all a trade off.
- 5.94** When I'm on a college campus, everybody's dressed according to their social status. So, if I see somebody with their Grateful Dead outfit and I'm like, "Hey, what sorority you're in?"

They're like, "No, that's the people with the sorority sweatshirts and the shorts. They're real big. We're the stoner skater kids." "Oh, sorry. I got screwed up. I got the outfit wrong." So, what people do is they dress the part, and they expect to be treated a certain way.

- 5.95** I remember when I first went to grad school, I started wearing glasses and stuff because I thought it made me look smart because I was insecure. And then, I quit wearing them because I thought I looked dumb, and now I'm wearing them here just so I can read a screen. So sad. So, the material self is really important. That's core marketing.
- 5.96** The next part of the self James talked about was the social self. What James said was, "Properly speaking, a man has as many social selves as there are individuals who recognize him and carry an image of him in their minds." So, what James was saying is that you feel like you have a single self, and you do, but that self changes depending on the groups you're with.
- 5.97** His example was, imagine you're a young boy. You're hanging out with your friends, acting like pirates. And you're running around going, "We're going to go plunder." That's what you're thinking. You're going to do damage and plunder, and then you go home to mom. You're a very different person with mom. You're not talking about plundering. You go to church, you're sitting up nicely, you're dressed up. You're not plundering.
- 5.98** So, you have these different roles, and you act differently in different roles. And you see this. You'd be an adult, and you go home for Christmas, and you go, "God, I felt like a kid. It was all creepy. I was just saying—I was yelling at my mom like I was 14. What happened to me? I don't even like this person." Well, you came into another social self. You activated a social self based on the context, and you acted differently because of that. So that's just how social selves work.
- 5.99** Some people are more isolated. Their social selves are more discreet. There's an old Seinfeld episode with George again, where he had a girlfriend, but he never would have his girlfriend meet his friend Jerry because he was like, "Well, there's the girlfriend George and the friend George, and they're totally different. If they met, it would be a nuclear explosion." That's a joke because it's showing a neurotic aspect of having selves that are totally different. But it's a joke, and it's a good joke because it's kind of true.
- 5.100** You have a girlfriend, Keith, and then a cool guy, Keith. And the girlfriend, Keith, is all nice and soft, and the cool guy, Keith, is a tough guy. And then, your cool guys see you with your girlfriend, and then they make fun of you. So, you're like, "I'll just keep those two apart." That's how it works.
- 5.101** Another really interesting thing with the social self is what's called the Looking Glass Self. And this is an old idea from sociology, Charles Horton Cooley. A looking glass is an old-fashioned term for a mirror, like Alice in Wonderland through the looking glass. So, the idea of the looking glass self was the mirror self.
- 5.102** So, imagine this. I walk into a group of people, "Hey." And everyone just goes like this. What am I going to think about myself? "Oh, my God, I'm a horrible person. What did I do wrong? Everyone's doing this." I walk into another group, and everyone's like, "Yes." Doing this, high five, and I'm like, "I feel so good about myself. This is awesome. You guys are cool. I was happy to come to them. These guys were nice. I feel good." We learn about ourselves by watching the reactions in other people.
- 5.103** Other people are like a mirror for us, and we pick up these cues very subtly and very quickly. We learn them from our parents. We learn them from our young children. But even as adults, we pick up the cues in the environment. And so, we're constantly being shaped. Our self-concept is constantly being shaped by the social reactions we see around us, and it's happening all the time. It's a constant reinforcement stream we're not really aware of.
- 5.104** The general rule in life is if you don't like yourself, surround yourself with people who like you because my guess is you probably got some people sucking the energy out of you, like

vampires, to fill the hole in their soul. And so, our self-concept is very socially dependent. It's not a bad thing. Just be smart about who you hang out with.

- 5.105** Finally, James talked about what's called the spiritual self. And the spiritual self is a person's "inner or subjective being and psychic faculties or dispositions." So, what James meant about the spiritual self is that this is where consciousness is. This is where the 'I' is. Again, I can't explain what the 'I' is, but that's where it is. It's your moral center. It's your sense of character, righteousness, goodness.
- 5.106** A hundred years ago, that's what people cared about. Now, we care about personality traits because it's very individualized, kind of pop society. A hundred years ago, it was much more about morals, personal worth, but same idea. It's where cognitive abilities are. Cognitive faculty, intelligence, cleverness, creativity, all those would be in the spiritual self, and all the classic personality traits would be in there. So, James's spiritual self is an interesting idea that includes our aspects, our qualities, but also this consciousness piece.
- 5.107** I mentioned this to one of the questions here, but the term spiritual self, you'll notice in a lot of textbooks it got swapped out with psychological self because people can't handle spiritual. Like Harry Potter in England—it's Harry Potter and the Philosopher's Stone because it comes out of alchemy and the stone that turns dross into gold. But in America, they're like, "Dude, we can't handle that. We'll call it the Sorcerer's Stone, like Disney. Okay. The spiritual self captures a lot of these different things.
- 5.108** And then, the final thing I wanted to talk about, which, I think, is interesting to really wrap up the self stuff before the narratives, is the true self. So one of the questions you have is: if you go through life, who do you want to be? And we talked about this a bit with motivation, trying to self-actualize. What path do I take to self-actualize?
- 5.109** James talked about this is the true self. Often, we use the term authenticity. So, I want to feel a sense of authenticity in my life or be an authentic person. Some of the research on this area done by Mike Kernis back in the day focused on different aspects. So, in the research literature on this, you find people who are authentic. They report having an authentic awareness of themselves and the world. You asking about self-knowledge, just being authentic. Know who you are, know how the world works. Be able to process information unbiased.
- 5.110** So, what happens is, "Keith, you're an idiot." "No, I'm not. You're an idiot." That's not unbiased information processing. That's ego defense. But if somebody says, "You're an idiot," and you go, "Oh, that's interesting, why do you think that? Let's have a discussion about that. I'm really curious about your thoughts about my idiocy." That would lead to a very different conversation. It's very hard to do. It's so hard to do that because of ego. But being able to be authentic is unbiased. It's unbiased behavior. It's doing what's aligned with your values and beliefs. So, acting in accordance with who you are in an aligned way.
- 5.111** And we all think—you watch those old things from Nazi Germany, and everyone's doing the—I'm not even gonna do it—everyone's doing the Roman salute. And then, you got the one guy not saluting, and everyone's like, "I'm gonna be that guy." No one's that guy. But you go, "I'm gonna be that guy." That's somebody acting in accordance with what's authentic to them. Everyone else is like, "Damn, I better salute. I don't want to—." And this one guy's like, "Nah, it's just not working for me." That authentic behavior is real hard. Those are the tests. That's the existential test where you know if you're real or not. Most of life, you fake it. Every once in a while, you get a chance that you get judged.
- 5.112** Authentic relationships—this is one that is harder to find, but the idea is, can you be authentic in your relationships, too? So, it's easy to be a holy man on a mountain. It's easy to be authentic when you live in a very limited space, spiritual space. But can you have that with somebody you love? That's really hard. Can you have that with your kids? So, building authenticity, building transparency is part of it. So, that's really cool.
- 5.113** The other piece of this, that's the opposite that people talk about a lot, is imposter syndrome. So, people will feel like imposters, they'll feel fake, phony, and people get upset

by that. But that's really a normal thing with growth. So, what happens is when you grow into a new position, it's normal to feel like, "I shouldn't be here. Why am I doing this?"

- 5.114** When I first became a department head, probably ten years ago, I was like, "What kind of idiot would give me power? Oh, my God. This is the funniest thing ever." And I called one of my buddies, who was a department head, just became a department head at another major research university, and he sent me an email, and all it was was a file for a song, *The Lunatics Have Taken Over the Asylum*. This is an old ska song from the old days. And I started laughing so hard. It was total imposter syndrome. I did a good job. I took it seriously. But when I first got the job, I was like, "Eh, I shouldn't have this." That's normal for people to feel.
- 5.115** I always tell people: if you don't feel phony all the time, you're not doing—you can always build your life a little box and never get challenged and feel really like, "I'm the king of my box." But you never grow. So, typically, imposter syndrome is something part of a process. It's not how you always start, but it's when you transition to another role. Then, after six months, you're like, "I own it. I want the next thing." It's just the process.
- 5.116** We talked about authenticity and being an imposter. What is a true self? So, this is where it gets really interesting, because in research, you've got one group of people go, "I have to find my true self. I need to go travel here and do this and try this. And one of these days, I'm going to find out who I am, and it's going to hit me like a bolt out of heaven." Other people say, "You know what? I got a lot of options. I'm going to have to just settle on one of these and turn this into my true self."
- 5.117** So, some people think the true self is found in intense experience. Other people feel that their true self is constructed. You can talk to—and this is from the old research at UCLA in the '70s—you can talk to one guy who says, "I found my true self dancing in an ecstatic experience at a party." And you have another person who says, "I found my true self joining the French Foreign Legion and not being able to make any decisions for myself ever again because I identify with that role." So, it's very different how people do it. And I'm going to read you this quote from James because I love it, because it shows how hard this can be if you're a high open person.
- 5.118** So, James says, "I'm often confronted by the necessity of standing by one of my empirical selves and relinquishing the rest. Not that I would not, if I could, be both handsome and fat and well dressed, and a great athlete, and make a million a year, be a wit, a bon vivant, and a lady-killer, as well as a philosopher, a philanthropist, a statesman, a warrior, and an African explorer, as well as a tone-poet and a saint. But the thing is simply impossible. The millionaire's work would run counter to the saints. The bon vivant and the philanthropist would trip up each other; the philosopher and the lady-killer could not well keep house in the same tenement of clay"—excuse me; he's much better writer than I am—"Such different characters may conceivably, at the outset of life, be alike possible to a man. But to make one of them actual, the rest must be more or less suppressed. So their seeker of his truest, strongest and deepest self must review the list carefully and pick out the one on which to stake his salvation."
- 5.119** Love that. James—God, people could write before the Internet. This is what cracks me up about this. What James is saying is, "You want to do everything, man. You want to do it all, but you got to pick one. You can't do everything."
- 5.120** The reason I laugh is, what did James do? He became the greatest American psychologist, then he became the greatest American philosopher, wrote the book on pragmatism, so one of the great American philosophers, then he went in and did the book, *The Varieties of Mystical Experience* and did all this religious work, and he was an Amazonian explorer. I don't think he was a lady-killer, but he had some kids and hunted ghosts. He did everything. He is a great American. He did it all. So, his advice is the exact opposite of what he did, and that's what cracks me up about it.
- 5.121** So, I don't know what the answer is. I just like the fact that there's this challenge in life that if you're an open, engaged person, you want to do it all and everything has costs. You

be a dad. You're like, "Well, there goes a lot of stuff, but it's worth it." Or "I want to not have a family to pursue a career." That's wonderful, but it's cost. Everything's got a cost. So, I think that's really cool.

- 5.122** That was an overview of how James thought about the self and a basic overview of traits. One of the perceptions that can lead to is, "Hey, we're just a bunch of pieces and parts," that there's a lot of our self that we have these different traits, we have these different social selves and material selves. There's just a bunch of pieces. But really, our self and our life seems like a single life. It seems like a single narrative. It seems like a journey.
- 5.123** The way academic researchers have talked about this, and really the analysts before, is that there is a narrative or story quality to life. So, when our self-concept is more of a bunch of beliefs about ourselves, it's also a story we tell. You notice this. I've heard people say, "I talked to CEOs, and I asked for their secret to success, and none of them said, 'Well, here's what I did,' or, 'Here's what you do.' What they did was, here's my story, here's what I found. Here's my struggles, here's my successes."
- 5.124** So, the way we, as humans, integrate all this nonsense we have going on is we put it into a narrative, we just put it into a story of ourselves. The philosopher Daniel Dennett, a really interesting philosopher of mind—if you're interested in this, he talks about the self as the narrative center of gravity. You've got this narrative of your life, and the center of that narrative is yourself. That's kind of what it is.
- 5.125** Dan McAdams, the academic, talks about life as the 'I;' in James's sense, telling the story of the 'Me.' So, he said—we talked about adolescence; you start figuring out identity. What happens is your 'I' starts to tell a story about yourself. Here's who I am in high school. Here are my goals, here are my challenges. Here's how I'm going to be a hero. Here's how I'm going to win. Here's what I'm going to do.
- 5.126** People who study these stories end up calling them narratives. It's often called narrative research. Dan McAdams is probably the best person right now doing this. There's lots of stories we like, but they fall into patterns.
- 5.127** So, one of the great stories in America we love is the Horatio Alger story, the rags to riches story. "I started with nothing. I came to the US with \$22 in the back of a pickup." I talked to three drivers that told me this story this week. Every time I hear the story, I love it. It's my favorite story. "I came here, I had \$68, I knew one person, and all I could do was make cheese because, in my culture, all I could do was make cheese. So, I started making cheese and driving Uber, and next thing you know, I had my own cheese shop. And then, I got my family here and we started this thing. And I'm the king of cheese. I'm the King Cheese at Wisconsin." Whatever. I don't know. I went to Wisconsin. They love cheese up there. And they butter burgers. That's the other thing. They eat burgers with butter on them. Oh my God, it's so wrong that it's so right.
- 5.128** But that's the Horatio Alger story. That's a great story. We love that story. We don't like that story when we're not doing well. This guy's like, "I came here with 12 cents. I couldn't speak the language." Like, dude, I had a degree from Berkeley, and I'm struggling. This sucks.
- 5.129** So, another story we tell is more negative. There's a classic contagion narrative where, "I started out doing things, and things got worse, and then it got worse, and then I fell apart, and then it got worse, and everything I touched went to heck." So, we talk about this as a tragedy, like a collapse. And these stories aren't so fun. Sometimes, it's fun to hear about other people falling apart, but generally, this isn't a fun story. It's a tragic story.
- 5.130** I used to watch those MTV—was it MTV? "Behind the Music," where they always have the band from the '80s, "We had it all, and then we got drugs, and then people started listening to disco, and then we fell apart, and then I lost my family, and then I had to make guitar strings as a minor." What? But usually, in those stories, they come back. Then, usually, there's a revival at the end because tragedy makes you sad. So, there's lots of stories like that.

- 5.131** The big story that we talk about is the hero's journey, and this is one you're probably familiar with. The hero's journey is the cycle of the individual starting as a person, being called to an adventure either by luck or by being blown off course. Darth Vader comes and kills his family, and he's got to go do something. Or he gets an owl come in and starts throwing him letters, and then Hagrid grabs him on a bike and says, "Time for going to magic world." Whatever it is.
- 5.132** You're called to an adventure. You get some allies, you have a bunch of conflicts, you go through some real deep conflicts, you have a battle at the end. You learn something, you bring something back. You bring back an invisibility cloak, or you bring back the noble path, whatever you bring back. And then, there's a return and you come home.
- 5.133** So, the classic hero's journey is the journey to find yourself. It's Odysseus: you go to war, you get blown off course, you go through all these different tests, and you become a hero by going through tests, and then you return. People go, "Heroes go on heroes journeys." No, you become a hero in the journey.
- 5.134** So, Hercules, the first hero, named after Hera, the goddess who sent him on these journeys, Hercules goes through his twelve tests: goes, kills a lion, cleans a bunch of stalls, has to get a fawn, just all these different challenges that line up with the constellations. But in that cycle, he becomes the hero. So, you don't start as a hero; you become a hero in the cycle.
- 5.135** This idea of the hero's journey goes back to a psychoanalyst named Otto Rank, who talked about it in development. But then, a gentleman named Joseph Campbell, who was a professor at Sarah Lawrence, a mythologist, he studied Freudian models and a lot of **Carl Jung's** work, and then he studied a lot of the anthropological models, and what he developed was something called—he wrote a book called *The Hero with a Thousand Faces*.
- 5.136** I don't know if you're familiar with this. I think Jimmy Buffett has a song about this, too. But *The Hero with a Thousand Faces* is—what he's saying is there's a single myth of the hero's journey called the monomyth, and you see it all over the world. There's thousand examples of this story. Every movie you watch, the person writing the movie is reading Joseph Campbell and writing the hero's journey in on it. So, they're all on this archetype.
- 5.137** And so, there's some narrative to life that we follow, and this idea of the hero's journey, which is, I start someplace, I get called to an adventure, I face tests, I succeed in those tests, and I come back home with some knowledge for other people. That cycle seems to be one of the most important stories we tell ourselves. We love that story. We tell it all the time. We like to look at our own life as a hero's journey.
- 5.138** I guess to wrap up here, in terms of the self, it's very easy to figure out who we are by breaking it down, to figure out how our traits are built, to figure out how our self-system's built, but the movement in life, to be an integrated person, so you feel like I'm one person doing one journey, I'm not just a bunch of parts in a big machine, you're telling yourself a story, and you're taking risks, and you're facing challenges. And if you're not taking risks and facing challenges, you're not on the hero's journey. You're on the fake hero's journey. But I always say, "Everyone wants to be a hero; no one wants to take the journey." But if you don't do the journey, you don't grow.
- 5.139** The other thing I say, I talk to my girls about this sometimes, I say— my older daughter's in business school—and I say, "When you see these business leaders come up, is their story ever, 'You know what? I was really smart. I went to war, and I just crushed it. Got really rich, and I bought a yacht.'" No, nobody's story is that way. What if somebody's story was that way? Would you like that person? That's a pretty boring story.
- 5.140** What if the person is like, "I started this company, then I lost it all. I was living on the streets. I fought my way back. I fell in love. I had my heart broken. It was terrible. But I fell in love again. It was awesome." You go, "That's a story, man. That's the story I want." So, what's weird is the story we want is the story of adventure and conflict and overcoming hope. But the path we set ourselves on often is we want to avoid conflict,

avoid challenges, and be real simple. So, this is a challenge, but I think part of self development is that hero's journey is really important.

5.141 I'll end it at that. Thanks, guys.

6. Love and Attraction

At a glance

Close relationships reshape individual psychology. The lecture explores attraction, mate selection, attachment, intimacy, sexuality, commitment, conflict, jealousy, reciprocity, and the development and maintenance of love, while considering biological, social, cultural, and narrative influences on couples.

- 6.1 Relationships—so, what I want to talk about in this class is relationships, moving from the individual psychology to the psychology of a **dyad** to the couple.
- 6.2 We have lots of relationships in humans. We have good friendships, we have family relationships. And what you're going to find in your life is the longest relationship you're going to have is probably with siblings, if you have siblings, because those are the people with you the longest. It's weird. We forget that when we're punching our brother out when we're young, that you want them there the whole time.
- 6.3 But what's really neat about relationships is that our psychology changes when we're in a relationship. It's like a different psychology. We're a little different thing. And you can see this in some cool ways.
- 6.4 So, there's something we call relational schema, relational cognitive knowledge structures, meaning that we often see people as couples. So, people go—they don't remember my name. I always get called, "Hey, are you Kevin?" Whatever. I don't get names, either. No issues.
- 6.5 People can't remember my name, they remember my wife's. They go, "It's something with Stacey—Keith and Stacey. That's it. Keith and Stacey." So, you can't remember a name, but you remember the name as part of a couple because you're seeing people as part of a couple. So, if somebody wants to talk to my wife, they talk to me, and they just assume they're talking to my wife. That might be a bad assumption. But because they group my wife and I as a unit, they assume that what goes to me is what goes to her.
- 6.6 And very rarely does someone say, "I'm going to tell you something, don't tell your wife," because if they do, I'm like, "Dude, it's probably going to slip out. I got to be honest with you." Even if I try not to, maybe if it's somebody—so, it's very much that we make these things into cognitive units that are beyond just the self.
- 6.7 You see other processes as well. One of the most interesting ones they've looked at is transactive memory. So, you have a relationship with somebody, and you start splitting up your memory systems.
- 6.8 So, for example, in my marriage, the reason I don't know anybody's name is my wife does. And she also knows birthdays. So, if I go to a party with my wife, I walk in, I go, "Oh, my God, I can't remember anybody's names. You have to help me." She goes, "Okay," and that's it. And so, we go meet somebody, and she goes, "Hey, John, this is my husband, Keith." I go, John, John, John, John. "Hey John, great to see you again." That's how we do it. I do financial stuff. She's not remembering that. So, we split stuff up.
- 6.9 This is just a normal process of becoming something bigger than yourself. You're becoming a dyad, or a couple, or a pair, whatever, a marriage, even. It's interesting because when you start connecting to somebody, there's always a tension of losing individuality. So, I'm so connected; have I lost myself? People are like, "I'm in this relationship, but who am I?" Or like, "I need to lose my marriage to go discover myself." Sorry, I never think that's a great option, but whatever, I'm not here to judge. But that's what people do. They get lost in a relationship. They feel they're giving too much.
- 6.10 In keeping with the old stories, one of the classic stories of this goes back to Schopenhauer, the philosopher, and he talked about two porcupines huddling in the cold. So, imagine you have two porcupines, and it's freezing out, and they start to huddle

together closer and closer to get warm, and they get warm, but they start poking each other with their quills. They're like, "Man, you're too close. " So then, they push apart, but then they start getting cold again. So, they start pushing together and poking each other.

- 6.11** This tension or this dynamic between individuality and connection is really powerful. Freud used that metaphor in some of his writing. Other social psychologists talked about it in their optimal need for uniqueness or optimal need of individuality. So, there's this sweet spot where we're connected but ourselves. So, this group stuff or this relationship stuff is really important to how we see ourselves. It can be very culturally bound.
- 6.12** In terms of theoretical models of relationship, there's lots of classic theories. So, if you're interested in relationships, the evolutionary psychologists, the people that are interested in how we evolved in our early adaptive environment, maybe 50, 000 to 150,000 years ago, and how that shapes modern relationships and modern mating and modern courtship, there's a lot of interest in that area. There's a lot of interest coming out of **attachment** theory, which we've hit on a couple of times. There's personality models of relationships. There's lots of classic old social psychology of **attraction**. I was going to talk about some of that stuff because it's really fun.
- 6.13** And so, what I was going to do in this talk was talk about—I'm going to do it in order. First of all, I'm going to focus more on romantic relationships because they're fun. They're a little more crazy. And I was going to talk about attraction, processes in attraction, then maybe talk about moving into **love**, and then talk about **commitment**. So, attraction, **love**, **commitment**. That's the general idea I'm going to go with.
- 6.14** But I wanted to first make note that romantic relationships are really interesting and incredibly challenging right now. They're challenging because we live in a very individualistic culture. And so, we have these drives to do what's best for ourself versus these drives to seek deep connection with people, and we always have this tension of doing things.
- 6.15** Joseph Campbell, who we talked about when we talked about the hero's journey, wrote a lot about love in the West. And what Campbell said was, "If you look at the core Western myths, one of those myths is the Grail myth. This is the story of the king. He's sick, King Arthur, and he has his twelve knights, and he says, "Go find the Holy Grail to heal me." And what his knights do is instead of everybody getting together and coming up with a team plan, every knight goes in a different direction. So, the core message of spiritual growth in our culture is everybody goes on their own and finds it. It's very individualistic.
- 6.16** This classic story of love is the same. It's about overcoming your group to connect with somebody else. So, the old story, maybe coming out of Ireland, but there's lots of versions of this, is Tristan and Isolda, or Tristan and Isolde. And it's about two people who are brought together—I think a guy bringing a woman to get married to a nobleman—and they drink a love potion and fall in love, and problems ensue because they're not supposed to be in love. She's supposed to marry somebody in her culture.
- 6.17** The more familiar story, or the more familiar version we're used to, is Romeo and Juliet, which is probably best made into the movie Titanic with Leonardo DiCaprio. That version is really good. What Romeo and Juliet is about is you have two people that have duties to their families, they fall in love, and they're like, "Screw my family"—excuse me— "forget my family, forget everything I care about, love is more important than all the family stuff."
- 6.18** In the Titanic, you have a very wealthy woman and a poor guy, and they're like, "I will give up my family. I will give up my social status because love is more important." But that's a very Western idea: I'm going to sacrifice my family, my culture, and everything else to find individual love.
- 6.19** So, in a weird way, our stories of love are powerful individual stories. We don't tell stories about arranged marriages in our culture. It 's not like, "Hey, this is our great new Disney movie about two people who hate each other, but they have good families, and their

parents force them to get married. And you know what? After 10 years, it worked out really well. They seem happy. " We don't tell that story.

- 6.20** The story we tell is about two people that shouldn't be married, but their own power of unique love allowed them to transcend all those cultural problems in being married. So, love can be this hero's journey, but because we have all this tension between individuals and love, it's hard for us to pick anybody because we're like, "I need a soulmate just like Leonardo DiCaprio had in the movie." But then, you look at Leonardo DiCaprio in real life and like, "Dude, you're not really working to a long-term stable, committed marriage relationship with your mating style." So, it's hard because we have so many choices.
- 6.21** And then, oh God, I didn't even think about it, but Tinder and the Internet and all that, what you're showing people—and we'll see this in a second, in a bit, when we talk about attention to alternatives—you open your computer, and you're like, "Here's a thousand people you could have a relationship with. Pissed at your husband? Hey, here are some options." How does that work? What an evil thing to do to people.
- 6.22** It's like that show—I remember watching this show "Temptation Island." Did any of you guys see that? It was one of these reality shows where they had these couples, and they were like, "You're in a relationship, but before you get serious, don't you want to be tempted by beautiful people from the other—" "No, I don't want to be tempted at all. I'm happy. Don't mess me up." And they're like, "Well, if you were really happy, you could be tempted." But I'm like, "No, you wouldn't." So, it was a disaster because everyone's relationship fell apart. So, this is really—it's hard. Romantic relationships are hard in our culture.
- 6.23** So, I wanted to start out with attractiveness because this work is really interesting. It's gone on for a long time, and there's some different takes on it. So, one thing you can do is ask people what qualities make somebody attractive in a mate. What are you looking for? And if you ask people what they're looking for, what they're going to say, number one is I want somebody kind or trustworthy or honest, some agreeable trait. They're going to say that number one, probably.
- 6.24** They're going to say sense of humor. A lot of times, they'll say sense of humor. No one's really sure why. The latest paper I read on that was maybe a sense of humor is a good measure for problem- solving. I'm like, "Maybe. I don't know." I've known a lot of comedians. I never found them to be the cleverest problem-solvers. Whatever.
- 6.25** Confidence and ambition, especially for guys. People like confidence. They like ambition, and they like positive emotionality. Not so much neuroticism, but positive energy, positive emotionality. That's what people say they want.
- 6.26** Now, if you ask people that, you're like, "Do you want to date Woody Allen? He's super smart, humorous, ambitious, pretty nice." "Not really." Why not? Well, here's what happens. If you ask people what they want, they'll list a bunch of traits that sound pretty good. I want somebody who's confident, kind, sense of humor, nice person, good energy. It sounds like a perfect partner, but you can do studies and ask people what they want.
- 6.27** So, the first studies where they did this were actually all the way back in the 1960s up in Minnesota. I think it was Waster who did this, and it was called a "Computer Dating Study." So, this was the very earliest idea of computer matching. They had a bunch of students. They said, "Tell me what you want in a partner," and then they randomly matched people, except they always had a height. They always had women with taller men because that's a turn-off. So, they always had women with taller men, but everything else was random. And then, they predicted who liked who at the end, who wanted to date the person again. And extraversion, maybe a little, but pretty much the variable that mattered was looks. People want to date somebody again if they're attractive. That was it. The personality didn't matter so much.
- 6.28** Since then, people started doing an interesting line of research on speed dating. I don't know if you remember speed dating. It was popular for a while, but it was, "Hey, you live

in a big city. You want to meet a bunch of people. Why don't we set up a room, we'll have one group of people stay in their seats, the other group switch, and you go meet each other for five minutes, get to know each other, and then, on a piece of paper, say, 'Do you want to date this person again?' You do speed dating studies, and you think, "Well, I'm really funny and extroverted. Everyone's going to pick me. They didn't pick me. Why?" Because everyone picks attractiveness. So, they just go for attractiveness.

- 6.29** So, this is a very powerful predictor of what's attractive: it's physical appearance. I thought about it for a while when I used to teach this, and I realized, well, people spend billions of dollars a year on looking good. We were just chatting about plastic surgery in Miami. A lot of money on plastic surgery. Not a lot of people signing up for Keith's class on how to be socially confident and charming. No one signed up for my humor class. Why is that? They all wanted to get the new hair deal, the hair plugs, but no one wanted my humor class.
- 6.30** Because people aren't idiots. They know that people are shallow and care about looks. I'm just being honest. Looks matter a lot. People are like, "I want people to like me." It's like, "Well, just be as good looking as you can." And you can do that with—anyway, you can do it with hair and stuff. Some of the research on hairstyles—you could take Brad Pitt and put him in a '70s fro. People are like, "He's ugly." What? Really, hairstyle matters a lot. I can't believe it, but it does.
- 6.31** So, what makes people physically attractive? This is interesting what they look for, and some of the evolutionary people have wondered about this a lot. Often, physical attractiveness is a measure of health. People look healthy. They look fertile. So, it's often an age-based thing. If I were on Tinder right now, at my age, I'm not getting anybody swiping left or right. I don't know which way is the good way, but no one's hitting the good way because nobody wants to date a 57-year-old. "Yeah, I really want to date an old guy." No, they want to date a young guy. I don't blame them. I would, too. So, a lot of it has to do with age and fertility.
- 6.32** There used to be a lot of discussion on symmetry, facial symmetry. So, people who have very symmetrical faces—you put them on one side of the mirror or the other, they look the same—is more attractive. So, Denzel Washington, for example, is a really good-looking guy, super symmetrical features. My features are mashed. I think I was born—like the clips didn't match. If you took half of me, it would look pretty good either way. I've read some recent research that it doesn't matter as much, so I don't know, but the pretty strong idea was that symmetry matters.
- 6.33** The other thing that's really interesting with looks is it's about averageness. It's not like, "Hey, I want the biggest eyes. My eyes are that big. They call me the Guppy." "Dude, those eyes are awesome." It's not like that. People want to be about average and a little more.
- 6.34** So, if you take everybody's face and average it up, just with Photoshop, this on top of this on top of this, average looks pretty attractive. Just being average. People are really attractive or average with just a little hand of something, so maybe their eyes a little bigger. And there's some gender differences here, too. But maybe the jaw is a little thinner or a little stronger. Little things like that, but pretty much, we're trying to be average, even with something like height.
- 6.35** Everyone goes, "I want to be tall." Always, guys, "I want to be tall." Do you want to be 7'2? "Oh, dude, that's too tall." Well, you don't really want to be tall. You want to be 6'2, maybe 6'4. That's it. Because if you're too tall, it would be a problem because the world's built for average. It's built for whatever the height is. And if you're too big, you can't fit in an airline seat, you can't drive a car. It's a nightmare. So people, when they say tall, they don't mean tall; they mean a little better than average.
- 6.36** So, that's how a lot of attractiveness works. It's not being extreme. It's hitting the sweet spot in the average thing because we've adapted. Anyway, I think the evolutionary argument would be: we've adapted for average to work, and things that are an extreme have some low benefits but aren't all that much better. So, that's it.

- 6.37** If you control for physical attractiveness and some other things, what you'll notice is there's a pretty consistent effect of similarity and attraction. There's always the debate: do birds of a feather flock together, or do opposites attract? Typically, what you find is people are attracted to people similar to them.
- 6.38** So, the old research was like, "Hey, come in this study, fill out these values. Oh, let's go find somebody over there. Oh, look, here's what they said. Do you like them?" And if they said the same thing, you're like, "I like that person. I like people similar." It's not a perfect effect with personality. It's not so much I'm similar to the person, but they're similar to my ideal of myself. So, if I'm really neurotic, but I want to be cool, I'm going to be attracted to somebody who's cool, not necessarily neurotic. But it's pretty much we like similarity.
- 6.39** The opposites effect, the opposites attract thing, you do see sometimes when people feel reactant. So, it's like, "You can't date that guy. He's from the wrong"—this is from my era—"he's from the wrong side of the tracks." You're like, "You can't tell me who to love, mom. I can love anyone I want, and I'm marrying him." So, that's like psychological reactance, that's using love as a way of establishing your independence or autonomy with your parents.
- 6.40** So sometimes, you do see a phenomenon like that, but often, it's driven by something else. Typically, we're attracted to people like us, but not always. And typically, if it were somebody similar, it would make the relationship a little more stable. It might not be as passionate or exciting as we'll see, but it might be more stable. So that's it. What else?
- 6.41** Oh, the last big thing on attraction that's interesting, this is another one of these things that comes out of evolutionary psych, and it's a pretty powerful effect, is that typically in our species, women are more selective than men. So, if you ask people how attractive people are, men usually rate women as more attractive than women rate men. If you look at some of the data from the Tinders or whatever—I think some of these different websites—women tend to be more selective than men are in terms of attractiveness.
- 6.42** The model from evolutionary psych that explains this probably best is by Robert Trivers, an evolutionary psychologist who's still around. But in the '70s, he came up with this model called parental investment theory, and it was a very simple model. It was: whatever parent invests the most in the offspring is going to care the most.
- 6.43** In a human, if you have a male and a female mate, the female spends a lot more time, energy, and resources on it than the man. Not always. Men, you can have a baby, and you can be there every day for nine months, bringing pickles and ice cream. But still, there's nothing I can imagine harder than carrying a baby for nine months. I've seen my wife do it twice. I saw her throw up once for six months in a row. I couldn't. Yeah, I know. I wouldn't have made it. So, because of that, there seems to be more concern about women's concern.
- 6.44** You can see this in economics. Around a campus, there's a lot of people always buying reproductive cells. So, they will buy sperm samples and egg samples from college students. Big market. How much do they pay for an egg? A lot of money. You donate an egg, it's thousands of bucks. It's expensive; it's hard. What do they pay for a sperm cell? Ain't much. You give them a few thousand, I don't know, and they give you a few bucks. The finances are different. The reproduction is worth more.
- 6.45** It's not always the case that the genders are that way. So, one classic example of seahorses where the men, the males—the men seahorses?—the male seahorses have more cost in mating than females; they carry the young. So, male seahorses are more selective than females. So, it doesn't have to do with sex; it has to do with investment. So, I think that's a really useful model. So, that's another thing that you spin into all this.
- 6.46** So, I thought I'd talk about not just what makes people attractive but what situations make people attractive. So, in the evolutionary literature, in the personality literature, and stuff, we're interested in what qualities make somebody attractive. In the social psychological literature, especially in the '60s, '70s, it got very interesting. And the question is: can we

set up a situation that will make people fall in love or that will make people at least become attracted to each other? So, can we modify the environment? And the answer is yes. You can do it in different ways.

- 6.47** So, one of the first classic findings in this field that was really interesting was what they call the arousal attraction effect or misattribution of arousal. So, it's the idea that if you put people in a state of physiological arousal—and you can do this in different ways— they will tend to rate people as more attractive afterwards. The first study on this is known as the Dutton and Aron Bridge Study. It's a famous one in the field. And they were up in a Capilano River in Northern British Columbia in BC, and they had two conditions. So, this is a classic experiment, except they didn't do random assignments. So, it's a little more of a study, but they've done better versions since then.
- 6.48** So, they had one group of people cross a really scary suspension bridge, and if you see pictures of this, imagine it's like this 5-foot-wide bridge, 450 feet long over a giant gorge. If you've ever been on a suspension bridge, you get out there; they do this. It's gnarly, it's creaky. And they walked across on the other side. These were guys. There was a female experimenter saying, "Hey, tell me about some stuff." Did some TAT, looked at **sexuality**, saw if people were attracted to her. This is the '70s, so you could ask that stuff.
- 6.49** And then, they had another condition, same place, but it was a low bridge that was wooden concrete that didn't rock. Same experimenter on the other side. And they saw in what condition were people more attracted to the experimenter. Well, it turned out when people walked on the scary bridge and got aroused, they showed more attraction.
- 6.50** The argument Aron made was this is a misattribution of arousal, meaning, "Hey, I feel all this arousal. My stomach's shaking, I got butterflies in my stomach, I'm energized, and I see this attractive woman. It must be I'm so attracted to her. That's a misattribution of arousal. It's the arousal that came from the bridge, but I'm attaching it to somebody else. Another term they use for this, which is a little different, but might be what's going on, is called excitation transfer. I have all my excitation from the bridge, and I transfer it to the other person.
- 6.51** So, imagine you're flying to the airport, you're late for a flight, you just chugged down about eight cups of coffee, you're shaking like this, and you to the front of the thing and they're like, "You've got a bottle of water in your bag, you're going to have to wait in line 10 minutes." I don't know. And you go, "Ahh," and start freaking out. Excitation transfer. You had all that arousal. Somebody blocked you, and the arousal came out. So, this is the idea with attraction.
- 6.52** Now, again, they've done a lot of versions of this. The arousal attraction thing works reasonably well. I don't know if it's a misattribution. I think it's probably when you're aroused, you find things more attractive, but it's a cool finding.
- 6.53** But there's more because in the '70s, people had fun doing science because it was 50 years ago. So, one in the classics is David Gergen, up at Swarthmore College, and he did a study, which is known as the "Dark Room Study," also known as "Deviance in the Dark." A classic study.
- 6.54** He had two groups. One group of people went into a very dark room. A group of co-eds that didn't know each other—well, they might have, but I don't think they were supposed to—walked in a dark room together with no lights on. And another group walked into a room that looked like this, really light with name tags. And then, they watched what happened.
- 6.55** Well, when you put people in the dark room, you get about 90% of people touched each other, about half the people hugged each other. There was some kissing; three quarters reported being sexually aroused versus a quarter in the light room. There are people pushing people away because people were being kissed, and some people not wanting to be kissed, even though it was the '70s and people were pretty chill back then. It was still a little creepy. In the light room, nothing happens. You just sit there and look at each other.

It's a conference. It's boring. It's that simple, but just putting people in a dark room starts leading.

- 6.56** So, the term we use for this in psychology is deindividuation. It's a deindividuation. You take away people's individual identity, and they start to act a little more on impulse and not as much based on morals. You can do this by putting people in darkness. You can do this by putting people in costumes.
- 6.57** So, on Halloween, I always get nervous that it's going to turn into a battle because you have a bunch of people in costumes, and they're usually drunk, and that doesn't help either. When you see those videos of kids dressed as ghosts or whatever, stealing huge things of candy, I'm like, "Dude, they're in costume. That's what you do." When you're in costume, "I can ignore all the rules." That deindividuation is really powerful for getting people to ignore social norms of behavior and acting on impulse.
- 6.58** So, if you're in a football game, everyone has their outfits on, people feel hidden in the crowd, and then they go burn—we don't do that, we're nice. But in other places, you see them go burn stuff because it's the individuation. That leads to attraction.
- 6.59** Another one that comes up a lot is fear. So, we call this sometimes the fear affiliation effect. You'll notice this if you ever fly in an airplane, no one talks anymore. But if you're on an airplane and you start hitting really bad turbulence and you're scared to death, if you hit real turbulence, you drop 10 feet, and people are like, "What the heck?" People will look at each other, and then they'll start talking.
- 6.60** You're in an elevator, and everyone's in the elevator looking at their shoes because that's what we do now. And then, the elevator stops and starts doing this, and everyone looks around, "What do you think is going on?" And then, pretty soon, people are best friends. If you're stuck in an elevator with people afterwards, like six hours, you'd be sharing names. At the end of it, you'd be like besties.
- 6.61** The argument is that our ancestors, like my great-great- great-great-ten-times-hundred Uncle Tony—when he got scared, he went by himself. So, when the tigers came to attack us, he ran out by himself. He never had kids. He just died. But my great-great-great-great-grandfather, when tigers came, he huddled up with the tribe around the fire and got sticks, and he survived. So, the idea is that we've evolved when we're in fearful positions because humans are just weak.
- 6.62** We're just—you're out in nature, I like to think I could take it—you read those studies, guys, like 40%, are like, "Yeah, I could beat up grizzly." No, you can't. You're not going to beat a grizzly. But I still think I could beat a grizzly; I'm that crazy. I'm like, "I got to hit him like that. Yeah, I got him." There's this sense of humans being strong, but really, we're very weak.
- 6.63** I had a face-off with a monkey once in Africa. This thing was about this big, and I'm trying to protect my kid. And this monkey is doing this monkey's dominance displays. I'm like, "I'm going to die. I'm going to be killed by a tiny little monkey," and he could have killed me. I had to stare him down. So, humans are weak except in groups with weapons. So anyway, there's an argument for this.
- 6.64** The famous study of this was done by Schachter, who also was in the "When Prophecy Fails" study. And what he did is he brought students to a lab, did a little experiment, said, "Hey, you"—half the students—"you're going to get shocked," but they're not really shocked, it's more like a tickle. And then, "You guys are going to get some shocks, and don't worry, it's not going to leave permanent scarring or disfigurement, but it's probably going to burn and blister a little bit, but not permanent damage, just blistering. Hey, do you want to wait with other people, or do you want to wait by yourself?"
- 6.65** What you find is people that are going to get blistering painful shocks want to wait with other people. People that aren't getting blistering shocks are fine to wait by themselves. So, we want to fill it with people when we're scared and not so much when we're not.

- 6.66** The last one I want to talk about, situationally, is really a neat finding, and I'm going to have to explain a little bit. So, there's a term known as liminality, which most of you are probably—I'm not seeing a bunch of nods. Does anyone know liminality? I got one. Yeah, it's a guest. Liminality is a neat term, and it comes from a term called the limen. So, the limen is the 'threshold' between the consciousness and the unconsciousness.
- 6.67** We talk about what's conscious or superliminal, we talk about the limen or what's liminal, and we talk about what's subliminal or below the limen. So, you're probably familiar with the term subliminal, but you never thought, "What is that liminal I'm sub? What am I under?" That's the limen.
- 6.68** In ritual, if you study anthropology, what you'll see in ritual space is they often try to bring people into a liminal space during the course of a ritual. If I go to a Catholic service with my Catholic family, the service usually starts out—there's some basic stuff, it's boring. Then, it starts to get to the liminal space. They start singing, they got some incense going, you do communion, and people are reconnecting. And then, there's often a giving of peace afterwards. They say 'peace' to each other, and everyone shakes hands. They put everyone in a liminal space in the ceremony and then have people reconnect to give space.
- 6.69** I'm more of a deadhead, so most of my experiences are Grateful Dead shows. You go to Grateful Dead shows; the first set is basic, the second set starts, then it gets weird, then they do drums, then they do space, which is really weird, they're just playing music, then, it will come back to something that reintegrates people. So, you go in this liminal phase. Everyone gets out of themselves, reconnects, and then they bring everyone together with some group celebration. That's a classic ritual form. It's breaking you apart, bringing you together. These liminal spaces are really good for connecting with people. So, when you're in these liminal spaces, you connect with people.
- 6.70** So, this is another work by Art Aron, who's a great relationship researcher and thinker. And he started looking at liminal spaces, and he did it with experiments with weird music. The way I like to think about it is: what do people think about when they think about romance?
- 6.71** So, typically, if I had a class of people, I'd say, "What's the most romantic setting you can think of?" And they will go, the number one answer— I'm short-circuiting this— the number one answer is, "On a tropical island." And I say, "What time of day?" They go, "Sunset." "Where?" "By the ocean."
- 6.72** So, what they pick for the most romantic spot is the twilight zone between light and day, when the air is 80 degrees, and the water is 80 degrees, and it's about the same temperature as your body; you're basically in a sensory deprivation tank. That's the feeling where you get liminal because your self gets a little wobbly at those phases, and you can connect with people.
- 6.73** "Give me another one." They usually say, "Well, imagine you're in a cabin in the winter by a fire, and the snow is coming outside." And I say, "What are you laying on?" And they say, "A bear skin rug." But that's another very liminal state. It's wintertime. You're by a cozy fire; it's light, it's dark. Candlelight—very liminal.
- 6.74** The last one people always do is Paris at the Eiffel Tower with the lights on by the Seine. The last time I was by the Eiffel Tower, a blind woman just beat me with her cane. So, I never feel that—she was not mean. She just was trying to find her way, and I couldn't get away fast enough. But that's very romantic, too. So, that's another one.
- 6.75** So, a lot of times what we're doing, when we think about romance, is we're trying to find this liminality. We're trying to get our self—our active everyday self is up tight, a little bit intense, and we try to winnow that down to have romance.
- 6.76** So, a lot of this situational stuff matters. If you think about it, how do you plan a perfect party? Well, if you have lighting like this, everyone sits around with a name tag, "Hi, my name is Keith; ask me about my golf game." That 's lame. That's really not fun. That's not a

party. That's called a conference. That's not fun. That's like, "Hey, how are you doing?" It's not romance. "Hey, I'm going to have some romance. Let's put on our name tags."

- 6.77** You want to make a perfect party, what you do is you make it dark. You make it really dark. You have people wear costumes—I live right around the corner from Greek Row. I know how this works. You got the giant King Kong party. They still have toga parties, I think. Maybe those got banned, but a lot of costume parties. People are usually drunk drinking these giant gallons of—they mix Vodka and Tang or something. They call them blackout rage gallons. Have you ever heard of the BORG? I love it. These kids, man. They're doing their thing.
- 6.78** The kids, doing their thing, want to have a party. Their party is a liminal space. There's booze involved. There's loud music. It's basically a dark room study, usually not fear affiliation, but maybe a little bit, but often live music. They're setting up an atmosphere for romance. That's what they're doing. They're not setting up a conference.
- 6.79** It can be dangerous because that social setting works; it makes people more susceptible to it. So, I'm not saying it's a great setting. I'm saying that's what people do naturally.
- 6.80** So, when we think about—God, I've been talking a lot—when we think about attraction, it's not just qualities of the person, but it's also qualities of the environment, and it's hard to fall in love under fluorescent lights. That's a good line, 'It's hard to fall in love under fluorescent lights.' So, that's the process of attraction.
- 6.81** And now, how do you get from attraction to love? How do you move from attraction to something bigger? And there is a few different paths for this. I think there's more going on that we haven't figured out, but one of the really important things you see in the process of getting to connect with somebody is what's called reciprocal self-disclosure. What that is, is taking turns, talking about yourself, or revealing or disclosing information about yourself, but in a reciprocal, even way.
- 6.82** So, I go to my therapist, my psychiatrist, he's like, "Tell me about your day." I'm not like, "Hey, I had a pretty tough day. How about you?" It's not reciprocal. "I hear voices in my head. Do you hear voices in your head?" "Yeah, I do, too." It's not like that. It's one-sided. But in a relationship, it's reciprocal.
- 6.83** We can do this in a lab. So, Art Aron used to do this in a lab back at Chapel Hill. We developed systems like that. Essentially, you can bring two people and say, "Here's a list of questions. Go for it." It's like, what's your name? Where are you from? What music do you like? Where would you like to travel? Tell me something about yourself most people don't know. What's your biggest fear? What have you loved most in your life? In 10 minutes, you can know somebody really well.
- 6.84** And the truth is: no one cares about you at all. I hate to break it to you. So, it's very rare that people sit down and really ask us questions. So, putting yourself in that reciprocal self-disclosure can lead to connection. It leads to liking, to closeness. If you hate the person, you'll figure that out, too. But in the research Art Aron did, he found people get married after this. So, that's a really good way, a Tootsie Pop model—to get in the Tootsie Pop is to go through that reciprocal self-disclosure process.
- 6.85** Another really cool model Art Aron had is called the self-expansion model. And this is really neat after talking about the self as we did. So, what Aron argued is that in the process of forming a relationship with somebody, you expand yourself to include skills, knowledge, and ability of the other person.
- 6.86** So, my wife is in business, management, does a lot of leadership stuff. Because I'm married to her, I end up going to some of this business stuff. I've ended up building a set of skills, and I can talk a certain way, and I learned a lot of things I wouldn't know otherwise. My wife's learned a lot because she's married to me, and I'm insane. So she's had to learn a lot of skills, too. And so, there's this process of self-expansion that happens.
- 6.87** We use this in the movies a lot. So, one of my favorite romance movies is about vampires called Twilight. And in the movie, there's this nice girl named Kristen Stuart, and then she

falls in love with a vampire. And she falls in love with the vampire, and the book is about how much she expands or self-expands, "Oh, my God, your skin turns into diamonds in the light. Oh, my goodness, you can fly into trees. Oh, my goodness, you have a secret vampire kingdom in Italy that's going to kill me. This is awesome. I'm so excited."

- 6.88** And in fact, she was so passionate that she fell in love with a werewolf, too. There was a werewolf. I don't know if she fell in love with him. And she had the whole werewolf thing. And so, you think about what the movie is about: it's about the expansion that she's having, and she experiences that expansion of herself dating a vampire as being passionate love.
- 6.89** So, what Aron is arguing is how quickly we expand is how quickly we feel passion. So, Kristen Stewart, I hope I got the name right, she marries the vampire. She feels all this passion because she's growing so much.
- 6.90** If she had gotten in a relationship with the guy at the corner gas station, a good solid guy, great American, great Washington citizen, she'd say, "This is great. I got to learn about gas stations, and I learned about your family." It's not romance. It's going to feel companionate. It's going to feel like slow love. It's not going to be the big up, but it's still going to be good. It's a slower burn. So, what happens when you date the vampire? It's awesome for a while because you're learning so much.
- 6.91** And then, what happens? You go, "Hey, let's go to the beach. It's a nice warm day in Washington." And he's like, "Oh, baby, I can't go to the beach. I'd die." "What a loser. I just want to go to the beach. Why am I with this lame vampire? I should have been with the guy—or I should have been with the werewolf guy. He's cool. So, when that expansion stops, it gets boring.
- 6.92** That's the catch. So, you get super expanded, and then it gets boring. One of the challenges here, if you're using this self-expansion process, is that if you're in a marriage after a while or in a committed relationship, and you get to know the person really well, you need to start doing stuff together. So, instead of like, "Hey, we know a lot of—hey, let's go do this thing for fun. Maybe the two of us will go kill a werewolf together, whatever. That'll be fun." So, you start to keep expanding, but you do it as a couple, and that keeps the growth going.
- 6.93** But it's hard because you can only expand—I mean, even the most interesting people get real boring once you know them. But this is a really cool model. I like this model of love because it's a dynamic model. It involves the self, and it fits a lot of our movies that we watch. So that's an idea of love.
- 6.94** There's some other interesting ideas of love as well. So, love is this really cool concept in psychology, in the psychology of relationships. And people love saying love. We use the word 'love' a lot. But if I went around and asked you guys, "What is love?" I'm going to get some different answers. I'm going to get some people say it's passion. I'm going to have one say it's deep commitment and sacrifice. I'm going to have someone else say it doesn't exist; it's fake. There are all sorts of different things. So, what's happened over the years is different researchers have tried to put together models of love, like chemical models of love. So, I thought I'd go over a couple of those.
- 6.95** The first, and I think, probably the most common model you'll see is Sternberg, Robert Sternberg. It's the guy who did user intelligence research but used the same model and looked at love. And it's called Sternberg's triangular model. It's triangular because there's three pieces.
- 6.96** So, what he did is asked people what love is, looked at all these different answers, tried to build a model of it, and it seems that what happens is you get three basic components that make up love. Passion: sexual erotic energy, that kind of love. There's **intimacy**: a deep knowing of a person, a deep understanding of a person. I know this person better than anybody, and they know me better than anybody. We've been through so much together. It's unbelievable. And there's commitment. And commitment is this intention or desire to

stay in the relationship. So, you get different pieces. You have passion, you have intimacy, and you have commitment.

- 6.97** Now, he would argue that complete love or consummate love, as he calls it in the model, is a combination of all three. So, in complete love, you have passion, and you have intimacy, and you have commitment. But in reality, that's not always the case. You get some interesting variations.
- 6.98** So, sometimes, you get what he calls romantic love. We have a lot of passion and intimacy, but there's no commitment. So, in the old days of the troubadours, this was the idea, this middle ages stuff. You'd sing songs to a lady in the court, and there's this passion, but there's no idea that you're going to have a committed relationship because you're just a singer and they're a lady in the court. So, you can have this romance like that without commitment.
- 6.99** You can have what he calls companionate love, where you have intimacy and commitment without passion. So, whenever I ask people about this, "Oh, can you imagine a relationship where there's a lot of intimacy, there's a lot of commitment, but the passion really isn't there?" And people always go, "Well, that's like old people being married." I'm like, "Thanks. Thanks. That feels good. I try." But that's what companionate love is. It's like you love somebody, you really know them, but it's not necessarily tons of passion.
- 6.100** And then, you get this real cool version, which I always think of the Las Vegas love, which is passion and commitment without intimacy. So, "I love you. You're the greatest thing ever. I want to be with you my whole life. I don't even know your last name, but I think it's important we hit the Elvis Presley Chapel and get married right now. God bless Las Vegas." So, that's what Sternberg would call fatuous love, infatuation.
- 6.101** But you can get real high commitment and passion without knowing the person you're with. That might work; you might roll the dice, and the person might be great, but very often, you roll the dice with that, and it turns out the person isn't great.
- 6.102** So, love is really complicated because you really want all those three pieces if you want something long- term and durable, but they're all very different pieces, and it's hard to put it all together. And it changes over time. So, you start with—the typical model of a relationship is you start off with higher passion, and then you end up with higher emotional intimacy and companion love. And that's the pattern, especially in our culture, because our mating system is who I find attractive and want to date. And then, you move into something like marriage, and that's where it's about commitment and duty and discipline. It's just a different energy.
- 6.103** And we feel like, "I want to find the hottest, sexiest person to have a lifetime business relationship with and raise kids." You're like, "Are you sure that's your best strategy for doing it? Maybe you should just ask your mom to find somebody for you." "No, I'm 18. I think I want to find whoever is really attractive." I love it. It's a funny system. So, the Sternberg model of love I like, because it's a very systematic model. I think it captures a lot of it.
- 6.104** Another model—I used to use this a lot in my narcissism research because it gets some of the more, a little more dysfunctional models of love—and this is a model that came from a gentleman named Lee in the '70s who called it the "Colors of Love." I never quite figured out why it was 'colors' because it's all done with Greek words, but it was originally from that.
- 6.105** And then, a couple of psychologists, Susan Hendrick— I forget her husband. She's very sweet. And the Hendricks came up with what they called the "Love Attitude Scale." And they developed a model of love that had six different styles of love, and they gave each one of these styles a Greek letter. They break them into primary and secondary styles, like the colors, but I've never figured out how that works, so I'm going to skip that. So, here are the love styles, the six they talk about. Some of these sound like—some of these are Sternberg's, and some are different.

- 6.106** So, the first is Eros, which is passionate love. This is what you would say is the word erotic. This would be passion in the Sternberg model. So, Eros—that's pretty normal.
- 6.107** The second one is more interesting, Ludus, which is game-playing love. So, the word ludicrous comes from the word 'ludus' or 'to play games.' Game-playing love is very interesting. You see this with narcissism. You see it with more manipulative personality styles. It's making people feel you're committed and then taking that commitment away. "I love you. You love me. I don't love you." That stuff. So, giving commitment, not doing commitment, pretending you're one thing, not being another thing, pretending you're interested in deep romance or deep commitment and then taking that away. It's just messing with people. And to the extent you can play games, you end up with power.
- 6.108** So, there's this weird rule about relationships. They call it the principle of least interest. Very old sociological model, very powerful. If you have two people in a relationship, the person who's least interested in relationship has the most power. It's not the way it should be. So, I'm dating my wife when we're dating, and she's really attractive, and I'm not, and she has all the power. She's like, "Hey, let's go see that new Hugh Grant movie. I heard that's really fun." And I'm thinking I'd rather put a gun to my head. "Of course, I'd love to go see that. That would be awesome, sweetheart," because she has the power because she's beautiful. She doesn't care. She doesn't need me. I'm doing whatever she wants.
- 6.109** That's the challenge with this stuff. Game-playing is a way people keep power in relationships by not showing their commitment. So, it's a way people are able to manipulate you by keeping power.
- 6.110** Another form of love that's neat is Storge, which is a word I don't really use as much—a Greek term. I don't really know the word we use much, but it's basically friendship or companionate love. So, Storge is about being a close friend with somebody. This, I think, would be closest to a commitment or companionate love. It's good, friendship-based love.
- 6.111** Then, with the secondary love styles, you get some other interesting ones. One of my favorites is called Pragma, and this is a word like pragmatic. So, Pragma love is logical, rational, almost like—they call it shopping list love style.
- 6.112** What are you looking for in your partner? "Well, I'm really open to anybody who's 6'2, makes \$185,000 a year, eats perfectly healthy food all the time, can cook, and has plenty of time to spend with me." "Well, that sounds easy. Lots of rich people have plenty of free time and like to cook healthy food. I'm sure you'll find one tomorrow." That was a joke.
- 6.113** But that's the idea of pragmatic love. It's when people have lists, and they go, "When I find somebody who hits this list, I'm going to marry them." Not a bad strategy. You know what you want. You're going to get what you want. God bless you for doing it.
- 6.114** But it's often hard because when you come up with your list, it's like, "Yeah, I'm looking for a great house. I'm thinking it would be great as maybe a waterfront. I'd love to have the beach. And just four bedrooms. Three, four, I guess, would be good. And you got to have a pool, but that's just—it doesn't have to be huge. And yeah, maybe a waterfront house with a pool, and four bedrooms, and a three-car garage in case I got my Suburban, and that's it. That's all I want in a house." That's pragmatic.
- 6.115** You're not going to be happy necessarily because it's hard to find these shopping list people because usually, rich people who work really hard don't have all the time to chill out with you and drink. It's hard. It's just like James talking about all the things he wants to be, and they collide. So, pragmatic love is a neat one that you see a lot.
- 6.116** Mania is another cool love. This is mania. It's a term like manic or mania. So, this is a possessive love, dependent love. It's linked to some clinging attachment style. This is like, "Yeah, if I can't have you, I'm going to burn your car down, and no one can have you." It can get a little scary, often associated with maybe some lower self-esteem, lower attachment, and it can be very dangerous. So, you can end up in relationships with people—I like to make everything light, but honestly, this can be very dangerous because you can have exes that become stalkers.

- 6.117** And people who are famous will get these erotomaniac stalkers who don't even know them. They're like, "I am in love with Brad Pitt," and you come home one day, and this woman's in your house like, "I thought we were married. " You get weird stuff. So, mania can be a little dark, but it's interesting to study because it's a little bit dark.
- 6.118** And the final love style in this model was Agape. Those of you who maybe study religion or some of the Christian traditions talk about agape in the Catholic Church, they talk about agape. But it's really a selfless love. It's an idea of a love for everyone beyond yourself. So, it's very much all-giving. I don't know of a word that comes from that. I've heard people say agape, like open. I'm like, "I don't think that's it, but I don't know." Again, that's a love that's Christ-like, that's open, that's available to people. Most of us probably won't get there, but very different.
- 6.119** So, what I like about this model of love, it's not as clean how it fits together, but you capture some of this neat stuff we see. And you might not see this in a lot of normal behavior, but you'll see a lot of this stuff with pathology. So, like I said, the game plan I see a lot with narcissism and psychopathy. The mania you see with some of the more dependent and more problematic attachment styles. Pragmatism I see all the time. And again, it's not a bad thing. So, this is a cool scale.
- 6.120** So, we've talked a little about attraction. We've talked a little bit about love. And I wanted to finish up talking about commitment. Marriage and relationships are weird. It's like we fall in love in every movie. "Oh, they fell in love, and they got married, and they lived happily ever after." That's the story. They never show the marriage. They never show the prince and the princess three days in. What the hell? What? Throwing their boots at each other, breaking the glass. They never show that stuff because that's no fun.
- 6.121** But what you find is that maintaining a committed relationship takes a lot of work. We buy a house, and you know if you want that house to look good in 10 years, you're going to have to swap out the roof, you're going to have to paint it, you're going to have to pressure wash, you got to hire a landscaper. It's going to be a money pit. That's what a house is. It takes a lot of work to keep a house. I don't have a boat, but I've heard boats are even worse. But people, when they get married, don't think that. They go, "I found my marriage. I'm done." I'm like, "No, you just started. You just got the keys to your house. Now you got to do your work."
- 6.122** So, Caryl Rusbult, who was a psychologist at Chapel Hill, and other people like John Holmes and some other really great interdependence researchers started looking at the process of commitment. And they found that there are certain things that really predict commitment in relationships. And then, once you're committed, there are certain behaviors, maybe called relationship maintenance mechanisms or relationship maintenance strategies, that if you do those, your relationship will last.
- 6.123** So, when you look at commitment, there are three big predictors. The first is what everyone knows about, which is how satisfied are you in the relationship. You're getting more rewards than cost. "Hey, my partner's great. She's really nice. I like hanging out with her. She's not mean. I'm pretty satisfied." So, it's satisfaction.
- 6.124** When you study relationships, I say this in the old days, now kids don't date as much, but when I would study, when I was doing this work 20 years ago, you'd find lots of kids date, and mostly if you're in college, you're dating people you're satisfied with. When you're not satisfied, you're like, "Peace out, this isn't working anymore." As you get older, though, there's more that comes in. So, their satisfaction is a big one.
- 6.125** The other big one is quality of alternatives. So, do you have somebody better? I'm satisfied with my partner, but maybe there's somebody better, and that's going to keep me out of the relationship. If you grew up in a small town in South Georgia in 1928, you didn't have a lot of alternatives. It was Susie or Becky, and you pick. And you're like, "My only other choice is Susie. Becky, I like you. I'm sweet on you, Becky. And Susie's pretty good, but that's plan B. I'm set."

- 6.126** Nowadays, you're like, "I like Susie, but I got on the internet, and there's 4 million Susies within 100 miles of my zip code that all seem pretty interested in me. And this one says she dances with pythons. I don't know what that means, but that sounds cool. " We don't have a ton of alternatives. We have the illusion of alternatives. So, right now, it's very hard to stay committed because of that nonsense. It's better in the old days. So there's satisfaction, but there's also alternatives.
- 6.127** The final thing, and this is what people think about the least, are the investments in your relationship, how much you've invested. So, when Caryl Rusbult made this model, she called it the investment model because that's what people don't think about as much.
- 6.128** Imagine I'm in a marriage. I'm married to a narcissistic husband. He 's really a bad guy. He's unfaithful, but we have a house together. His name's on the mortgage. And we have two kids, and our kids are going to good schools. What do I do? Well, I'm not satisfied. I sure as heck could find better alternatives, but my investments are really, really high in this marriage. I'm not going anywhere.
- 6.129** So, you can end up committed to a marriage or a relationship you're not satisfied with because your investments are so high. And those investments are often things you think about, like kids or a shared house. There are also things like a friendship network. So, if we break up, I don't have any more friends because all my friends are my wife 's friends. I just admitted that. I didn't always admit it to myself, but that's true. I'd have one friend from high school. Yeah, so you lose all your friends. It sucks. It's really hard. There's a lot of investments in things.
- 6.130** The other thing people think about, which is maybe not as healthy, is time, a sunk cost. They go, "I've invested three years in this relationship, and I'm not giving it up now." And I'm like, "Dude, I bought Pets.com stock in 1990, and it went bankrupt. I'm not selling it either, but we're both idiots." And so, in economics, they call that the sunk cost fallacy. You 're never getting that time back. It doesn't matter, but it's very hard for us to say we wasted two years of time in a relationship. So, that's an investment, too.
- 6.131** So, if you want to look at what predicts commitment in a relationship, it's your satisfaction, which most of you are thinking of, but it's also your alternatives, and it's also your investments. Those things all matter. So then, imagine, I came into this relationship, I'm committed. Well, what do you do to keep it committed? How do you keep the house up to keep it going? Well, what researchers have studied over years and years are these different mechanisms that people use, and I'll give you some of those.
- 6.132** One of those we hinted at, but it's this cognitive overlap of yourself and your partner's self. One term we use for this is cognitive interdependence. Basically, we start to identify not as an 'I' but as a 'We.' So, if somebody says to me, "Hey, Keith, you want to go to the Dead Show?" I'm like, "Absolutely. Let me check with my wife." The first thing is I got to check with my wife. I don't make any decision without checking with my wife. We're the same. It's been a long time. That's just how it is.
- 6.133** People are like, "You shouldn't be like that." I'm like, "Yeah, I shouldn't be a lot of things, but I am. I am." So, this seeing yourself as a 'We,' seeing your couple as a unit—that's a real strong predictor of commitment. You're not going to want to give that up.
- 6.134** Another one is willingness to sacrifice. In our culture, the idea of sacrificing for somebody else, like, "Don't do that. You can't give up. You go, you go. Dude, no." If you want to stay in a committed relationship in this modern economy, you 're going to have to sacrifice. My wife moved to Cleveland for two years. Cleveland was great; I shouldn't say it, but it's not the best. Two years because she was—actually we weren't even married at that point. We were engaged. She gave me a shot. She shouldn't have. She should have demanded a ring, but she knew what was going on. And that's sacrifice; she sacrificed a lot to keep our relationship going.
- 6.135** People have to make those hard decisions all the time, especially with our labor force. People are always being pulled in different directions for careers. We have a lot of desire

for careers, but you always have to give something up to stay married. That's how it works: sacrifice.

- 6.136** You get weird partner enhancement and other partner derogation. So, if I see people—I've done studies like this—but people will over-enhance their partner. "How attractive is your spouse?" "My spouse is really attractive." So, people—we think our spouses are probably more attractive than they are. That helps us keep our relationship together.
- 6.137** But we also derogate other people. "Hey, Keith, how attractive do you think that cool actress is?" I can't remember which one I'm thinking of. "She's a five." "What?" "Dude, I'm married. Everybody's a five. It makes it easier." So, what people will do if they want to keep with their partner, they're not going to see everybody else as attractive. It's just a weird, automatic process. It's not like people are doing this intentionally, but they derogate other people. Not in a really down way.
- 6.138** Or they'll do it with marriages. So, you go out with a bunch of couples, and you come home, and you're like, "Man, Jackie and Juan, they're always fighting. They got a tough relationship. Thank God, our relationship's awesome." You're like, really? But you put—these are all normal comparisons you do to tell the story: our relationship is awesome, I don't want to wreck it. So, you do all those.
- 6.139** The final one, and I think the most important, is the process of accommodation. So, what happens in a marriage or in any relationship, say marriage, any relationship, is you end up with conflict. Here's how it goes. You're home, your spouse comes home, and I 'm in a pissed-off mood, and I say—my wife goes, "Hey, Keith." I go, "Hey, honey, what's for dinner?" She 's like, "I don't know. Whatever you make. Here's a pan." Throws me a pan.
- 6.140** Then, I've got two responses. I can go, "Oh, sweetie, it sounds like you're having a tough day. Should I go draw a bath for you? How about a glass of wine?" That's one response. Or I go, "How dare you throw that pan at me? I'm the man of the house." And then, I start yelling. And she goes, "Man of the house? No, that was your brother long time ago." I'm like, "Agh!" And then, I turn into a—and then the marriage decompensates right there. It spirals out of control.
- 6.141** And that's what happens with accommodations. So, somebody does something destructive, and if someone else does something destructive, it'll just take on a life of its own. This happens all the time. I talked to Caryl about this, Rusbult. I'm like, "What makes a marriage work?" And she goes, "Be nice." And she goes, "Wait, no, don't be mean." That's the number one thing, don't be mean.
- 6.142** So, the way this accommodation—the model of this accommodation is when someone, some partner—and this always happens— does something negative, you have a couple of options. You can do something that's active or passive, and it can be destructive or positive. So you can have active destructive or active positive responses, and you can have passive constructive or passive destructive responses. They turn into four types: exit, voice, loyalty, neglect. Those are the big four.
- 6.143** So, my wife says something mean. I can do an exit response: "Peace out. I'm out of here. I don't need this relationship." Exit, maybe throw something on the way out to show how righteous I am. I love showing my righteousness. It gives me power. That was a joke. I hope you're not—get power over you.
- 6.144** I can do something active and positive. I can do what I said before: "Hey, it sounds like you're having a tough day. Let's talk about this. Why don't I give you some peace? You work through this, and I'll talk later." That'd be great. That really messes with people, too. "I hate you." "Man, I'm really sorry you feel that way. What can I do for you?" That takes all the power out of them. New Age people used to do that to me. "Arg!" And they're like, "Sorry you feel that way."
- 6.145** And then, you can do the more negative stuff. So you can do something that's more of a neglect response that 's more passive. Your wife yells at you. This is what guys used to do when they read the newspaper. They'd hide behind the newspaper, like, "I'm not listening

to anybody." So, you can do something like that, stonewalling, they call it in some of the clinical literature. You can stonewall your partner, not say anything, a hostile silence.

- 6.146** And there's a more positive passive thing you can do, which is a loyalty response, which is a little tricky. But your partner comes in like, "I hate you." You're like, "That 's okay, sweetie." Just water off a duck's back. Negative stuff comes, and you're like, "I'm going to let it go. I know my partner's pissed off. Just let it roll. We'll get through it." So, this accommodation stuff happens all the time. We have to get through it to make our marriage happy.
- 6.147** Here's the catch. The way we built our society is we get up in the morning, we rush to work, we spend all our energy at work, we're smiling at people, we're self-regulating, we're serving people at a restaurant, "Hey, I love everybody. Everyone's great." We get home, we see our significant other, we're exhausted, and we're tired, and we're pissed off, and we save all that anger for our partner.
- 6.148** So, it's very hard after working an eight-hour day and then two hours of traffic to go home and be nice. Ideally, we'd spend the first five hours with our family, "Love, I love you, I love you. You look great. I love you. I have a lot of energy. I'm having my coffee. Everything's great." And then, I'd go hate people at work. I'd yell at people at work, but we don't do that. So, we get really depleted, really exhausted. It's hard to keep a relationship when you're tired.
- 6.149** And so, when people have relationship problems, it's like, "Dude, maybe you need a therapist, maybe you need a housekeeper, maybe you need a nap, maybe you need some more—you need to exercise to get better. You need to regulate yourself better because it's very easy to take it out on your significant other.
- 6.150** So, to bring this home, modern relationships are really, really hard. And they're really hard because it's hard to meet people where we are. It's really hard because even if we meet people we're attracted to, there's so many— what looks like so many alternatives out there, it's very hard for people to commit.
- 6.151** People often use the word I 'settled.' I settled? What did you think? "Sorry, Marilyn Monroe was taken, so I settled." Dude, it makes it sound bad. "Yeah, I settled for my academic career. I should have been a God king in ancient Greece, but I settled for a profession." It's weird.
- 6.152** The mating markets are totally distorted because of the Internet. It's just very, very hard. It's challenging to get from dating into love and then into a relationship. And even when you're in a relationship, it's very, very hard to keep a relationship. There's so much damn stress in the system.
- 6.153** So, I wanted to conclude by saying in the world of relationships, even though it's sold as an emotional, love-based world, and I love love, and I love emotions, and I love having fun, and I love being 18 years old, most of this stuff is discipline and work to make it in the long term.
- 6.154** And often, what you'll see is after—and I'm sure some of you have noticed this—you're with a partner for a long enough time, and you develop some real deep stuff, and you've experienced stuff you could never experience otherwise. But it's very, very hard to get there, and nobody in society is pushing deep, committed love. What they're pushing is dating and fun and action and adventure because it's entertainment. Anyway, that's it. Thanks.
- 6.155** My question is about unpacking the personality and the self. If you're classifying or measuring, I don't know, personality test or something, is there a recommended approach to it? Is it my self-perception? Is it others' perception? Especially if it's multiple others saying the same thing, even if it doesn't align with my self-perception. Or if I'm trying to change in an ideal and I still have old habits. What's the approach?
- 6.156** Yeah, that's a wonderful question. I am going to take the question this way: Where do you localize the personality? So, when I look at it as a researcher, if I want to understand my

personality, what I would ideally do, personally, is I would do some self-assessments. Then, I would do what's called in the business world 360 feedback. I'd get people at my level, maybe my partners, maybe my spouse, business associates to rate me. I'd get my bosses, people I work for to rate me. I'd get my subordinates underneath me to rate me. So, I'd get a 360 feedback of who I am.

- 6.157** And I think of personality as not—there isn't a thing. It's almost like an estimate that maybe exists in the self, maybe in others, and what you do is triangulate on that. But I don't think there's something—I don't think there's the true thing in there that you can pull the "Oh, yeah, this is it." I think it's something we estimate from these different things. And I think it exists somewhere in that space of the self and others. So, that's not a real clear answer, but I don't think there is a super clear answer.
- 6.158** In terms of that self part, "Who am I? Am I this person who's weak and fearful in this? Or I'm this person who's strong and brave?" And I can think of this person who is strong and brave and what he did, and then I got to think of this person. The answer is you're both of those people, and you're a dance between those two people. And that's hard to capture in a Big Five personality test because in the Big Five test, you're going to pick one or the other. But if you tell your self-story, that 's going to come out. But it's going to come out in a richer telling of your life than a simple telling. Does that make sense a little bit? Yeah. Good. Okay, thanks.
- 6.159** Staying on the topic of this lesson, love and relationships. I don't like to make generalizations, but it seems like dating on a college campus could be a nightmare for a variety of reasons. What are some things some universities could do to create healthy environments for students to date each other, explore, and be healthier about it?
- 6.160** I think it's a mixed bag because, on one way, on a college campus, you have a lot of people with similar age that spend a lot of time with each other. So one of the big—I didn't talk about this, but the old school—one of the big predictors of who you're going to end up with is called propinquity, maybe proximity. It's who you spend the most amount of time with.
- 6.161** So, the old joke was the guy who worked in the copy room at the business was everybody's friend because everyone went to the copy room, and there was the copy room guy. In a university, they've done studies like people who have dorm rooms closer to the stairwells to have more friends. So, in that sense, a university is a great place to meet people your same age, and lots of relationships start in universities.
- 6.162** The challenges are, I think, one, that there's so many alternatives that you don't really know what you're doing. Two, people are young, so they're trying to figure this stuff out. And three, people are all moving on through a university to some career path. So, a lot of people are like, "I don't want to get a relationship here because I'm going to New York, I'm going to Miami or whatever, I'm going to the big city."
- 6.163** So, my guess to make it better for students—a nd this isn't super well thought out, but I would suggest that people, even at a very young age, start being intentional about what life they want and what partner they want, if any. And I think they should be intentional about it when they're 18. I know they're not. I sure as heck wasn't. But the chaos and instability of the world—if you can find somebody young, that might not be so bad.
- 6.164** What I used to tell my students is, "After this, you're going to be working at a cube farm somewhere in Atlanta, and your social life is going to go to TGI Fridays for happy hour. How 's that going to work for you?" And they go, "Oh, that's hell." "Maybe you date somebody in your stats class. That might be better than TGI Fridays."
- 6.165** So, I don't think the undergrad situation is bad. I just think that people aren 't really looking for relationships, and then they start looking for them in their late 20s. That's through that emerging adulthood, and then it just gets harder and harder. But I got married very late. I got lucky. So, it's a hard time right now.
- 6.166** During the last segment, we talked a bit about the hero's journey. And part of being a hero, at least in the Christian or post-Christian world, is the cultivation of virtue. Well, when you

talked about falling in love, it seemed more along the lines of lust because it was a dark party, costumes, anonymity. So, the juxtaposition between love and lust is in terms of virtue and vice because that plays a very big part in relationships, knowing that you can trust the other person in their virtue.

- 6.167** That's so funny. So, when you mention the hero's journey, I think of the myth—and I'm so bad with myths— but it was at the Green Knight, where he was not supposed to kiss somebody, and he did when he wasn't supposed to. And then, he met this foe, and the foe took an ax to him and cut him a little bit. He said, "That's for the kiss." He went a little too far.
- 6.168** So, I think what you're saying about virtue and overriding those more lustful instincts, I think that's in a lot of myths. I think that temptation and the transformation of love beyond lust to something greater is in a lot of it. That's a challenge. My guess is—I've never done this—my guess is, if I went through a lot of the mythic stories, that's something that goes on. I can't think of examples. I don't know why the Green Knight popped into my head. So, I think that's something to it.
- 6.169** Yeah, by the way, I wasn't trying to say you guys should all have giant fraternity parties. That's the secret to life. I'm saying if you want people to feel romantic attraction to each other, that's the setting that's going to do it. I don't think that's the basis of a healthy marriage. If it were me, I might even bring back a little bit of the old arranged stuff and the family matchmakers and things because I think that in our culture, maybe we need a little of that.
- 6.170** So, I think your question is good. Yeah, I don't know if that was the hero's journey. It might be that's the first phase, and then you go beyond that. Hermann Hesse had this great line in his book *Journeys to the East*. And Hesse was a writer who was influenced a lot by Jung and Freud, and a lot of his books use Freudian and Jungian characters, like *Steppenwolf* is about a Freudian character that becomes a Jungian. In one of his books, he said, "The life of a hedonist is the best preparation for the life of a mystic." So, there could be some process in there that I don't understand, but those are big questions. Thanks.

7. Mental Health

At a glance

Clinical psychology studies psychological distress, diagnosis, and treatment. The lecture reviews major forms of mental illness, competing biological and psychosocial explanations, the limits of diagnostic categories, medication, psychotherapy, stigma, resilience, and the practical challenge of deciding when and how to seek help.

- 7.1 What I want to talk to you about today is **clinical psychology**, **psychopathology**, **mental illness**. This is a huge field of psychology.
- 7.2 Most people, when they think about psychology, want to go into psychology, want to be a clinician or a clinical psychologist. And I should say it's a little different deal. So, I have a clinical PhD, but I'm not a licensed clinical psychologist. To be a clinician, you need to get a state license, so you have to go through extra training, thousands of hours of clinical work. My clinical work is limited to a psychiatric hospital in San Diego in the '90s that has probably shut down; it was a little bit edgy. So, I have a little experience, but it's not my area.
- 7.3 Mental illness and the interest in mental illness didn't just start with psychology. So, we talk about psychology starting in maybe the middle of the 1800s, but people were dealing with mental illness before then. So, you can read old case reports in different literatures around the world, but in the European system. For example, my work on narcissism, the first case reports I've seen were from the 1700s, where they had a narcissistic mania reported in France.
- 7.4 And so, you have lots of disorders people were talking about. They didn't quite know what to do with them. So, a lot of times people would have what looks like a psychiatric disorder, but they treat it in a medical way. So maybe, like I said, Freud was doing nasal surgeries with Fliess, which is weird, but they were doing hydrotherapies; they were doing dental therapies, lots of weird interventions to try to deal with mental disorders.
- 7.5 So, this isn't brand new stuff. What's happened with modern psychology and psychiatry is we've got all these disorders; we're trying to make sense of them. How do we organize these disorders into something useful? And then, how do we treat these disorders?
- 7.6 Clinical psychology, or abnormal psychology, you might want to call it, or the psychology of mental disorders, has also often involved psychologists, but also involves psychiatrists. So psychiatrists are medical doctors or MDs, and they have a medical degree, but then they go into additional training in psychiatry. So, it's very similar, but they tend to be a little more focused on both in psychiatry: a little more focused on using drug therapies or other medical interventions, and also a little more focused on psychoanalysis, which is strange, but a lot of the real Freudian stuff still happens in medical schools and psychiatric programs. It's a neat field right now.
- 7.7 So, what I thought I would do is I'm going to talk about what a mental illness is or what psychopathology is. Psychopathology is just a fancy word for pathology, the breaking down of the psyche. I got soul problems. You got soul problems. That's what's going on. You got psychopathology. We call it mental illness.
- 7.8 So, what I thought I would do is talk a little bit about what a mental illness is, how we can think about what these are. And then, I was going to talk a little bit about how we make sense of these disorders, how we can structure them. I'm going to introduce you to a newer model that's maybe 10 or so years old, but I think it's starting to take off, instead of giving you the old stuff. And then, I was going to talk a little bit about treatment, as well as give you a few examples.
- 7.9 There are so many disorders out there. There's so many little trichotillomania, pulling your hair out to help you deal with **anxiety**. There's just thousands of little disorders. So what I'm going to try to do is just give you some highlights, but I can't—it's one class, can't do

everything. You could take a PhD in clinical psych, and then you'd be a specialist. You could be a specialist in mood disorders, maybe a specialist in one personality disorder after PhD. So, it's pretty broad stuff.

- 7.10** So, the first question is, what is psychopathology? And according to the American Psychiatric Association—so, when we have our big book of mental disorders, it's called the **DSM**, the Diagnostics and Statistics Manual. I get that wrong all the time. They have different versions of that. We're up to five now. And that's put together by the American Psychiatric Association. So, it's the physicians; there's usually some clinical psychologists in the mix working on it, but it's done by the psychiatrists, not the American Psychological Association, which gets confusing.
- 7.11** So, these descriptions of disorders that I'm going to give you and talk about are done for clinical diagnosis. If you're a physician, you can only treat somebody who's sick. So, if somebody comes in your office and you want to treat them for a mental problem, you have to diagnose them as a problem. If they come in like, "Dude, I feel anxious, treat me." I'm like, "I can't just give you bro meds. You have to actually have a disorder for me to treat it, and then I have to go to your insurance company." So, I have to be able to label that disorder in a way that your insurance company is going to be happy and use an approved treatment. So, this is very much medical stuff that goes into it and makes it very serious. It's not just me in a lab throwing stuff out.
- 7.12** What is a disorder? Well, the first thing you get is a clinically significant disturbance in cognition, emotion, or behavior. What does that mean? Well, the 'clinically significant,' that's where a trained clinician, psychiatrist, psychologist, says, "This disorder is messing you up enough that we should treat you." This isn't just every day you're a little sad. This is a clinically significant amount of sadness that deserves treatment. So, they have to find a line there, what's significant and what's not. That's an art. They get trained, but there's no AI that does it or something or a chart; you make that decision as a physician.
- 7.13** And then, in terms of where you see these disturbances, the first is cognition. Cognition is our fancy word for thoughts. You have issues with your thoughts. Maybe your thoughts are delusional. Maybe you have a belief about the world that doesn't accurately capture the world. Maybe your thoughts are a little paranoid. Maybe you feel that there's forces in the world that are out to get you when they're not. Maybe your thoughts are shaded towards the negative. Maybe you think no matter what you do, nothing will work out, nothing will ever go your way, even though you seem to be like somebody who it should go your way. Maybe your thoughts race too fast. They move so quickly that you can't really catch up with them. Maybe that's a little bit of mania, a little hypomania, a low level of mania. So, your thoughts are a little out of control. So, you can have a lot of things go on with your thoughts in different ways.
- 7.14** And then, there's emotional issues you can have. What are emotional problems? Well, maybe you feel a little blue or sad. So, maybe there's some sad emotion and that's bringing you down. Maybe you have more fearful emotion. Maybe you're anxious all the time. Maybe you see threats in the environment. Maybe you're wired to see lots of threats in the environment, maybe so many threats you can't function well. So, it could be that emotional issue.
- 7.15** Maybe it has to do with emotional control. So maybe you're really happy most of the time, but you get these big surges of anger, and then you lash out at people, and then you go, "God, why did I do that? I was so chill. And then I yelled, I shouldn't—." I do that sometimes. It might be your emotions are cool all the time, but then your problem is controlling them. They become impulsive, or maybe you feel lonely, and so you do dumb things impulsively.
- 7.16** Or you can have behavioral issues. So, this is the third. So, maybe you have problems gambling. Everything's great in your life, but whenever you pass the Circle K, you go buy a bunch of lottery tickets, or maybe you're gambling online. Maybe you have a substance

abuse disorder. Maybe you're drinking or smoking too much weed or whatever it is. You're doing something that's messing up your life.

- 7.17** So, all those different things can be problems, and they can be problems in different ways. There 's lots of ways you're behavior can be a problem, lots of ways your emotion, lots of ways your cognition. So, that's the first thing.
- 7.18** The second thing to be a disorder is it has to be based on some underlying psychology, biology or development, meaning that for something to be a clinical disorder, like **depression**, you say, "Well, there's something going on psychologically." Maybe it was a series of loss. Maybe it was something to do in childhood that you can't really resolve. Maybe it's something biological. Maybe it's the level of serotonin in your system is unstable, and that's leading to the **depression**. Or maybe it's a developmental disorder. So maybe it 's something that happened in your developmental trajectory, your brain got filled with fluid, you had some constraint, and that led to the problem. So usually, for a mental disorder, psychopathology, there's some grounding in psychobiology or development.
- 7.19** It wouldn't be—I'm trying to think of an example. It's weird. If you have, like Phineas Gage, you have a steel rod go through your head and you can't remember things, in some ways, that's a psychology problem, but really, it's you got a metal rod through your head problem, and you get the metal rod out, and then you maybe heal up the psychology. So, it can get complicated with some real physical trauma that does things or stroke or something, and then you can have the correlators of a stroke. I don't know if that's psychopathology or if that's just the side effects of a stroke. Those are where it gets tenuous.
- 7.20** Mental disorders usually feel bad, meaning they're associated with what we call distress, and I've said this before several times, in love and work. This is going back to Freud. So if you have a mental disorder, usually it's messing up your relationships, your marriage, your friendships, your romantic life, how you get along with your parents, or it's messing up your ability to work. You can't do as well in work because you got something going on.
- 7.21** There are a few exceptions of mental disorders that don't seem to be impairing, at least at first, but they hurt everybody else. So, it's harder to see, for example, in my own work with narcissism, with extreme narcissism, sometimes you get people that are like, "Yeah, I feel pretty good. I'm working pretty well. My marriage is good." And you go talk to their family like, "No, it's not good at all. It's a nightmare." So, sometimes you can have people that at least report that they're doing really well with a disorder, but the harm is faced by other people.
- 7.22** Sometimes, substance abuse will do this. "Yeah, I'm using amphetamines to help me perform better at work," or "I'm micro-dosing something at work, and it's awesome." And then, you talk to their family, and you're like, "Yeah, they're a little moody. They're on edge. They're not really doing well." You talk to people at work, and they're real stressed. They're burned out. So, occasionally, what happens is we feel pretty good, and it's a disorder. But most of the time, when people have a disorder, they feel bad.
- 7.23** When you're depressed, you're like, "I don't feel good." Anxiety doesn't feel good. It might be useful to be anxious sometimes. I'm about to walk on stage back here. I always get a little anxious. That's not unhealthy. That helps me get a little juice going on a Sunday morning. But overwhelming anxiety feels bad. **Schizophrenia** generally feels bad. People with major thought disturbances. If you're walking around the streets of San Francisco, a lot of people with these big disorders out there, because it's like an intake ward, they're not happy. So, generally, mental disorders feel bad, and people seek treatment if they can. It's very hard to seek treatment because it's much harder than most medical disorders.
- 7.24** A couple of other things about disorders. First, it can't be a culturally normative behavior. So, you don't want to do something that's culturally normative and diagnose it as a disorder. There's a long history of doing this in different countries, and you try to avoid it. So, there's a couple of big examples of this that you run into.

- 7.25** The first is grief or bereavement. You lose your spouse, you lose your loved one, people will go into depression, and that's pretty normal. If I met somebody, "I lost my husband," and they're depressed, I'm like, "Well, God, I'm really sorry." You don't go, "Snap out of it." It's, "I feel for you. I hope you get out of this. It's just going to be time."
- 7.26** But if somebody is depressed, it's been a year or two, and they're still—they can't get out of bed, then you start going, "Well, maybe this has turned from a normal cultural bereavement into something else." And that's a challenge we have. But there are times in life when it's appropriate to be depressed. It's appropriate to be anxious at times when things are scary. So, it's figuring out what's normal.
- 7.27** The other thing you sometimes get are odd religious practices or beliefs. So, I know in some of the more spiritual or religious practices I work with, I talk to people, and I'm like, "Dude, if we had this on film, this would sound real bad in a psychiatrist's office" because you have pretty intense delusional belief systems and stuff and lots of ideas of meaning and synchronicity and things that can be very much considered schizophrenic delusions. And so, that's always a bit of a line in those systems. And if you read the clinical literature, sometimes, meditation practices can lead to mental problems, and medicines can. So, that's the issue.
- 7.28** And the final thing is a mental disorder isn't supposed to be about a conflict between an individual in a society. So, if somebody is doing criminal stuff, you don't go, "Well, you're mentally ill being a criminal. You're like, "You're a criminal." The exception would be if you're a criminal because you're mentally ill. So, if I have kleptomania, I'm a happy, well-adjusted Hollywood celebrity, but I feel compelled to go steal stuff from Rite Aid pharmacy. They're like, "Dude, you're not a criminal. You're a mentally ill criminal." It's still a criminal, but there's a mental illness along with that.
- 7.29** So, it can be complicated, but generally, we don't put criminality as mental illness, except for in those cases where you have forensics experts in there, and you're saying, "Is this person mentally fit to stand trial?" which is pretty rare.
- 7.30** You also don't see it with something like terrorism or political warfare. Somebody is like, "I'm going to kill people because I believe in my God, or I believe in my political place." You're like, "That's terrorism, that's political action. It doesn't mean you're mentally ill." Might disagree with you.
- 7.31** So again, this is a complicated thing to think about what mental illness is. But, generally, you have some major disturbance in thoughts, feelings, behaviors. It leads to problems. It can be diagnosed. It's not easily put into some other category. That would be a mental illness.
- 7.32** There are, like I said, there are a huge number of these disorders that you run into all the time. And so, you'll go—and they're outlined in the DSM— but when you go visit a psychologist or psychiatrist, you go in there, typically, what's not happening is they're not doing a super diagnosis on you. If I go walk into a psychologist right now down the street, and he says, "Dude, how do you feel?" "Man, I'm anxious. I'm sad. I have trouble sleeping sometimes." They go, "Well, you sound like you got some anxiety. You want to talk about it? Here's a pill." Boom. They give you a benzo, or they give you an SSRI.
- 7.33** There's typically not a really deep diagnosis done. You do it in clinical settings. We do it in clinical research sometimes. Sometimes, you can hire somebody to do a clinical diagnosis, maybe for a learning disorder or something. There are ways to do it, but it's typically—we don't do a lot of heavy diagnosis. You'll probably notice that if you ever go in a mental health setting, it's not like, "Hey, we got to spend the first week and run you through \$5,000 of diagnostic protocol." We don't do a lot of diagnosis. We just put people into buckets.
- 7.34** The reason we do that is because a lot of these disorders are overlapping, and they have similar treatments. So, if I have someone come in and they're a little anxious or a little depressed, I go, "They're probably going to respond to a little cognitive therapy, a little

support, maybe some SSRI." I don't need to get real into the weeds about what's going on. "We'll see if this works. If it doesn't work, then I'll get into the weeds." So, it's often cheaper just to treat people for what's common and then go back.

- 7.35** What's happened is we've developed a couple of different ways of making sense of the disorders and organizing them. So, I'd say the old way, but it's still what people are doing, you'll divide disorders into two major what they call axes. So, you'd say, "Hey, these are the disorders that are like diseases, the Axis I disorders." They feel like a disease. You were healthy, and then you got this disease, and now I'm going to treat it like a physician.
- 7.36** So, you're a happy-go-lucky person, you end up feeling some depression, or you end up feeling anxiety, or you end up, God forbid, at your young age, you end up with a schizophrenic break. You start becoming isolated. You're in a room for a long time. You start having weird thoughts. You stop showering. Somebody walks in like, "Oh, this person's really had a break." So, that is thinking about—and I'll go through some of these — but that's thinking about disorders a bit like a disease: you're a normal person, and you get a disease.
- 7.37** The other type of disorders back in the day—the two main types, there's others—is Axis II disorders, and those are personality disorders. So, Axis I disorders are these psychological diseases, and the Axis II disorders are called personality disorders. They used to be called character disorders, disorders of character.
- 7.38** So, what a personality disorder is, it's an extreme and inflexible configuration of personality that leads to clinically significant impairment. The idea, though, with a personality disorder is that it's part of you; you've had something your whole life. So, when you diagnose a personality disorder, you say, "Yeah, you've been like that since high school. This is how your personality is wired. It's gotten a little extreme and got you into trouble." But the challenge is it's not a disease; it's you.
- 7.39** So, if you're looking at something like a narcissistic personality disorder, it's, "Hey, you're arrogant, you have a need for attention, a need for admiration, you're willing to exploit people, and you do that all the time. You do it when you're working with people, you do it at home with your family, and it's messing you up clinically. We need to treat you." But what that suggests is you've always had some narcissism; it's become a disorder. So, does that make sense?
- 7.40** So, the personality disorders are like, "This is you that's gone bad, and we got to dial you in." And the Axis I disorders are like, "You're fine, and then you got this disease, and we're going to cure the disease." That was the way of thinking about these things.
- 7.41** People have thought about it a lot, and it seems to be that maybe all these disorders work a little more like personality than diseases. Meaning that maybe what's going on are people have something that they're depressed. Maybe that's a little bit of neuroticism. They're a little depressed. You put them under stress, and that can turn into a full-blown disorder or depression. And then, you treat them, and they go back to where they were, which is maybe a little predisposition to depression, but pretty happy.
- 7.42** So, it's not so much that people were living their life, and depression hit them out of the blue, but maybe they were wired up a little way where if they had a disorder, it might look like depression. When they get some stress on the system, I call this stress diathesis: you have something existing, you put a lot of stress on it, and maybe that stress pushes you over the line.
- 7.43** And so, maybe the way to think about these disorders isn't a world of happy, healthy people where occasionally somebody gets unlucky and gets struck like a bull of blue with a disorder. But maybe we all differ on these different spectra, these different continua, like the Big Five personality, not the same, but like that. And when we become extreme, and we get under stress, maybe it can turn into a disorder, but it's not a huge line between being normal and not normal or normal and abnormal. There's not a giant bright line there. Does that make sense a little bit?

- 7.44** So, maybe the idea of let's think about mental disorders not so much as a disease that you catch, but a way you are that when you're under stress might emerge, and then you can treat it, and it comes back. So, they're not as much of a bright line. So, this is a little different way of thinking about it.
- 7.45** The model people have developed now to make sense of these disorders is what's called the Hierarchical Taxonomy of Psychopathology or HiTOP. HiTOP is the easy one to remember. But it's the idea that maybe we can take all these disorders instead of putting them in a giant book that looks like the DSM; maybe we can organize them into a hierarchy and make sense of them that way. And maybe at the top of that hierarchy is something that's an overall psychopathology; it's a factor. And then, underneath it are some five or six specific types of disorders or spectra of disorders. And that's what they've done.
- 7.46** So, what I thought I would try to do is walk you through these a little bit and then go through some specifics. So, this HiTOP model, at the very top level, what they have is this higher order factor, sometimes called a factor of psychopathology or a p-factor.
- 7.47** What they're arguing is that overall, there's this basic way to be less healthy and basic way to be more healthy, and this P-Factor has things like— somebody very high in p-factor would be described as neurotic, impulsive, antagonistic, a little introverted, and a little psychotic.
- 7.48** Psychotic is a weird word. I think of it as bad openness to experience. It's like weird belief systems that you're not really controlling too well, delusional systems. So, that overall model of what's lower mental health would be neuroticism or fear, impulsivity or inability to control yourself, meanness or antagonism, social isolation or introversion, and then psychoticism. So, that's what they call the p-factor. That's the general bad side of things.
- 7.49** I think this is a little complicated. There's other way. I think you can have extraversion that can lead you to trouble. There's some other ways. But I think this, again, this is a pretty good model to make things.
- 7.50** So, underneath that overall factor, that overall factor, psychopathy, you have six subfactors. The first of these that I'm not going to talk about much is called somatoform disorders, and these are ones back in the day they used to call conversion disorders, like hysterical blindness. "I can't see," but you have nothing physically wrong with you. Or hysterical paralysis, like "My arm doesn't move." And the doctor is like, "Well, you seem like there's nothing wrong with your arm," but you can't move. And somebody throws a baseball at you, and you catch it. These are these old Victorian Freudian disorders. And those ones right now are hard to make sense of.
- 7.51** So, I've talked to people about this, and they've called them somatoform, soma meaning 'body.' And so they're saying, "Yeah, maybe these are neurological. We just don't know." We don't know if these are—Freud thought of them as repression. New people are saying maybe it's neural or it's something in the nervous system. I don't know. I've looked at it a little bit. I can't find the answer. So, that's one spectrum that people have identified, but that could be not as much psychology as physical.
- 7.52** And then, in terms of the other spectrum of disorders, the first one, which is probably the biggest, is called internalizing. These are internalizing disorders. We use the term internalizing. It's an old-fashioned term, going back to Freud, it may be before, but it's like the idea of I'm taking anger or other emotions and turning them inward to myself. So, my negativity is directed to the self rather than the world. So, in an internalizing disorder, bad stuff is happening to me. Maybe that's depression; maybe it's an eating disorder. I'll give you some more.
- 7.53** In terms of the Big Five traits, if you remember, internalizing disorders are the ones linked to neuroticism, primarily. And that's what—the majority of mental disorders you run into in America today are surrounded by neuroticism. That's where most of our problems lie. People are anxious, and depressed, and nervous, and uncertain, and feel overwhelmed. Like, duh, because that's the world we built. So, you have the internalizing disorders.

- 7.54** You have the thought disorders. And the thought disorders are the ones, as I said, that involve odd thinking, delusions, magical thinking, ideas of reference, meaning, "Oh, that thing in the store window, that was a message to me." I have this all the time. I'm like, "Oh, my God, that's synchronicity. They're telling me something." I'm like, "Yeah, they're telling you to go call your psychiatrist for a check-in, amigo." I seriously have a psychiatrist I call every three months for a check-in. I'm like, "Am I crazy?" And we talk. He's like, "No, you're good. Keep going." I'm like, "Okay." I got kids. I can't go too far off the edge.
- 7.55** But thought disorders include some manias, and I'll talk about bipolar and schizophrenia. And that is, in terms of the Big Five, bad openness. It's not just openness to experience. It's this psychoticism aspect of it that we really need to figure out. We need to dial into openness a little.
- 7.56** Then, they break it down. So, it gets a little different from the Big Five. The first is disinhibited externalizing. So internalizing is the disorder goes inward, and externalizing is you're putting it out there. Disinhibited is a word, a fancy word for impulsive, or low conscientiousness, or low self-control. So, you've got these more disinhibited externalizing disorders, things I do out there that are low self-control. What's that?
- 7.57** Well, that's going out to a jai alai tournament, if that's how you say it, and drinking a bunch of, I don't know, pisco sours and betting on jai alai. I've never done that, and I probably used all those words wrong, but that sounds really good to me. If I was going to go down as a disinhibited externalizing, I would be drinking pisco sours at a jai alai tournament down in Miami somewhere, betting big.
- 7.58** And then, there's the other branch of the externalizing disorders, which they call antagonistic externalizing. That's the other spectrum. And the externalizing antagonistic, there's meanness involved or callousness or something else. So, me drinking booze, watching the guys throw a ball 100 miles an hour with some weird contraption, that's not really—I might be hurting people because I'm spending their money, I'm doing other things, I'm not with my kids, but I'm not trying to be mean. I'm just trying to be selfish.
- 7.59** With antagonistic externalizing, what you're doing is being mean is part of it. So, that's where you see antisocial disorders, narcissistic disorders, maybe some borderline, that has a lot of distress with it as well. So, those are often the things that bleed into criminality.
- 7.60** And then, finally, there's the detachment disorders. And detachment are disorders of low extraversion or maybe high introversion. We don't see those a lot on television. We don't see them a lot at work because they're people that are less active. Where you see this is in maybe schizoid personality where people are really cut off from the world. Sometimes, you might see this in homeless or people with jobs where they're very socially isolated, except for maybe a brother or a parent or something.
- 7.61** So, that's the overall view of this model. There's an overall psychopathology factor. Underneath it, you have these six factors or six spectra. Five of those are really psychological. What's interesting when you look at disorders is there's often a lot more going on than you think. So, it's fun to look at some diagnosis. So, I was going to hit on depression and maybe a few others.
- 7.62** So, in terms of the internalizing spectra, the two biggest families of disorders, you're going to see sexual disorders, you're going to see eating disorders, binge eating. A lot of that's just mood regulation or affect regulation. So, you're eating to feel good. You see that.
- 7.63** You see a bunch of disorders involving fear. So, these are the anxiety disorders. And what's cool about anxiety disorders—there's a lot cool about anxiety disorders. One is that they break up in different ways. So, some people have what they call generalized anxiety disorder. They're just anxious. And sometimes, that's called free-floating anxiety, meaning your anxiety floats around with you like a cloud.

- 7.64** So you're like, "Hey, Keith, let's check out the studio in Miami." You're walking, "I'm nervous about this." "Hey, where's your Uber driver?" "I'm nervous. They're not going to make it." "Hey, you got your flight?" "I'm nervous about—" I do this, so you can tell I'm really good at it. But, generally, you get anxious about everything. So, that's one disorder. That's a little harder to get your hands on.
- 7.65** But then, you have these real specific ones. So, phobias are super cool. I mean, they're not cool when you have them, but people have phobias for things that are very specific and overwhelming fears about specific objects. So, not like, "Hey, I'm worried about everything." Like, "Dude, I'm not worried about making the plane, but I'm really worried there might be a snake in the plane," or "I'm really worried there might be a snake in my Uber driver because I'm really scared of snakes."
- 7.66** People's phobias are things like snakes, spiders, some germs, public speaking, crossing water, heights. It's all things that killed us ancestrally. If you look at a hunter-gatherer life, you died climbing palm trees. That's how you died: getting coconuts or getting hit by snakes.
- 7.67** I remember, I was on a fishing trip in the middle of the Pacific, and Kira Boss, my buddy, got bit by some freaking millipede, centipede thing about that big. It was wild. And I was like, "How was your night? Were you hallucinating?" He was hallucinating all night from this toxic thing. I'm like, "That's gnarly." These are the things we grew up with. I got an exterminator at home. I don't have him living with me. So, we're really scared about these things.
- 7.68** What's cool with phobias, specific phobias, is that they can be treated really easily. The cure for fear is fear. The cure for anxiety is anxiety. It's like they say in economics, "The cure for high prices is high prices." The cure for fear is fear. So, what you do is things like progressive desensitization.
- 7.69** So, "Hey, I'm really scared of snakes." "Well, that's cool, Keith. I'll have you get in and relax. Just think about a snake." "Oh, that's scary." And then, the next week, they're like, "Think about two snakes." The next week, "Hey, I got a rubber snake for you to hold." Then, the next day, "We're going to a visit to the herpetarium," or whatever they call snake houses. "We're going to the snake house," and I'm all freaked out. And then, another week, they have me hold a boa. Two weeks after, I got two boas on my head, like on the cover of an album, living my best life. It's just progressive desensitization.
- 7.70** I got real scared of sharks after—when I was a kid, they took me to see Jaws, which probably wasn't the best thing, but what the heck? It was a different time. I think I was seven, and I got really scared of sharks after that. I was like, "Well, the only way I'm going to not be scared of sharks is to go swim with sharks as much as I can. So, I started forcing myself to swim with sharks. And now, I'm not scared of sharks anymore, but it took a long time of facing the fear, facing the fear over and over. So, that's what's nice about phobias: they're really treatable.
- 7.71** The other cool thing to mention with the anxiety disorders, I think that's useful, is panic disorder and agoraphobia because this happens. I talk to students that have this happen to, and a lot of people this happens to, they don't know what's going on, but it's fixable.
- 7.72** So, what happens are panic attacks or panic disorders are extreme, overwhelming rushes of anxiety that people get. Sometimes, it's out of the blue. Sometimes, there's a trigger. But you imagine you're out there, you get this huge rush of anxiety. You think you're going to go insane, or you think you're having a heart attack.
- 7.73** So, sometimes, people end up in the hospital. You hear guys like this, I hear my buddies, "Yeah, I thought it was my heart. It was just a panic attack." All right, that's good. Sounds like you're doing great— oh, wait a second, if you're hospitalized—I found myself in there once, the guy gave me the EEG, and I'm like, "I got to dial back the stress, man. This isn't a good place to be." So that happens.

- 7.74** What these panic disorders or these panic attacks do is condition you very strongly. This is classical conditioning. "Oh, my God, I was here, and I got a panic attack. I've learned never to come here again." So, what happens with people is they get a panic attack and go, "I'm never going there again." I get another panic attack, "I'm never going there again." And you end up with what's called agoraphobia.
- 7.75** This is from the Greek word agora, 'the marketplace.' So, it's fear of the marketplace. People don't want to be in public, and people can end up being shut in by this. They can end up just becoming shut in their apartment because they get these panic attacks. But this is just very basic learning stuff.
- 7.76** So, you can treat this I had one friend at Florida State that would do this in the lab, but you can induce panic attacks in different ways. Not with me, you go to a real trained, cognitive behavioral therapist, and they'll have you breathe into a bag and set off a panic attack, and they'll teach you to ride it out. And then, you learn to ride it out. The cure for fear is fear. You get over that fear, and it goes away. But it's a long process of overcoming fear. So, I like the anxiety disorders because you can get over them, but they're really painful and challenging.
- 7.77** The other set of disorders in this more internalizing cluster that are huge are the depression disorders. And we can talk about a lot of different kinds of depression. There's dysthymia, which is just everyday depressive mood or depressive affect. "I'm dysthymic," like I'm bombed as a personality.
- 7.78** But there's also major depressive disorder. And major depressive disorder is about more than just feeling sad or blue. It's not I'm just sad. There's some other things that go into it. So, first, it's a depressed mood most of the day, every day. So it's not just, "I felt sad this morning." It's like, "I can't get out of feeling sad. It won't stop." So, these are disorders.
- 7.79** The other things you get, or you get this major drop in joy or happiness. They call this anhedonia. I've mentioned this before. It's, "I don't feel hedonic. I don't feel that hedonic resonance from things. I feel anhedonic. I don't feel good." So, you're not getting juiced, you're not getting stoked, you're not getting excited. And that's bad, too.
- 7.80** You get weight issues, but what's really interesting in depression with some of these things is that you either get more or less. So, with weight, what happens is people who are depressed tend to gain weight or lose weight. It can go either way. And they're talking something like 5% of your body weight in a month. It's hard to diagnose this because if you're actually trying to lose weight, you got to—anyway, some of the scales are a little weird. So, you get weight issues.
- 7.81** You get sleep or restlessness issues. So, some people who are depressed can't sleep at all. They're agitated all the time, like anxiety. Other people who are depressed can't get out of bed, like, "I'm in bed for three days." So, it's doing something like that, that's weird.
- 7.82** You get psychomotor problems, which are a little strange. "I'm just moving slowly all the time, not moving fast at all." Or maybe you get some of that shakiness, too. So, you're not moving as much. Your energy drops. It's fatigue, low energy. It's like being shut in bed.
- 7.83** Then, you get some deeper psychological stuff. Remember I said self-esteem was a buffer to depression? And part of the reason is that one of the key symptoms of depression is feeling worthless. So, I'm not a good person. So, not only do I feel sad, I'm not energized, I'm sleeping all day, my appetite is screwed, and I don't like myself. So, this is bad. So, you're getting all this stuff.
- 7.84** And that's why self-esteem is a buffer, because if you're like, "I like myself, I'm going to get through this. I like who I am. I know I'm suffering with depression." But if you're like, "And I don't like who I am."
- 7.85** And then, you get a couple of other things, and I'll finish, two other things. One is your thinking slows down. Thinking, memory—so, people's ability to process information slows down. So, you're like, "This major depression isn't just being sad. I can't think that well."

And at the worst, you end up with thoughts of suicide. So, it's what they call suicidal ideation, which is our fancy way of saying people think of suicide.

- 7.86** When clinicians ask about suicide, and you probably know this, it's usually, "Do you have a plan?" That's usually a question because if you ask someone depressed, "Have you thought about suicide?" Like, "Dude, I think about it all the time. " "Do you have a plan?" "Well, no, that would be insane." So, it depends. But there's some different ways of thinking about it, but typically, depression is a pretty—major depression is a pretty intense thing, and it 's not something you just talk your way out of because you don't have the energy to talk your way out of. You got the sleep [deprivation].
- 7.87** So, it's hard if you're depressed, and people see you, and you're like, "Dude, I'm depressed." They're like, "Oh, snap out of it." Like, "Dude, if I could have snapped out of it, I wouldn't have snapped into it. I didn't ask for this." So, this is a disorder. This is a problem.
- 7.88** So anyway, those are a couple of examples. I think internalizing, the anxiety disorders, and that major depression are probably the most common things we see.
- 7.89** Skipping on to the thought disorders. There's one interesting disorder that maps on to both internalizing and a thought disorder, and that is bipolar disorder, formerly known as manic depression. And that's this very interesting disorder where you get a combination of depression, which I just described, but you also get a state of mania.
- 7.90** And what does a manic state feel like? It feels like you're being energized. It feels very positive. It feels like a lot of extraversion. People can be very creative. They don't need sleep. They come up with lots and lots of ideas. Sometimes, in bipolar, it can go from just being energized, excited, what we might call hypomanic, which hypo is a low level of mania, which feels really good—it can go from that level to a full delusion, where you become so manic, you start doing weird stuff. So I'll give you a couple of examples.
- 7.91** I had one friend— this is when I was living in La Jolla—the guy downstairs was an artist with his girlfriend. I came down; he was painting at midnight. He was painting everything. He couldn't stop painting. He'd been up for a week just painting. And I remember I talked to his girlfriend. I'm like, "This looks like he might be having a manic episode." She's like, "Yeah, we're going to get him into someplace. He was doing well, but it's just going to get worse." So, he was basically on this artistic tear for five or six days, but just no sleep, creating. It felt really good, but then it started getting out of hand.
- 7.92** Another story from a book about manic depression or bipolar disorder and creativity. They talked about one American poet who was in a manic episode and feeling so powerful he went to a diner and ordered a raw steak. "I want a raw steak," and ate a raw steak, lion style; just went for it. That's cool, but it's also, maybe you got to dial it back a little bit.
- 7.93** So, mania—people could get in trouble where they—I can get in trouble with this because I'm not bipolar, but I have a tendency that my mind will get a little extreme. And you hear stories of people like, "I borrowed a bunch of money and started a new business, and I was really confident in it." And these manic episodes, they 'll end. So, typically, you feel pretty good at some point, then it will get out of control, and then when it ends, you feel really bad. And so, bipolar disorder is really hard because of that up and down, that roller coaster of emotion, that you feel really good sometimes, and then you can go real bad.
- 7.94** They have a couple of versions. So, bipolar 1 is the classic where you get manic depression, like a full manic episode and full depression. Bipolar 2 is a little more chill, where the mania is not as intense, and the depression is a little longer. So, for some people it's more longer depression, longer mania, not as extreme. Some people it's intense depression and intense mania. So, you can have different versions of this.
- 7.95** Bipolar feels very genetic; there's a pretty strong genetic signal for it. There's treatments like lithium and things that have been around forever that seem to work with the mania. So anyway, it's a really interesting disorder. And I said, bipolar is interesting because you're stepping from—you've got both internalizing, externalizing.

- 7.96** Schizophrenia is the other massive disorder in the thought disorders. And this one that's a very challenging disorder. If you're working in a mental hospital, you're going to see a lot of schizophrenic patients. If you're in an adult ward, in an inpatient setting, you're going to see a lot of people with schizophrenia. You'll see some depression, too, but schizophrenia is pretty common.
- 7.97** Schizophrenia is a thought disorder. There's usually these more positive or florid symptoms that you'll see with people. So delusions, maybe delusions of grandeur. I'm a great person. Delusions of paranoia or delusions of persecution.
- 7.98** I worked with one woman, I remember, who told me she was the tooth fairy. I thought that was so interesting because she's like, "I'm the tooth fairy." She said, "I work for Ronald Reagan." That's cool. This is when George Bush was President. Reagan was gone at that point, but she was still working for him in the other life. And she was very pleased. She had a very good job.
- 7.99** So, she had a very elaborate delusion about being the tooth fairy, but it didn't seem abnormal. "Yeah, that's what I do. What do you do?" "I'm a psychologist." "What do you do?" "I'm the tooth fairy." "Oh, that's cool." That's like a very elaborate delusional disorder, but it wasn't causing her distress. It would have caused her distress if I had been like, "No, it's not." And I'd started saying, "You're not," and pointed it out. I didn't do that. I was just chill. So, that would be an active thing of schizophrenia.
- 7.100** Sometimes, you get hallucinations; you get a lot of audio. It's not so much visual hallucinations, it's more hearing voices. That's pretty common. You get disordered thinking. You get word salad; they make up words. You see this a lot in academia. It's not always schizophrenia. There's a lot of fields. But often, they string words together that don't make sense. But it's supposed to be—and there are things called neologisms, where you make up new words.
- 7.101** So, I got two stories of this. Once I was—this is back in Christmas Island. Yeah, I was fishing in Christmas Island. So I was hanging with my new buddies, and they said, "Oh, you're a professor. Yeah, we've got a professor on the island, too. He's a genius." I'm like, "Oh, that's so exciting." So, they take me to this place where this recluse lives, and he has this book, which is five mimeographs, like mimeographs back in the day, stapled together. And it was his linoleum theory of human extrapolation or something like that.
- 7.102** I read this, and I'm like, "Oh, my God, this guy's had a full schizophrenic break. This is just a word salad. The linoleum? What the hell?" But no one on the island knows anything. The English is okay, but they're still speaking a lot of Pidgin, and they think this guy's a legit legend. He just rolls in from the UK or something. They go, "Oh, he's probably a professor." I was like, "Yeah, he's a genius." I'm not going to wreck the thing. They got their own genius. I'm not going to take that from them.
- 7.103** But it's fascinating because he was just in a full delusion. But what he had to do socially was he couldn't pull that off in LA. You couldn't have a New York office because people would see through it. But if you moved to a tiny island in the middle of the Pacific when no one's ever met a PhD, you can pull it off, which I thought was great. He wasn't hurting anybody. He wasn't hurting himself. So, you get that stuff.
- 7.104** Loose associations, odd or disordered laughter, emotion—I 'm starting to tell stories; I got to speed up, you guys. I'm sorry. This is bringing back my clinical days. But once, I was working at one hospital and went in to get a woman, and this was not pleasant. She was schizophrenic, covered in a pool of blood, menstrual blood, and I walk in there, and she starts going, "You're all Satan's children. You're all Satan's children." I go, "I hope I 'm not. I'm just trying to help." And it was this weird laughter you sometimes see with schizophrenia, odd laughter.
- 7.105** And then, in the middle of it, she goes, "You're all Satan's children." She goes, "You're all Saban 's children. You're all Saban's children." I'm like, "Oh, wait, that's one of the psychiatrists." So, what she did in her mind was she said, "You're Satan," and then she

flipped it to Saban. It was very creative. And then, it was the end of my shift, and I got to go home, thank God. Oh, no, I didn't want to—it's hard. There's a reason I just do research and don't talk to anybody except for nice people like you guys. That clinical work is very hard, and I have a lot of respect for people who do it because it takes so much to keep doing it.

- 7.106** And schizophrenia has these negative symptoms as well. So, it's these florid things, but there's also negative things. There's the anhedonia: you don't feel good. Sometimes, you get catatonia: you can't move well. You see those old movies of catatonic schizophrenia. People literally freeze up, something maybe with the dopamine system. A lack of social connection: there's not a lot of people forming groups and teams. It's social isolation.
- 7.107** And, like I said quickly, schizophrenia seems to look like a disorder. It usually kicks in the late 18, 19, 20s, and people start to get off. They call it prodromal syndrome. And then, occasionally, there's a break, and then there's different courses of it. My guess is there's several different delusional disorders that we label as schizophrenia, and they're all probably a little different. Those are the thought disorders.
- 7.108** Then, we have the externalizing disorders, disinhibited externalizing. Again, these are poor impulse control, outward focus, classic disorders or substance abuse disorders, alcohol addiction, booze addiction, whatever they used to call that—dipsomania was the old name for alcoholism, a ny drug abuse, drug addiction, gambling disorders, maybe porn addiction, that's a big debate right now. There's a lot of debate in this area about what an addiction looks like, and it gets complicated.
- 7.109** So, what you have is some people like, "Yeah, I use drugs and gamble every day while I'm watching porn, and I'm just fine. I feel great about myself, and my job's fine." I don't know if that's an addiction or not. Other people like, "I can't quit. I keep drinking and going to watch the ponies, and I can't stop." And you go, "Well, maybe that's a disorder." So, I don't have any answers for you.
- 7.110** I'm just going to tell you in the field of substance abuse, in the field of gaming disorders or gambling disorders, there's a lot of debate: is it about overuse, or is it about feeling bad that you're doing it? And both those things can be a problem. It can be a problem if you're just using it a lot, even if you feel good, or it can be a problem if you feel bad.
- 7.111** But it's a weird thing because every morning I wake up and have a pot of coffee. I'm addicted to caffeine. If I stop taking caffeine, I will feel headache-y, I will feel sluggish, slow, I will be angry. I've done it before, and then I start drinking it again. I'm like, "My God, this is God's medicine." It becomes a plant medicine if you haven't had it for six months. And then, I become addicted to it. No one's calling that a disorder. They're just saying you're a great American. That's part of our culture.
- 7.112** So, this stuff gets complicated with these things. And often, there's a feeling of, "I can't control this," or there's a family going, "My husband's spending all our money gambling, my husband's spending all our money on this. It's taken away from the kids." It's a disorder, even if he doesn't see it. But it's more complicated than you think.
- 7.113** The antagonizing externalizing are interesting. These are the more callous antagonistic traits. As I mentioned, narcissistic personality disorder is one of these, where you have people that are outgoing but can also be mean, have a sense of entitlement, have a sense of superiority, have a sense they're better than people, and therefore be willing to exploit or take advantage of people.
- 7.114** So, what you'll see in some of these more antagonistic traits is taking advantage of people. It might be criminal; it might be like robbing stuff. It might be with narcissism; it's putting on a show and bringing people in to be your 'yes men' or your 'yes women' that bring you up. Maybe you're bringing in a relationship partner you're not that interested in, and you make them think they're going to marry you, but then you discard them later on when you find somebody better. So you're just exploiting people. So, it could be something like that with narcissism.

- 7.115** Borderline personality, which is really interesting. And if I broke down all the clinical description of borderline, you're like, "My goodness, there's a lot going on here." There's a lot of ways to get this diagnosis. Borderline personality: the term 'borderline' comes from the old psychoanalytic days where they said, "Hey, we've got neurotic people, and we've got people who are psychotic, have delusions, and then there are people right on the border in between where they seem neurotic, but they also have some delusions that seem a little more extreme than neurotic. We're going to call that borderline.
- 7.116** So, the term borderline means the borderline between normal neuroses, depression, anxiety, and psychoses. That's not really how people think about it now. That's where the term comes from. Most people I talk to about borderline now see it as primarily emotion regulation. So, people have challenges regulating anxiety or issues around attachment, and those challenges can damage relationships.
- 7.117** So, maybe you become mean and manipulative because you feel a lack of control, or maybe it becomes more internalizing where you're cutting yourself. And there's a lot of internalizing behavior that goes with borderline as well. So, borderline is a very, very complicated disorder. My hunch is it would be nice to break it into two or three different disorders that are a little more manageable because you can have different presentations.
- 7.118** The final spectrum of our six spectra is called detachment. And detachment— originally, they were going to talk about this as introversion, the spectrum of this introversion-based disorders, but when they proposed it, the Jungians got mad because the Jungians love introversion, and they always have a place in their heart for introverts for a lot of historical reasons. So, they called it detachment.
- 7.119** But it's the problems that come from detaching or not being connected to the world. And these seem to be problems with a lack of joy, a lack of reward. You don't have a lot of dopamine. You have that low hedonia, low extraversion. You're not feeling—there's just no energy in the system.
- 7.120** And you see people who are what they call schizoid personality disorder like this. Schizoid, as I said, meant 'split.' So, like the word schizophrenia, the word schizoid means split. It does not mean multiple personality. Often, people hear the word schiz and think, "Oh, it means they're split, so they have split personalities." It's not that at all. It's like a split between the person and their emotion or their affect.
- 7.121** So, somebody who's schizoid is like, "I'm living my life, but I'm not in touch with emotion. I don't feel emotion. I don't feel a connection. It's not really there." As I mentioned, sometimes people will be close to their mom. They'll be close to their brother. There's a couple of people that can talk to them, but otherwise, they're not interested in really having relationships. Schizoid, they don't have the emotion.
- 7.122** Avoidant is a little more like an avoidant personality disorder. And you remember we talked about attachment theory. You imagine coming out of a really bad attachment scenario as a child, you learn not to trust people, you have some other bad relationships. With avoidant personality, there's some fear going on there. So you're like, "I'm not attaching to people, but I could if I didn't feel nervous about it." So, avoidance is a little bit different than schizoid, where you could see overcoming that if you felt a little brave or a little more connection. But in both cases, you have personality disorders with people who lack connection to the world.
- 7.123** Then, I guess the clinical question is, or the psychological question is, is that okay? If I meet somebody out in the woods who's a hermit, and there 's people like this probably near me, and I know in out West, there are plenty of people, and they live out in the woods. I come into town every month or two, I grab some supplies, rustle up some stuff, head back, just people leave me alone. Is that bad?
- 7.124** I don't know. That's where you have to put your clinical hat on and go, "God bless, this is your path. It's not a problem." Or you might meet the person and go, "Hey, you've got some physical stuff going on. You're health suffering. You really need to see a dentist. You

seem a little sad. Maybe we could bring somebody up here and have a chat." So, this is where it gets some problem trying to interpret this stuff, which it makes it interesting.

- 7.125** So, anyway, that's the overall high-top model. Again, you 've got psychopathology on the top, and then you have these different specters of disorder. And then, what I wanted to end with in the last few minutes is what we do about disorders, what we do clinically, and what we have for treatments. We have clinical treatments, **psychotherapy**, we've got different medical or psychiatric treatments, we've got physical health treatments, we've got all sorts of things. So, I was going to go through a few of those.
- 7.126** Typically, if you're dealing with a modern—and I hate to say this because being depressed is really bad. It can be really hard, but if you're dealing with something that's relatively normal, meaning you're able to get yourself to a clinician, no one's bringing you to a psychiatric hospital, the first line of treatment for most of this stuff is psychotherapy, which is basically talking to people and trying to use speaking to make something happen.
- 7.127** And there are different versions of this. There's lots of versions, but the traditional model of psychotherapy we touched on a little bit is psychoanalysis. And this is old Freud, and in Freud's model, psychotherapy involved what he called the talking cure. You'd often sit in an office, maybe you would lie down on a couch, not look at the patient.
- 7.128** So, I went through psychoanalysis maybe 40 years ago as a young man. And my analyst would sit in a chair and I'd lie on a couch, not face him, but look at the ceiling. And then, what you do is free associate. You say whatever comes to mind because what a psychoanalyst is trying to do is say, "We know there's something going on in your unconscious. I can't ask you what that is, so I've got to access your unconscious." So, what I'll do is have you say whatever comes to mind, and eventually, I'm going to start pulling on those threads, and we're going to get to stuff.
- 7.129** I'm going to do a couple of other things as a psychoanalyst. I might ask you about your dreams. I might do some dream interpretations. So, I might say, "Hey, come in. Tell me what you dreamed last night. Why do you think you did that?" And we might use your dream as a jumping-off point for your free association. So, often it will start with a dream.
- 7.130** The analysts are usually trained not to make—if you're a psychoanalyst, you're trained not to make a bunch of interpretations. So, if people say stuff, you're trained to not go, "Hey, what it means is you love your mom, or you got an issue." You let them figure it out themselves. So, it's very slow. Because if you figure it out for people, it sometimes doesn't work.
- 7.131** And then, a couple of other things that you see—they came out of psychoanalysis, but these are important in all therapy—it's an analysis of transference and countertransference, meaning what happens is I'm in therapy with somebody, my therapist isn't talking a lot about themselves, they're not saying a lot. They're just a person.
- 7.132** So, what I do is I project—it is a psychoanalytic word—I project or push all my unconscious stuff onto that person. I turn them into my mother. I turn them into my father. I turn them into something else. So, in that process, you could say, "Man, I hate my psychologist. I just want to smash that guy in the face." And that would be really interesting. The guy is like, "Dude, I've just been sitting here listening to you. Why do you want to punch me in the face? Let's have a chat about that." So, that's the analysis of transference.
- 7.133** What you've done is you brought up a relational schema from the past, and then you can analyze it. You also can analyze countertransference. As a psychiatrist or a psychologist, you're like, "Man, I want to smash that patient in the face. Why is that? Maybe they got some narcissism. Maybe there 's something else." So, you can analyze that as well.
- 7.134** Imagine doing this; you've got to be a little sophisticated about how your own mind works. So, if you become an actual psychoanalyst, you have to go through psychoanalysis before you're allowed to be a psychoanalyst. It 's not true for most therapy, but ideally, you go through therapy before you're a therapist. You don't have to. In most of the world, though, you're not seeing psychoanalysis anymore.

- 7.135** What you're seeing are versions of **cognitive behavioral therapy**, which most people have heard about. Those are therapies interested in figuring out what you're thinking, and what you're doing, and how that's making you feel. They break down your thoughts, and then they try to build better habits or better strategies to get ahead. There 's lots of versions of these cognitive and behavioral therapies, and they all seem to work reasonably well for things.
- 7.136** For borderline, you might get something like DBT, Dialectical Behavioral Therapy, which is a cognitive therapy with a lot of mindfulness in it. It's really effective—it seems to be effective for borderline. You get acceptance and commitment therapy, which is embracing the toughness of reality, and that seems to be effective.
- 7.137** So, there's a lot of different therapies that work that way. Generally, if you look at most of the data on psychotherapy, it works. If you get a therapist you like and stick with it. And the type of therapy doesn't seem to matter so much. It's very hard to see how this is the 'right therapy.' It's 'do therapy.'
- 7.138** We use a lot of medications now in treatments. That's a little bit out of psychology, a little bit into psychiatry, though in some states, psychologists can actually do prescriptions, not all of them. But what you see is antidepressants everywhere, **SSRIs**, or selective serotonin reuptake inhibitors. We're not exactly sure how those work. My guess is they stabilize serotonin, but I'm not sure. That's really common for any depression, or some anxiety, or obsessive disorders.
- 7.139** You see a lot of benzodiazepines, which are anti-anxiety meds. Valium, Xanax, Klonopin—those are given out. And SSRIs are slow, so people don't get addicted to them. They're hard to get off, but they don't really hit you fast. The benzos hit you really fast, so they're easier to get addicted to because they work.
- 7.140** The history of medicine is they come up with a drug that works really well, and then people get addicted to it, and they go, "But our new version isn't going to do it. So, here's heroine; it's the hero." You 're like, "Oh, that's really addictive." "Well, now we've got sister morphine. She's the hero. Oh, that one was bad. Now we got Dilaudid. " They all do the same, and same with the anti-anxiety. It's like, "You're not going to make a drug that gets rid of my anxiety, then I'm not going to want to pop tomorrow morning with my coffee." This is hard. So, there's a lot of medication given out.
- 7.141** They don't tell you this, but if you look at the data, exercise and diet are huge. So you get the right doctor, you get the right therapist, and they're going to say, "If you're dealing with depression or anxiety, get your diet right and exercise every day, and get in the sun." So, if anyone asks me, and I'm not a clinician, the number one thing is you're in the sun every day, you're exercising, you're eating right because that's the physical health.
- 7.142** Social changes are a big thing. People will talk about group psychotherapy or group treatment. So, for substance abuse, one of the most common treatments is alcoholics anonymous or other narcotics anonymous, NAA. People debate if those work. Often, I hear a rule of thirds. You hear this a lot in psychotherapy, meaning about a third of the people get better, third are in the middle, and third didn't do a thing for. But those group processes, even with things like borderline personality and DBT, group therapy works really well. So, groups tend to be useful.
- 7.143** And then, finally, you've got the extreme stuff. So, most of this stuff is pretty basic. There's a lot of risks, but it's pretty controlled at the extremes. You have psychosurgery or other more medical interventions.
- 7.144** With depression, one of the things is called electroconvulsive therapy. We call it electroshock therapy. That's very scary-sounding. You put electrodes on people's brains and stimulate them, and they wake up, and they lose memory. I've been in hospitals. I had one patient go through that. He was freaked. Next morning, he was fabulous. When I looked at the data, I was like, "This actually is pretty effective." ECT seems to work for extreme depression. We don't do a lot of psychosurgery, but when you start doing surgical

interventions for mental problems, that's over the risk side. A lot of the meds we take, you can get off them. It's hard, but you can get them off. Surgery, it's hard to reverse if it's too extreme.

- 7.145** So, in general, just to end, how much does psychotherapy work? When you look at the big reviews, you 're looking at people changing like a third, maybe a third and a half of standard deviation, somewhere in there. So, people are changing, but they're not changing huge amounts on average.
- 7.146** Most of the time, what's going on in therapy is like, "Yeah, my anxiety is debilitating. I'm having trouble getting out of work," and I get it back to normal. It doesn't mean I'm the chill dude handing out Jell-O shots at the beach every day and talking to parrots. I'm not that guy, but I'm also not—I'm functioning.
- 7.147** So, a lot of what we're doing in therapy isn't trying to become perfect. What we're trying to do is get off the extreme because when you're at the extreme edge of badness or psychopathology, it's hard to function. If you get back over the line where you're functioning, then you can start improving. Like, "Yeah, I'm anxious, but I feel good enough to get out of bed. I can work out. I can work on my work. I can work on my relationships. I can improve myself and get better." So, you want to be in a position where you can improve yourself.
- 7.148** And that's what I think psychotherapy does to the extent it works. And, like I said, it seems to work. If you ask people, most people are pretty happy with it. That 's the end. Thank you.

8. Social Navigation

At a glance

Social psychology explains how other people shape thought and action. The lecture covers attitudes, persuasion, conformity, compliance, obedience, authority, group identity, intergroup conflict, and cooperation, using classic studies to show both the power of social influence and the importance of trusted allies and shared goals.

- 8.1 All right, this is it. Let's finish up talking about **social psychology**. When I started the course, I was talking about these levels of analysis, that we can break this down into these cognitive parts. Then, we can talk maybe about our self or personality. We talked about dyads, and I said how when we're in a relationship or a dyad, we become different. And this is also true for groups or for social processes.
- 8.2 So, for larger social processes, our individual self gets caught up and influenced by the social world around us. So, we live like individuals, but we're social animals. And so, being influenced by the social world and really being able to influence the social world is a really important part of our life. We call this influence from the social world **social influence**. So, this is the old term. Does the **social influence** affect us? It does, and there's a couple of reasons for it.
- 8.3 So, generally, when I'm influenced by society, the two big reasons are what we call normative influence, which is essentially, "I just want to be liked" or "I don't want to get in trouble." So, I'm trying to do what's normative or what's normal, what the average person's doing. And then, there's also informational influence, which is, "I want to be right." So, I look at the world, and I use that as a way for gleaning the correct information, and I do it that way.
- 8.4 So, these two big motives, being liked and being right, seem to shape a lot of what we do. So, imagine I go to an airport after this, and I walk in; I've never been to this airport in 20 years. I don't know what to do, but I see a big line of people, and I go, "Well, I'm just going to go, jump in that line," and I'll jump in that line, and I'll go, "Hey, guys, what are we in line for?" And they go, "This is the TSA clear thing." And I'm like, "Oh, I'm not the clear thing. I better go in this line." And then, I go find another line, or I go, "This is my right line." That's using social influence to learn what's right. It's informational influence.
- 8.5 The other thing I can do is I can go in there, and there's maybe two lines, and I'm in the long one, but I see there's a short line, and I go, "Man, maybe I should run into that short line, but maybe everyone here is going to get ticked off at me, so I shouldn't do it." So, even though I know that would be faster, I'm going to stay in this slow line because I want people to like me. I want to get along.
- 8.6 So, sometimes our social influence can be shaped by, "I just want people to like me even though this might not be the smartest thing to do." Maybe people are cheering for some local team. When I walk through the airport, the local whatever, the Swamp Dogs, have won the cricket tournament or whatever it is, and everyone's like, "Go, Swamp Dogs." And I walk in, I'm like, "Go, Swamp Dogs." I don't care about the Swamp Dogs. I don't even know who they are. But I want people—I want to fit in. I want people to like me. So that's this normative influence.
- 8.7 So, we're pushed in these different ways. Usually, it's good. Usually, being socially influenced isn't a bad thing. Usually, society's right, and if we follow the path, it ends up better. But sometimes, it's wrong. That's for the challenges. So, when everyone is saying, "Do this. This is the smart thing to do. Hey, everyone's buying Beanie Babies. You should buy a Beanie Baby, too. Hey, you should do this. It's good." And you're like, "Yeah, maybe this isn't good." That's when social influence can be a problem: when you feel this social pressure, but it's not the right pressure.

- 8.8** When we're kids, we struggle with this. In the old days, "Hey, everyone, we're 15. Let's go steal—let's drink these beers and go steal my dad's Mustang, and we'll go joyriding." They don't do that anymore. But back in the day, that's what we used to call peer pressure or negative peer pressure. Like, "Man, I know this is wrong, but it would be so cool to be with my older friends in that Mustang." And that's a case where we struggle with social influence. So, social influence is about these pressures, and again, primarily being liked and being right.
- 8.9** What I want to talk about are a few things in this class. I first want to talk a little bit about what this pressure feels like, about what this influence feels like, because it's cool. I'm going to talk about some work.
- 8.10** Then, I was going to do some of the classic stuff. I was going to talk about **persuasion**, which are intentional efforts to persuade people to do things or change or shape people's beliefs. And you see that a lot in propaganda. You see that a lot in marketing, any **persuasion**, public health.
- 8.11** And then, I was going to talk about some of the classic group effects in social psych. **Conformity** is doing people what you want by having them align with the group, compliance is having people do what you want by asking, and **obedience** is having people do what you want by telling them what to do. But there's different kinds of social influence. And then, I was going to talk a little bit about small groups at the very end because small group behavior is interesting and a classic social psych.
- 8.12** So, in terms of what social influence feels like, there's a very interesting model done by a gentleman named Bibb Latane. I think he's still with us, but he argued that social influence works a lot like energy. It has the same principles as energy. It can be felt like energy. And that the three variables that will predict social influence are the strength of, let's say, your audience.
- 8.13** And this influence is interesting because it can work both ways. It can be me. Like for me right now, speaking to an audience, you have a social influence on me, but as a speaker, I have a social influence on you. So, it's a two-way street. That's what social influence is. So, what predicts social influence or the strength of it?
- 8.14** First, it's the strength of the people that are watching you or the strength of the person persuading you. So, strength is somebody high in status, somebody who's powerful, somebody who's important. If it were the Pope speaking, they would have a lot of—I'd be like, "It's the Pope." If it's me, it's not the Pope. It's different.
- 8.15** There's immediacy for speaking. So, when I'm talking to you guys, I'm having a social influence on you. You have to watch. You're stuck here. I'm sorry. You're in this big white box. But I got a bunch of cameras out here, and that means somebody's watching this in another room back there. Somebody's watching at home.
- 8.16** Maybe somebody's going to watch this on a phone six months from now on a subway in Dubai. I don't even know if they have subways in Dubai. I shouldn't say that. Imagine they're in Dubai in one of those cool buildings watching this. So, that isn't immediate. So, that's like, I'm performing for an audience, but it's an audience in the future I don't know. That's not going to have as much effect as you guys. So, you're affecting me a lot, which I appreciate, but I'm not being affected by a young guy in Dubai right now. It's not having that effect. Cameras do a little bit, not so much. It's that immediacy thing.
- 8.17** And then, the thing is numbers. It's how big an audience you have or how many people are speaking. So, if I'm performing in front of 20 people, that's going to feel like less social pressure or less social impact than if I'm performing in front of 100 people or 300 people. I'll often do a 300-person class. That's just a different feeling.
- 8.18** I've only walked onto the football stadium once, did one of these. But when I talked to friends who played football, they're like, "You can never replicate the experience of running into a stadium with 80,000 people cheering." They're like, "I think about that in

my dreams" because that's this very powerful, huge number of people influenced cheering at you. That's very, very powerful. So, the number matters a lot.

- 8.19** So, what was going on with this social influence or social impact is it feels like a force. I can feel it directly talking, and people can feel it directly, and it has to do with how important you are, how immediate you are, and how many numbers you are. And again, it can work both ways.
- 8.20** So, if you're listening to me talk, I'm one person, but if I were somebody more important, like the Pope and Oprah Winfrey, and there were two of us, it would be even more powerful. And if there were the Beatles and the Pope and Oprah Winfrey talking, you'd be like, "Man, that's a lot of social impact." So, you can build the numbers, strength, and immediacy on both sides. And if I were talking to you on a screen, if it were me in the back room and my speech was on a screen, it would not work. That would not have the impact. Even if I were right there, you'd be like, "It's not doing it, man. You're on a screen." Does that make sense?
- 8.21** So, you can really manipulate these variables and feel—it very much feels like energy. You can use physics models to figure this out. So, that's the idea of how social impact works as an energy system, as a force. Here are some different examples historically.
- 8.22** So, one of the classic examples of social influence was persuasion. This is the ability to convince somebody and, ideally, to shift or implant an attitude in that person or an evaluation of belief. So, the classic example of persuasion in social psychology goes back to World War II. What happened there was Americans didn't want to go and fight over in Europe, so they had to persuade us to fight. Persuading a group of people is known as propaganda. We don't use that term in the US because we consider it bad, but that's what all countries do. You have a minister of propaganda, whatever you want to call it, and you use propaganda to try to get your people aligned in a nonviolent way to do what the government wants.
- 8.23** In World War II, they brought a group of people in Yale who were essentially behaviorists. They were rat runners. Hovland was the leader of this group they called it the Yale group sometimes, I was taught the Hovland group, and they said, "Hey, we're in a war. Drop the rats. Figure out how we persuade people. Figure out what matters."
- 8.24** And they started noticing things that are hinting at what we just talked about. They said, "Well, what really matters are things like, who's giving the message. Is it an expert?" And the other thing that they found out was people really like experts, and they really like attractive people. So, if you hear a message, your spokesperson—if you look at the spokesmodel for every organization, company, government, and state in the world, they're always attractive because no one wants a message from an ugly person. I'm sorry; it's the way it is. That's what they figured out.
- 8.25** And an expert, and I mentioned this before, it doesn't really even matter what the expert is. You're like, "Yeah, we got—it's always Einstein—we got Einstein here to talk about whatever; talk about your food choices. He doesn't seem that fit, but whatever, he's Einstein." So you get attractive and experts. Those are what people like.
- 8.26** You want to look at how the message is communicated. They spend a lot of time looking at how to structure messages, and you're familiar with these. So, one big distinction they noticed was, "Hey, we can give a one-sided message or a two-sided message." A one-sided message is, "Hey, we've got to go to war because the other side is bad. And so we have to go to war because they're bad. Did I mention they were bad?" One message, one side. Or I could give a two sided- message: "You know what? There's a lot of different sides to this. Some people arguing going to war would be bad, and other people arguing going to war would be good. There's good arguments on both sides, but we think going to war is good." That's a two-sided message.
- 8.27** One-sided messages work really well for people who already believe you and really like slogans: "Dumb, dumb, dumb, dumb, dumb, dumb." You're like, "Perfect." People who are

a little more smart have a higher, what they call, need for cognition, which I'll talk about in a second. They like two-sided messages. They like to think a little bit. They don't like to be force-fed propaganda. They like to chew on it and absorb it themselves. So, that's a big difference.

- 8.28** And then, they found that the audience really makes a difference in persuasion. So, you persuade different audiences easily. If people know what they're talking about, it's harder to persuade. So, if you got experts, it's harder to persuade. Ideally, you want two-sided messages.
- 8.29** The other thing that makes people harder to persuade is what's called the need for cognition. Some people have a very high need for cognition, which means they like to think about stuff. Other people have a lower need for cognition. So, if you give a message to somebody with a high need for cognition, like, "Dude, let me think this one through," and then if you don't give them enough information, they're not going to believe you. If somebody has no need for cognition, you give them nothing, they're happy. So, that's a big variable.
- 8.30** Another one that pops up a lot, and we'll see this in a second, is ego involvement. That's a fancy way to say interest; how important the topic is to people. If somebody starts giving me a debate about where they're going to put a new dump into Hachopee, Nevada, I'm like, "Dude, that sounds really interesting. I gotta be honest. I don't care. You seem like a lovely person. God bless. Namaste. But, it's not really relevant to me." I only saw the sign to the Hachopee once, and I heard it in a song. And so, the audience interest really matters for how much the message is. So, that was what they figured out.
- 8.31** And you saw certain things come out of World War II. One of the big things that came out of it was propaganda films. So, what would happen is you go see a movie, and before the movie, they'd have a film. It was like a highlight reel of Chapel Hill basketball. When I was at Chapel Hill, we'd lose the game, and then I'd watch the highlight reel, just doing these tomahawk dunks on people. I'm like, "That's not the game I saw. That's propaganda." And they were doing that with the propaganda films in the war. So, you'd see America winning this, winning that. They were putting bad news out. So, that was one of the things they came up with.
- 8.32** Oh, fear-based messages. That was another one that popped out of this. They realized that a fear-based message was really good, so they'd give people these really deadly fear-based messages. And that gets people to act. But if you don't give them a way to stop it, it can make people depressed. So, usually, give people a fear-based—"But you're not going to die if you buy a US savings bond, a war bond." "Ah, that makes me feel better. I thought I was going to die, but I started a liberty garden. Okay, I'm good." So, usually, fear-based with something else works. These messages—it's all the same.
- 8.33** So then, what happened in more modern years is people took this model and they said, "Oh, wait, maybe there's something dual process." So, you remember at the very beginning of the course, we talked about these dual process models: automatic and controlled models, thinking fast and thinking slow, that we process information in a controlled way, and we process information in a more automatic way.
- 8.34** And what researchers realized—and there's a couple of different groups who did this pretty similar times—they found out this is how persuasion works. When we're persuaded, we're persuaded at both what they call a peripheral route that's more automatic, often called a heuristic route, and we're persuaded through a controlled route or central route, or maybe what you call a systematic route. So, different names, but what they're saying is messages are working two ways at the same time.
- 8.35** So, here's how it goes, and this is neat. So, you get a message coming in, "Hey, Keith, support this war." Okay, the first question is: "Do I care, and am I able to think about it." If I don't really care about the war or I'm not able to think, I'm busy, I'm tired, whatever. I'm not going to think about it. Instead, what I'm going to do is use my automatic route, my fast route, my peripheral route, or my heuristic route. The guy who says, "Hey, Keith,

support the war." I'm like, "Well, that seems like a good-looking expert, and he said it with confidence. I kind of support the war." Or you look and go, "That's some unattractive loser. I don't like them. I'm sure not going to support anything they support. I don't want to be associated with that nonsense. I'm not going to support the war." That's it. It's very simple.

- 8.36** And what you get from that is you don't get deep support, a deeply integrated understanding of the war, and deep persuasion. What you get is called an attitudinal shift: "Yeah, I like supporting the war. It feels good."
- 8.37** Imagine I'm drinking Pepsi. "Hey, buy this Pepsi." And I'm like, "Why?" Well, they won't tell you why because you can never make a case for drinking Pepsi. That's a controlled case. So, what you do is you go like, "Because Britney Spears is dancing." You're like, "I love that dancing, Britney Spears. I love your Pepsi." That's it. All they're trying to do is shift you.
- 8.38** You remember the pandemic? You probably do. They had dancing vaccines. What the heck are dancing vaccines? That's not persuading anybody. It's persuading people who don't care, persuading people who aren't—it's trying to lead to an attitudinal shift. It's not deep persuasion. It's that peripheral route. We call it the peripheral path to persuasion. This is all in the elaboration likelihood model. And so, what we do is a lot of peripheral advertising: jingles, music, happy sounds, happy feeling, associationistic learning—so, Pavlov dog.
- 8.39** The central route is when you really care about something, and you have the ability to process it. So, this is ego-involved, and I care about this. "Do you support the war?" "Well, heck, I'm 18. I'm going to be the one you call to do it. This matters to me. What argument do you have?" "Well, here's a dancing soldier saying, 'Go to war.'" I'm like, "That's not doing it for me, man. I'm not fighting for you."
- 8.40** So, if you try to make a central route, what you do is you make an argument. And if people care about it, if they care about something—this is the catch. Somebody says you need to go to war. What you do in your own mind is you counterargue their argument. So if I'm an 18-year-old and they're like, "Keith, here's our message: 'Go to war. It's going to be fun.'" In my mind, I'm like, "I can think of 20 reasons why this is a bad idea. One, we're going to lose. Two, I'm going to die. Three, I miss my family. Four, I don't even like you. Five, I don't like killing people. Six, war sucks. I don't want to do any of this."
- 8.41** So, what happens is if I get an argument, if I care, and I counterargue, I might not be persuaded. I might even be anti-persuaded. It's called a boomerang effect. So, somebody can try to persuade me to do the war, but they give me a bad message, and I think about it, I go, "No, you guys are idiots. I'm never—I didn't care about it, but now that I've heard your message, I'm never going into that war." So, when you use the central route, the controlled route to persuasion, that gives people a chance to argue back. So, if you're doing that, what you want to do is you need to make a real good argument to people.
- 8.42** So the peripheral route, you can just do the song and dance Hollywood nonsense and just shift people. But if you really want to persuade people, you need real arguments that smart people will listen to and maybe it'll work. Does that make sense?
- 8.43** So, there's these—and this is happening simultaneously. So, even you can be watching this going, "God, the war sounds good. I'm dancing. I saw the ads; the guys are jumping out of helicopters. That sounds fun." But then, I'm thinking about it, I'm thinking this doesn't sound good. So, you can get this conflict or this ambivalence where part of me is, "This feels good," but when I'm thinking, it feels bad. So, that's the challenge with persuasion.
- 8.44** And what we see with persuasion that gets confusing is when there's a massive effort for public health persuasion, military persuasion, any corporate sales type, 'Buy these cars' persuasion. This happens all the time. They're always working on a central and a peripheral path. They're always trying to do both. Depending on the product, they'll do more or less, and it's going to hit you in two ways at the same time. It's going to be

peripheral and central, and it's going to hit different people differently depending on how much they care. That's pretty good. Okay. Yeah. So, that's all of persuasion.

- 8.45** That could be a whole course in five minutes, but I find it fascinating. And you can watch—yeah, you can watch it happen; you just watch them. They pull out the bag of tricks that they all learn in school and do the bag of tricks. So, persuasion is more of this effort to create or change attitudes in people.
- 8.46** Another classic form of social influence is what's called conformity. And what conformity is, is the willingness of people to align themselves with the behavior of a group to conform with what a group is doing. So, a group of people is doing X. Do I do X? Do I conform with that group? We chatted a little bit about the picture in the Nazi Germany of everyone doing the Hitler salute, which I don't do, and the one guy not doing it. That is a classic example of conformity and refusal for conformity. That's why it stands out so much.
- 8.47** There's a picture in China during the Tiananmen Square massacre with one guy standing in front of a group of tanks. That's an example of somebody risking conformity and really obedience in that case because the tank is going to run them over. Most of the time, what you see are people going along with the group. Sometimes, you see people stand out.
- 8.48** Researchers were trying to figure this out in the '50, and the most famous study on this was the **Asch** conformity study. It's a classic study the way he set this up. Now, I talked to people who've done this work. It's hard to do this. It's not really easy to do. You have to convince people a little bit to make it work. This is classic old social psych.
- 8.49** So, what they did is they brought in a bunch of people, and they said, "Okay, we're going to show you a series of lines: a line, A, line, B, line, C, and all you have to do is say which line is the tallest, say which line's the shortest, whatever. So, the lines were very clear. It'd be like A, B, and C. Which is the tallest? And it's obviously B. Anybody could see that; it wasn't a trick. It wasn't that.
- 8.50** Here's how they'd set it up, though, to make the conformity work. They'd bring seven people into the room—and if I get these numbers wrong, I apologize; I think I'm right, though—bring seven people in the room. They'd be sitting in a semicircle. Six of those seven people would be what we called confederates of the experimenter, meaning they acted like they were subjects, which we now call participants. They acted like participants in the experiments, but they were really confederates of the experimenter. So, in those seven people doing this study, only one is an actual experimental subject or participant, and the rest are actually working for the experimenter, surreptitiously or secretly. This is the fun of social psychology.
- 8.51** So, what they do is they have everyone get in the room. But they set people up in a certain way. So, they have the first person working for the experimenter, the second person working for the experimenter, the third working for the experimenter, the fourth working for the experimenter, the fifth working for the experimenter, the sixth was the research subject, and then the seventh was working for the experimenter. For some reason, it works better if you're not the last one. It works better if you're second to last because if you're last, you figure it out. So, they put you second to last to make this work; at least that's the story I was told.
- 8.52** And then, what they do is say, "Hey, here's some lines. Which is the tallest?" And it was obvious the tallest was B. So, the first person would go, "A." The second person would go, "A," "A, it's definitely A," "A," and then—I think I maybe missed one—and then you come to the experimenter, he's looking at this, going, "It's B. It's B." And you have pictures, like, "What the heck?" And people are freaked, and they go, "A." And then, the next person goes, "A."
- 8.53** What you're seeing with this—it wasn't that people conformed all the time. They were conforming about a third of the time. It wasn't like people totally conformed because it was so obvious. And then, you wonder why they're doing it. Why are they conforming? And they asked people, and they did some other versions of this where they had people write

their answers on magic—you guys remember magic erase boards? You'd write stuff, and rip it off, and it would go away. So, I used to tell students, "When you leave, it's like a magic erase board. I remember nothing. Just remind me." And they did that.

- 8.54** And what they found was that in some cases, participants really thought they were being right, meaning it was informational influence. Like, "Man, these guys, everyone saw it was A; it must have been A. I must have had something in my eye. I must have been missing something." Other people were like, "Dude, I knew it was B, but I just didn't want to rock the boat. These guys seemed pretty intense that it was A. I just kept my mouth shut." So, it's complicated, the influence. Conformity could be driven by both being liked and being right. But it's a pretty powerful effect. So, that was one of the classic demonstrations of conformity.
- 8.55** The next form of social influence would be **compliance**. So, conformity is just going along with the crowd. No one told you that you had to do it. You followed the crowd naturally, like jumping in a line at the airport. The next form of social influence is **compliance**. This is the idea that people will comply with the request. So, the interest in **compliance** has some interest in public health, also an interest in sales.
- 8.56** The psychologist that did the most, I think the most influential work on this back in the day, was Robert Cialdini, Bobby Cialdini, who was a Chapel Hill psychologist and went to Arizona. And he wrote a book called Persuasion.
- 8.57** What he did is he essentially went into—he worked at restaurants, he worked at car dealerships, he hung out with the Hare Krishnas, he worked selling things, he advised a lot of people, and he started looking up these strategies or weapons people used to influence other people. And his book is wonderful if you go into sales or anything. I highly recommend it, but I was going to give you a few.
- 8.58** And basically, what he argued is there's a certain situational context we can use or certain cues we can use to make people more likely to agree with our requests. So, one of the classic ones that you see in a lot of marketing is reciprocity or the norm of reciprocity. If someone gives you something, you feel a very natural urge to reciprocate by giving them something back. So, if I want someone to comply with a request, often what I can do is give them something. And then, they go, "Well, they gave me something. I got to give them something back."
- 8.59** When I open up my mail, some days, they go, "Hey, Keith, here's a brand new calendar from the Sierra club. Isn't that wonderful?" "Oh, thank you, Sierra Club." "Would you like to give us some money?" "Oh, God, I better have to. You just gave me this lovely calendar." Easter seals—"Oh, you just gave me these lovely seals. I'm not sure what I do with these, but they're so lovely. Maybe I should give you some money." That's a reciprocity.
- 8.60** You see this a lot in stores. I'm trying to think, like, in Turkey rug shopping or Indian places, but you see in places where you come to a store and like, "Hey, would you like a drink? Would you like some tea?" I go to a store, and somebody gets me a drink, I'm like, "Damn, I got to buy something now." So, that's a really good way to do it.
- 8.61** The example that Cialdini used probably doesn't work anymore with people, but before, in the old days, there was a group that would be in a lot of airports called the Hare Krishnas. And I grew up in Laguna Beach. They had a headquarters there. So, I was pretty familiar with the Krishnas. And they would sing "Hare Krishna," and they'd go to airports, and they would give people flowers, and then ask for donations.
- 8.62** So, their trick, I mean, their strategy, I wouldn't say it's a trick, it's a religious organization, but their strategy was they'd say, "Here's a flower, would you like to make a donation?" And this was in all the airports. In the movie "Airplane!," they turned this into a skit.
- 8.63** But what Cialdini did, he goes, "I hung out and watched them for a while, and what they'd do is they'd go, 'Hey, here's a flower, would you like to make a gift?' and people give them a buck or something. And then, people would walk away with this flower and throw it in the trash can, like, 'What am I doing?'" And so, Cialdini said he watched, and after 45

minutes, the Krishnas were going to smoke break, they walked over to the trash can, picked up all the flowers. I don't know if this was one of those apocryphal psychology stories from the '70, but I thought that maybe that's true, and I loved it.

- 8.64** But that's how powerful that reciprocity norm is. It's very powerful: gift giving, just very powerful because that's—I got to stop here, but the basis of a lot of human trade and commerce is just reciprocity and specialization of labor. You get specialized in something; you trade it with other people and economies, boom. So, this is something very hardwired.
- 8.65** Another psychological trait aspect that's very hardwired is scarcity. So, when you convince people something is scarce, or they're running out of it, people are more likely to buy it. So, the Cialdini story is that he was at a restaurant, they had too much—I don't know, I'm just going to say halibut. I'll say duck, why not? They had too much duck they couldn't get rid of. So, what he said was, "Hey, let me take over. I'll do it." He'd go to the table and say, "Hey, this is a restaurant, but I want to let you guys know we've got a duck special tonight. There's only a couple of them left, so if you want that, just let me know early."
- 8.66** As soon as some guy says that to me at the restaurant, I order the duck because I'm like, "That duck is mine. No one else can have my duck." And they're like, "What? Well, you're a maniac." People are like, "A tackling maniac. You possessive beast. That was the last duck. You don't even like duck." Yeah, but I like duck more than I like other people having duck. And then, you're like, "Oh my God, sorry, I can't believe I said that. It's horrible." Scarcity is really powerful.
- 8.67** So, what he was saying is you make something seem scarce. If you go and say, "Hey, we got a lot of duck tonight." Like, "Meh, that's fine. It sounds like duck is what no one wants." This is when I talk about buying properties, buying Beanie Babies. Any scarcity can lead to tulip bubbles. Any of these things can lead to a desire for something and compliance for a request.
- 8.68** Another big one that you see with a lot of salesmen, and Cialdini was talking about car salesmen with this, was similarity. Often, if we're gonna do a favor for somebody, if they're similar to us in some way, that motivates us to do it. So, when you meet people who are really good salesmen, they're like, "Hey, how are you doing? Where are you from?" "Oh, I'm from Georgia." "Oh, I've got a friend in Georgia. Do you know this place?" "Oh, I know that place; yeah, my cousin lives there." "Oh, we're besties. God, it's almost like we're family. What kind of car do you want to show me, cuz?" How did that happen? Well, it's just invoking similarity.
- 8.69** So, you can invoke similarity with people; that'll lead to more compliance and more liking. And the way you do that is everyone's got some touch points where you're similar, and you invoke those, and that usually works: shared friends, shared network, shared places.
- 8.70** Two others I want to talk about that are classic strategies for compliance: the foot in the door and the door in the face. So, they're basically manipulating perceptual contrast to get people to change a little bit. So, the foot in the door technique is you get people to respond to a small request, and then you hit them up with a bigger request.
- 8.71** So, in the Cialdini story, the study was: see if people will put up a little yard sign, and if they agreed to a little yard sign, then come back in a week or two and say, "Hey, would you put this 5-foot yard sign up?" And people are more likely to agree if they've already said yes to a little sign than if you just hit them up right away with a 5-foot sign. You go, "You want a 5-foot sign?" "No way." But if they put up a little sign first, you're like, "Hey, would you like to do the 5-foot sign? People go, "Yeah."
- 8.72** Why is that? Well, because people have convinced themselves they're the kind of people who put signs in the yard. Yeah, I'm a sign-in-the-yard person. A 5-foot sign isn't much different than a 2-foot sign. So, getting your foot in the door can really work with sales. A lot of sales is you funnel as you're building people in one thing; then you upsell and upsell. It's the same idea.

- 8.73** The door in the face is a little bit more interesting. This is like the high school kid. "Dad, I'm going to Mexico with my friend Bob for a week. We should be back on Sunday or Monday, maybe Tuesday." "Where are you staying?" "I think it's some guys." "No way can you do that." "Seriously, dad? Okay, how about I go to Bob's for the weekend and we're going to go see the Braves game?" "Oh, that's fine." So, what they do is they make an outrageous request and force you to say no. But as soon as you say no to that, you're like, "Well, now I owe them." Now they give you a small request, "Or I could do that," and it doesn't seem as bad in contrast. So, this is the high school kid.
- 8.74** But you can see this with any compliance. You ask for something really big, and then you dial it back. These can go either way, but just different strategies. So compliance, again, is based on a request.
- 8.75** Now, we're getting our social influence a little harder, a little more direct. This is obedience. So, obedience is responding to a request that's an order or a command. Somebody tells you to do something; do you actually do what they tell you to do? As the story goes, after World War II and the Holocaust, there was a period of questioning of the human condition, and people were wondering how on earth you would get people to commit mass murder. That was essentially the question: how on earth did you get people to kill millions of people? It just seemed impossible to do.
- 8.76** And people in the US thought, "Well, I guess they're Germans. Germans are pretty uptight. They toilet train young. They're really organized. But no way would freedom-loving Americans form a mob and commit mass murder because the government told them to, because we love freedom." And so, there is this debate about this, and a psychologist named Stanley **Milgram**, a famous social psychologist at Yale, got a grant from the— I think it was the Navy. He got some federal grant to go study this.
- 8.77** And so, they asked people. They asked a psychiatrist, "Hey, how many Americans would kill somebody if you ordered them to?" And the answer was, "Yeah, maybe 1, 2, 3%, the psychopaths, the bad people. But the good people wouldn't do it. Good people are good, but the psychopaths would do it." What you learned very quickly in social psychology is that the worst people on earth are nice people that are helping out there, working together to help psychopaths. It's very weird because, at that group scale, things change. So, people thought no one would do it.
- 8.78** So, Milgram set up this study, and the way—it's a little complicated. There's a lot of fake people in it, confederates. But imagine I walk into the study, I walk into the lab. I'm going to be the experimental participant. I'm the one they're doing the study on. I walk in, and they say, "Hey, Keith, welcome to our lab. It's very simple. All you're going to do, you've got your buddy over here—the guy in the movie looks exactly like my grandfather, who I never met, but that's how I think of him, my grandfather, because he was an actor.
- 8.79** And they say, "It's really cool. All you're going to do is you're teaching this guy some word pairs. It's memory study. He says 'boy,' and he's supposed to say 'girl,' and if he doesn't say 'girl,' you give him a little shock. We're looking at shock and electricity and training. "Oh, that sounds good." "Yeah, there's just one catch. Every time he makes a mistake, you make the shock a little higher."
- 8.80** So, there's a big board. This is a famous board. Imagine this giant, famous shock board in front of you, and it starts at low levels, and then the volts go up, up, up and up with these different clickers or different little bars you hit. And then, it gets up to 450 volts slash XXX. So, basically, this guy's going to die. And so, it's not really hidden.
- 8.81** So, you go through the—what you're doing is training this person. Each time they make a mistake, you hit them with a little harder shock. So then, there's a little script the experimenter does. He starts off; he makes these mistakes. It's all pre planned. You don't know that. You hit with some shocks. Up in the middle, he starts going, "Oh, this is hurting. Oh, my heart's bothering me. I have a heart condition. Let me out of here. Let me out of here."

- 8.82** And then, the experimenter starts saying—usually, what happens is the person experimenting starts going, "Hey, maybe there's some issues here." Looks at the experimenter, Milgram or whoever, and what the experimenter would say was a few different prompts. They'd either say, "Please continue." They'd say, "Please continue," or, "Please go on." If that didn't work, they'd say, "The experiment requires that you continue." Then, they'd say, "It's absolutely essential that you continue." And finally, "You have no other choice. You must go on." So, they would give—that was their script. It wasn't more than that.
- 8.83** So, "Hey, this guy's got a heart condition." "Please continue." But he's got a real bad heart condition. "The experiment requires that he continue." "But I think he's dead in there." "It's absolutely essential that you continue the experiment. You have no other choice. You must go on."
- 8.84** Sometimes, they'd ask about responsibility. And what you'd watch happen as people go through this is the person would suffer, people would often stop, look at the experimenter. They get the direction, they keep going. At another point in there, the guy would just stop talking. So, he'd say, "I'm having a heart attack. I'm in pain." Then, he'd stop responding, and the experimenter would say, "No response is a wrong response. Please, shock him." So the guy would be like, "Boy, there's no response." "Shock him. Shock him up to 450 volts."
- 8.85** You got about two-thirds of the people that would shock somebody not responding at 450 volts, XXX, depending on how you do it. There's different ways to set it up. You put a person by themselves, isolated in there, you get about two-thirds of the people will kill somebody. It's wild. It's just wild. It's a wonderful demonstration because it shows you how much power the situation has over us, even though we think we do.
- 8.86** If you put two people in the lab doing the shock, people will break it much earlier. So, if there's two of them, like, "Dude, I'm not killing them." And the other guy's like, "Hell no. We're out of here." It's much easier to resist authority if there's two of us.
- 8.87** So, whenever people want to control you, they always separate you. You join a cult, they don't let you call your parents. Whenever they want to control people, they isolate them. So, that's, essentially, what happened with the Milgram study: they realized that this obedience, this force of obedience, was extremely powerful and that you could get a significant number of people willing to kill people by just telling them to do it. It didn't need more than that.
- 8.88** But what you'll notice is the way they set it up was a little clever. They didn't walk in and say, "Here's the study. You're going to have to kill this guy if he screws up. Here's a big switch. If he makes a mistake, kill him." Because if they did that, people are more likely to say, "I'm not going to kill him." What they did was the classic foot in the door: "Just shock him a little bit. Shock him a little more. Shock him a little more than that." So, the decision was never, "I'm not going to do anything, or I'm going to kill the guy." The decision was, "Well, I shocked this guy 350 volts. Should I make it 375? Does that make sense?"
- 8.89** So, you walk them up. So, if you want to make somebody evil, you typically don't start off making them evil. You start off having them do a little evil stuff, and then they work their way up and like, "Dude, I'm pretty evil now. This isn't going to make me much more evil." I shouldn't tell you how to do this, but they're doing it all the time. That's how they do it. So, you walk people up to evil slowly.
- 8.90** There is no innate American ability to resist obedience and to resist murder. I don't think anyone has an innate ability. People are wired to follow obedience. It's very hard to resist. It's much harder to resist social pressure than we think. Obedience is probably the strongest form of social pressure. I wanted to say a few things about this.
- 8.91** First of all, as I said at the beginning, you get worried, like, "I shouldn't ever trust any social pressure at all. It's all bad." Well, usually, social pressure is good. Usually, the herd is right. Usually, people are doing what's better. Not always. That's the trick. But I usually

say, if you can feel people influencing you, like, "Hey, this is right out of the playbook of social influence. This is what they're doing. This is what they're doing," it always makes me ask the question: why? So, if I feel myself being influenced, or I feel myself being pushed in a way, I try to step back and go, "Hmm, who's doing this? Why are they doing this? Is it good? Is it bad?" So, step back, and think about it.

- 8.92** And then, in the old days, it used to be about expertise. But as you can see, we're going through this cultural shift now where the institutional expertise is collapsing and expertise is becoming networked. This is just what the Internet's done. It's like the printing press. Printing press blew up the Catholic Church in a lot of ways. And what social media is doing is breaking up hierarchies of expertise and networking it.
- 8.93** So, people go, "Keith, who's your primary source of social influence?" "Well, there's actually a guy named Trapper Jack out in Montana. I think he lives in a cave, but he's sure smart on that Twitter, and I follow him." "What?" That's what's happening. So, everything's breaking down with expertise. It's going to be a rough couple of decades here. So, one is to find expertise you trust.
- 8.94** The other thing that's really important in any social influence is finding allies, finding people that agree with you. In the Milgram study, it worked because people were alone. And the Ash conformity study for you and your buddy, and they're like, "What do you think?" Your buddy and you would be like, "Dude, it's B. You're lying." So, having allies is really important in this stuff.
- 8.95** A lot of social influence is about being liked. It's about this normative influence. It's not informational. So, if you don't want to be influenced, be comfortable not being liked, be a little disagreeable because if you're too agreeable, it's hard to resist. But if you're a little bit prickly, if you've got a little bit of antagonism, it's easier to say no to the system. And then, stay away from whatever unhealthy influence you can have and replace it with healthy influence.
- 8.96** So, all these things now, with the world being unstable, find a group of people you trust and surround yourself with that as your social influence, because it's really high-level stuff that people do. They're really good at it, and it's really powerful with social media. It's much more than just mainstream television, like when I was a kid. It's hard to resist this stuff. So, anyway, that's my social influence chat.
- 8.97** I wanted to end the social psych lecture talking about group behavior because I think this is really neat. And a lot of our life is lived in these group spaces with **group identity** or tribal identity, or whatever. It might be state identity or university identity, any identity we have.
- 8.98** So, the first thing you notice about groups, I think, looking at the social psych literature, is that it is very, very natural and easy to form people into groups. It's super easy to do. You think, "No way I'm joining a group." Well, yeah, you can. So, here are some of the old ways they did it. They'd say, "Hey, hey, guys, here's a bunch of dots. Do you think there—how many dots do you think there are?" And people come up with a number, and they say, "Oh, you guys are over-estimators, and you guys are under-estimators. Form a group." "What? Okay."
- 8.99** I had some buddies doing this work, and they showed pictures. They'd show art from Paul Klee and—oh, I forget Kandinsky's first name. Say, they have Klee and Kandinsky, an expressionist modern art. No one could tell the difference. You'd bring in a bunch of undergrads, "Which you prefer? Oh, you like Klee? You're in this group. Oh, you like Kandinsky." So, really random ways of putting people into groups.
- 8.100** Mere categorization is almost enough to trigger a group. Usually, if you have mere categorization and a little bit of discussion, very, very quickly, people will form a group.
- 8.101** Once people are in groups, what happens is a couple of things. One is they start getting esteem or identity from the group membership. So, they start going, "Yeah, I'm an over-

estimator. We're awesome." And then, they start comparing themselves by competing with other groups: "We're awesome, and the under-estimators are losers."

8.102 And so, what happens with groups is groups become a very natural place for people to gain self-esteem via comparing themselves with other groups. And what they do is they make strategic comparisons that allow themselves to have high self-esteem.

8.103 You'll see this at every university system in the country because all universities compete. They compete with athletics, and they compete with academics. So, here's what every competition goes like. I'm at Berkeley. We play Stanford. Stanford chants, "It's okay, you're going to work for us someday," because they think they're smarter than we are. We chant, "You're just a bunch of dorks," but we make it more clever than that because we say they're not as social as we are. But then, we're playing USC, southern California. Then, at Berkeley, we're chanting, "It's okay, you're going to work for us one day." We don't really chant that that's lame, but something like that, "We're smart." And then, the USC guys are chanting, "You're dorks because we have better parties."

8.104 So, what people are doing is strategic comparisons, and it all depends. So, at the University of Georgia, we fight with tech. We go, "You're nerds." And the tech people go, "You're going to work for us someday." Same thing. "We're smarter than you." But we're like, "We're nerdier than you." But then, we play Florida, and we're like, "You wear jean shorts." "What?" "Well, we got to compete on something. It's Georgia, man. That's what it is." "Okay." Because they're the same damn school. The two flagship schools are basically the same. You got to compete on something, but it's always strategic.

8.105 If you can't compete on anything, if you're like, "God, you guys are funner, and better-looking, and have better shorts," you don't feel any esteem from your school, and so you're not selling any merch. So, that's how this works. It's very much a way of identifying with and getting self-esteem.

8.106 Universities do it in a socially healthy way. Typically, you do it with sports. What you'll notice at schools—there's a famous, actually, a Cialdini study, and it's after Arizona games, but they found that after winning games, students will wear jerseys from their school more than after losing. They identify more with winning. And you see this, "We won. I don't remember being out there. I don't remember my knee getting taped up, getting hit by a 350-pound lineman. But I guess we were out there. We all won." And then, we say, "They lost." So, even our group identity is 'we' won, 'they' lost. So, it's very selective, and it's very much about esteem maintenance.

8.107 So, a lot of this group stuff is really powerful, and it's about esteem maintenance. And if you can do it, it works pretty well. But there's a lot of problems with groups in terms of getting along.

8.108 One of these big problems is what they call the **discontinuity effect**. It's basically about trust. So, I could go meet somebody from any country on earth right now, any nation, any religion, anything different than me, and we could have a conversation and make a deal. And I could shake his hand, or I could shake her hand, or do whatever I do, and I would trust that person. It's easy for individuals to trust individuals. People are pretty trustworthy; people usually don't lie to your face.

8.109 Some people lie to your face. And people go, "Why did they do that?" Because they're a psychopath. Because there's something off. But typically, most people are pretty honest.

8.110 So, when groups start to get together and negotiate, there's very little trust. And the reason for that is people in groups don't trust the other group to do the right thing. So they're like, "They're going to screw us over, so we better screw them over first," and this is what gets interesting.

8.111 The people that are the most distrusting and nasty in groups are often the nicest, most empathetic people not in groups. You get a group of really loving people who care about the group. They go, "I love our group so much. I'm such a loving person. I love every one of you. We're going to war with that bad group. I'm never letting them hurt you." So, in a

group, you can take a lovely group of people and turn them into a machine that is incredibly dangerous and threatening to any other group because it changes.

- 8.112** You take a bunch of psychopaths and turn them into a group, "Hey, I'm going to take the nastiest, baddest people around and turn them into a group." What is that? Well, that's the movie *The Dirty Dozen*. That's a lot of movies we make in America, which is, "Hey, we're going to grab a bunch of people out of prison. We're going to turn them into a military group and go out and kill the Nazis." You're reading about this in Russia with some of the Wagner group and stuff. You bring together people from prisons to form a group.
- 8.113** What happens to those groups? They don't work very well. So, if you ever read the classic book *The Dirty Dozen* or watch this—I like this because they made a narcissism scale called the dirty dozen after the movie, the movie with Telly Savalas. Everyone gets killed. They start stealing stuff. It just doesn't work because selfish people don't make good groups. Loving people make good groups. It gets complicated is what I'm saying. So, it's very hard for groups to trust each other. It's very hard for groups to get along. It's easy for individuals.
- 8.114** So, what I wanted to talk about is—end this up with one of these classic studies on small group behavior and talk about how you can get groups to break apart and get back together again because there's a way you do this in social psychology.
- 8.115** So, this was a famous study done in the '50 by Sharif, and this is known as the **Robbers Cave** study. So, whenever we talk about this famous study, it's the **Robbers Cave** study, and the reason for that was it was done in a park called the **Robbers Cave** Park in Oklahoma. They brought these groups of kids out there. So, you bring a couple of busloads of kids out to the park. They were going to go spend their week in summer camp, and they wanted to understand the formation of groups.
- 8.116** So, what they did initially was they divided kids into two groups. They said, "You guys are the Eagles, and you're the Rattlers. And what we're going to have you do is do some friendly competition to do things like, maybe you'll win a pocket knife, or you can do something out, or you pick a movie." I think that was actually one of the good ones, but you can win something a little bit. It's really called realistic group conflict. There was an old theory that—there was something they were fighting over that was very small.
- 8.117** So, they took these kids. They were all buddies. They put them into two groups, and they competed a little bit for these rewards. They had a tug of war. Again, I think it was over a pocket knife. And very quickly, what happened was the Eagles and Rattlers turned into a bunch of friends, and they turned into a hostile enemy force.
- 8.118** So, the Rattlers started being the bad boys. When I was a kid, they were like the Oakland A's. I don't know if you remember them. That was like the—or the Raiders. Yeah, they were the bad boys. The football team, they were the tough guys. And then, the Eagles were more like the Boy Scouts. They were like, "We're the good guys, and you're the bad guys." They wouldn't sit next to each other at groups. They would taunt each other. There might have been a cabin raid. Maybe I'm making that up. These things always get better over time as stories get told.
- 8.119** So, what the researchers realized was, "Oh, my goodness. In a day or two, what we've done is made two very hostile opposing groups from a group of friends." That's what I was trying to say. It's very, very easy to get people to get into groups and want to go to war with each other. This is how we're built.
- 8.120** So then, they thought, "Hmm, let's see if we can bring these groups back together because this is a mess. What do we do?" Well, here's what you do. This is what they developed. "What we need to do is get them to—we need to force them to work together to cooperate to solve higher-level problems that affect both groups."
- 8.121** Imagine this: "Hey, we're all going on the bus, but the bus broke down. What a surprise. Ah, we're going to have to work together. Eagles, you dig out the back tires, and Rattlers, you pull on the ropes to help pull us out." What happened when they did that? It started

getting better. "Oh, the water supply is out. Let's work together as a team to get the water supply out." So, people stayed and worked together as a team to get the water supply. Then, they had to do something with a movie. So, they developed these cooperation techniques to try to bring people together.

- 8.122** And what they found was that it worked to some extent, but it was hard, meaning people started to cooperate more. There was less taunting. People would sit with their old friends after the cooperation, but it still wasn't a full redo of the group.
- 8.123** Here's what seems to happen in group psychology. You make two groups. You want them to come together. It's very hard to make them back into the same group, so what you have to do is make a **superordinate** or higher-level group they can both be part of, and then they can recombine.
- 8.124** When we talk about this in movies, it's like, "Hey, America doesn't get along with Russia, but maybe if the aliens invaded, we could all work together as a human group to fight the aliens, and then we'd get along. That's the idea. Or maybe we're fighting on this football team, but if we all work together, we could beat the neighboring team. So, we need to get along.
- 8.125** So, a lot of what you're doing, trying to bring groups together, is you're just forming other groups that compete with other groups. You're not solving the fundamental problem of groupness. You're just making it higher-level. "We're all humans fighting aliens, so we're all buddies. Okay, I feel good now. We used to hate all of you guys, but now that we're fighting together, it's great." That is the challenge.
- 8.126** So, groups are very, like I said, they're very easy to form. They're very, very powerful. They get a lot of identity from them, and we get a lot of self-esteem from them. And as you can guess, they're a bit of a shortcut to self-esteem. So, you can feel a lot of self-esteem from group membership and not really do much. You can feel self-esteem from rooting for the Bulldogs. You can feel self-esteem from rooting for the Yankees, whatever it is. And that's something, but it's not quite as good as doing something in yourself. But that's how groups work.
- 8.127** So, our social world is filled with these very powerful forces that are shaping us all the time, this social influence. This can be persuasion that's happening all the time. We're being blitzed with marketing ads all the time. If you go on social media, you're being—you're part of experiments all the time. They're doing A/B testing. They're like, "Hey, let's set up the context this way. Let's set it up this way. Let's—" I'm basically like a lab rat. All the time, we're being shaped by this stuff.
- 8.128** At the same time, this is how we're built. We're social animals, and we're group animals. So, you got to do it. You got to have a group, you got to connect with people, and you also have to be socially influenced, but you have to be smart enough to know when that influence is wrong or right. When are you Sieg Heiling with the group? That's when you don't want to be that guy. And that takes a lot of discernment.
- 8.129** Again, I think at this point in time, in particular, though it's always the case, having a close network of people you like and respect that you can talk to about stuff, so you don't get quite as carried away by these social forces is really important.
- 8.130** And then, the other thing with groups—I wanted to finish by saying that we have to have groups. If I want to get something done, I can't do a lot by myself, but if I can put together a team, if I can put together a social movement, my goodness, I can leverage my own desires for huge, huge benefits or huge whatever gains.
- 8.131** So, we have to learn how to work with groups. We have to learn how to control groups. But I always like to point out that the groups can capture us. They capture—just like love, you can get captured in love. You can have a terrible relationship. You can get captured by a group. At the extreme, that's a cult, but it can be lots of groups that capture us. And, yeah, always have some discrimination and where you draw the lines between your own self and connecting with the group or social setting. That's it. Thank you.

- 8.132** So, my question is something that was on my mind the whole talk. What's the difference between manipulation and persuasion? It seems like it might be a difficult line to draw, but I was thinking it might—for example, gift-giving is pretty natural, and we do it naturally. Christmas is coming up. But at what point does that then become manipulation? Because you could work in advancement and then give someone a gift in hope that they give you then a gift. Is it based on intention or what?
- 8.133** I think that's a wonderful question because when you say manipulation, that has a little bit of a negative connotation for you. Like, I don't want any—"Yeah, that Keith, man, he's just so manipulative. I really admire—you know what I admire about you? Your ability to manipulate people."
- 8.134** So, I do think, and I haven't thought this through, but I think on the spot, part of the idea of manipulation is you're doing it without the person's knowledge, and you're doing it intentionally without their knowledge. So, it's a little sneaky, whereas some persuasion, it's like, "Hey, come buy this stuff." It's like, "Yeah, I know you're selling me," and maybe it's not quite as manipulative. So, maybe it's that respect of the other person, and maybe it's the intention to deceive.
- 8.135** So, if I go buy a car and somebody's doing their sale gig, I'm like, "Dude, that's just your job. You're not really manipulating me; you're doing your shtick" versus you brought me in here, and you set up a whole situation. But even then, it's a hard line to draw because sometimes you're manipulating people.
- 8.136** If you fall in love with somebody, like, "I want this woman to marry me, I'm going to groom myself and pretend I'm better than I am, so she does." Yeah, it's manipulation, but yeah, you can't blame me for trying. So, I don't tell my wife that it worked. But I think that's a wonderful question, and a lot of this is where we say: what's good and bad morally when a lot of what we're doing is a little manipulative?
- 8.137** Going back to clinical treatment. So nowadays, a lot of people are affected with so many mental situations that you covered. What do you suggest? Should everyone be seeking normal help? Should we persuade others to get help if we see that they're in harm's way? What are your suggestions?
- 8.138** Yeah, I don't know if I have real good suggestions, maybe some thoughts. The way the mental health system works, I think we're in a mental health crisis right now. I think that's pretty clear. I think with young people and young women in particular, but it's all over.
- 8.139** I think one of the challenges now is you're mentally healthy till you're mentally ill, and you need to see a clinician or psychiatrist. But what about all those spots in between there? Is there a spot where you go, "Yeah, I don't know, but I got a good coach I can talk to. I've got a pastor I can talk to. I've got my rabbi. I got someone. I can reach a support group, a group of guys I can talk to. What would be nice, I think, if we had that space worked out, where there was a space between 'I got my clinical person, and then I've got this other space where I can share and open and talk about these things.' I think that would be really useful.
- 8.140** I'm a Californian. So, we grew up going to therapy, but it was crazy out here. Out east, people wouldn't do it. And now therapy is normalized. And then, sometimes, I wonder, well, maybe it's too normalized. Maybe everyone's like, "I'm mentally ill." "No, you're just messed up like the rest of us."
- 8.141** So, I guess, my thought would be, it would be nice to get some middle space there where you could go, "Hey, I'm drinking a lot. I can go talk to a guy, and he's like, 'Hey, let's come up with a rational drinking plan where you only drink on weekends, and we limit to this, and you call me if you got issues. And if that doesn't work, we'll go to an inpatient, Betty Ford. But maybe you're not there yet.'"
- 8.142** So, I would like that built out because right now, there's too much pressure on the trained mental health professionals. People are building out online versions and stuff, but it'd be

nice if it was something in the middle. That would be my kind of hope. I don't have much I can do with it, but that's my hope. It's a great question.

- 8.143** Okay, so my question is actually from the previous session when you were talking about the difference between psychiatry and psychology. And I was wondering, in which cases would a psychologist be able to prescribe medication to a patient?
- 8.144** So, psychologists get limited prescribing, and it's done by the state, and I'm not gonna say I'm an expert on this, so you'd have to double-check. In the military, in some context, you get psychologists that can prescribe—some military psychologists can prescribe SSRIs in some cases, I believe. I think New Mexico might have some prescribing privileges. It's a state licensing issue.
- 8.145** And what would be done is that clinical psychologists who take extra—every clinical psychologist is very well-trained in psychopharmacology. All the students I know all get trained in it. But people will get an extra bit of training, and then they'll have a limited—what's the word?—pharmacopeia or limited range of treatments. They could maybe give SSRIs or some Benzos, but maybe not some other medicines. So, I think it's a limited window of prescription.
- 8.146** For me, it makes a lot of sense because right now, what's going on is the primary person giving out SSRIs, or selective serotonin reuptake inhibitors, are primary care physicians. So, they're not really trained in psychology. So, it's a tough situation. Ideally, everyone would have their own primary care physician, their own psychiatrist, their own psychologist. It would be wonderful. I don't think we have the resources for that. So, it's just something going on. Yeah. So, not a great answer. Look it up, but I know something's going on.
- 8.147** Hey, how are you? So, I had a question about this generation and the rise in depression and anxiety. It almost feels like it's a norm now, and why it's so popular? It seems like more and more people continue to do it because it's so popular. Not that it's a good thing, but it just seems like a norm that's becoming a problem. And is that because it's becoming a norm, so more people feel that it's ok?
- 8.148** Yes. So, there's this argument that mental health is getting worse, and you can look at data like self-reported depression, you can look at suicide. It's not just it's done this. It's more complicated than that. The numbers are high. The question is: are people really feeling worse, or do they feel more comfortable talking about it? And you're asking not only do they feel more comfortable, but maybe are they reinforced for it?
- 8.149** So, somebody's on TikTok, "Well, I've got mental illness." "Well, I've got even more mental illness." So, it becomes self-reinforcing in that sense. My guess, and this is a guess at this point, is that the breakdown, the atomization of society, the individualization of society has led to people becoming more lonely. We have pretty good data on loneliness. It's spiking, and I saw it spiking five years ago, so before the pandemic. So, you get people very lonely, and that's going to put them at risk for depression and anxiety.
- 8.150** Then, you have people socially isolated, and then you have social media that allows for a lot of social comparison and FOMO, fear of missing out. So I'm a 15-year-old. I'm not hanging out with my friends all the time. I'm not running around playing kick the can because there's not that many kids, and my parents are nervous I'm going to get kidnapped. I'm looking at my friends on social media, and their lives are awesome because they're all at that party that I didn't get invited to. And so, I feel bad, and I feel lonely, and I feel isolated.
- 8.151** So, I think that's not really helpful for people. So, for me, I like people outside doing social stuff. As much as you're outside doing social stuff with people, I think you're going to be okay. And being isolated and lonely and spending time in computer-mediated relationships, I think, is the problem. So, my guess is if we could get more in-person, less on the phone, it would be better. But that's just a guess. I could sit down, look at data, but I think that's what's going on. Yeah.

8.152 Hey, thank you, guys.